Specific instructions were given to tabulate only those who were shown as "deaf and dumb." No such instructions appear to have been issued in 1891, and it is probable that in many, if not most, districts persons entered as "deaf" were then treated as if they were "deaf and dumb." Unfortunately I omitted to keep a separate return of the persons entered merely as "deaf," and it is therefore not possible to say how far the difference of procedure in tabulating the results has contributed to the total decrease, and to what extent it is due to the greater accuracy of the original record.

COMPARISON WITH OTHER COUNTRIES AND PROVINCES.

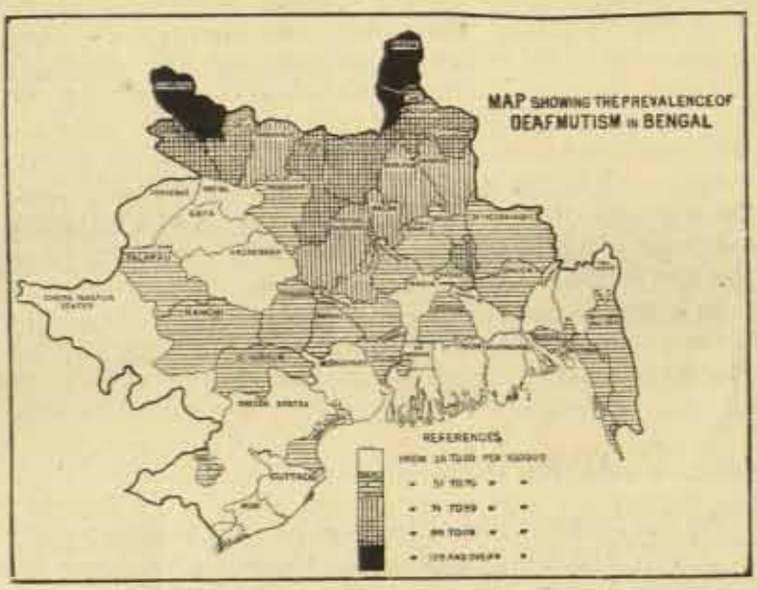
462. The occurrence of deaf-mutism is somewhat more common in India than in Europe, but the difference is not very marked. In India, as a whole, in 1891, nine males and six females were thus afflicted in a population of 10,000 of each sex; the corresponding figures disclosed by the present census of Bengal are eight males and five females. The relative prevalence of deaf-mutism in Bengal and the other large provinces of India is noted in the margin.

PROVINCE.	Number of deaf-mutes per 10,000.
Bengal ...	7
United Provinces...	4
Punjab ...	8
Madras ...	6
Bombay ...	4

The affliction is most common in the Punjab. Then comes Bengal, then Madras. The great difference between the figures for Bengal and the United Provinces is remarkable, as in Bengal deaf-mutism is most prevalent in the tract which adjoins those Provinces, *viz.*, in North Bihar.

LOCAL DISTRIBUTION.

463. The districts where deaf-mutism is most prevalent are Sikkim, Champaran,* Darjeeling, Jalpaiguri, Kuch Bihar, Saran, Muzaffarpur, Purnea, Bhagalpur, Darbhanga, Dinajpur, Rangpur, and Pabna. With the exception of Pabna, all these tracts are Himalayan or sub-Himalayan. This agrees with the experience of the last census, when it was stated by the Census Commissioner that "the main prevalence is located in the Himalayas or along the rivers flowing directly from that system. It is here frequently combined with cretinism and goitre."



An examination of the statistics for individual thanas in North Bihar seems to show that the affliction is most rife along the course of the Little or the Buri Gandak river, and also, though to a less extent, along the Bágmáti and the upper reaches of the Gandak. In Champaran it is most prevalent in the south and south-west of the district, which is watered both by the Great and the Little Gandak, but is worst in Motihári, which does not touch the Great, but is bisected by the Buri Gandak and its tributary, the Dhanauti river.† In Saran the tracts in the north of the district, where the Gandak divides it from Champaran, are most affected, though far less so than the country on the other side of that river. From the point where the Gandak leaves the Champaran district its connection with the prevalence of deaf-mutism seems to cease, and the thanas along its banks in Muzaffarpur and South Saran are comparatively free from the affliction. In Muzaffarpur the Sadar thana, which contains the whole course of the Buri Gandak in the district and

* The prevalence of idiocy (with which deaf-mutism is closely associated) in Champaran has passed into a proverb. Majhowa is the name of a pargana in Champaran, and the question *Kahán ká Majhowa?* i.e., "what part of Majhowa do you hail from?" is a polite way of telling a person he is a fool.

† The Dhanauti river has a specially bad reputation for its poisonous qualities and its tendency to cause goitre, and the two worst circles in the Motihari thana are on its banks. But even so, the average number of deaf-mutes per circle is higher in the case of the circles watered by the Srikrehna, or Buri Gandak, than in those watered by the Dhanauti.

also part of that of the Bágmáti, suffers nearly twice as much as any other thana, and then come Sitamarhi and Shiuhar on the banks of the Bágmáti. In Darbhanga the affliction is most common in Warisnagar, which is bounded by these two rivers, and then in Samastipur and Dalsingh Sarai, which lie between the Buri Gandak and the Ganges. These three thanas taken together contain barely a quarter of the total population of the district, but they are responsible for two-fifths of the deaf-mutes.* Following the Buri Gandak into Monghyr we find deaf-mutism more common along its course than in other parts of the district. The infirmity is most prevalent in Tegra and Begu Sarai thanas which are watered by it, and next to them, though at some distance, in Gogri through which the Bágmáti flows. In Bhagalpur there are two areas of special prevalence, viz., the Colgong, Bihpur and Bhagalpur thanas which adjoin the Ganges, and the Pratapganj and Supaul thanas in the extreme north of the district on the right bank of the Kosi. In Purnea the infirmity is excessively rife along the course of the Kamla river, especially in thanas Purnea, Araria and Amur Kasba, where the average incidence is double that of the other parts of the district. Then follow Matiari and Saifganj, which also contain a small portion of the course of the same river, and Balarampur. Balarampur is on the left bank of the Mahánandá, but the other thanas adjoining this river have a relatively low proportion of deaf-mutes. In Jalpaiguri the immigrants form so large a proportion of the total population that it is difficult to draw any definite conclusion as to the comparative liability of the inhabitants of different parts of the district. So far as the figures go deaf-mutism is most prevalent in the tract of country between the Tista and the Mahánandá, which is watered by the old Karátoyá :† but this may be due to the comparatively small proportion of immigrants in this part of the district.

The figures for Pabna are difficult to understand, but they are not peculiar to the present census, and both in 1881 and 1891 Pabna occupied a high place in the list of districts where this infirmity was most prevalent. The affliction is most frequent in the Sirajganj subdivision, where there are 119 deaf-mutes per 100,000 of the population, against only 57 in the rest of the district. The Civil Surgeon informs me that the disease is most frequently met with amongst the lower classes inhabiting the country near the Jamuna river, and that goitre is here very common. He says, "goitre and cretinism appear to go hand-in-hand, and they develop under the same conditions. The cretin is generally unable to speak, and his hearing also is defective." The soil near the Jamuna is, he says, sandy and damp and non-calcareous. The statistics of other districts disclose no general excess of deaf-mutism along the bank of the Jamuna, but it is certainly very common in the riparian thanas of Mymensingh, opposite to, and above, Sirajganj, where persons suffering from the affliction are twice as common as in other parts of the district, and goitre is also unusually frequent. In the two southern thanas of Bogra, which adjoin Sirajganj, deaf-mutism is more than twice as prevalent as in the rest of the district. In the affected tract in Mymensingh there are several moribund rivers, and the same is the case in Sirajganj and Bogra.

CONNECTION BETWEEN INSANITY AND DEAF-MUTISM.

461. There seems to be little, if any, connection between the reported prevalence of insanity and deaf-mutism. In some cases the figures for both infirmities are high, but it nearly as often happens that the one infirmity is very prevalent where the other is comparatively rare. Deaf-mutism is most rife in North Bihar, where the returns show insanity to be less common than in any other part of the province. The reason for this want of correspondence seems to be that, as already explained, cretinism, which is the form of unsoundness of mind commonly associated with deaf-mutism, enters but to a very small extent into the returns of insanity. Where the same person was both deaf-mute and a cretin, the enumerator contented himself with entering him as deaf-mute‡.

* There were 58 Census Circles in Warisnagar and 298 deaf-mutes, or an average of 5·1 per Circle. Twenty of the Circles are on the bank of the Buri Gandak, and these contain 185 deaf-mutes, or 9·25 per Circle. This leaves only 113 for the remaining 38 Circles, or an average of 3 each. So also in Samastipur. There were 93 Circles with 338 deaf-mutes of, whom 61 were in 10 Circles on the bank of the Buri Gandak, the average being 6·1 per Circle against 3·3 in the rest of the thana.

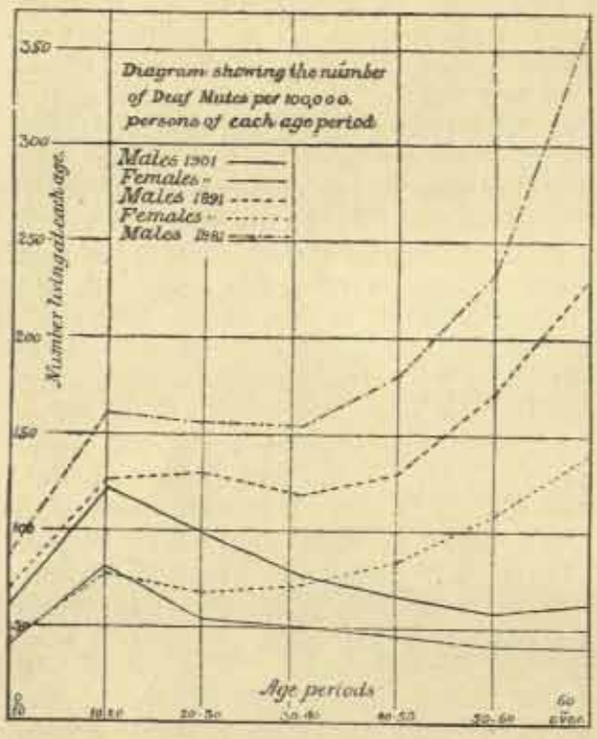
† It is called Kortá on the map, but it is clear from Buchanan Hamilton's account quoted by Hunter that it is really an old channel of the Karátoyá.

‡ Mr. Bernard, Magistrate of Champaran, writes :—"There are many deaf-mutes who are also cretins. These have no doubt been entered as deaf-mutes. One sees them going out with the village children to tend the cattle, and sometimes deaf-mute idiots tend cattle alone. One such tends cattle in my cutcherry compound. I suspect that such men have not usually been entered as insane, because they have some intelligence."

Of 53,154 persons returned as deaf-mute only 666 were returned also as insane, but the result of special enquiries made after the census (Subsidiary Table IV) shows that a very large proportion of the deaf-mute population are also half-witted. Many also suffer from goitre.

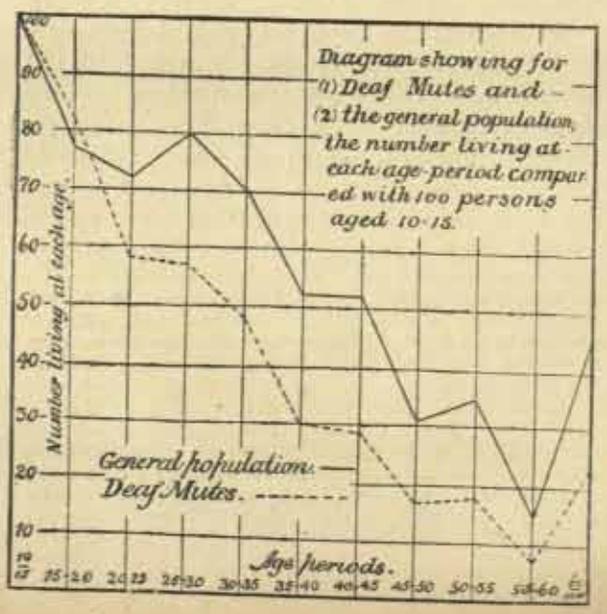
PROPORTION OF THE SEXES AND AGE DISTRIBUTION.

465. As in the case of the insane, so also amongst deaf-mutes, males in all countries preponderate over females. This phenomenon is common to most forms of congenital malformation. In England and Wales the proportion of males to females in 1891 was as 6 to 5, and in Scotland as 9 to 6, or the same as in India as a whole. In Bengal the proportion is now as 8 to 5, or approximately the same as it was ten years ago. This infirmity being congenital and sufferers from it being comparatively short-lived, the highest proportion of the deaf-mutes must necessarily be at the early ages, but parents are reluctant to recognize the existence of the aural defect in their children so long as there is any hope of its proving to be only temporary. The census reports for the earlier years of life are thus very imperfect, and the diagram in the margin shows that the highest reported proportion is not reached till the second age-period is entered. If the actual rate of decrease in the proportion of the deaf-mutes to the total population is the same from the years 0 to 10 as it is from 10 to 20, it would seem that, at the earlier ages, the number of deaf-mutes of both sexes actually returned is only about two-fifths of the true number; that is to say, the total number of deaf-mutes in Bengal is probably greater by 2,305, or 4½ per cent., than the number shown in Table XII. After the age of 20 the proportion of deaf-mutes shows a steady decrease, in marked contrast to the figures for earlier enumerations, when the inclusion of persons becoming deaf in after-life led to a rapid rise in the proportions at the higher ages.



DURATION OF LIFE OF THE DEAF-MUTE.

466. As this disease is from birth, a comparison of the ages of the deaf-mute with those of the general population would, if the return were correct, show their relative longevity. The diagram in the margin shows the proportional distribution by age of 100 persons ten years of age and over who are deaf-mutes, and also of 100 such persons taken from the population as a whole. Persons under ten years of age are excluded from consideration, owing to the untrustworthiness of the return at the lower ages, to which reference has already been made. For the purpose of this diagram the uncorrected ages have been taken, as the point under consideration is the proportion borne by the deaf-mute to the total number of persons returned at each age-period, and it may be assumed that whatever error attaches to the age-return affects that of the general population and of the deaf-mute to exactly the same extent. It appears that



the number of deaf-mutes aged 10 who live to the age of "25—30" is barely three-quarters as great as that of persons not so afflicted, while at "50—55" the survivors amongst the deaf-mutes are only half as numerous as those amongst the general population.

BLINDNESS.

467. There has been a slight decrease in the number of the blind in comparison with 1891, but the difference between the two returns is far less marked than in the case of the other infirmities. Taking the province as a whole, there were 2,621 fewer blind persons in 1901 than there were ten years previously. There has been a great development during the decade in the operative treatment of eye-diseases in the public dispensaries. Comparative figures dealing with the treatment of eye-cases generally might be misleading, as in many instances the treatment affects one eye only, or refers to some affection of the eyes other than total loss of sight. This, however, is not the case with cataract, which is the form of blindness in which medical relief is chiefly effective, and the annual returns published by the Inspector-General of Hospitals show that there were no less than 15,987 successful operations for cataract during the decade preceding the census of 1901, against only 2,434 during the previous ten years. Taken by themselves, these figures would seem to indicate that the decrease in the number of the blind is fully accounted for by the greater activity of the medical establishments.*

COMPARISON WITH 1891.

But before this conclusion can be fully accepted, it is necessary to examine the details for sex and age. It thus appears that the number of blind males has slightly increased; and that while the whole decrease is amongst females, it has occurred almost entirely at the higher ages, *i.e.*, from 50 upwards. There has also been a marked diminution of blindness amongst males at the same ages, but in their case this has been more than counterbalanced by an increase in the earlier years of life. In respect of both sexes taken together, there is a slight increase in the number under 50 years of age, and the net decline is due to the smaller figures returned for the higher ages.

YEAR OF CENSUS.	NUMBER OF BLIND PERSONS			
	Under 50 years of age.		Aged 50 and over.	
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1891	22,048	16,605	15,318	19,509
1901	22,823	16,141	14,660	17,235
Variation	+775	−464	−658	−2,274

468. In a paper recently contributed to the *Indian Medical Gazette* by Captain R. H. Maddox, M.B., I.M.S., reviewing the result of operations for cataract in the Saran district during the decade 1891—1900, an interesting analysis is given of the age and sex of the patients. The great majority of the patients were over 45 years of age at the time of the operation. In the absence of age statistics for other districts, it may perhaps be assumed that they correspond fairly closely to those reported from Saran. If therefore the decrease in blindness brought out by our returns had been distributed with fair uniformity over both sexes, the age statistics, even allowing for the high rate of mortality amongst people thus advanced in life, would confirm the explanation suggested by a comparison of the bare totals with the dispensary returns, that the improvement is wholly due to the great extension of medical relief that has taken place. The Saran statistics show that of the 1,484 operations, 845 were performed on females and only 639 on males: but these proportions appear to be exceptional. The sexes are not distinguished in the provincial returns prepared by the Inspector-General of Civil Hospitals; but judging from the figures for the districts noted in the margin with which I have been favoured by the Civil Surgeons, it would seem that as a rule the males outnumber the females. It follows that

AGE-PERIOD.	Number of persons operated on.
30—35	21
35—40	70
40—45	239
45—50	341
50—55	350
55—60	237
60 and over	226
Total ...	1,484

* The extraordinary increase in the number of operations for cataract is due, to a great extent, to the general use of cocaine as an anæsthetic. In England, where the ratio of the blind per million enumerated has decreased from 1,021 in 1851 to 809 in 1891, the result is assigned to the greater precaution taken to prevent the ravages of purulent ophthalmia, the improvement in surgical treatment of affections of the eyes, and the diminished prevalence of such diseases as small-pox, to which a not inconsiderable amount of blindness was formerly due.

though the great increase in the number of operations for cataract has caused a marked diminuion in the total blind population, it cannot be held to account for the relatively greater decrease amongst females. This must be attributed mainly to the greater care taken at the recent census to exclude from the returns cases of senile dimness of vision not really amounting to actual blindness, which, as will be seen below, are much more numerous amongst females than amongst males.

District.	Number of successful operations for cataract during the period 1896—1900.	
	Male.	Female.
Midnapur ...	198	48
Rajshahi ...	187	92
Patna ...	567	319
Gaya ...	874	543
Shahabad ...	744	831
Darbhanga ...	380	209
Muzaffarpur...	218	93
Bhagalpur ...	113	57
Monghyr ...	303	170
Total ...	*3,584*	*2,362*

Turning to the variations in different parts of the province, it appears that there has been a considerable increase in the prevalence of blindness in the Chota Nagpur Plateau and Western Bengal, a slight diminution in Central and North Bengal and in South Bihar, and a considerable one in East Bengal, North Bihar, and Orissa. The Sonthal Parganas and the Tributary States of Chota Nagpur now show a greater proportion of blind than they did even in 1881; but as the present figures are in neither case excessive, compared with those for the neighbouring tracts, it is probable that the result is due to a more accurate enumeration rather than to any real increase in the actual number of persons afflicted. The enumeration of both these areas presents special difficulties, and there are good reasons for believing that these difficulties were met more successfully at the present census than on previous occasions. The spread of the infirmity in West Bengal may, perhaps, be attributed to the development of coal-mining and also to the greater use of coal as fuel in the huts of the people. In North Bihar it is possible that the decrease is due in part to the privations endured by the blind in the famine years.

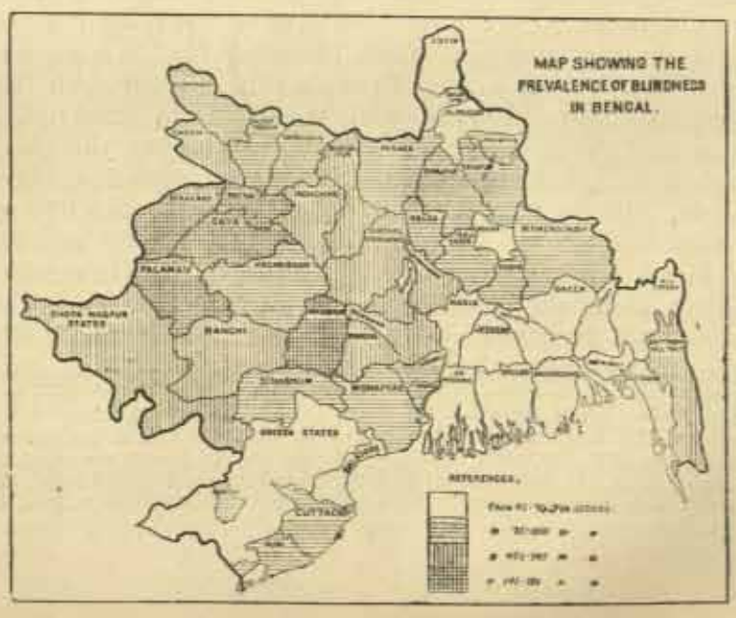
Comparison with other provinces.

469. The prevalence of blindness in Bengal, as shown by the present census, is almost identical with that in England in 1891. Comparative figures for the other large provinces of India according to the recent census are given in the margin. According to these figures blindness is slightly more common in Bengal than in Bombay and Madras, and much less so than in Upper India. It will be seen, however, in the next paragraph that the distribution of the blind varies so greatly in the different sub-provinces that a comparison of the figures for Bengal as a whole is not of much utility. The proportion of the blind in South Bihar approximates very closely to that in the United Provinces which it adjoins.

Province.	Number of blind persons per 100,000.
Bengal ...	90
Bombay ...	85
Madras ...	89
United Provinces ...	170
Punjab ...	291

Local distribution.

470. The prevalence of blindness is to a great extent determined by climate. It is most frequent in a hot and dry climate, where the glare and dust are highly prejudicial to the eyesight, and is comparatively rare in a cool or damp country, where a profusion of green vegetation rests the eye and where there is a comparative absence of dust.



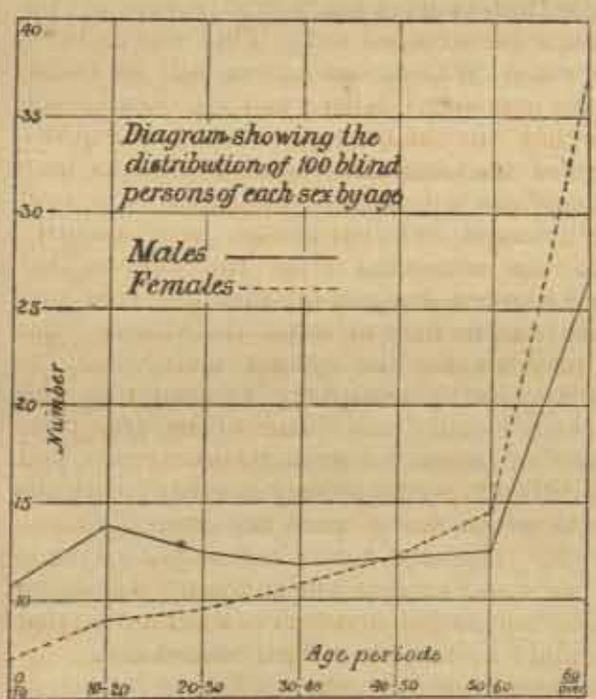
The distribution of the blind in Bengal is in accordance with what might be expected from these considerations. It is most common in South Bihar, especially in Patna and Shahabad. Then comes the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where Manbhum suffers most, and

then West Bengal and North Bihar. Then follow, *longo intervallo*, North Bengal, Orissa, and Central and Eastern Bengal. In these last-mentioned tracts blindness is less than half as common as it is in South Bihar. Small-pox often results in blindness, but the proportion of the persons who have thus lost their eyesight to the total number of the blind is not sufficiently great to enable any correspondence to be established between the occurrence of this disease and of blindness. The proportion of deaths from small-pox during the last ten years in each natural division is shown in the margin. Orissa suffers far more than any other part of the province, but it has a comparatively small blind population. Central Bengal suffers three times as much from small-pox as North Bengal, but it has a smaller proportion of persons afflicted with blindness.

Division.	Number of deaths from small-pox per 100,000 of the population.
West Bengal ...	253
Central ,, ...	105
North ,, ...	34
East ,, ...	81
North Bihar ...	109
South ,, ...	388
Chota Nagpur Plateau.	191
Orissa ...	1,251

PROPORTION OF THE SEXES.

471. There is a slight excess of males over females amongst the blind of this province, amounting roughly to 10 per cent., or about the same as in England. In 1891 also the males were in excess, though to a smaller extent than on the present occasion. In other provinces the female blind are usually more numerous than the males. The excess of the latter in Bengal is most marked in the earlier years of life, when it is probably due, in part, to congenital affections of the eye, from which, like all congenital defects, males suffer more than females. It is also due, possibly, to some small extent, to the concealment of blindness amongst girls of marriageable age. Though less marked, the excess of males continues throughout the years of active life, *i.e.*, up to the age of 50. During these years it may be attributed partly to the survival of persons suffering from congenital blindness, and partly to the harder work and greater exposure to which men are liable. Between the ages of 50 and 60, blind females are in slight excess, and from 60 onwards they greatly outnumber the males. This, however, is because the absolute number of women at the higher ages exceeds that of men, and the proportional figures show that even at this age blindness is slightly more prevalent among the latter than the former. At the same time the proportion which those who become blind in old age bears to the total number of the blind is much greater amongst females. These results may be attributed on the one hand to the comparative freedom enjoyed by females during the active period of life from the risks and exposure which often cause blindness in men, and on the other to the cumulative effects of a lifetime spent in dark rooms and of the acrid smoke from the fires at which they cook their food. The probability that this explanation is the true one is increased by the figures for East and North Bengal, where the houses are, comparatively speaking, large and well-ventilated. The excess of the female blind at the higher ages is here far less marked than in Bihar, Chota Nagpur, and West Bengal.*

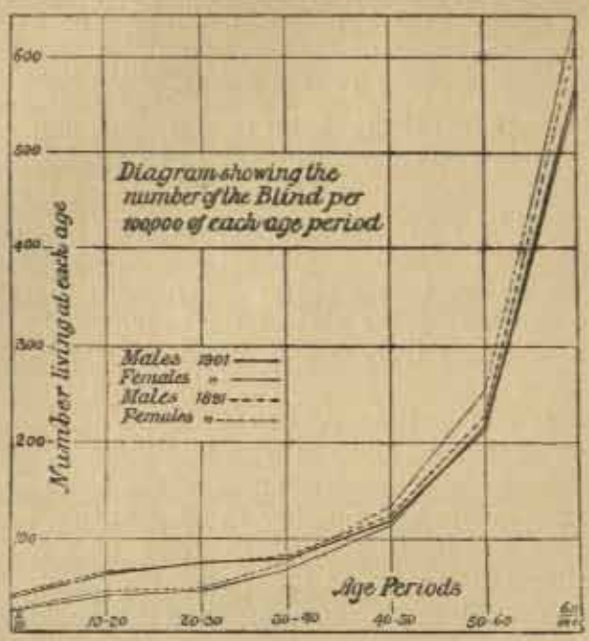


DISTRIBUTION BY AGE.

472. Unlike deaf-mutism, which is a congenital affection, and leprosy and insanity, which are diseases of early manhood and middle age, blindness usually attacks the old. This

* It is probable, however, the above conditions usually result in great dimness of vision rather than absolute loss of sight, and that our returns still include a certain proportion of old persons with indistinct vision who cannot strictly be called blind.

is clearly seen from the annexed diagram. In youth this affliction is very rare. It becomes slightly more common as the years advance, but it is not until after 40 that the liability to it increases at all rapidly. There is a remarkable uniformity between the age distribution in 1891 and that on the present occasion up the age-period "30—40," and it is only in the later years of life that the curves show any appreciable difference.



It is from 40 onwards that cataract is the most fertile cause of blindness. At the earlier ages the affliction is due mainly to other causes, chief amongst which may be mentioned opacity of the cornea due to neglected conjunctivitis in infancy. The proportion of blind persons at the earlier ages is, however, relatively very small, and more than half of the total number are over 45 years of age.

LEPROSY.

473. The census of 1881 showed a considerable increase in the number of lepers in India, and some years later, when public attention was attracted to the subject by the death of Father Damien, who for sixteen years had devoted himself to the relief of the Hawaiian lepers, these figures were taken as indicating a rapid spread of the disease, and a Leprosy Commission was appointed to visit India and enquire into the etiology and spread of the disease, and the means by which it might be stamped out. This was in 1890. The census of 1891, which was taken while the Commission was still in India, showed a marked general decline in the number of lepers, and the Commission had no difficulty in disposing of the cry that had been raised that leprosy was an imperial danger. The findings of the Commission on other points may be summarized as follows:—The disease has no marked tendency to spread either by hereditary transmission or by contagion, but in the great majority of cases it originates *de novo*.* No race is exempt from the disease, but the poor and destitute are attacked much more frequently than the rich and prosperous. No article of diet, *e.g.*, fish, can be held to cause the disease, but it is possible that some kinds of food may render the system more ready to contract it. The same conclusion applies to insanitary surroundings and syphilis. No geological formation and no locality can claim to be free from the disease, and no correspondence can be traced between its occurrence and variations in the temperature; but its diffusion seems to vary inversely with the dryness of the climate, and the tracts which suffer most are generally those where endemic cholera is most prevalent. The most recent investigations made regarding the causation of leprosy are those carried out in South Africa by Mr. Jonathan Hutchinson, F.R.S. The conclusion arrived at by him is that in that country at least, it is spread mainly by the use of badly-cured fish.

THE LEPROSY COMMISSION OF 1890-91.

474. The present census shows a continued decrease in the prevalence of the disease, and the number of lepers now recorded is less by 19 per cent. than it was in 1891. The improvement is shared by all parts of the province except the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where Manbhum and the Sonthal Parganas show a much wider diffusion of leprosy than in 1891. As these districts border on Bankura and Birbhum, where it is more prevalent than in any other part of Bengal or, for that matter, of India, it is not unlikely that there has been a genuine

COMPARISON WITH 1891.

* The Berlin International Conference of 1897, held that the disease is caused by a bacillus whose life history is unknown, but that it probably enters the system by the nose and mucous membrane. It also held that the disease is contagious but not hereditary.

spread of the disease. Outside Chota Nagpur, the least improvement is shown in Orissa: elsewhere the decrease is very marked. In South Bihar and Saran it is reported that the lepers suffered more from plague than any other class of the community, and Mr. Oldham, Magistrate of Gaya, states that since the plague epidemic he has noticed a marked diminution in their number in Gaya town. Their mode of living and the sores engendered by their disease would naturally render them specially liable to infection. The decrease, however, is equally noticeable in Central and Eastern Bengal, where there has been no wide-spread outbreak of plague, and most district officers attribute it to the greater accuracy of the present return, *i.e.* to the exclusion of other complaints, such as leucoderma and secondary syphilis, which would have been entered as leprosy but for the care that was taken to examine and correct the census schedules. There is also a fairly wide-spread opinion that the disease is really becoming less common. The decline of leprosy in Europe is attributed mainly to improved hygienic habits and surroundings, and to increased material prosperity, and it may be hoped that the same causes will gradually bring about its disappearance from India.

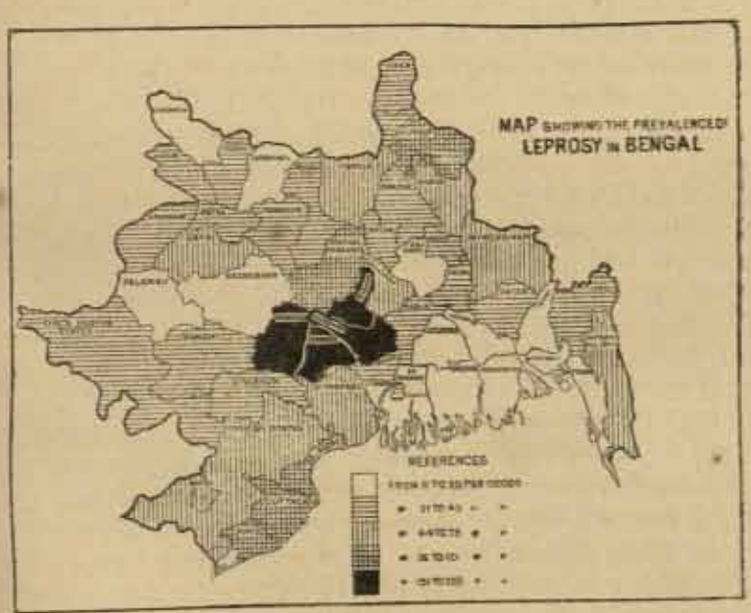
475. Excluding the small province of Assam, where leprosy is unusually prevalent, the disease is more common in Bengal than in any other province in India. Comparative figures for the larger provinces are noted in the margin. Next to Bengal the disease is most rife in Madras. In the United Provinces and the Punjab there is only half the amount of leprosy that there is in Bengal. Even in Bihar, which adjoins the United Provinces, leprosy is far more prevalent than it is on the other side of the border. It is impossible to offer any satisfactory explanation of these variations so long as the conditions which conduce to the spread of leprosy are so obscure. As already noticed, the Leprosy Commissioners professed themselves unable to establish any connection between leprosy and the causes which are commonly adduced to account for it.

COMPARISON WITH OTHER PROVINCES.

PROVINCE.	Number of lepers per 100,000.
Bengal	48
United Provinces ...	23
Punjab	19
Madras	35
Bombay	27

476. The local distribution of leprosy is shown in the subjoined map. It is of very rare occurrence in most parts of Eastern and Central Bengal and in North Bihar. It is more widely diffused in South Bihar, North Bengal, and Orissa. The Chota Nagpur Plateau is a vast area, and the incidence of the disease varies considerably in different parts. In the west it is rare, but it gradually becomes more prevalent towards the east, until in Manbhum* it reaches an intensity which is exceeded only in three districts of West Bengal—Bankura, Burdwan, and Birbhum, which form the great centre of the disease. Bankura and Birbhum in fact enjoy the unenviable reputation of harbouring a greater number of lepers in proportion to their population than any other tract in the whole of India. There is little in the findings of the Leprosy Commission that will help us to explain the varying prevalence of the disease in this province.

LOCAL DISTRIBUTION.



* There is a leper asylum at Purulia, the district head-quarters, which contained 534 lepers on the date of the census, but the existence of this asylum does not materially affect the figures. All but 20 of its inmates were born in Manbhum; of the remainder, 8 came from Ranchi and 12 from other places.

In Eastern Bengal the people are prosperous and well nourished, and, so far as these factors affect the question, their relative freedom from leprosy is intelligible. But its diffusion is said to vary also with the degree of moisture in the atmosphere, and East Bengal has a far more humid climate than the districts where leprosy is most rife. North Bihar is probably not less humid than these districts, and its population is on the whole less prosperous, and yet it is comparatively free from the disease. As regards cholera also, no connection can be traced. The ravages of this disease during the last ten years have been worst in Orissa, Central and East Bengal, and North Bihar. Orissa also stands high amongst the localities where leprosy is prevalent, but East Bengal and North Bihar are the two parts of the province where that disease is most common. On the other hand, West Bengal, with the greatest prevalence of leprosy, has suffered less from cholera than any part of the province except Chota Nagpur: and the two districts of West Bengal, where leprosy is worst, have the smallest cholera mortality. Birbhum has thus lost only 14 and Bankura only 13 persons per 1,000 of its population during the decade, while no other district in the division has lost less than 19 per 1,000. Neither does the hypothesis that it is due to the use of badly-cured fish find any corroboration in the excessive prevalence of the disease in Birbhum, Bankura, and Manbhum. Very little fish is imported to these districts, and it enters but very slightly into the diet of the people. Mr. De, the Magistrate of Bankura, thinks that the people of that part of the country must in some way be specially liable to the disease, and he mentions that in Khulna he found leprosy more common amongst the Bunás who had gone thither from Bankura and the neighbouring districts than amongst the indigenous inhabitants. The Deputy Commissioner of Manbhum says that many of the lower castes eat the carcases of cattle that have died of disease, and thinks that this may predispose to leprosy, although, as he points out, the disease is not confined to these castes.

Natural Division.	Number of deaths from cholera per 1,000 in 1891—1900.	Number of lepers per 100,000 of the population.
Western Bengal ...	20	116
Central „ ...	31	31
Northern „ ...	20	42
Eastern „ ...	30	22
North Bihar ...	29	28
South „ ...	30	44
Orissa ...	40	109
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	15	58

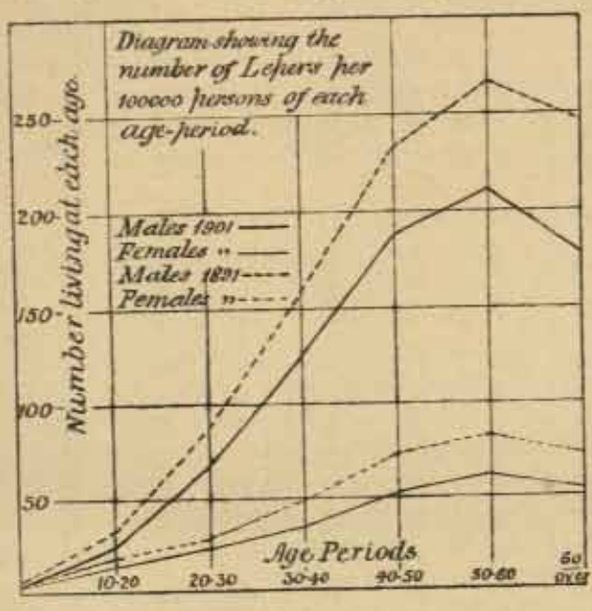
Proportion of the sexes.

477. As in the case of the other infirmities dealt with, males seem to be more liable to the affliction than females. The returns for Bengal show that there are three male lepers to one female, and at the last census the disproportion in India as a whole was even greater than this. This result is doubtless due, in part, to the comparative seclusion in which women are kept, and to the reticence of their male relations regarding them. This, however, applies only to the better classes. Amongst the great mass of the population the women move about freely enough within their own village, and the existence of such a disease as leprosy, except in its earlier stages, could not easily be concealed. The age-statistics show that at the first age-period (0—5) there are 95 female lepers to 100 males; at the next (5—10) the proportion falls to two-thirds, and it continues to decline until at "35 to 40" males outnumber females in the ratio of 4 to 1. The proportion then again rises, and at "60 and over," there are two female lepers to every 5 males. As regards the first two age-periods, the result agrees very closely with that arrived at by the Leprosy Commission, who found that in the case of small children under 5 years of age both sexes were attacked in nearly equal proportions, while of the cases that came under their observation between the ages of 5 and 10, 95 were males and 56 females. If the greater liability of males becomes thus marked in early life, it is only natural to suppose that it should continue to increase as the sexual differentiation developes, and the fact that the disproportion between the sexes is very great even in old-age, when there is no longer the same reticence about females, also tends to show that the excess of males is, to a large extent, real. In the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where there is comparatively little secrecy about women, there are two male lepers to one female, and in Bankura, where the disease is most prevalent, the proportion is

as 15 to 7. The disproportion is greatest in South Bihar, where male lepers are six times as numerous as females; but probably this is due mainly to the fact that male lepers travel farther from their homes, and find their way in greater numbers to Gaya and other large centres for the purpose of begging.

AGE DISTRIBUTION.

478. The diagram given in the margin shows the number of lepers to 100,000 persons of each age-period. Under the age of 10 the proportion of lepers is exceedingly small, but it soon begins to grow. There is a considerable increase between 10 and 20, and from that age until 50 the rise is uniform and rapid. Between 50 and 60 the increase still continues, though less rapidly, and it then again declines. A leper's life is a comparatively short one. According to one of the most reliable estimates (that of Daniellsen and Bœck) the average duration of life from the date of attack is only nine and a half years for tuberculated, and eighteen and a half years in the case of anæsthetic, leprosy. It follows that the steady increase in the proportion of lepers between the ages of 20 and 60 indicates a marked rise in the liability to infection between these ages.



If absolute numbers be taken, the increase in the leper population is greatest between the ages of 20 and 30; between 30 and 40 it is slightly greater than between 10 and 20. After allowing for cases of new infection necessary to fill death vacancies, it would seem that the greatest number of persons must become lepers between the ages of 20 and 40. This confirms the conclusion of the Census Commissioner for India in 1891 that leprosy "seems to pass by the young and to begin its attacks about 25 years of age." The Leprosy Commission found that of the comparatively small number of lepers that came under their observation, the greatest number became lepers when between 25 years of age and 30.

AGE-PERIOD.	Variation in number of lepers.
0–10	+ 549
10–20	+ 2,362
20–30	+ 3,007
30–40	+ 2,814
40–50	+ 290
50–60	– 3,034
60 and over	– 731

SUBSIDIARY TABLE NO. I—SHOWING THE NUMBER OF PERSONS AFFLICTED

DISTRICT AND NATURAL DIVISION.	INSANE.						DEAF-MUTES.					
	Male.			Female.			Male.			Female.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
BENGAL	***35***	***41***	***53***	***25***	***28***	***36***	***83***	***117***	***153***	***53***	***71***	***94***
WEST BENGAL	***41***	***44***	***60***	***20***	***24***	***34***	***70***	***106***	***140***	***47***	***73***	***96***
Burdwan	43	38	61	20	23	41	81	104	144	54	77	109
Birbhum	43	53	60	22	32	35	83	127	150	67	107	107
Bankura	42	53	66	22	30	28	79	141	176	58	108	135
Midnapore	36	35	47	19	18	24	59	99	121	31	53	74
Hooghly	43	50	54	21	26	46	66	80	140	48	62	97
Howrah	48	54	62	25	28	36	72	107	129	49	67	90
CENTRAL BENGAL	***43***	***51***	***66***	***28***	***36***	***45***	***54***	***95***	***105***	***40***	***60***	***69***
24-Parganas*†	41	64	80	26	46	54	57	127	119	40	77	74
Calcutta*	60	71	42	49	49	42	38	34	45	44	42	42
Nadia	33	47	64	18	27	38	48	91	103	28	32	68
Murshidabad*	58	31	78	27	25	30	62	79	123	42	53	82
Jessore	36	46	50	31	39	40	60	103	97	46	62	69
NORTH BENGAL	***64***	***71***	***92***	***53***	***55***	***71***	***98***	***119***	***165***	***68***	***83***	***108***
Rajshahi	54	54	60	48	50	49	62	84	81	49	60	61
Dinajpur	62	74	90	51	56	67	91	105	149	64	75	104
Jalpaiguri	84	98	113	56	82	96	138	97	189	83	79	107
Darjeeling	21	33	39	15	26	27	152	196	169	124	152	157
Rangpur	83	62	123	75	48	100	100	97	227	66	58	144
Bogra	54	99	77	52	80	64	60	116	116	44	107	70
Pabna	58	68	84	41	50	68	111	138	187	76	94	127
Malda	32	47	64	26	34	53	93	141	113	67	111	88
Kuch Bihar	100	119	132	75	90	85	135	200	228	88	109	124
Sikkim	46	.....	.....	32	.....	.....	355	.....	.....	385	.....	.....
EAST BENGAL	***47***	***62***	***74***	***36***	***51***	***56***	***66***	***94***	***104***	***45***	***60***	***69***
Khulna	44	45	58	38	48	56	62	80	98	43	59	65
Dacca*	66	79	85	40	47	55	74	36	101	65	23	73
Mymensingh	56	67	74	42	53	46	80	128	111	58	90	72
Faridpur	27	51	63	22	41	49	34	78	85	21	47	47
Backergunge	39	56	63	35	53	60	57	92	84	38	52	62
Tippera	25	44	67	19	45	64	55	107	112	29	57	67
Noakhali	34	47	78	30	56	67	82	113	134	49	65	68
Chittagong	77	82	104	56	64	84	83	116	143	53	82	108
Chittagong Hill Tracts	120	164	.....	134	174	.....	64	55	.....	65	84	.....
Hill Tippera	58	95	.....	39	48	.....	48	163	.....	44	86	.....
NORTH BIHAR	***15***	***19***	***33***	***6***	***8***	***18***	***139***	***210***	***264***	***85***	***116***	***145***
Saran	16	28	33	8	7	15	135	196	188	67	129	96
Champaran	9	21	26	6	7	32	275	434	567	173	235	337
Muzaffarpur	10	15	22	3	6	10	146	156	228	78	77	119
Darbhanga	9	12	25	5	5	16	117	135	179	62	70	89
Bhagalpur	13	16	29	7	6	16	127	189	233	73	99	134
Purnea	25	29	53	13	20	34	130	189	283	84	130	174
SOUTH BIHAR	***17***	***21***	***23***	***8***	***9***	***13***	***63***	***91***	***175***	***35***	***50***	***103***
Patna*	38	40	39	12	12	23	61	62	227	34	37	151
Gaya	12	18	17	6	8	12	49	104	183	26	56	108
Shahabad	12	24	22	5	8	10	54	136	121	27	42	66
Monghyr	13	14	16	7	9	7	88	119	172	51	65	92
ORISSA	***27***	***27***	***34***	***12***	***12***	***16***	***64***	***116***	***136***	***29***	***59***	***70***
Cuttack*	27	23	31	12	9	15	59	115	116	29	62	64
Balasore	24	24	28	13	10	15	88	109	176	38	57	101
Puri	28	41	47	14	19	21	50	124	96	21	53	50
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***18***	***17***	***25***	***12***	***11***	***15***	***60***	***65***	***88***	***43***	***41***	***55***
Hazaribagh	13	12	18	8	6	13	54	73	105	40	46	69
Ranchi†	21	25	30	17	16	16	80	77	81	55	31	88
Palamau	12			13			63			50		
Manbhum†	24	27	32	14	16	16	83	99	102	48	52	62
Singhbhum	19	17	27	16	24	24	68	85	67	52	40	58
Santhal Parganas†	17	12	23	11	8	13	82	49	91	59	28	67
Angul	16	23	45	3	6	29	66	101	165	39	44	85
Tributary States, Orissa	17	21	34	8	9	19	35	75	76	20	30	45
Ditto, Chota Nagpur	21	19	12	12	7	19	42	40	65	35	29	42

* There are lunatic asylums in Bhowanipur (24-Parganas), Dullunda (Calcutta), Berhampur (Murshidabad), Dacca, Patna, and Cuttack. Excluding the 24 and 33; Murshidabad, 30 and 21; Dacca, 51 and 36; Patna, 15 and 7; Cuttack, 24 and 11.

† There are leper asylums in Purulia (Manbhum), Gobra (24-Parganas), Deoghar (Santhal Parganas), and Lohardaga (Ranchi). Excluding the population 7 instead of 12; Santhal Parganas 85 instead of 86; Ranchi 21 instead of 28. Most of the inmates of these asylums, however, are district born. In the Purulia

PER 100,000 OF THE POPULATION AT EACH OF THE LAST THREE CENSUSES

BLIND.						LEPERS.						DISTRICT AND NATURAL DIVISION.
Male.			Female.			Male.			Female.			
1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	
95	**100**	**136**	**85**	**97**	**144**	**72**	**93**	**123**	**25**	**31**	**41**	***BENGAL.***
164	**94**	**156**	**100**	**97**	**150**	**168**	**244**	**287**	**64**	**90**	**107**	**WEST BENGAL.**
123	104	163	121	110	186	239	313	444	88	122	169	Burdwan.
102	135	126	118	147	121	321	323	485	109	190	182	Birbhum.
121	134	152	134	155	179	367	515	640	168	218	214	Bankura.
97	70	117	87	68	129	91	123	134	31	36	52	Midnapore.
93	83	147	76	82	163	55	115	179	14	25	49	Hooghly.
88	79	120	67	59	130	23	47	82	6	14	31	Howrah.
76	**86**	**119**	**68**	**69**	**112**	**46**	**78**	**111**	**14**	**23**	**38**	**CENTRAL BENGAL.**
60	84	116	47	56	107	18	50	72	5	18	30	24-Parganas.*†
71	35	101	105	60	173	32	28	63	22	25	37	Calcutta.*
72	104	119	57	77	106	49	119	150	17	25	42	Nadia.
115	111	139	114	98	157	119	129	194	33	38	68	Murshidabad.*
76	78	101	54	56	73	32	65	65	7	15	16	Jessore.
82	**82**	**120**	**71**	**83**	**118**	**63**	**88**	**147**	**18**	**29**	**50**	**NORTH BENGAL.**
79	83	98	80	87	89	15	30	55	10	17	37	Rajshahi.
75	77	117	76	81	133	56	61	104	15	30	42	Dinajpur.
65	54	106	57	58	107	110	139	186	38	53	69	Jalpaiguri.
53	70	71	46	79	95	43	98	156	27	49	68	Darjeeling.
88	66	132	86	54	129	94	107	221	24	27	64	Rangpur.
76	89	80	52	100	78	38	81	105	11	23	29	Bogra.
90	85	126	65	73	107	46	62	100	11	21	30	Pabna.
100	126	155	99	136	160	54	98	110	16	23	37	Malda.
93	113	139	89	138	186	125	205	307	37	60	112	Kuch Bihar.
71	.....	.....	57	.....	.....	55	.....	.....	25	.....	.....	Sikkim.
70	**81**	**110**	**49**	**63**	**90**	**35**	**59**	**74**	**8**	**19**	**27**	**EAST BENGAL.**
58	44	81	37	31	60	12	18	38	5	8	14	Khulna.
79	73	118	61	52	101	39	57	83	12	14	31	Dacca.*
86	97	104	63	89	90	84	124	129	15	40	39	Mymensingh.
53	74	101	31	47	67	17	44	63	4	11	17	Faridpur.
65	88	105	35	47	66	9	21	33	4	8	17	Backergunge.
51	94	138	34	73	107	22	59	69	5	18	30	Tippera.
71	82	113	50	67	107	9	20	34	2	8	18	Noakhali.
79	71	117	57	63	109	18	35	61	4	13	28	Chittagong.
120	127	.....	97	184	.....	74	77	.....	22	38	.....	Chittagong Hill Tracts.
40	153	.....	58	76	.....	37	67	.....	14	33	.....	Hill Tippera.
105	**121**	**146**	**86**	**112**	**152**	**47**	**65**	**76**	**10**	**12**	**17**	**NORTH BIHAR.**
127	173	163	100	148	162	49	85	98	7	10	15	Saran.
94	114	156	86	103	173	55	53	62	4	10	10	Champaran.
102	105	140	68	97	136	47	52	54	10	5	8	Muzaffarpur.
101	99	114	81	83	97	33	41	46	4	7	9	Darbhanga.
112	137	160	96	128	173	56	70	75	16	22	26	Bhagalpur.
96	93	160	85	115	188	70	94	78	21	28	28	Purnea.
162	**170**	**248**	**151**	**175**	**301**	**77**	**95**	**152**	**12**	**20**	**25**	**SOUTH BIHAR.**
187	173	310	194	181	427	77	80	139	9	16	33	Patna.*
145	152	248	138	161	300	102	127	163	16	27	30	Gaya.
181	229	295	152	198	311	57	130	140	9	13	27	Shahabad.
141	161	155	130	159	179	73	103	90	13	27	18	Monghyr.
82	**89**	**106**	**63**	**93**	**128**	**170**	**168**	**190**	**49**	**59**	**61**	**ORISSA.**
97	89	103	75	95	139	153	128	171	44	48	57	Cuttack.*
45	62	84	44	60	107	187	185	214	53	59	64	Balasore.
89	117	124	63	119	138	185	229	304	58	82	75	Puri.
103	**85**	**106**	**117**	**94**	**124**	**77**	**53**	**72**	**40**	**38**	**39**	**CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.**
94	85	116	90	100	145	15	20	26	9	13	15	Hazaribagh.
122	148	122	141	148	139	35	37	40	13	21	26	Ranchi.†
140			145			23			18			Palamau.
148	146	137	205	190	180	186	107	160	120	139	87	Manbhum.†
67	74	70	81	89	81	47	48	52	32	24	44	Singhbhum.
105	48	76	123	86	84	122	57	69	50	25	32	Santhal Parganas.†
96	123	154	95	127	136	77	73	163	39	38	78	Angul.
66	84	104	62	88	109	69	76	100	33	40	53	Tributary States, Orissa.
101	53	88	111	54	83	40	26	96	25	10	12	Ditto, Chota Nagpur.

population of these asylums, the proportion of lunatics per 100,000 persons of each sex in the districts concerned is—24-Parganas, 39 males and 26 females; Calcutta

of these asylums the proportion afflicted per 100,000 persons (irrespective of sex) in the districts concerned is—Manbhum 112 instead of 155; 24-Parganas
Asylum, for instance, 514 out of a total of 534 lepers are natives of Manbhum.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. II—SHOWING THE DISTRIBUTION OF THE INFIRM BY AGE PER 10,000 OF EACH SEX.

AGE.	INSANE.						DEAF-MUTES.					
	Male.			Female.			Male.			Female.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
Total	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*
0— 5	116	166	182	152	150	249	458	389	459	536	467	552
5—10	575	518	677	658	538	594	1,616	1,340	1,190	1,658	1,310	1,199
10—15	872	748	811	975	733	696	1,729	1,233	1,161	1,597	1,093	988
15—20	930	827	837	962	822	810	1,385	965	849	1,358	937	764
20—25	996	924	2,116	988	800	1,740	972	850	1,628	991	820	1,475
25—30	1,513	1,240		974	1,014		1,008	871		678	643	
30—35	1,238	1,356	2,152	1,060	1,084	1,861	807	823	1,629	798	814	1,328
35—40	1,055	1,054		848	954		519	656		484	595	
40—45	946	1,065	1,490	1,006	1,014	1,574	489	690	1,178	502	673	1,176
45—50	564	598		575	668		282	428		291	428	
50—55	583	622	982	641	766	1,255	277	533	879	330	561	988
55—60	246	328		281	358		114	278		128	320	
60 and over	566	605	552	860	1,009	1,211	344	922	1,134	449	1,193	1,610

AGE.	BLIND.						LEPERS.					
	Male.			Female.			Male.			Female.		
	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.	1901.	1891.	1881.
Total	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*	*10,000*
0— 5	379	421	406	271	275	357	29	46	63	87	83	122
5—10	705	712	707	433	402	388	83	98	146	170	187	207
10—15	748	708	699	449	386	297	250	256	271	450	379	296
15—20	628	572	475	441	401	293	411	415	440	700	579	613
20—25	574	532	1,029	451	375	764	571	523	1,444	756	643	1,580
25—30	666	582		495	458		965	909		978	899	
30—35	638	627	1,113	582	566	914	1,182	1,184	2,470	1,053	1,138	2,023
35—40	543	548		492	484		1,272	1,259		908	1,028	
40—45	685	704	1,144	706	737	1,074	1,502	1,464	2,308	1,249	1,317	1,923
45—50	523	502		517	528		1,028	1,023		797	835	
50—55	783	766	1,284	910	919	1,384	1,144	1,085	1,532	1,049	1,009	1,474
55—60	452	505		643	594		487	512		463	518	
60 and over	2,676	2,921	3,350	3,710	3,885	4,629	1,076	1,239	1,996	1,340	1,394	1,635

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. III—SHOWING (i) THE NUMBER AFFLICTED AT EACH AGE-PERIOD PER 100,000 PERSONS OF THAT AGE AND (ii) THE NUMBER OF FEMALES AFFLICTED TO 1,000 MALES.

AGE.	NUMBER AFFLICTED PER 100,000.								NUMBER OF FEMALES AFFLICTED TO 1,000 MALES.			
	INSANE.		DEAF-MUTES.		BLIND.		LEPERS.					
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Insane.	Deaf-mutes.	Blind.	Lepers.
ALL AGES	*35*	*23*	*83*	*53*	*95*	*85*	*72*	*23*	*633*	*635*	*890*	*317*
0— 5	3	2	28	20	27	16	1	1	857	742	636	361
5—10	13	10	88	58	44	34	4	3	747	651	547	641
10—15	25	22	115	83	58	37	14	10	731	586	535	570
15—20	38	28	134	80	70	41	34	18	690	623	625	539
20—25	47	26	107	59	73	43	55	30	648	647	700	420
25—30	52	25	93	51	71	47	78	25	485	553	661	321
30—35	55	32	84	54	76	64	107	31	559	628	813	282
35—40	60	35	62	46	83	76	147	37	626	692	808	226
40—45	56	40	68	45	109	103	181	49	696	652	917	263
45—50	54	40	63	47	134	134	260	55	666	626	880	246
50—55	53	37	58	43	199	191	211	60	718	757	1,035	290
55—60	52	39	56	49	227	278	210	63	745	710	1,070	302
60 and over	44	35	62	42	570	558	173	54	991	929	1,254	394

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. IV—SHOWING THE RESULT OF CERTAIN ENQUIRIES REGARDING PERSONS RETURNED AS DEAF-MUTE.

DISTRICT.	Number Enquired about.	Number returned as insane as well as deaf-mute.	Number found really deaf-mute.	NUMBER OF DEAF-MUTES WHO ARE ALSO				Not really deaf-mute.
				Insane.	HALF-WITTED.		Suffering from goitre.	
					Able to work.	Not able to work.		
Total	*371*	*47*	*327*	*48*	*90*	*15*	*76*	*44*
Champaran	51	4	44	10	28	6	14	7(a)
Rangpur	46	1	28(b)	.....	13	3	12	18
Jalpaiguri	25	9	33(b)	2	6	2	2	2
Kuch Bihar	45	.....	45	9	13	3	8	.....
Saran	145	12	134	12	8	1	37(c)	11(d)
Sikkim	33	21	28	15	15	.....	2	5
Darjeeling	16	.....	15	.....	9	.....	1	1

(a) Includes 4 persons who can hear a little but utter indistinct sounds, 1 who is deaf only and 2 who are dumb only.
(b) Includes 4 persons said to be really deaf-and-dumb, but not from birth.
(c) Of these 37 cases of goitre, 23 were found amongst 26 deaf-mutes enquired about in the Siwan subdivision.
(d) Includes 3 persons who can only speak and hear indistinctly.

Chapter IX.

EDUCATION.

REFERENCE TO STATISTICS.

479. THE statistics of literacy will be found in Imperial Tables VIII and IX. The former shows the number of persons who are literate or illiterate, distributed according to age and religion, and the latter, according to caste. The main language in which literate, and the number of literate persons who know English, are shown in both Tables. Proportional figures illustrating the more important features of the return, are as usual, embodied in Subsidiary Tables, which will be found at the end of the Chapter, viz:—

Subsidiary Table I.—Number per 1,000 of the total population, and at certain ages, who are literate. Similar information is also given for each religion.

Subsidiary Table II.—Number per mille of the total population, and at certain ages, who are literate in each district and natural division.

Subsidiary Table III.—Comparison with results of previous enumerations.

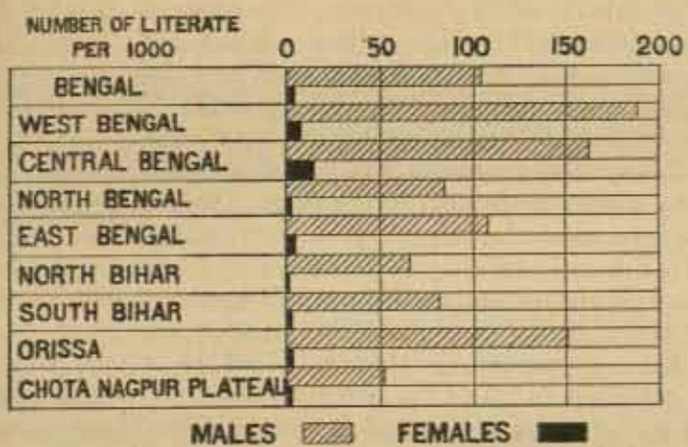
Subsidiary Table IV.—Number per mille of the total population and at certain ages who know English in each district and natural division.

Subsidiary Table V.—Number per mille who are literate in certain selected castes.

EXTENT OF LITERACY.

480. The only test of literacy was the ability to both read and write. People of whatever age who could do this were entered as literate, and those who could not, as illiterate. The qualification seems a very simple one, but even so, only one male in 10 and one female in 200 were able to pass it, and 9 males out of 10 and 199 females out of 200 were returned as illiterate. For every female who is able to read and write there are 20 males. Of the total number of literate males, 71 per cent. are over 20 years of age and 5 per cent. are under 10. The remaining 24 per cent. are distributed equally between the age periods 10—15 and 15—20. In the case of females, only 61 per cent. of the literate population are over 20, 30 per cent. are between 10 and 20, and 9 per cent. are under 10. The larger proportion of literate females at the lower ages indicates that at the present time the progress of education amongst them is more rapid than amongst males.

Diagram showing the number of persons per 1,000 in each Natural Division who are literate.



Compared with the number of persons returned as speaking each language (Table X), Bengali and Oriyá have a larger proportion of literate males than has Hindi,* while in the case of females, Bengali has a long lead of both its rivals. The relatively large proportion of females literate in languages other than Bengali, Hindi and Oriyá is due to the fact that the number of indigenous females who are literate is so small, that the foreign-born bulk much more largely in the total than they do in the case of men.

Language.	Number per cent. who		
	speak it	are literate in it	
		Male	Female
Bengali	53	63	70
Hindi	34	21	15
Oriyá	8	9	5
Other languages ...	5	7	10

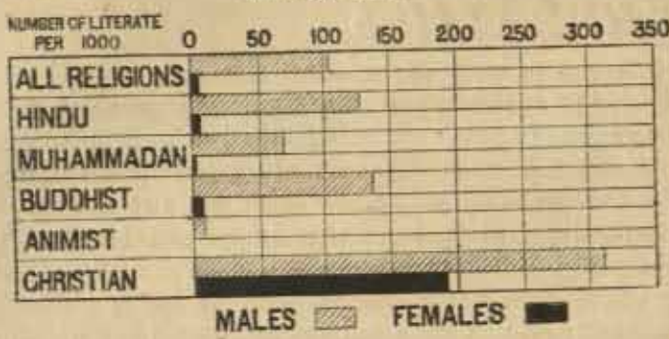
DISTRIBUTION BY RELIGION.

481. The greatest amount of literacy is met with amongst the Christians, partly on account of the large foreign element, where the proportion of educated persons is very high, and partly because the missionaries do their utmost to give instruction to their converts.

* As will be explained in the Chapter on Language, Hindi was used at the census in a very wide sense, and includes both Urdu and the group of languages known to philologists as Bihári.

The success of their efforts in this direction will be apparent from the proportions for a few tribes noted below, showing the number who are literate per 1,000 amongst converts to Christianity, as compared with those who have retained their old animistic beliefs:—

Diagram showing the number per 1,000 of each main religion who are literate.



		Christian.	Others.
Lepcha	...	141	29
Gáro	...	115	3
Munda	...	68	7
Oráon	...	41	3
Santál	...	226	3

The proportion in the case of Christians would be even higher, but for the numerous new converts who have passed the school-going age. Next to the Christians, the proportion of the literate, both male and female, is highest amongst the Buddhists; but the difference between them and the Hindus is very slight. The Muhammadans are much more backward, and the proportion who can read and write is barely half as great as it is amongst Hindus. In every 1,000 males only 68 are literate, and in every 1,000 females only 2. The disproportion is more marked in the case of literate persons under 15 than it is at the higher ages. It would, therefore, seem that the Hindus are still increasing the lead which they already hold. The Animists, as might be expected, come last. Only 8 males in 1,000 are literate, and there are practically no literate females.

DISTRIBUTION BY LOCALITY.

482. The most favoured part of Bengal, from the point of view of education, is the metropolitan area. In Calcutta itself one male in every 3 is literate, and then come Howrah, Midnapore, the 24-Parganas, and Hooghly, where 1 in every 5 is able to read and write. The other districts of West Bengal all hold a high place, but Nadia, Murshidabad, and Jessore in Central Bengal, in spite of their proximity to Calcutta, are not specially remarkable for the diffusion of the rudiments of learning. Orissa comes next to West Bengal with one male who is literate in every 7. Then follows Backergunge with about the same ratio. In Khulna, Dacca and Tippera about 1 male in 8 is literate. The low ratio in Dacca is somewhat surprising, in view of the large number of educated *bhadralok* in the Bikrampur pargana. In Bihar, Patna, with 1 male able to read and write in every 8, alone holds a respectable position. South Bihar as a whole can boast of only 1 male in 12 who is literate, or about the same proportion as in North Bengal. In North Bihar the proportion falls to 1 in 15, while in the Chota Nagpur Plateau it is barely 1 in 20. The variations in the proportion of educated females, though on a far lower plane, follow generally those noted above, but there is a remarkable difference between the figures for Calcutta and those for any other area. In the metropolis the proportion of literate females exceeds 1 in 9, and is rather greater than the provincial average for males, but in Hooghly, Darjeeling, Howrah and the 24-Parganas, which stand next, it falls to about 1 in 70. Then follows Dacca with only 1 in 100. The degree of literacy enjoyed by each district (both sexes combined) is shown in the annexed map while in the diagram in the margin of paragraph 480 the ratios in each Natural Division are compared for the two sexes taken separately. In



connection with the latter it should be remembered that the districts comprised in each division often show very uneven results. The differences between the figures for Calcutta and the 24-Parganas, compared with the rest of Central Bengal, and between those for Patna and the rest of South Bihar, which have been noticed above, are far from being the only cases where adjoining districts differ greatly in the extent to which the rudiments of education have penetrated to the lower classes of the population.

COMPARISON WITH 1891.

483. It is difficult to compare the results of the present census with those which have gone before, owing to a change of system. On previous occasions the population was divided into three categories—literate, learning, and illiterate—whereas at the present census the only distinction made was between the literate and illiterate. The instructions on this point which were issued to the enumerators in 1891 were as follows:—

> Enter against each person, whether grown-up, child or infant, either learning or illiterate. Enter all those as learning who are under instruction either at home or at school or college. Enter as literate those who are able both to read and write any language, but who are not under instruction as above. Enter as illiterate those who are not under instruction, and who do not know how to both read and write, or who can read but not write, or who can sign their own name, but not read.

It was found that the return of the learning was vitiated by the omission, at the one end of boys in the rudimentary stages of instruction, and at the other, of many of the more advanced students, who thought it derogatory to their dignity to call themselves "learning" when people of far lower attainments were recorded as literate, and accordingly caused themselves to be entered under the latter head. There was a considerable discrepancy between the census figures for the learning and those of the Education Department, due partly to the causes noted above, and partly, it was alleged, to an exaggeration in the departmental returns, of the number of children under instruction in elementary village schools. For these reasons it was thought better to leave the compilation of statistics regarding persons under instruction to the educational authorities, and to confine the information collected at the census to the broad question whether a person can or cannot both read and write.* The rule for the guidance of the enumerators was accordingly modified as follows:—

> Enter against all persons, of whatever age, whether they can or cannot both read and write any language.

This change in procedure may have been desirable on general grounds, but it has had the result of obscuring the progress made during the decade along the path of education. Some of the persons who would have been shown as learning under the old rule, have now been classed as literate, while others have been relegated to the category of the illiterate. How many of the learning have been treated as literate and how many as illiterate it is impossible to say, but it is clear that a great many, who would have been entered as learning under the old rule, have been shown as illiterate under the new one. The total number of literate males under 15 years of age at the present census is only 706,546, which is less by 26 per cent. than the corresponding number returned as learning or literate in 1891. Probably the best way of instituting a comparison is to consider only persons over 15 years of age, and to assume that all such persons who were shown as learning in 1891, would have been entered as literate, had the present rule been in force at that census. Comparative figures for the literate over 15 years of age, based on this assumption, will be found in the last four columns of Subsidiary Table III.

MALES.

484. So far as can be gathered from this comparison, the actual number of literate males has increased by 15 per cent. during the decade. The greatest progress has taken place in Orissa, where the number of males who can read and write is greater by 37

* In his report on the Census of India in 1891, Mr. Baines, the Census Commissioner, recommended the abandonment of the "distinction between those under instruction and those able to read and write, but no longer in a state of pupilage."

per cent. than it was ten years previously. In Chota Nagpur, where an increase of 31 per cent. has taken place, the progress is due, to a great extent, to the activity of the Christian Missions. In Bengal Proper, Central Bengal with an increase of 22, and West Bengal with one of 16 per cent., show the best results. The improvement in North Bengal is exactly the same as in the Province as a whole. In East Bengal the figures are disappointing, the growth of the literate population being only 12 per cent., or barely 2 per cent. more than the rate at which the general population has increased in that prosperous tract. The worst apparent results, so far as the actual number of the literate is concerned, are those for Bihar; but this is due mainly to the decadent condition of the population as a whole. In North Bihar there are only 4 per cent. more literate males than there were ten years ago; but as the total population is stationary, the proportion who are literate has increased to a greater extent than in East Bengal. In South Bihar the number of the literate has fallen by 2 per cent., while that of the general population has declined by 3·6 per cent., so that while there has been a slight diminution in the actual number, the proportion of the literate has risen.

There seems to be very little correspondence between these results and the statistics of persons under instruction compiled from the school returns. According to the latter, there is a decrease of nearly 10 per cent. compared with 1891 in the number of boys under instruction in Orissa, where the census shows that the male literate population has grown most rapidly. On the other hand, in North Bengal, it appears from the returns of the Education Department that the number of pupils is greater by 39 per cent. than it was in 1891; but the census shows an increase of only 11 per cent. in the literate population. It must, however, be remembered that the comparison between the two sets of statistics is apt to be fallacious, as the persons under instruction are for the most part under 15, while in the case of the census figures, we are dealing only with persons over that age, so that a change in the number of pupils during one decade would not have much effect until the following one.

Natural Division.	Number of Pupils.		Variation per cent.
	1901.	1891.	
West Bengal ...	292,753	285,912	+ 2·4
Central Bengal ...	183,644	165,763	+ 10·8
North Bengal ...	138,207	99,427	+ 39·0
East Bengal ...	434,975	392,251	+ 10·8
North Bihar ...	146,498	127,987	+ 14·5
South Bihar ...	109,165	98,596	+ 10·7
Orissa	105,896	117,464	− 9·8
Chota Nagpur ...	108,383	85,799	+ 26·3
TOTAL ...	*1,519,523*	*1,373,192*	*+ 10·7*

Note.—The above figures are exclusive of Kuch Bihar, Sikkim, and Hill Tippera, for which information is not available, and also of the 1891 figures for Angul and the Chota Nagpur States.

485. The spread of literacy amongst males has been moderate, but female education has made great strides. In the Province as a whole the number of literate females has risen by 63 per cent. The greatest advance has taken place in North Bengal, where the number is double what it was only 10 years ago, and the improvement in West and East Bengal is very nearly as great. In North Bihar and Orissa the number of literate females has grown by nearly 80 per cent. and in the Chota Nagpur Plateau by nearly 70 per cent. Then come South Bihar with an advance of 40, and Central Bengal with only 27 per cent. In spite of its comparatively slow rate of progress during the last decade, which is explained by the large proportion which literate foreigners bear to the total, Central Bengal still stands far in advance of all other parts of the Province in respect of the diffusion of education amongst females.

Females.

486. In the Province as a whole only 89 males per 10,000 stated that they were acquainted with English, and only 6 females. The ratio is, of course, highest in Calcutta (1,323 males and 455 females per 10,000), not only on account of the larger proportion of English people resident there, but also because it is the great centre of higher education, and because it is there that the educated classes most easily find employment. Next to Calcutta come, in order, Howrah, Hooghly, the 24-Parganas, Burdwan, Nadia and Dacca. These are the districts which are commonly regarded as the most advanced from the point of view of education, and which furnish a large proportion of the native officials, pleaders, and clerks throughout the Province. The Bihar districts are very backward, so far as the knowledge of English is concerned, and Patna alone holds a fairly high

English Education.

place. Except in Calcutta and Darjeeling, where Englishwomen are numerous, the proportion of females who are acquainted with English is everywhere so small that there is no object in discussing the local variations in detail.

COMPARISON WITH OTHER PROVINCES.

487. The progress made by Bengal in the matter of education during the last ten years may not seem very great, but compared with other provinces the results are distinctly satisfactory. In Madras, the census figures appear to indicate a serious falling-off in the proportion of persons who can read and write. There has also been a decline, though comparatively slight, in the United Provinces and the Punjab. Bombay alone of the other large Provinces shows a very small improvement during the decade. Taken as a whole, Bengal still ranks below Madras and Bombay, but the difference between the figures is far less marked than it was in 1891.

Province.	NUMBER PER 10,000 PERSONS (BOTH SEXES) OVER 15 WHO ARE LITERATE.	
	1901.	1891 (including learning).
BENGAL	756	692
Bengal Proper	938	868
Bihar	502	499
Orissa	1,019	812
Chota Nagpur	294	330
United Provinces... ...	426	437
Punjab	526	541
Madras	903	1,028
Bombay	838	830

In the case of a great Province like Bengal local conditions vary enormously, and both Orissa and Bengal Proper, considered by themselves, can boast of a larger proportion of persons able to read and write than either Madras or Bombay, while Bihar occupies a place intermediate between the Punjab and the United Provinces, but approximating more nearly to the former. The Chota Nagpur Plateau stands at the bottom of the list; but, thanks to the effort of the missionaries, its position is not very markedly inferior to that of the United Provinces.

EDUCATION BY CASTE—MALES.

488. One of the most interesting features in connection with the subject of literacy is the varying extent to which the knowledge of reading and writing is diffused amongst the different castes.* And in the first place we will consider the statistics for males. The Eurasian stands at the top of the list with 4 literate, in every 5, males. More than a quarter of the total number of Eurasian males are under 12 years of age, and it follows that practically every one learns to read and write as soon as he is of a school-going age. Two trading castes come next, the Maheśri, with 705 males per 1,000 who can read and write, and the Oswál with 649. The high proportion in both these castes is to some extent fictitious. Their home is outside the limits of Bengal, and the persons enumerated in this Province are immigrants who come for purposes of trade, almost all of whom are adults. Amongst the indigenous castes, the Baidyas take the first place with a literate male population of 648 per 1,000, then follow the Káyasths with 560, the Karans with 528, the Subarnabaniks and Gandhabaniks with 519 and 510, respectively, the Águris with 498, and the Bráhmans with 467. The low position of the Bráhmans is due to the figures for Bihar, where only 273 per mille of the males of this caste can read or write. In Bengal Proper the proportion is 639 per 1,000, which is exceeded only in the case of the Baidyas. It is probable that the figures for the better class of true Káyasths in Bengal Proper are equally high, but this caste is weighted, not only by the inclusion of a certain number of outsiders of lower rank, chiefly Sudras, who often pretend to be Káyasths, but also by the fact that it contains a number of persons of an inferior class who look to service, rather than to clerical work, as a means of livelihood. The educational status of the other high castes is comparatively low. The Khatris have 380 literate males per 1,000, but the Bábhans have only 166, and the Rájputs only 150. Compared with other castes in Bihar these figures are fairly high, but they are exceeded in Bengal Proper in the case of many castes of much lower rank. Amongst the Khandáits of Orissa about 1 male in 7 is able to

* It must be remembered that the whole population was not dealt with in Table IX, but only the most numerous castes in each district. Some castes have not been dealt with at all, and others only in certain localities, the conditions of which may not be typical of other places where the caste is also found.

read and write. The high position of the Subarnabanik and Gandhabanik castes and of several foreign trading castes, has already been noticed. Of the indigenous trading castes of Bihar the Barnawárs, with 285 males per mille who can read and write, occupy the highest place, and are followed by the Máhuris with 272, the Kasarwánis with 224, the Kalwárs with 220, and the Rauniárs with 202. Amongst the artisan castes of Bengal Proper the Kánsári, Tili, and Mayrá take the highest place, while in Bihar the Halwái stands first.

The race castes generally occupy a very low place, so far as literacy is concerned, but an exception is furnished by the Pods of the 24-Parganas, amongst whom the proportion of males who can read and write exceeds 1 in 6.* Education has spread amongst them to a far greater extent than amongst their neighbours and congeners the Chandáls, with whom the proportion is only 1 in 15, or very little better than amongst the Rájbansis. But even these possess a far higher proportion of literate persons than the corresponding communities of West Bengal, and the latter again stand on a much higher level than the depressed race castes of Bihar, such as the Musahars and Dosádhs, of whom only 8 males in every 1,000 are able to read and write. Amongst the Muhamadans, the highest educational rank is held by the Ashráf community, the Saiads, Moghals and Patháns.† Then come Kulu, Kalál, Bediyá, Mallik, Rangrez, Kasái, Dafáli and Bhát; then Joláhá, Hajjám, Lahiri, Dái, Darzi, Fakir, Kunjra, Churihár, Dhuniá, Dháwá, Dhobi, Behárá and Bhathiárá. The numbers dealt with in respect of these groups, however, are small, and the areas to which they refer are not the same, so that detailed comparison might mislead. The Animistic tribes stand at the bottom of the list; but we have already seen that those from amongst them who have become Christians occupy a much higher place. The Buddhist tribes possess a fair proportion of literate persons, compared with their immediate neighbours.

FEMALES.

489. In respect of female education, the Eurasians again hold the highest place, and practically all their females, other than very small children, possess some degree of education. Amongst natives of the country, the Baidya is *facile princeps*. More than one of his females in every 4 can read and write. I have noted in the margin the ten castes with the highest proportion of literate females. The question that will probably be asked at once is "where are the Bráhmans?" But in the province as a whole their position is very low, and only about 26 females per mille are literate. In Bengal Proper the proportion rises to 56 per mille. The position of the Káyasths also is improved, if only Bengal Proper be considered, and here the proportion is nearly 80 per mille. The large number of females who are literate amongst the converts to Christianity from the Santál and Gáro tribes is noteworthy, and so, too, is the high place held by Subarnabanik females. This, however, is to a great extent due to the fact that the proportions are calculated on 25,000 Subarnabaniks enumerated in Calcutta. These constitute less than a sixth of the total strength of this caste in Bengal, but they are more advanced than their caste-fellows in other parts of the Province; and if the whole community had been dealt with, their position would doubtless have been a lower one.

Caste, etc.	Number of literate females per 1,000.
Baidya	259
Firingi	153
Santál (Christian)	131
Moghal	129
Subarnabanik	81
Khatri	73
Káyasth	66
Lepcha (Christian)	64
Gandhabanik	63
Oswál	61

KNOWLEDGE OF ENGLISH BY CASTE.

490. As in the case of female education, so also in respect of a knowledge of English, the Baidyas easily hold the first place, with 303 males per mille who know English. The Subarnabaniks of Calcutta come next with 268 and the Gandhabaniks with 175, and then the Káyasths with 132. The Bráhmans again hold a relatively low place, and only 74 per 1,000 know English. If, however, we take the Bráhmans for Bengal Proper only, the proportion rises to 157, compared with 147 amongst the Káyasths of the

* Until the educational qualifications were made more strict, a large proportion of the petty legal practitioners in the 24-Parganas, where they form a large proportion of the population, were Pods.

† The figures were not extracted for Shekh, as this group is so very indeterminate.

same area. Amongst the lower castes, who form the great bulk of the population, there are practically none who are acquainted with English.

STATISTICS OF LITERACY AS AN INDEX TO SOCIAL MOVEMENTS.

491. The statistics of education by caste throw light on some of the claims which have been set up by certain castes to a higher rank than that which they occupy in the recognised scale of social precedence.* The Subarnabaniks (519 per 1,000), for example, have almost the same proportion of literate males as the Karans, and a far larger one than the Bábhans and Rájputs. The Sháhás, with 354 per 1,000, also occupy a much higher position in respect of education than they do from the point of view of the orthodox Hindu. Similarly, it is easy to understand why the Chási Kaibartta, with 1 male in 3 who can read and write, wishes to dissociate himself from the Jáliyá Kaibartta who can boast of only 1 in 12; the Tili, with 1 in 3, from the Teli with only 1 in 9; and the Sadgop, with 1 in 4, from the Goálá of Bengal Proper with only 1 in 8. It also explains why the Firingi of East Bengal, with only 1 in 3, wishes to be ranked with the Eurasian, amongst whom practically the whole male population is literate. The fact that amongst the persons who returned themselves as Baniyá only 180 per mille are literate, which is a lower proportion than in any regular caste of the trading community, proves what was surmised on other grounds, that the persons who caused this term to be entered as the name of their caste did not belong to any of the social groups usually classed as Baniyá, but to lower castes, and made use of the term to conceal their humble origin. It has been stated elsewhere that the Kurmi of Bihar is ethnically distinct from the group of the same name in Chota Nagpur, and the fact that the former has 85 literate males per mille, while the latter has only 28, shows that at any rate the educational status of the two communities differs greatly. Again, two-thirds of the literate Chamárs in Bengal Proper returned Hindi as the language in which they were literate, thus clearly showing that they, or their near ancestors, were immigrants from Bihar and up-country. No fewer than 7,239 Bráhmans enumerated in Bengal Proper were entered as literate in Oriyá, and this shows how extensively the Bráhmans of Orissa seek employment (usually as cooks) in this part of the Province. Want of space prevents us from dwelling further on these interesting side-lights of the census.

EXTENT TO WHICH NEWSPAPERS CIRCULATE.

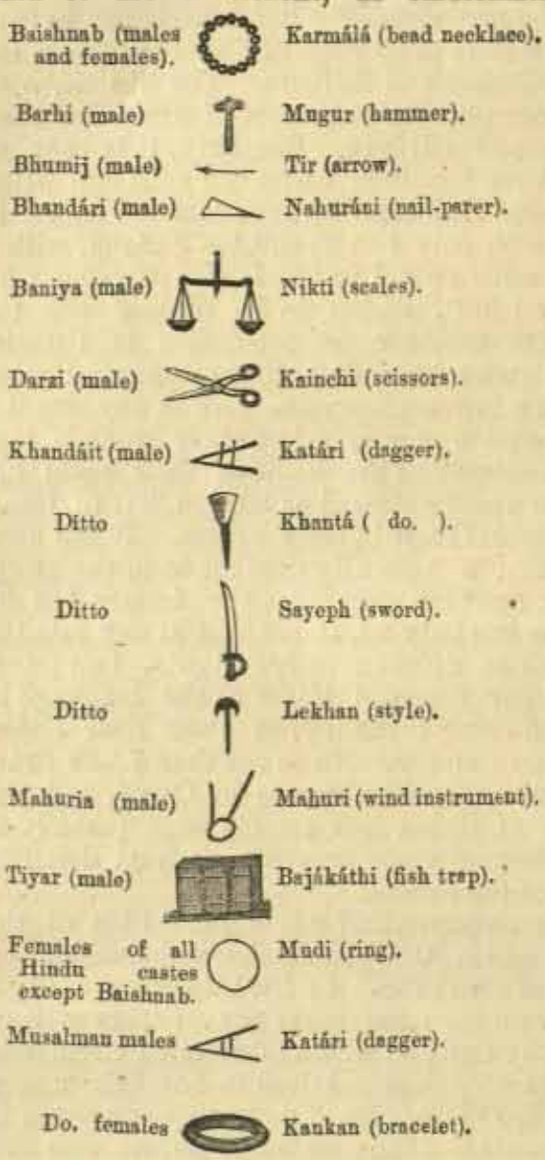
492. The progress of journalistic enterprise affords a good idea of the extent to which the people have benefited by the spread of education. In 1891 there were only 2 Anglo-native daily newspapers (*i.e.*, papers written in English, but owned, edited and read by natives) with an estimated circulation of 2,400 copies. In 1900 the number of such papers had risen to 5 and the aggregate circulation to 16,800. Ten years ago there were 6 daily papers written in Bengali, with a circulation of 1,088 copies. The number of papers has now fallen to 2, but the total number of copies issued has risen to 2,400. In the case of periodical literature, there has not been much change so far as Anglo-native magazines are concerned, but the number of weekly papers in the Bengali language has risen from 24 to 34, and the circulation from 33,529 to 112,553. There are no daily papers in Urdu, Hindi or Oriyá, and the number of weekly ones is very limited. There are two in Urdu, with a circulation of 800 copies, compared with four having a circulation of 1,055 copies in 1891. In Hindi there are 2 with 3,600 copies, as against five with 1,604 copies ten years ago; and in Oriyá three with 1,240 copies compared with three and 1,170 copies. There are two fortnightly magazines in the Hindi language with an aggregate circulation of 10,500 copies compared with only one in 1891, of which 450 copies were issued. There is one monthly magazine in Hindi and one in Oriyá, but the average circulation is only 500 and 400, respectively.

493. In connection with the subject of literacy, it is interesting to notice the various customs prevailing in different parts of the province in respect of the marks affixed to documents, in lieu of signature, by those who are unable to write. In Eastern Bengal a simple dash, called *nishán shai* or signature mark, is prefixed to the name, which is written by the scribe. In West Bengal the dash is replaced by a cross, called *dherá shai* or signature

* For a discussion of the claims of some of the castes here mentioned to a higher rank than that usually assigned to them see paragraphs 612 & 618 to 620.

cross.* In Bihar no special mark is used, and the illiterate executant makes at his pleasure a crooked line, cross, or circle as his *nishán-dastkhat*. The Atiths of Saran and Sannyásis of Gaya, however, are said to use a trident, as emblematical of Siva. Muhammadan females holding landed property generally have a seal with their monogram on it which they affix to documents executed by them. In Orissa each caste uses for this purpose a distinctive mark, or *santak*, symbolical of its characteristic occupation. This is drawn on the document by the person concerned or by his scribe. The word *santak* seems to be derived from the Sanskrit *sánketika*, meaning a sign or symbol. The Khitibansa, or schoolmaster caste, has, as its *santak*, a small circle representing a piece of chalk. The Baishnab makes a sketch of a bead necklace, such as he uses for his prayers, the Barhi of a hammer, the Bhumij of an arrow, the Bhandári of a nail-parer, the Baniyá of a pair of scales, and the Darzi of a pair of scissors. When a caste follows more than one occupation, it has a separate *santak* for each. The Dhobá, for instance, has one mark (an axe) to represent the splitting of wood and another symbolical of the washing of clothes. Except in the case of Baishnabs these special caste-marks are used by males only. Hindu females of all castes use a ring as their *santak*, and Musalman females a bracelet. Specimens of some of the *santaks* in use in the Cuttack district are given in the margin. It is needless to say that the drawings actually made are far less elaborate than those here printed. The Tributary Chiefs have special *santaks* of their own. Those of Band, Daspalla, Keonjhar and Mayurbhanj have a peacock, the Chief of Narsingpur a scorpion, and the Chief of Dhenkanal, a flag and a fish. The Chief's *santak* invariably finds a place on his State seal.

SIGNATURE MARKS.



Similar caste symbols are in use in the Sonthal Parganas, where the Khetauri draws a bow and arrow, the Bhuiyá, a dagger, the Santál, an arrow, the Kámár a pair of tongs, the Tánti a shuttle, the Gosáin a trident, the Kahár a palanquin and the like. The same practice formerly prevailed throughout Chota Nagpur and the south of Gaya, and still survives in several districts; but it is rapidly dying out, owing partly to the spread of education and partly to the substitution of the practice of touching the pen or affixing a simple mark, which is in vogue in the Courts and registration offices. Wherever these marks are in use the Santáls, Mundas, Hos and Bhumijes almost invariably select an arrow as their device.

* A *dherá* consists of two pieces of wood tied crosswise, and forms the lower part of the instrument used for twisting jute rope.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE I—EDUCATION BY AGE, SEX AND RELIGION.

AGE PERIOD.	NUMBER IN 1,000.						NUMBER IN 1,000 LITERATE IN—								NUMBER IN 1,000 LITERATE IN ENGLISH.	
	LITERATE.			ILLITERATE.			BENGALI.		HINDI.		ORIYA.		OTHER LANGUAGES.			
	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17
TOTAL POPULATION, 1901.																
Total ...	*55*	*104*	*5*	*945*	*896*	*995*	*67·8*	*3·6*	*23·0*	*0·7*	*10·0*	*0·2*	*3·2*	*0·5*	*9·0*	*0·6*
0—10 ...	10	19	1	990	981	998	14·2	1·3	2·9	0·3	1·4	0·1	0·5	0·3	1·2	0·2
10—15 ...	59	101	8	941	899	992	71·5	5·6	18·7	1·0	8·7	0·5	2·1	0·8	10·7	0·8
15—20 ...	74	140	9	926	860	991	95·0	7·0	28·7	1·0	12·3	0·3	4·0	0·7	18·6	0·9
20 and over ...	76	147	6	924	853	994	92·5	4·1	34·7	1·0	14·9	0·3	4·9	0·6	11·4	0·7
HINDU.																
Total ...	*66*	*127*	*6*	*934*	*873*	*994*	*78·4*	*4·8*	*31·6*	*0·9*	*13·7*	*0·3*	*1·3*	.....	*11·4*	*0·1*
0—10 ...	14	25	2	986	975	998	18·8	1·7	4·0	0·2	2·2	0·1	.....	.....	1·4	0·04
10—15 ...	75	128	9	925	872	991	88·0	7·3	25·6	1·1	13·8	0·6	0·6	.....	14·7	0·2
15—20 ...	90	169	12	910	831	988	110·0	9·9	38·2	1·3	19·0	0·8	1·8	.....	23·4	0·3
20 and over ...	88	171	7	912	829	993	101·1	5·3	45·8	1·2	22·3	0·5	1·8	.....	13·8	0·2
MUHAMMADAN.																
Total ...	*35*	*68*	*2*	*965*	*932*	*998*	*54·7*	*1·2*	*8·4*	*0·4*	*0·4*	.....	*4·5*	*0·4*	*2·8*	*0·03*
0—10 ...	5	9	1	995	991	999	7·5	0·6	1·0	0·2	.....	.....	0·5	0·2	0·3	0·006
10—15 ...	35	60	3	965	940	997	49·4	1·8	6·7	0·6	0·4	.....	3·5	0·6	3·1	0·05
15—20 ...	46	94	3	954	906	997	75·4	1·8	11·4	0·6	0·6	.....	6·6	0·6	6·4	0·05
20 and over ...	54	105	3	946	895	997	83·5	1·6	13·5	0·8	0·8	.....	7·2	0·6	3·7	0·04
BUDDHIST.																
Total ...	*72*	*136*	*7*	*928*	*864*	*993*	*39·9*	*1·0*	*10·3*	*0·6*	*0·4*	.....	*85·4*	*5·4*	*4·8*	*0·2*
0—10 ...	6	11	2	994	989	998	6·6	0·8	0·5	0·3	.....	.....	3·9	0·9	0·4	0·1
10—15 ...	52	99	7	948	910	993	46·6	1·0	4·1	0·6	0·3	.....	39·0	5·4	5·2	0·3
15—20 ...	85	163	8	915	835	992	55·8	1·0	14·7	0·3	.....	.....	94·5	6·7	10·3	0·3
20 and over ...	113	214	9	887	786	991	54·5	1·0	16·7	0·6	0·6	.....	142·2	7·4	6·3	0·2
ANIMIST.																
Total ...	*4*	*8*	.....	*996*	*992*	*1,000*	*2·5*	.....	*4·7*	.....	*0·6*	.....	*0·2*	.....	*0·1*	*0·006*
0—10 ...	1	1	.....	999	999	1,000	0·4	.....	0·6	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	0·007	0·002
10—15 ...	4	8	.....	996	992	1,000	2·4	.....	5·0	.....	0·5	.....	0·1	.....	0·06	0·02
15—20 ...	7	13	.....	993	987	1,000	4·8	.....	7·4	.....	0·6	.....	0·2	.....	0·2	0·008
20 and over ...	6	12	.....	994	988	1,000	3·6	.....	6·9	.....	1·3	.....	0·2	.....	0·2	0·005
CHRISTIAN.																
Total ...	*252*	*310*	*191*	*748*	*690*	*809*	*63·5*	*46·7*	*52·8*	*20·8*	*8·5*	*9·0*	*185·2*	*114·5*	*210·7*	*132·6*
0—10 ...	83	87	79	917	913	921	22·5	20·7	13·7	10·5	2·5	2·5	45·3	43·3	54·5	49·3
10—15 ...	266	282	247	734	718	753	87·5	83·8	86·0	43·7	9·1	13·5	99·4	106·0	129·1	139·0
15—20 ...	329	354	304	671	646	696	97·9	85·7	97·0	42·6	16·3	18·7	153·8	157·0	225·8	178·7
20 and over ...	340	440	230	660	560	770	74·7	46·9	60·3	17·6	10·5	10·6	294·3	154·9	322·3	177·2

SUBSIDIARY TABLE II.—Education by Age, Sex and Locality.

Natural Divisions and Districts.	Literate per 1,000.									
	0—10.		10—15.		15—20.		20 and over.		Total Population of all ages.	
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11
BENGAL	***19***	***2***	***101***	***8***	***140***	***9***	***147***	***6***	***104***	***5***
WEST BENGAL	***49***	***3***	***211***	***19***	***249***	***13***	***241***	***9***	***188***	***8***
Burdwan	44	3	190	11	223	16	197	9	162	8
Birbhum	38	1	188	7	219	7	196	5	153	4
Bankura	51	2	215	9	243	10	241	6	183	5
Midnapore	53	3	206	16	257	10	273	8	205	7
Hooghly	53	5	224	20	257	23	240	16	197	14
Howrah	53	4	242	16	284	19	265	14	212	12
CENTRAL BENGAL	***37***	***6***	***167***	***26***	***217***	***30***	***210***	***18***	***162***	***16***
24-Parganas	53	4	227	23	269	21	258	14	202	13
Calcutta	129	62	390	189	425	204	323	108	316	115
Nadia	30	3	116	13	140	17	138	10	104	9
Murshidabad	18	2	111	8	152	10	152	7	106	6
Jessore	17	1	109	8	127	9	155	5	110	5
NORTH BENGAL	***14***	***1***	***77***	***5***	***110***	***5***	***122***	***4***	***84***	***3***
Rajshahi	13	1	76	5	107	5	118	4	80	4
Dinajpur	19	1	92	4	123	4	145	3	99	3
Jalpaiguri	12	2	89	6	86	6	99	4	70	4
Darjeeling	11	6	77	18	184	21	165	17	119	14
Rangpur	9	1	53	3	78	3	94	3	64	2
Bogra	17	1	101	4	128	4	141	4	96	3
Pabna	15	1	93	5	127	7	134	5	91	4
Malda	14	1	72	3	104	4	107	3	74	2
Koch Bihar	16	2	88	7	134	7	152	5	107	4
Sikkim	4	0·3	32	2	85	3	155	3	95	3
EAST BENGAL	***17***	***2***	***108***	***9***	***153***	***11***	***157***	***8***	***108***	***6***
Khulna	23	3	130	12	165	13	170	10	124	8
Dacca	22	2	137	15	184	20	171	13	121	10
Mymensingh	10	1	68	5	94	6	104	5	69	4
Faridpur	17	1	109	8	137	13	136	7	97	6
Backergunge	30	3	155	12	210	14	200	10	147	9
Tippera	17	2	123	7	179	8	178	6	121	6
Noakhali	8	1	83	5	149	5	178	4	105	3
Chittagong	13	2	96	5	162	6	201	6	117	5
Chittagong Hill Tracts	4	1	32	2	80	3	130	4	79	3
Hill Tippera	4	1	34	2	53	3	62	2	41	2
NORTH BIHAR	***9***	***·5***	***55***	***2***	***89***	***3***	***98***	***2***	***66***	***2***
Saran	6	·2	53	2	89	3	118	3	73	2
Champaran	4	·4	30	2	55	2	67	1	45	1
Muzaffarpur	10	1	62	4	100	5	115	4	78	3
Darbhanga	12	1	68	2	111	3	99	2	71	1
Bhagalpur	11	·4	55	2	89	2	96	2	66	1
Purnea	10	1	51	2	72	3	81	1	57	1
SOUTH BIHAR	***11***	***1***	***75***	***4***	***106***	***5***	***116***	***4***	***82***	***3***
Patna	22	2	126	9	162	9	150	7	123	6
Gaya	10	1	66	2	91	3	100	3	72	2
Shahabad	9	1	67	3	106	5	121	4	86	3
Monghyr	8	1	53	2	79	4	80	2	58	2
ORISSA	***23***	***2***	***139***	***6***	***176***	***7***	***215***	***5***	***151***	***4***
Cuttack	28	2	145	7	183	7	219	5	150	5
Balasore	27	2	146	6	182	7	222	5	157	4
Puri	19	1	116	5	154	7	198	5	139	4
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***8***	***1***	***44***	***4***	***66***	***4***	***80***	***3***	***52***	***3***
Hazaribagh	8	1	42	3	77	3	78	2	52	2
Ranchi	7	·3	41	2	70	3	86	2	51	1
Palamau	4	·4	31	2	49	2	60	2	37	1
Manbhum	17	2	72	5	93	6	112	4	77	3
Singhbhum	11	1	44	3	58	4	72	3	48	2
Santhal Parganas	9	1	50	4	66	4	71	2	47	1
Angul	5	·4	35	2	47	2	59	1	38	1
Chota Nagpur Tributary States	1	·2	8	1	19	2	27	1	18	1
Orissa Tributary States	7	1	46	3	70	4	101	3	64	2

SUBSIDIARY TABLE III.—Progress of Education since 1881.

Natural Divisions and Districts.	Number per 1,000 Males.					Number per 1,000 Females.					Number per 1,000 over 15 years of age who are literate.			
	1901.	1891.		1881.		1901.	1891.		1881.		Male.		Female.	
	Literate.	Literate.	Learning.	Literate.	Learning.	Literate.	Literate.	Learning.	Literate.	Learning.	1901.	1891.	1901.	1891.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13	14	15
BENGAL	***104***	***81***	***24***	***57***	***29***	***5***	***3***	***1***	***2***	***1***	***146***	***137***	***7***	***4***
WEST BENGAL	***188***	***141***	***59***	***112***	***60***	***8***	***3***	***1***	***2***	***1***	***242***	***228***	***10***	***5***
Burdwan	162	117	36	93	49	8	4	1	1	1	200	190	10	5
Birbhum	153	126	52	92	50	4	2	1	1	1	201	208	5	3
Bankura	183	129	56	107	60	5	2	2	1	1	242	223	6	3
Midnapore	205	139	55	113	62	7	3	1	1	1	270	226	9	4
Hooghly	197	165	75	136	67	14	7	2	3	1	243	230	16	9
Howrah	212	179	70	145	72	12	7	2	3	2	268	267	15	9
CENTRAL BENGAL	***162***	***122***	***35***	***99***	***41***	***16***	***11***	***3***	***5***	***2***	***211***	***188***	***19***	***16***
24-Parganas	202	157	53	129	62	13	14	5	3	2	259	244	15	10
Calcutta	516	278	47	246	65	115	71	10	45	21	335	202	121	90
Nadia	104	71	25	55	27	9	4	1	2	1	138	127	11	6
Murshidabad	106	75	28	56	27	6	3	1	1	1	152	137	7	4
Jessore	110	84	22	71	35	5	6	2	1	1	151	143	6	9
NORTH BENGAL	***84***	***69***	***19***	***51***	***25***	***3***	***1***	***1***	***1***	***1***	***120***	***116***	***4***	***2***
Rajshahi	80	61	18	45	22	4	2	1	2	1	117	110	5	3
Dinajpur	99	82	19	57	25	3	1	.....	1	.....	142	128	3	1
Jalpaiguri	70	71	18	39	18	4	2	1	1	.....	98	114	4	3
Darjeeling	119	114	19	64	18	14	5	2	4	3	168	175	18	8
Rangpur	64	54	14	47	21	2	1	.....	1	1	92	89	3	1
Bogra	96	76	26	71	40	3	1	.....	3	3	139	130	4	3
Pabna	91	69	24	53	31	4	2	.....	1	1	133	125	5	3
Malda	74	58	21	44	24	2	1	1	.....	.....	107	106	3	1
Kuch Bihar	107	83	23	52	28	4	2	1	1	1	150	138	6	3
Sikkim	95	.....	.....	.....	.....	3	.....	.....	.....	.....	144	...	3	...
EAST BENGAL	***108***	***88***	***30***	***66***	***37***	***6***	***3***	***1***	***2***	***1***	***156***	***157***	***8***	***5***
Khulna	124	87	28	67	35	8	3	1	1	1	169	142	10	4
Dacca	121	88	34	64	38	10	6	1	2	1	173	163	14	9
Mymensingh	69	61	18	45	24	4	2	1	1	1	102	107	5	3
Faridpur	97	82	27	61	34	6	4	1	1	1	136	144	8	6
Backergunge	147	117	34	82	36	9	4	1	2	1	202	197	11	6
Tippera	121	100	36	81	46	5	2	1	4	3	178	179	6	4
Noakhali	105	95	43	79	58	3	2	1	.....	1	174	189	5	2
Chittagong	117	98	41	84	55	5	2	1	1	1	194	199	6	3
Chittagong Hill Tracts	79	.....	.....	.....	.....	3	.....	.....	.....	.....	123	...	4	...
Hill Tippera	41	.....	.....	.....	.....	2	.....	.....	.....	.....	61	...	2	...
NORTH BIHAR	***66***	***58***	***10***	***29***	***15***	***2***	***1***	.....	***1***	.....	***96***	***92***	***2***	***1***
Saran	73	59	10	29	18	2	2	.....	1	1	114	102	3	2
Champaran	45	37	5	19	9	1	1	.....	.....	.....	68	60	1	1
Muzaffarpur	78	75	16	33	14	3	1	.....	1	.....	113	114	4	2
Darbhanga	71	58	7	33	15	1	1	.....	.....	.....	100	93	2	1
Bhagalpur	66	53	8	28	16	1	1	.....	1	.....	95	86	2	1
Purnea	57	56	10	30	18	1	.....	.....	1	1	80	90	2	1
SOUTH BIHAR	***82***	***73***	***19***	***44***	***17***	***3***	***3***	.....	***3***	***1***	***115***	***118***	***4***	***3***
Patna	123	99	20	67	29	6	4	1	2	1	159	153	7	5
Gaya	72	67	9	42	17	2	1	.....	1	.....	99	106	3	2
Shahabad	86	65	9	39	15	3	2	.....	1	.....	125	110	4	2
Monghyr	68	64	10	32	11	2	2	.....	1	.....	82	105	3	3
ORISSA	***151***	***101***	***32***	***61***	***42***	***4***	***2***	***1***	***1***	***1***	***208***	***166***	***5***	***3***
Cuttack	150	109	35	57	41	5	3	1	1	1	213	180	6	3
Balasore	157	96	34	65	53	4	2	1	1	1	216	157	5	4
Puri	139	92	26	65	32	4	2	1	3	2	122	149	3	3
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU	***52***	***36***	***10***	***23***	***12***	***3***	***1***	***1***	***1***	.....	***78***	***66***	***3***	***2***
Hazaribagh	52	43	14	21	10	2	1	1	1	.....	78	77	3	2
Ranchi	51	30	6	20	10	5	2	1	1	1	83	56	6	4
Palamau	37					1					59	...	2	...
Manbhum	77	50	19	30	19	3	1	1	1	.....	108	94	4	2
Singhbhum	48	35	17	21	20	3	2	2	1	.....	70	66	3	3
Santhal Parganas	47	28	9	22	11	2	1	.....	1	1	70	52	3	1
Angul	39	25	10	21	16	1	.....	.....	.....	.....	57	43	1	1
Chota Nagpur Tributary States	16	16	1	8	3	1	1	.....	1	.....	26	28	1	1
Orissa Tributary States	64	48	10	23	10	2	1	.....	1	.....	96	82	3	2

Note.—In columns 13 and 15 the persons over 15 who were returned as "learning" in 1891 have been treated as literate. The figures shown against Calcutta for 1881 include the Suburbs.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE IV.—English Education by age, sex and locality.

Natural Divisions and Districts.	Literate in English per 10,000.									
	0—10		10—15		15—20		20 and over		Total population of all ages.	
	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11
BENGAL	***12***	***2***	***107***	***8***	***180***	***9***	***114***	***7***	***89***	***6***
WEST BENGAL	***23***	***2***	***231***	***6***	***334***	***8***	***209***	***7***	***175***	***5***
Burdwan	30	5	296	13	424	17	232	12	207	11
Birbhum	16	1	134	2	202	1	112	2	94	1
Bankura	13	1	163	1	217	3	134	1	110	1
Midnapore	11	1	95	4	138	3	92	3	75	3
Hooghly	51	1	440	7	665	8	402	7	351	6
Howrah	48	6	407	13	700	30	404	26	389	20
CENTRAL BENGAL	***48***	***16***	***362***	***57***	***571***	***58***	***405***	***44***	***324***	***38***
24-Parganas	29	2	301	6	437	9	319	12	251	8
Calcutta	506	258	1,383	784	1,998	680	1,303	441	1,323	455
Nadia	19	1	230	5	371	6	202	4	167	3
Murshidabad	10	.....	144	3	257	3	129	3	106	2
Jessore	11	.....	147	1	180	1	107	1	94	1
NORTH BENGAL	***7***	***1***	***67***	***5***	***102***	***4***	***59***	***4***	***48***	***3***
Rajshahi	6	.....	79	1	140	2	69	1	58	1
Dinajpur	4	.....	39	1	43	1	39	1	29	1
Jalpaiguri	5	1	57	7	47	7	54	4	38	3
Darjeeling	47	33	160	96	152	82	159	69	130	63
Rangpur	4	1	38	3	52	3	39	2	30	2
Bogra	7	.....	65	1	83	1	44	1	38	1
Pabna	13	.....	136	2	206	3	107	2	93	2
Malda	7	.....	37	.....	61	1	43	1	35	.....
Kuch Bihar	6	1	87	5	118	3	67	3	56	2
Sikkim	3	1	13	.....	37	.....	16	5	14	3
EAST BENGAL	***9***	.....	***116***	***2***	***201***	***3***	***94***	***2***	***80***	***2***
Khulna	16	.....	191	2	240	3	119	2	110	2
Dacca	15	1	213	5	423	6	169	4	148	3
Mymensingh	5	.....	80	1	122	1	60	1	51	1
Faridpur	9	1	116	1	177	2	95	2	79	1
Backergunge	19	1	152	2	233	2	87	2	89	2
Tippera	5	.....	64	1	132	1	71	1	55	1
Noakhali	2	.....	46	.....	101	.....	53	1	39	.....
Chittagong	7	1	75	6	174	7	130	4	83	4
Chittagong Hill Tracts	5	.....	43	2	81	5	38	1	29	1
Hill Tippera	4	.....	41	.....	79	2	45	6	34	1
NORTH BIHAR	***3***	.....	***27***	***1***	***55***	***2***	***34***	***2***	***26***	***1***
Saran	3	.....	29	1	74	2	50	1	35	1
Champaran	3	.....	18	2	50	.....	31	2	23	1
Muzaffarpur	7	1	30	1	88	2	47	2	40	1
Darbhanga	2	.....	15	1	30	3	20	2	16	1
Bhagalpur	3	.....	30	1	56	1	30	3	24	1
Purnea	2	.....	18	1	24	2	25	2	18	1
SOUTH BIHAR	***6***	***2***	***49***	***4***	***91***	***5***	***64***	***4***	***49***	***3***
Patna	12	6	94	17	165	14	111	8	94	9
Gaya	3	.....	34	1	62	1	41	2	32	1
Shahabad	5	1	36	1	103	2	70	2	54	2
Monghyr	6	1	24	2	51	6	41	5	30	3
ORISSA	***5***	***1***	***40***	***3***	***73***	***5***	***47***	***2***	***38***	***2***
Cuttack	7	1	52	4	86	4	56	3	46	3
Balasore	3	.....	24	1	67	2	39	2	31	1
Puri	3	.....	33	1	51	2	39	2	31	1
CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.	***3***	***1***	***20***	***1***	***37***	***2***	***33***	***2***	***22***	***2***
Hazaribagh	4	1	4	3	68	3	46	4	35	3
Ranchi	4	.....	6	1	63	2	47	3	28	2
Palamau	2	.....	21	3	28	.....	23	.....	17	.....
Manbhum	10	1	43	2	83	2	61	1	43	1
Singhbhum	3	1	37	3	33	3	55	6	33	4
Sonthal Parganas	2	1	22	2	38	4	31	4	21	3
Angul	.....	.....	1	.....	5	.....	17	.....	9	.....
Chota Nagpur Tributary States	1	.....	2	.....	5	.....	5	.....	5	.....
Orissa Tributary States	4	.....	9	.....	14	.....	12	.....	9	.....

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Education by Selected Castes.

Castes.	Number per 1,000.						Number per 10,000 literate in English.			Percentage of proportion of literate on corresponding proportion for the whole Province.		
	Literate.			Illiterate.								
	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
Agaria	1	2	.....	999	998	1,000	.....	.....	.....	2	2	.....
Agarwala	351	544	30	649	456	970	158	252	.....	638	823	600
Aguri	313	498	34	687	502	966	357	594	.....	569	479	680
Ahir or Goala	17	33	1	983	967	999	6	13	.....	31	32	20
Atith	34	75	.....	966	925	1,000	2	6	.....	62	75	.....
Atraf (Muhammadan) ...	37	70	2	963	930	998	4	9	.....	67	67	40
Babhan	88	166	9	912	834	991	13	27	.....	160	160	180
Bagdi	16	30	2	984	970	998	6	9	.....	29	29	40
Baidya	458	648	259	544	352	741	1,585	3,030	85	829	623	5,180
Baishnab	106	221	10	894	779	990	44	94	15	193	213	200
Baniya	89	180	2	911	820	998	17	22	.....	162	173	40
Barhi	23	46	1	977	954	999	6	12	.....	42	44	20
Barnawar	137	285	3	863	715	997	18	23	.....	249	274	60
Baroi	74	148	3	926	852	997	64	130	1	135	142	60
Basni	4	8	1	996	992	999	.....	.....	.....	7	8	20
Bediya (Muhammadan) ...	66	116	5	934	884	995	7	14	.....	120	112	100
Behara (Muhammadan) ...	8	14	2	992	986	998	.....	.....	.....	15	13	40
Bhandari	38	72	1	964	928	999	2	3	.....	65	69	20
Bhat (Muhammadan) ...	28	61	1	972	939	999	2	4	.....	51	59	20
Bhathiara (Muhammadan) ...	6	13	.....	994	987	1,000	.....	.....	.....	11	13	.....
Bhogta	3	7	.....	997	993	1,000	.....	.....	.....	5	7	.....
Bhotia	88	136	1	912	864	999	.....	.....	.....	160	131	20
Bhotia (Buddhist)	38	68	5	962	932	995	2	5	.....	69	65	100
Bhuinmali	22	41	1	978	959	999	3	7	.....	40	39	20
Bhuiya	5	9	.....	995	991	1,000	.....	1	.....	9	9	.....
Bhumij	7	14	1	993	986	999	.....	.....	.....	13	13	20
Bhumij (Animist)	3	5	.....	997	995	1,000	.....	.....	.....	5	5	.....
Bind	3	6	.....	997	994	1,000	.....	1	.....	5	6	.....
Brahman	238	467	26	762	533	974	358	737	5	433	449	520
Chakma (Buddhist) ...	45	83	2	955	917	998	11	21	.....	82	86	40
Chamar	6	12	.....	994	988	1,000	1	3	.....	11	12	.....
Chandal or Namasudra ...	33	64	1	967	936	999	4	9	.....	60	62	20
Chasa	38	74	1	962	926	999	2	3	.....	69	71	20
Chero	12	23	.....	988	977	1,000	1	2	.....	23	22	.....
Chik (Barnik)	17	37	1	983	963	999	1	2	.....	31	36	20
Chinese (Buddhist) ...	490	518	226	510	482	774	1,241	1,239	1,258	891	498	4,520
Churihar (Muhammadan) ...	10	20	.....	990	980	1,000	.....	.....	.....	18	18	.....
Dafali (Muhammadan) ...	31	63	1	969	937	999	4	9	.....	56	61	20
Dai (Muhammadan) ...	21	46	3	979	954	997	4	11	.....	38	44	60
Darzi (Muhammadan) ...	19	41	2	981	959	998	11	26	.....	35	39	40
Dhanuk	10	20	1	990	980	999	1	2	.....	18	19	20
Dhawa (Muhammadan) ...	9	15	3	991	985	997	2	5	.....	16	14	60
Dhoba	28	51	1	974	949	999	6	11	.....	47	49	20
Dhobi (Muhammadan) ...	5	10	.....	995	990	1,000	.....	1	.....	9	10	.....
Dhunia (Muhammadan) ...	7	15	1	993	985	999	.....	.....	.....	13	14	20
Dom	12	24	1	988	976	999	2	4	.....	22	23	20
Dom Jaliya	27	55	1	973	945	999	2	4	.....	49	53	20
Dosadh	4	8	.....	996	992	1,000	1	2	.....	7	8	.....
Eurasian (Christian) ...	788	792	784	212	208	216	7,832	7,800	7,722	1,432	761	15,680
Fakir (Muhammadan) ...	23	46	1	977	954	999	1	3	.....	42	44	20
Firingi (Christian)	247	338	152	753	662	848	1,798	2,164	1,411	449	325	3,040
Gandhabanik	318	510	63	682	490	937	1,018	1,756	30	578	490	1,260
Garo	12	24	.....	988	976	1,000	.....	.....	.....	22	23	.....
Garo (Christian)	115	171	54	885	829	946	20	38	.....	209	164	1,080
Garo (Animist)	3	5	.....	997	995	1,000	.....	.....	.....	5	5	.....
Gaur	23	46	1	977	954	999	2	4	.....	42	44	20
Ghasi	10	18	2	990	982	998	1	1	.....	18	17	40
Gond	2	4	1	998	996	999	.....	.....	.....	4	4	20
Gour	4	8	1	996	992	999	1	2	.....	7	8	20
Gurung	53	99	6	947	901	994	6	12	.....	96	95	120
Hajjam	13	25	.....	987	975	999	3	7	.....	24	24	20
Hajjam (Muhammadan) ...	21	39	4	979	961	996	4	6	1	38	38	80
Halwai	111	138	59	889	862	950	108	109	105	202	133	1,000
Hari	10	19	1	990	981	999	1	2	.....	18	18	20
Ho	2	4	.....	998	996	1,000	.....	.....	.....	4	4	.....
Ho (Animist)	7	14	.....	993	986	1,000	1	3	.....	13	12	20
Jolaha (Muhammadan) ...	25	50	2	975	950	998	10	20	.....	45	48	40
Jogi	104	202	4	896	798	996	26	51	.....	189	194	80
Kahar	19	39	1	981	961	999	7	15	.....	35	38	20
Kaibartta (Chasi)	130	323	4	870	677	996	52	131	.....	236	311	80
Kaibartta (Jaliya)	43	84	2	957	916	998	8	16	.....	78	81	40
Kalal (Muhammadan) ...	63	137	2	937	863	998	11	23	.....	114	132	40
Kalu	85	166	4	915	834	996	25	49	1	155	160	80
Kalwar	110	220	3	890	780	997	22	44	1	200	213	60
Kamar	95	182	5	905	818	995	44	86	13	173	175	100
Kandh	5	10	1	995	990	999	.....	.....	.....	9	10	20
Kandh (Animist)	18	36	1	982	964	999	.....	.....	.....	33	35	20
Kandu	25	52	1	975	948	999	3	6	.....	45	50	20
Kansari	218	384	49	782	616	951	425	811	31	398	369	980
Kaora	31	42	21	969	958	979	18	37	.....	58	40	480
Karan	266	528	23	734	472	977	125	259	1	484	508	460
Kasai (Muhammadan) ...	33	77	.....	967	923	1,000	6	13	.....	60	74	.....
Kasarwani	114	224	3	886	776	997	21	41	.....	207	215	60
Kayastha	311	560	66	689	440	934	573	1,323	33	567	538	1,320
Kewat	20	41	.....	980	959	1,000	1	1	.....	36	39	20
Khambu	43	82	2	957	918	998	3	7	.....	78	79	40
Khandait	76	154	3	924	846	997	6	13	.....	138	148	60
Kharia (Animist)	2	3	.....	998	997	1,000	.....	.....	.....		3	.....
Kharwar	5	11	.....	995	989	1,000	.....	1	.....	9	11	.....
Khas	17	27	3	983	973	997	1	3	.....	31	26	60
Khatri	279	390	73	721	610	927	498	736	17	507	365	1,460
Khatwe	7	15	.....	993	985	1,000	.....	.....	.....	13	14	.....
Koiri	17	34	.....	983	966	1,000	2	4	.....	31	33	.....

SUBSIDIARY TABLE V.—Education by Selected Castes—*concluded.*

Castes.	Number per 1,000.						Number per 10,000 literate in English.			Percentage of proportion of literate on corresponding proportion for the whole Province.		
	Literate.			Illiterate.								
	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.	Total.	Male.	Female.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	13
Kulu (Muhammadan) ...	23	44	1	977	956	999	2	4	.....	42	82	2
Kumhar	34	67	2	966	933	998	11	22	.....	62	64	60
Kunjra (Muhammadan) ...	10	20	1	990	980	999	6	13	.....	18	19	25
Kurmi	30	60	1	970	940	999	3	6	.....	55	58	29
Kurmi (Animist)	8	17	.....	992	983	1,000	1	2	.....	15	16	.....
Laheri (Muhammadan) ...	19	40	.....	981	960	1,000	1	2	.....	35	38	.....
Lepcha (Buddhist) ...	29	53	5	971	948	995	6	12	1	53	50	100
Lepcha (Christian)	141	229	64	859	771	936	28	46	13	258	230	1,280
Limbu	30	54	3	970	946	997	12	23	.....	55	52	60
Lohar	11	22	1	989	978	999	2	3	.....	20	21	20
Magh (Buddhist)	87	173	8	913	827	992	24	51	.....	158	166	160
Maheori	524	705	40	476	295	960	179	247	.....	953	678	800
Mahuri	133	272	3	867	728	997	12	26	.....	242	262	60
Mal (Muhammadan) ...	22	41	3	978	959	997	.....	.....	.....	40	39	60
Mallah	10	24	.....	990	976	1,000	1	2	.....	18	23	.....
Mallik (Muhammadan) ...	43	85	2	957	915	998	13	27	.....	78	82	40
Malpaharia	1	3	.....	999	997	1,000	1	2	.....	2	3	.....
Mangar	54	99	5	946	901	995	3	6	.....	98	95	100
Mayra	248	335	57	752	665	943	503	711	53	451	322	1,130
Moghal (Muhammadan) ...	312	417	129	688	583	871	798	1,305	84	567	401	2,580
Muchi	8	15	1	992	985	999	1	2	.....	15	14	20
Muchi (Muhammadan) ...	51	108	.....	949	892	1,000	.....	.....	.....	93	104	.....
Mukeri (Muhammadan) ...	31	66	.....	969	934	1,000	.....	.....	.....	56	63	.....
Munda	20	36	2	980	964	998	1	3	.....	38	35	40
Munda (Christian)	68	118	15	932	882	985	56	111	1	124	113	300
Munda (Animist)	7	13	.....	993	987	1,000	.....	1	.....	13	13	.....
Murmi	41	71	5	959	929	995	21	43	.....	75	68	100
Murmi (Buddhist)	34	64	4	966	936	996	1	2	.....	62	62	80
Musahar	4	8	.....	996	992	1,000	.....	1	.....	7	8	.....
Nagarchi (Muhammadan) ...	30	59	1	970	941	999	7	13	.....	55	57	20
Napit	98	187	6	902	813	994	61	118	1	178	180	120
Newar	82	141	13	918	859	987	19	37	.....	149	136	260
Nikari (Muhammadan) ...	29	52	5	971	948	995	9	19	.....	53	50	100
Nuniya	10	20	2	990	980	998	1	2	.....	18	19	40
Oraon	4	6	1	996	994	999	.....	.....	.....	7	6	20
Oraon (Christian)	41	53	30	959	947	970	33	64	1	75	50	600
Oraon (Animist)	3	6	.....	997	994	1,000	1	1	.....	5	6	.....
Oswal	498	640	61	502	351	939	112	153	.....	905	624	1,220
Pan	6	12	.....	994	988	1,000	.....	.....	.....	11	12	.....
Pasi	6	12	1	994	988	999	1	2	.....	11	12	20
Pathan (Muhammadan) ...	176	200	51	824	791	949	274	339	34	320	200	1,020
Pod	94	183	5	906	817	995	15	29	.....	170	175	100
Rajbansi (Koch)	31	59	1	969	941	999	3	6	.....	58	56	20
Rajput	77	150	4	923	850	996	16	31	.....	140	144	80
Rajwar	2	4	.....	998	996	1,000	.....	.....	.....	4	4	.....
Rangrez (Muhammadan) ...	40	80	2	960	920	998	7	15	.....	73	76	40
Raunisr	106	202	1	894	798	999	1	2	.....	193	194	20
Sadgop	139	268	12	861	732	988	165	325	2	252	258	240
Saiad (Muhammadan) ...	150	274	24	850	726	976	184	361	4	272	263	480
Santal	3	5	.....	997	995	1,000	.....	.....	.....	5	5	.....
Santal (Christian)	226	299	151	774	710	849	331	530	76	410	278	5,020
Santal (Animist)	3	7	.....	997	993	1,000	.....	1	.....	5	7	.....
Sikalgar (Muhammadan) ...	50	103	.....	950	897	1,000	.....	.....	.....	90	99	.....
Sonar	68	140	2	932	860	998	13	27	.....	123	134	40
Subarnabanik	325	519	61	677	481	939	1,514	2,085	74	587	499	1,020
Sudra	102	209	9	898	791	991	61	120	1	185	200	180
Sunri (Shaha)	181	354	11	819	646	989	88	176	1	329	340	220
Sunuwar	66	128	3	934	878	997	12	22	.....	120	117	60
Sutradhar	62	116	5	938	884	995	54	102	2	113	112	100
Tanti and Tatwa	62	119	5	938	881	995	57	113	1	113	114	100
Teli	60	118	3	940	882	997	28	53	.....	109	113	40
Tharu	7	15	.....	993	985	1,000	.....	.....	.....	12	14	.....
Tibetan (Buddhist)	81	150	7	919	850	993	13	24	.....	147	144	140
Tili	164	330	8	836	661	992	77	165	.....	298	326	160
Tipara	3	5	.....	997	995	1,000	1	2	.....	5	5	.....
Tiyar	28	53	10	972	947	990	63	53	99	51	32	200
Vaisya	344	615	90	656	385	910	403	835	.....	625	491	1,800
Yakha	126	220	20	874	780	980	35	65	.....	229	212	400

Chapter X.

LANGUAGE.

THE INSTRUCTIONS ISSUED.

494. In 1881 and 1891 the column in which information was collected regarding language was headed "parent tongue" and the enumerators were told to enter the language returned by each person as spoken in his parents' home. This may have led to mistakes when, as occasionally happens, a person changed his domicile and adopted a new language, or when a Munda or Oráon accepted Hinduism, and at the same time discarded his own tribal language in favour of the local Aryan dialect. At the present census the title of the column was changed to "Language ordinarily used" and the corresponding instruction for the guidance of the enumerators was "Enter the language which each person returns as that which he ordinarily uses." If the words "in his own home" had been added, there could have been no possible doubt as to the meaning of the rule, but the omission of these words may sometimes have led to the return of a language other than that spoken in the family circle. Oriyás serving in Bengal and Bengalis employed in Bihar ordinarily speak Bengali and Bihári respectively and not their own parent tongue. In Palamau a dialect of Bihári is in general use as a *lingua franca*, but many of the Dravidian tribes speak their own tribal language at home. The various Nepal tribes have their peculiar dialects which they speak in their own homes, but they can, as a rule, also speak Khas. In these and similar cases it is probable that the wrong language was occasionally returned,* but it is not likely that this happened to an extent sufficient to seriously affect the return. The enumerators were very carefully taught and the records prepared by them were closely checked, and there are good grounds for believing that such mistakes were, as a rule, eliminated.

VALUE OF THE RETURN.

495. A more serious difficulty lay in the fact that the philological distinctions between languages and dialects are not always reflected in the names by which they are known to the people. This was especially the case in respect of the dialects spoken in Bihar.

These dialects, taken together, constitute a language which is now recognised as being entirely distinct from Hindi properly so-called, and are now known collectively to grammarians as Bihári.† But to the ordinary native they are all alike called Hindi. Separate dialects, such as Bhojpuri, Maithili and Magahi, are known to exist, but these distinctions are not looked on as of any practical importance, and at least ninety-nine persons out of a hundred, if asked what their language was, would at once reply Hindi, and this is what was usually recorded in the language columns of the census schedules.‡ So far, therefore, as the Bihári dialects are concerned, the census returns of language are not of much use. They show how many people speak Bengali and Oriyá, as distinguished from Hindi and Bihári taken together, but even here the information is not quite accurate. Language does not change suddenly, but by slow and almost imperceptible gradations, and what is called Bengali by the people is often held to be Bihári by the philologist.

Bengali, like Bihári, is divided into a number of dialects which, with one or two exceptions, were not returned at the Census, and the returns merely show the total number of persons speaking Bengali irrespective of dialect. In respect, however, of the non-Aryan dialects of Nepal, Chota Nagpur and Eastern Bengal, a very complete record was made by the enumerators, but the compilation of the statistics was unusually troublesome, owing to the want of precision in the terms used in the schedules. The same language is often known by different names in different places. The language of the Mundas,

* A few instances came to my personal notice. Some French gentlemen engaged in the silk business in Murshidabad returned their language as English, and two German missionaries in Chota Nagpur entered Oráon and Mundári respectively in the language column of the schedule.

† *See post*, paragraph 505.

‡ In the Patna office, statistics of these incomplete returns of dialects were not recorded. Those for districts dealt with elsewhere are given for what they are worth on the last page of Table X—Language.

for example, is known as Mundári in some places and as Horo or Horo Kaji in others, and that of the Oráons as Kurukh, Kunukh or Kachnakhra. It often happens also that the same name has a different meaning in different localities. Kol sometimes means Mundári, sometimes Ho, sometimes the Kármáli dialect of Santáli and sometimes Oráon. Dhángari usually means Oráon, but in the neighbourhood of the Sonthal Parganas it is a synonym for Korá. Pahárià may mean Khas, or Málto or Santáli, and so on. The matter is further complicated, especially in the Tributary States of Orissa, by the fact that the same tribe often speaks different languages in different localities. The Kharias of Ranchi and the Chota Nagpur States speak a Munda dialect, and those of Keonjhar a Dravidian dialect allied to Oráon, while some again speak a corrupt form of Chattisgarhi Hindi.

LANGUAGE CLASSIFICATION.

496. This bewildering confusion would have been almost overwhelming, but for the investigations made by Dr. Grierson in connection with the Linguistic Survey of India. Starting with the Census Returns of 1891, Dr. Grierson made elaborate enquiries in each district as to the languages spoken, the number of persons speaking them and the names by which they were locally known.

The results for Bengal are embodied in the volume entitled "First, Rough, List of Languages." This volume shows the languages which after enquiry were found to be spoken in each district, the number of persons speaking each language and the local names by which the various languages and dialects were known, and it has been of the greatest possible use to me in dealing with the Census returns of language. Before the Census I prepared an alphabetical list of all the local names of languages mentioned by Dr. Grierson, and noted against each the head under which it was classified by him. This was then circulated to district officers for examination, and it was revised and supplemented in the light of their reports, and the revised lists were very kindly corrected for me by Dr. Grierson himself.* I was thus able, as the returns came in, to allot each item shown in the list to the head to which it properly belonged. It often happened that entries were found which were not shown in the list. In such cases the caste and birth-place were examined and this usually furnished the necessary clue. If any doubt remained, a list of some of the persons concerned was sent to the district officer for local enquiry.

It would be tedious to discuss the subject in detail, but a few instances of the way in which the entries were classified may be of interest.

Dhángari was classed as Korá in Birbhum (5,084) and the Sonthal Parganas (1,700), as the district officers reported that the two terms were synonymous. In Purnea and Bhagalpur it had been shown provisionally as Ho in the records of the Linguistic Survey, but acting on Dr. Grierson's suggestion, further enquiries were made and the language was found to be Oráon, though many of the so-called Dhángars now talk a mongrel dialect, partly Oráon and partly Hindi. In several other districts also Dhángar was classed as Oráon, as the caste column showed that the persons concerned were Oráons. In Murshidabad of 555 persons whose language was returned as Dhángari, 50 were Mundas and 505 Korás, and the language classification was made in accordance with these figures.

In the Orissa States, Balasore and Singhbhum Kol was classed as Ho, and in the Sonthal Parganas, Hazaribagh and Manbhum as Kármáli. In eight other districts it was classed as Mundári after referring to the caste column, and in three as Oráon after similar reference. In Palamau of 10,868 persons whose language was entered as Kol, 2,717 were found to be Oráons, and 8,151 Mundas, and the language returns were prepared accordingly.

Lámá in Jalpaiguri was found on a few slips, and a reference to the caste column showed it to be Murmi. Mahli in Bankura and Kharia and Ghási in Dinajpur were classed as Bengali, as local enquiry showed that this was the language actually spoken. In the Orissa States when any caste or tribe speaks an Aryan language, it usually does so with certain tribal peculiarities, and these are indicated by calling the dialect not Bengali, Hindi or Oriyá, but by the name of the tribe or caste concerned, the word Thár

* A similar list prepared by Dr. Grierson for the whole of India was subsequently received through the Census Commissioner for India.

(an Oriyá word meaning 'sign' or 'symbol') being added, *e.g.*, Báthudi Thár, Pátrá Thár, &c. In such cases enquiry was made and specimens of the dialect were obtained, and it was then classed as Bengali, Hindi or Oriyá as seemed most appropriate in each case. Most of these 'Thárs' proved to be Oriyá, which holds a very strong position as the official language in use in all the States, but a few, including 'Dás Thár' spoken by Kaibarttas, and 'Bágti Thár' spoken by Báuris, were entered as Bengali and a few others such as 'Jabáni bhásha' returned as the language of some Bhuiyá immigrants from Hazaribagh, were classed as Hindi. Buná in Dinajpur was classed as Oráon, this being the caste shown on the slips. Gaur in Jalpaiguri and Golá in the Chota Nagpur States were classed as Hindi, and so on almost *ad infinitum*.

497. We had also misreadings to reckon with, *e.g.*, Kodári, Kodhá and Karár for Korá, Khodiár and Khadira for Khariá, Kabluk for Kurnukh, Urá for Oráon, &c. Occasionally one had to guess at the proper entry. Ádhá Kotá was a puzzle at first sight, but an examination of the schedule showed that the original entry was Ádhá Khottá. The persons concerned were Kewats in the north of Nadia and the entry appeared to mean that their language was Bengali with an admixture of Hindi. It was accordingly classed as Bengali. In several cases enquiry showed that Fársi was used to indicate ordinary Hindi and it was then classed accordingly. But our enquiries were necessarily limited, and it is probable that the figures for Persian are still too high. Some Oráons in Howrah were entered as speaking Andal Mindar. Reference was made to the Magistrate, but the persons could not be traced. I classed the language as Oráon. Dr. Grierson subsequently suggested that it might be a mispelling for Oráon Munda, meaning the corrupt form of Mundári spoken by some Oráons in Ranchi. Madhri and Bangri both appeared as the language of some Oráons born in Ranchi; the language was in both cases assumed to be Oráon. The notes and correspondence regarding language classification have been carefully arranged and bound up so that they may be available for reference at the time of the next census. I may add that notes on the classification of the language entries for several of the more difficult districts were submitted to Dr. Grierson who very kindly favoured me with his advice so promptly that I was able to benefit by it before sending Table X to press. It will thus be seen that every possible effort was made to ensure a correct compilation of the returns, and it is hoped that in respect of the non-Aryan dialects, at least, the results will be found to be of considerable interest and value.

498. The statistics recorded at the Census regarding language will be found in Imperial Table X. The following subsidiary tables in which the principal features of the return are presented in a more compendious form, will be found at the end of this chapter:—

SUBSIDIARY TABLES.

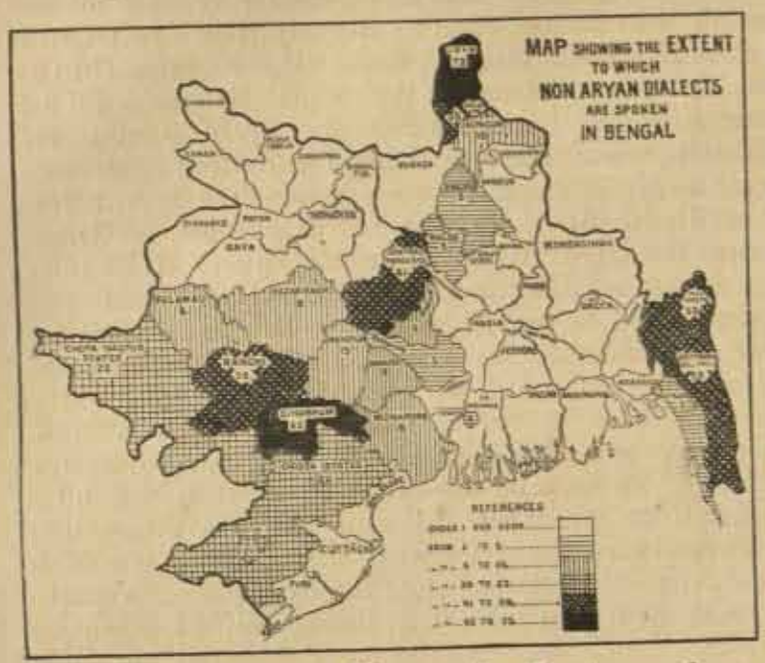
(I) Distribution of the total population by language.
(II) Distribution by linguistic families of 10,000 persons in each district.
(III) Distribution amongst Bengali, Hindi, Oriyá and 'other languages' of 10,000 of the population of each district.
(IV) Distribution by residence of 10,000 persons speaking each language.
(V) Comparison of the statistics for language and race in the case of tribes speaking dialects of their own.
(VI) Statement showing the number of books published in each language during the decade 1891—1901.

499. Excluding immigrants the languages spoken in Bengal belong to one or other of four linguistic families—Aryan, Dravidian, Munda or Kolarian and Tibeto-Burman. Of these the languages of the Aryan family are by far the most important numerically, being spoken by no less than 95 per cent. of the total population. The Munda family comes next, but its speakers represent only 3½ per cent. of the total, while the other two families each claim less

GENERAL DISTRIBUTION OF THE POPULATION BY LANGUAGE.

Aryan	family...	...	...	74,518,085
Munda	„ ...	...	...	2,781,211
Dravidian	„ ...	...	...	683,732
Tibeto-Burman	„ ...	...	...	450,591
		Total	...	78,433,619

than 1 per cent. The prevalence of these non-Aryan dialects is shown in the map given in the margin. The Aryan languages are spoken in the plains by almost the whole population. The other families of languages are spoken only in the hills or by recent settlers in the plains. The Munda and Dravidian families are found in the Chota Nagpur Plateau and in the districts adjoining this tract. They are also spoken by numerous emigrants from the Sonthal Parganas in the Bárind, and from Ranchi and the neighbouring districts of the Chota Nagpur Plateau in the tea-gardens of Jalpaiguri and the Darjeeling terai. The Tibeto-Burman languages are found partly in Darjeeling and Sikkim and the adjoining district of Jalpaiguri, and partly in the south-eastern corner of Bengal—in the Chittagong Hill Tracts and Hill Tippera. There are also a few scattered colonies of people speaking languages of this formation in Dacca and Mymensingh. The proportionate strength of non-Aryan languages is greatest in Singhbhum, but the most remarkable diversity of speech is found in Jalpaiguri. In addition to the indigenous languages of the district, Bengali and Mech, the former an Aryan language and the latter a member of the Bodo group of the Tibeto-Burman family, numerous immigrants from Bhotan, Nepal and Sikkim speak respectively dialects of the Himalayan, Nepal and Sikkim groups of the Tibeto-Burman family, while the great and still growing tea-garden population converses chiefly in the Dravidian and Munda dialects which they brought with them from Chota Nagpur.



500. The important Aryan languages of Bengal are Bengali, Bihári, Eastern Hindi and Oriyá. According to Dr. Grierson's classification Bengali, Bihári and Oriyá form with Assamese the Eastern Group of Aryan vernaculars of which the Mágadhi form of Prakrit was the progenitor, while Eastern Hindi, which stands by itself in the 'Mediate Group,' is descended from the fusion of the Mágadhi and Sauraseni Prakrits known to grammarians as Ardha Mágadhi. In Darjeeling and Sikkim and, to a less extent, in Jalpaiguri, Khas is spoken by immigrants from Nepal.

THE ARYAN LANGUAGES.

It has already been explained that the census does not distinguish between Bihári and Hindi. An attempt will be made below to estimate the number of persons speaking Bihári and its dialects on the basis of the enquiries made by Dr. Grierson; but in the meantime, taking Hindi in the wide sense in which it was used at the census, it may be noted that, on the average, of every 1,000 persons in the Province, 528 speak Bengali, 341 Hindi, 79 Oriyá and 1 Khas, leaving only 51 persons per 1,000 for all other languages put together. As compared with the last census Bengali shows an increase of 7·5 per cent., Hindi of 1·1 per cent., and Oriyá of 1·7 per cent. The population of the districts where Bengali is spoken has grown more rapidly than that of the Hindi-speaking districts, while in the south of Midnapore, the dialect classed as Oriyá in 1891 has, at the recent census, been treated in many cases as Bengali. The figures for Hindi in 1891 were swollen in some cases by the inclusion of languages which at this census have been shown under other heads. With a few exceptions, Bengali is the language of the

Language.	Number speaking it.
Bengali ...	41,432,899
Hindi ...	26,780,174
Oriyá ...	6,202,751
Khas ...	81,313
Total ...	74,497,137

great sub-province of Bengal Proper, Hindi of Bihar and Chota Nagpur, and Oriyá of Orissa. North of the Ganges, however, Bengali has invaded Bihar territory, and in the portions of Purnea and Malda which lie to the east of the Mahánanda river, the language in common use is Bengali, and not Hindi. South of the Ganges, in the Sonthal Parganas, Bengali is current, in the whole of the eastern and southern portions of the Sonthal Parganas, in the Dhalbhum pargana of Singhbhum, in the greater part of Manbhum and in about half of the State of Seraikela. It also, according to the census, projects to some distance into the district of Hazaribagh. To the south, however, Bengali has failed to reach the present boundary of Bengal Proper, and in Midnapore Oriyá extends northwards as far as the Haldi river (the boundary of the Contai subdivision), and prevails also in the Dantan, Gopiballabhpur, Jhargaon and Binpur police circles of the head-quarters subdivision of Midnapore.* In the Chota Nagpur Division and States Oriyá is spoken over the greater part of Singhbhum, Kharsawan, Bonai and Gangpur, nearly half of Seraikela, and the southern portion of Jashpur. On the other hand, about 12 per cent. of the population of Mayurbhanj and 7 per cent of the population of Keonjhar speak Bengali. The approximate dividing line between these languages is shown in the map given in the margin.



DIFFICULTY OF CLASSIFYING BORDER DIALECTS.

501. It must not be supposed from what has been said above that there is anywhere any sudden change from one Aryan language to another. Unless any great natural obstacle, such as a river, a range of mountains or a tribe speaking a non-Aryan form of speech intervenes, one language merges gradually and almost imperceptibly into the next, and there is a considerable area where it is difficult for any one, even for a philologist, to decide with which of the two languages the local dialect should be classed. Thus in Purnea the number of persons speaking Bengali is estimated by Dr. Grierson to be 603,000, while, according to the census, it is only 91,877. I caused the figures to be worked out a second time, but without any material change in the result. I then obtained a special report from the District Magistrate, who attributed the discrepancy entirely to the difficulty of deciding where Bengali begins and Hindi ends. The dialect in question, according to Dr. Grierson, is in the main Bengali with a strong admixture of Hindi,† but it is written in the Kaithi character, in which Hindi and not Bengali is usually written, and this fact doubtless weighed with the enumerators far more than the niceties of grammatical construction. The Magistrate reports that in one case, well within Dr. Grierson's Bengali-speaking area, where the question as to which language should be entered was referred to him, he decided in favour of Hindi. A further explanation of the difference which I submit with all deference, is that as one proceeds from one language area to another the proportion in which each enters into the hybrid interlingual dialect gradually changes. The Deputy Commissioner of Ranchi, for example, writing of Pánch Parganiá says:—

"It is in no sense a language, but varies from place to place according to the proportion of Bengali and Hindi in the admixture. It is a question whether it should not be returned as either Hindi or Bengali, according to the discretion of the enumerator."

* Midnapore has not always belonged to Bengal. It formed part of Orissa in the time of the Gajpati kings and under Daud. It was transferred to Bengal when Prince Shuja was Subadar of these Provinces, but Van den Broucke's map of Bengal in 1660 still shows the boundary north-west of the town of Midnapore.

† I am still using the word 'Hindi' in the sense in which it was used by the enumerators.

Similarly in a report received from Midnapore the Magistrate wrote:

"In parts of the Contai subdivision and Dantan thana a mixture of Bengali and Oriyá is spoken. In some places the Oriyá element predominates, in some places the Bengali."

The classification made for the Linguistic Survey must necessarily depend on the particular specimens submitted for Dr. Grierson's examination, and what is now classed under one linguistic head might well have been classed under another if the specimens had been selected from a different locality.

In Malda, the Sonthal Parganas and Manbhum, the difference between the popular and scientific views regarding linguistic classification is less marked; according to the census the proportion of persons speaking Bengali as compared with Hindi is slightly greater in Malda and slightly less in the Sonthal Parganas and Manbhum than that shown by the figures of the Linguistic Survey.*

In Hazaribagh, however, it appears that the greater portion of the 6,762 persons shown at the census as speaking Bengali in reality speak the form of Hindi known as Kurmáli or Khattáhi in Manbhum. But as the enumerators called it Bengali without any distinguishing prefix, I had no alternative but to show it as Bengali in the final returns. The character in use is Bengali, and this probably accounts for the error in the enumerators' diagnosis.

Along the Oriyá-Bengali boundary line, the census shows only 100,095 Oriyá speakers in Singhbhum and 270,495 in Midnapore, against 114,402 and 345,950 respectively in the "Rough List of Languages."† Here again the difference is easily explicable. In his account of the Oriyá language Dr. Grierson says:—

"The Oriyá of North Balasore shows signs of being Bengalised, and as we approach the boundary between that district and Midnapore, we find at length almost a new dialect. It is not, however, a true dialect. It is a mechanical mixture of corrupt Bengali and of corrupt Oriyá. A man will begin a sentence in Oriyá, drop into Bengali in its middle, and go back to Oriyá at its end. The vocabulary freely borrows from Bengali."

Added to this the character employed in writing it is usually the Bengali. In such circumstances a great deal must depend on the idiosyncrasies of the census staff, and it is not to be wondered at that different enumerations should disclose different results.‡

BENGALI.

502. Bengali, or Banga bháshá, was formerly thought to be a very modern language, but Dr. Grierson has shown that this is not the case and that the language of the 15th, differs very little from that of the 18th, Century. The present literary form of the language has developed since the occupation of the country by the English, and its most marked characteristic is the wholesale adoption of Sanskrit words in the place of words descended through the Prakrit,§ due at first, it is thought, to the great poverty of the original material in a country where the vast majority of the inhabitants were of non-Aryan descent.‖ The Bengalis are unable to pronounce many of the words that have been borrowed from the Sanskrit, but they have nevertheless retained the Sanskrit spelling. "The result of this state of affairs" says Dr. Grierson, "is that, to a foreigner, the great difficulty of Bengali is its pronunciation. The vocabulary of the modern literary language is almost entirely Sanskrit, and few of these words are pronounced as they are written."

DIALECTS OF BENGALI.

503. The book language is quite unintelligible to the uneducated masses, and as, apart from it, there is no generally recognised standard, the variations in the spoken language are very great. The well-known adage that the dialect changes every twelve *Kos* applies probably with greater force to Bengali than to any other language in India. A peasant from Tippera or Sylhet would be quite as unintelligible to a native of Murshidabad as to a Mahratta or Sindhi. Dr. Grierson says that Bengali may be divided first into two main branches, a western and an eastern. "The boundary line between the two may be taken to be the

* In the two latter districts a possible explanation of the difference is that in accordance with Dr. Grierson's advice I classed as Hindi not only all entries of Kurmáli and Khottá or Khottáhi, but, also, of Khottá Bangalá. It may be that the local officers from whom Dr Grierson obtained his figures, followed the popular view as expressed in its name and treated Khottá Bangalá as Bengali.

† The Collector's estimate.—The census of 1891 showed 572,798 Oriyá speakers in Midnapore. In the Dantan thana of Midnapore, Oriyá is now returned as the language of 91,480 out of 123,541 persons; in Gopiballabhpur of 96,287 out of 163,156; in Egra of 57,202 out of 77,884, and in Ramnagar of 10,741 out of 75,020. The remaining Oriyá speakers are found chiefly in Narayangarh, Contai, Jhargaon and Midnapore thanas.

‡ In Balasore, Oriyá corrupted by an admixture of Bengali is known as Rorhuáli. In Midnapore the jargon is frequently called Bheri Oriyá.

§ Known respectively as Tatsamas and Tadbhavas.

‖ Beames' Comparative Grammar of the Modern Aryan Languages of India, Vol. I, page 36.

eastern boundary of the districts of the 24-Parganas and Nadia. It then follows the river Brahmaputra till it comes to the Rangpur district, up the western boundary of which it runs, and thence along the west of Jalpaiguri till it meets the lower ranges of the Himalayas." Each branch, he says, includes several dialects. The changes of course are gradual; but, broadly speaking, one may distinguish the following:—

(1) *Central Bengali* spoken in the 24-Parganas, Nadia, Murshidabad, Midnapore, Hooghly and Howrah.

(2) *Rárhi Boli* or Western Bengali spoken in Burdwan, Birbhum Bankura, the Sonthal Parganas, Manbhum, and Singhbhum.

(3) *Northern Bengali* spoken in Malda and the districts of the Rajshahi Division excluding Rangpur and Jalpaiguri.

(4) *Rangpuri or Rájbansi* spoken in Rangpur, Jalpaiguri and the Kuch Bihar State.

(5) *Eastern* or *Musalmani-Bengali* spoken in Jessore, Khulna, Tippera, and the districts of the Dacca Division.*

(6) *Chátgáiyá*, or the Bengali of the Chittagong Division excluding Tippera.

There are also several minor dialects such as—

(7) *East Central Bengali*, or the form of Eastern Bengali spoken in Jessore, Khulna and the greater part of Faridpur.

(8) *South-West Bengali* spoken in the south-western part of Midnapore.

(9) *Chákmá*, a corrupt Bengali written in an archaic form of the Burmese character which is current in the Chittagong Hill Tracts.

(10) *Hájang* or the corrupt Bengali spoken by people of Gáro origin in Mymensingh.

(11) *Kishánganjia* or *Siripuriá*, the mixture of Bengali and Hindi spoken in East Purnea.

(12) *Mál Paháriá*, the broken Bengali spoken by converted aborigines in the centre of the Sonthal Parganas.

(13) *Khariá Thár*, the corrupt dialect spoken by Khariás in Birbhum, and

(14) *Pohirá Thár*, spoken by a small tribe of the same name in Manbhum.†

The Chákmás are Buddhists and formerly spoke Arakanese, and it is a remarkable circumstance that they should have changed their language while retaining their old character. The explanation is probably to be found in the circumstance that, as with other Buddhist communities, the education of their children is in the hands, not of outsiders but of their monks, who are naturally averse to adopting a character other than that in which they were brought up. In the Chákmá dialect the inherent vowel in the case of consonants is *á*, not *a*.

The only dialects separately recorded at the census were Chákmá, Mál Paháriá, Hajong, Khariá Thár and Pohirá Thár. The figures for these dialects are given in the margin. Chákmá is spoken mainly in the Chittagong Hill Tracts, where more than one-third of the inhabitants have returned it as their language. In the Chákmá Circle it is spoken by three-quarters of the whole population. No useful purpose would be served by attempting to estimate the number of persons speaking the other Bengali dialects, as the limits assigned to them are artificial, and there is no well defined standard of each such as exists in the case of the Bihári dialects.

Dialect.	Number of persons speaking it.
Chákmá	48,921
Mál Paháriá ...	27,040
Hajong	4,424
Khariá Thár ...	1,390
Pohirá Thár ...	377

BENGALI LITERATURE.

504. "Bengali has a fairly voluminous literature" (I quote again from Dr. Grierson) "dating from pre-historic times. According to the latest authority its oldest literary record is the song of Mánikchandra, which belongs to the days of the Buddhists,

* It is a question whether Musalmani-Bengali ought not to be treated as a special dialect spoken by Muhammadans in Eastern and Central Bengal. Its distinguishing feature is the large admixture of Persian and Arabic words in its vocabulary and, as will be noted below, many books are printed in it. A special version of the Bible has been printed in this dialect.

† I might perhaps add Khera Bangalá, the name contemptuously applied to the corrupt Bengali spoken by the domiciled Bengalis of Orissa, of whom there are a good many. The term is probably derived from the constant recurrence in their talk of the word *kari, e.g., jai kari, khai kari*, etc. This dialect is merely the home language of the Bengali settlers. Away from their own homes they speak Oriyá, and when literate, they write in the Oriyá language and character.

though it has no doubt been altered in the course of centuries through transmission by word of mouth. Of the well-known authors, one of the oldest and most admired is Chandí Dás, who flourished about the 14th century and wrote songs of considerable merit in praise of Krishna. Since his time to the commencement of the present century, there has been a succession of writers, many of whom are directly connected with the religious revival instituted by Chaitanya."

None of the dialects detailed above are of any literary importance with the exception of Musalmani-Bengali. The latter has a large body of literature, dealing chiefly with religious subjects, in which the colloquial vocabulary is supplemented by words derived from Persian and Arabic sources and not from Sanskrit. The books in this dialect are printed backwards, *i.e.*, they are arranged in such a way that the first page is found where the last page would ordinarily be looked for.

BIHÁRI.

505. The dialects spoken in Bihar were formerly treated as dialects of Hindi, and in his Comparative Grammar of the Modern Aryan languages of India, Beames defined Hindi as the language which is spoken in the Valley of the Ganges and its tributaries from the watershed of the Jamna to Rájmahal. Subsequently Dr. Hœrnle pointed out that the dialects spoken in the above area divide themselves naturally into two great groups, Western and Eastern. Between the two lay the language of Oudh and Baghelkand which shared some of the characteristics of both, but which, on the whole, seemed more nearly allied to the Eastern Group, *i.e.*, "the dialects of Benares, Tirhut and Bihar" with which accordingly it was classed, the name given to the whole group being 'Eastern Hindi.' Dr. Grierson has now shown that the Bihári dialects not only cannot be treated as appertaining to the same language as those of Oudh and Baghelkand, but that they do not even belong to the same linguistic group. The latter dialects, which are derived from the Ardha Mágadhi Prakrit, are recognised as constituting a separate language which he calls Eastern Hindi, while the former, which he distinguishes collectively as Bihári, are derived from the Mágadhi Prakrit, which is also the parent of Bengali, Oriyá and Assamese, and it is to these languages that Bihári is most closely allied, and with which it is accordingly grouped.

The descriptive notes on the Bihári dialects which follow, are taken almost wholly from Dr. Grierson's account of them. In pronunciation, says Dr. Grierson, Bihári leans rather to Hindi, although there are traces of Bengali influence. In declension, it partly follows Bengali and partly Eastern Hindi, but in the most important point, the formation of the oblique base, it follows the former and bears no resemblance to the latter. In conjugation, it differs altogether from Hindi and closely follows Bengali.* In the introduction to his Grammar of the Gaudian languages, Dr. Hœrnle pointed out the probability of two great immigrations of people speaking Aryan languages at different periods, and this view has been confirmed by Dr. Grierson's investigations. The conclusion he has come to it that the earlier invasion was by the Kabul Valley and the later one through Chitral and Gilgit. The speakers of the Eastern Group of Indo-Aryan vernaculars have derived their language from the earlier invaders, and those who speak Hindi from the later ones.†

CHARACTER IN USE.

506. The character officially recognised for use in Bihar is now the Kaithi, a running hand derived from the Nágari and named after the Káyasths who in their capacity of estate managers were probably the first to use it, but until recently the Urdu language in the Persian character was taught in the schools and used in the Courts. The change was inaugurated in 1871 by Sir George Campbell who expressed strong disapproval of the style of Urdu which was then current in Bihar, and desired to prohibit the excessive use of Arabic and Persian words. He did not wish to exclude Persian words altogether, but insisted on an adherence to the real languages of the country, *i.e.*, Hindi and Hindustani, which he assumed to be very nearly the same vernacular language though written in different characters. The Court officers were required to learn the Nágri character and the public were allowed at their option to use either that character or the Persian in their petitions, etc. These orders remained a dead letter until 1880, when the exclusive use of Kaithi was prescribed. With the

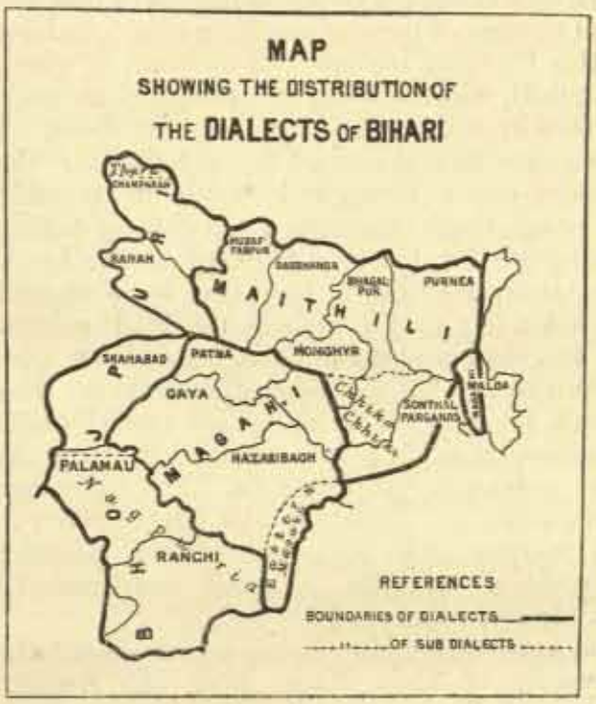
* The sign of the future tense in Bengali and Bihari is '*b*,' that of the past '*l*,' and that of the present definite '*chái*'. The numbers are used, not to distinguish between singular and plural, but to show respect or the reverse, and the distinction between the conjugation of transitive and intransitive verbs has disappeared.

†A full and interesting account of these conclusions and of the reasons for them will be found in Dr. Hœrnle's Presidential Address to the Asiatic Society of Bengal in 1898, pages 78 to 81.

introduction of the Kaithi character the language in use in Court documents and in school-books has gradually been more and more closely assimilated to that in common use among the people.

MAITHILI.

507. Bihári has three main dialects—Maithili or Tirhutiá, Mágadhi or Magahi and Bhojpuri. Maithili means the language of Mithilá or the tract of country bounded on the north by the Himalayas, south by the Ganges, west by the Gandak, and east by the Kosi. In Champaran, Bhojpuri and not Maithili is the prevalent dialect, but to compensate for this loss Maithili is now spoken east of the Kosi as far as the Mahánandá, and south of the Ganges in South Bhagalpur, the eastern part of South Monghyr and the north and north-west of the Sonthal Parganas. It is spoken in its greatest purity by the Brahmans of the north of the Darbhanga and Bhagalpur districts and of Western Purnea who, instead of Kaithi, use the old Maithili character, to which that of modern Bengali is very closely allied. Towards the east of Purnea it becomes more and more infected with Bengali, and is eventually superseded by the Siripuriá dialect of that language, which is a border form of speech, Bengali in the main, but containing a strong admixture of Maithili and written in the Kaithi character. South of the Ganges, Maithili is influenced by both Magahi and Bengali, and the result is a well-marked sub-dialect locally known as *Chhiká Chhiki Boli* from its frequent use of the syllable *chhik* in the conjugation of the verb substantive. The Musalmans of Mithila do not all speak Maithili. In Darbhanga they speak a form of Maithili with an admixture of Persian and Arabic words which is known as *Joláhá Boli*, but in Muzaffarpur they speak a form of Awadhi Hindi known as *Shekhoi* or *Musalmáni*.* Maithili is the only Bihári dialect which has a literary history. The Pandits of Mithila have long been famous for their learning, and the religious poems of Vidyápati Thákur, who flourished in the middle of the fifteenth century, are still famous.



MAGAHI.

508. Magahi or Mágadhi, the language of Magadha, is spoken over the greater part of South Bihar, excluding Shahabad, in Hazaribagh and in East Palamau. It is also spoken in a belt of country starting in the south-east of Hazaribagh and running along the east and south of the Ranchi district and the adjoining portions of Manbhum, Singhbhum, Seraikela and Kharsawan; in this belt, and specially in the south-east of Hazaribagh and on the border of Manbhum, where it is written in the Bengali character, the dialect is not local but tribal, and speakers of it live side by side with speakers of Bengali and (in the south) Oriyá. It has been affected by its contact with Bengali and is called by Dr. Grierson Eastern Magahi.† It is locally known as Kurmáli or Khottá, or even as Khottá Bangalá. Eastern Magahi is also spoken in Western Malda and in Mayurbhanj. In Gaya the Awadhi dialect of Eastern Hindi is spoken by Muhammadans.

BHOJPURI.

509. Bhojpuri is so called after Bhojpur, a town in the north-west of Shahabad, which was formerly the head-quarters of the Dumraon Raj. It is the most westerly of the Bihári dialects and is spoken far into the United Provinces. In Bengal it is the language of Shahabad, Saran, Champaran, the west of Hazaribagh, and the greater part of the districts of Palamau and Ranchi; but in Shahabad, Saran

* Shekhoi is also sometimes, though incorrectly, called Joláhá Boli.
† In Kharsawan some castes speak the standard form of Magahi.

and Champaran the Muhammadans and Káyasths mostly speak Awadhi which, as we have already seen, is also the language of the Muhammadans of Gaya and Muzaffarpur. In Chota Nagpur the language has borrowed grammatical forms from the adjoining Chattisgarhi dialect of Hindi and is known as Nágpuriá; the people who speak it sometimes call it Sadán or Sadri, while to the Mundas it is known as Dikku Káji.* In Champaran there is a certain admixture of Maithili giving rise to a sub-dialect known as Madesi (Madhyadesi). To the north of that district the Tháru speak it in a corrupt form which may be conveniently described as Tháru.† This dialect of the Tháru is the only one for which there are separate census figures that are at all reliable. According to our returns it is spoken by 19,512 persons.

NUMBER OF PERSONS SPEAKING BIHÁRI DIALECTS.

510. Taking the census of 1891 as a basis, Dr. Grierson estimated that the total number of persons speaking Bihári dialects in this Province is about 23½ millions, of whom rather more than 9 millions speak Maithili, while Magahi and Bhojpuri are each spoken by rather more than seven millions. I have carefully examined the returns for the present census to see if it would be possible to bring these estimates up to date by taking the figures for the recent census as the basis. Dr. Grierson's figures, however, were arrived at, not solely on the basis of the 1891 returns of language and birth-place, but also on local enquiries and protracted correspondence with District Officers, and it is very difficult for any one lacking his special qualifications for dealing with the subject to make the necessary adjustments. As a rough approximation, however, the figures given in the margin may perhaps be taken, pending a revision of the original estimate by Dr. Grierson himself.‡

Dialect.	Number of persons speaking it.
Maithili ...	9,207,131
Magahi ...	7,117,531
Bhojpuri ...	7,103,089
Total ...	23,427,751

Maithili ...	10,387,897
Magahi ...	6,584,185
Bhojpuri ...	7,310,946
Total ...	24,283,028

EASTERN HINDI.

511. We have already seen that most of the Musalmans and some of the Káyasths of East Bihar speak the Awadhi dialect of Eastern Hindi. Dr. Grierson estimates their number at 504,454. In the centre and north of the group of Tributary States of Chota Nagpur§ and in part of the Tributary States of Orissa, the Chattisgarhi dialect of the same language is in use. Taking the total number of persons returned as speaking "Hindi" in each State and assuming that the proportion borne by Chattisgarhi to the total number of persons returned as speaking Hindi is the same as that in Dr. Grierson's estimates, the number of the former comes to 491,483. The corresponding figure for the Orissa States may be taken at 8,863. In addition to the above Eastern Hindi is probably the language of 142,000 immigrants from other provinces settled in other parts of Bengal.‖ The total number of persons in Bengal who speak Eastern Hindi may therefore be estimated at rather less than 1,150,000.

* Both these terms are applied indifferently to any Aryan language, and it is only here that they usually refer to the local form of Bhojpuri.

† The dialect of the Tháru varies. In Champaran it is corrupt Bhojpuri, but further west it is a form of Eastern Hindi.

‡ The details of the calculation are as follows :—

Magahi includes persons *born in* (1) all Patna and Gaya, (2) 11/12 Hazaribagh, (3) ½ Monghyr, (4) 5/8 Malda, and (5) 1/16 Ranchi and Palamau; also 166,679 persons enumerated in the Sonthal Parganas, 47,949 in the Chota Nagpur States, and 286 persons in the Orissa States.

Maithili includes persons *born in* (1) all Darbhanga and Bhagalpur, (2) 5/6 Muzaffarpur, (3) ½ Monghyr, and (4) ¾ Purnea; and also ⅛ of the Hindi speakers enumerated in the Sonthal Parganas.

Bhojpuri includes persons *born in* (1) all Champaran, Saran and Shahabad, and (2) ¼ Palamau and Ranchi; also 59,937 persons enumerated in the Chota Nagpur States, and 362,571 immigrants from the United Provinces comprising immigrants from the districts of the United Provinces where Bhojpuri is spoken, viz., the whole of the Gorakhpur Division, Benares, Ghazipur, Ballia, ⅔ Mirzapur, ½ Jaunpur and ⅓ Fyzabad.

§ Chang Bhakar, Korea, Udaipur, and one-third of Jashpur. Except in Chang Bhakar, the dialect has been modified by its contract with Nágpuriá and it is treated as a separate sub-dialect which Dr. Grierson calls Sargujiá.

‖ This is the number of immigrants from the districts and States where Eastern Hindi is spoken :— In the United Provinces (101,503), the Central Provinces (22,389) and the Central India Agency (18,006).

512. We have seen that Oriyá is spoken beyond the limits of Orissa, in Midnapore and Singhbhum and in some of the Tributary States of Chota Nagpur. It is also spoken by 1,608,705 persons in the West of the Central Provinces, and by 1,809,336 persons in the Madras Presidency, chiefly in the northern part of Ganjam. These, with the Oriyá speakers in this province, make a total of 9,620,792. With the exception of the mixed Oriyá and Bengali already described, and of the corrupt dialects of the semi-Hinduised tribes of the Orissa States, the language is remarkably uniform and the only noticeable foreign element consists of a few words and idioms imported from Maráthi during the fifty years that the province was under the sway of the Bhonslas of Nagpur. According to Beames it is spoken with the greatest purity in the north of Ganjam, but Dr. Grierson is of opinion that Khurda has the greatest claim to being considered the well of Oriyá undefiled. Its right to rank as a separate language from Bengali was vindicated by Beames, who showed that it was a fixed and settled language by the end of the fourteenth century. Its literature begins with Upendra Bhanj, who flourished more than three hundred years ago, and whose poems are written in a language which differs but very slightly from the present vernacular. Oriyá has the disadvantage of an exceedingly awkward character. The letters themselves are based on the Deva-nágari but, instead of the straight top line or *mátrá*, each letter is almost surrounded by a curve. This peculiarity is generally assigned to the peculiar method of writing which formerly obtained throughout Orissa, viz., by making scratches on a palm leaf with an iron stylus, the leaf being subsequently rubbed over with ink which settled in the scratches.* The writing was necessarily along the grain of the leaf and straight lines drawn in this direction would tend to make it split. We have already seen that in the north the Bengali character has supplanted the original Oriyá. In the Tributary States Oriyá is sometimes written in the Deva-nágari character, but on the other hand the local Chattisgarhi dialect of Hindi is often written in Oriyá.

Oriyá.

513. Khas, or Naipali Hindi, is the Aryan dialect spoken by the Khas tribe of Nepal. They obtained it from the numerous Brahman and Rájput refugees who took refuge in the hills during the period when the Muhammadans overwhelmed the ancient Hindu Kingdoms of India, and who intermarried and gradually became fused with the original Mongoloid inhabitants, upon whom they imposed their religion and their language. The way in which Aryan displace non-Aryan languages, of which this is a striking instance, will be dealt with in a subsequent paragraph. Khas is derived from the Sauraseni Prakrit and has very marked affinities to the dialects of Rajputana. According to Hodgson there are still some traces in its vocabulary of the non-Aryan language which it displaced. Since the overthrow of the Newár dynasty in Nepal in the 18th century Khas has gradually spread and is now current throughout that exceedingly polyglot principality as a *lingua franca*, or means of communication between persons of different tribes. It is also gradually ousting the various tribal dialects, especially that of the Gurungs, who are gradually adopting Hinduism and who appear to discard their old language at the same time as they throw off their allegiance to the Lámás. The Hindu Newárs are also gradually giving up their own language in favour of Khas. This language has no literary history. It was returned at the census as the speech of many of the immigrants from Nepal and their descendants, chiefly in Darjeeling, Sikkim, Jalpaiguri and Champaran. The total number of persons shown as speaking Khas (or Khas kura, as they prefer to call it, 'kura' being an affix equivalent to the 'boli' of Bihar and the 'thár' of the Orissa States) is 81,313 or almost exactly the number estimated by Dr. Grierson. The details for individual areas, however, vary considerably, and in Bhagalpur, where it was estimated that 10,000 persons speak Khas, the returns of the present census show only 523, and those of 1891 only 1,171. The discrepancy did not attract my attention in time to enable me to make special enquiries as to

Khas.

* All the old manuscripts of the Province are on palm leaf. These primitive writing materials are still in use in some parts, and many of the persons originally selected as enumerators in the Khondmals had subsequently to be rejected, as it was found that they could only manipulate the stylus and the palm leaf and could not write on paper with pen and ink.

the cause, but it is doubtless the same as that already assigned for the difference between the census figures and those of the Linguistic Survey in the language statistics of Purnea, viz., that the dialect there spoken is intermediate between Maithili and Khas and was called Hindi by the enumerators. In 1891 the number of persons shown as speaking this language was nearly double that now returned, but this was due to the inclusion under this head of all Nepalese languages, such as Gurung, Mangar, &c., which have now been shown separately, as they are not only quite distinct from Khas but belong to an entirely different linguistic family.

URDU.

514. Excluding the districts dealt with in the Patna office, where the details were not tabulated separately, Urdu has been returned as the language of 89,677 persons. These figures, however, are worth very little. Urdu or the literary Persianised form of Hindi is spoken by the upper ranks of Muhammadan society, and it is generally looked on as the proper language for a Muhammadan to speak. In Patna there was a general agitation amongst the Muhammadans to have their language shown as Urdu, and there can be no doubt that it was thus described by many who in reality speak the local form of Bihári, with or without a smattering of Persian and Arabic words in the vocabulary. In the same way, in several cases, where Farsi, *i.e.*, Persian was entered as the language, it was found on enquiry that the persons concerned in reality spoke Hindi.

OTHER ARYAN LANGUAGES.

515. Márwári is shown as the speech of 10,677 persons. Though nearly double the number returned in 1891, this is less than two-thirds the number estimated for the Linguistic Survey, and barely one-fourth the number of persons who were enumerated in Bengal but born in Rajputana.* The enquiries that were made on the subject leave no doubt that the indiscriminate use of the word Hindi is to blame for this result. The same cause accounts for the small figures recorded for Panjabi—only 2,280, or about one-eighth of the number of immigrants to Bengal from the Punjab and Punjab States.

Gujaráti is returned by 4,368 persons, of whom nearly half were found in Calcutta. It is also the language of a small colony of Siyalgirs settled in Midnapore and Orissa—a tribe with criminal propensities that is said to have come from Gujarat five or six generations ago. The Kichaks of Dacca, to whom reference will again be made in the Chapter on Caste have been ascertained, in the course of enquiries made after the census, to speak a dialect of Gujaráti,† but they have lost all traditions of their original home, and the enumerators, for want of a better name, entered their language as Hindi.

The terms Gipsy dialects is used to indicate the various forms of "Thieves' Latin" spoken by criminal tribes. These dialects are not true languages, but are merely perversions of the local Aryan dialect deliberately invented in order to prevent outsiders from understanding what is meant. Thus 'Jamadár' becomes 'Majadár' and a rupee is called 'bajaiya,' *i.e.*, a thing that rings. The census return of these dialects is very incomplete, and shows only 146 persons. In Dr. Grierson's "List of Languages" 4,000 persons are estimated to speak Domra in Champaran, but it is probable that most of these are quite as much at home in the ordinary Bhojpuri of the district as in their own peculiar jargon.

Domra	...	... 48
Naton ki boli	...	... 22
Gulgulia	...	... 76

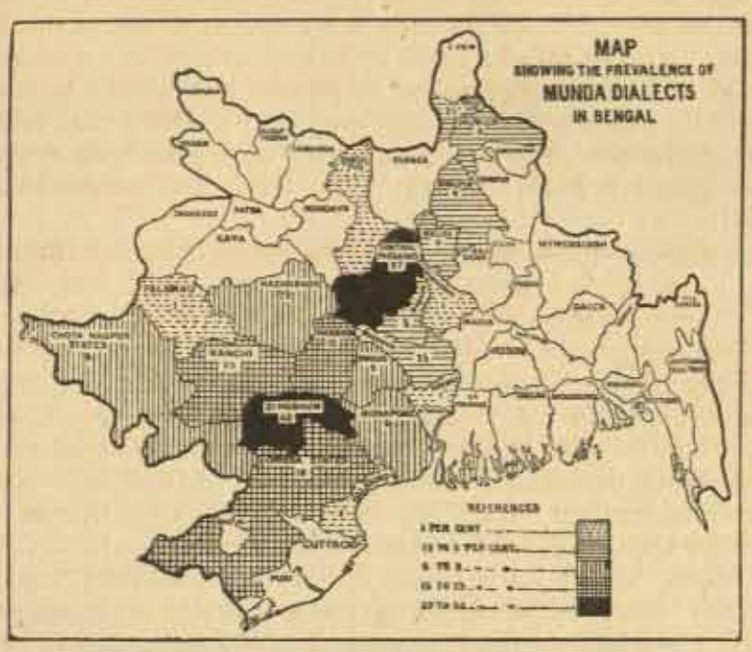
THE MUNDA FAMILY.

516. Next to the Aryan the Munda family of languages is numerically the most important. These languages are of special interest from the Bengal point of view, as they are spoken almost entirely within the limits of this province. They are also current in parts of the Central Provinces and in the north-east of Madras, and amongst numerous emigrants in Assam, but their great stronghold is in the Chota

* Márwári is in reality one of sixteen dialects classed by Dr. Grierson as forming the Rájasthání language, which is intermediate between Western Hindi and Gujaráti. But I prefer to use the older name, Márwári, as that was the word almost invariably found in the schedules. I have added to it the extremely small number of persons returning other Rájasthání dialects, viz., Jaipuri 14, and Bikaneri 39.

† Specimens of this dialect were sent to Dr. Grierson who confirmed this conclusion.

Nagpur Plateau. A map showing the extent to which these dialects are spoken in different parts of Bengal is given in the margin. Intermixed with the tribes who speak Munda languages are others speaking dialects which belong to the Dravidian family, *i.e.*, to the family of which Tamil and Telugu are the chief representatives. They are all unwritten, except under missionary auspices, and their peculiarities and points of resemblance and difference have not yet been fully explored. There can be no doubt that at some remote period dialects of these families were spoken far into the Gangetic Plain. Traditions still exist of the former domination of the tribes that speak them, and traces of them survive in the names of places. They have also, according to Prof. Vilh. Thomsen of Copenhagen, "influenced the Aryan vernaculars. The inflection of the noun, for instance, follows the same principles in both, and does not at all agree with Indo-European tendencies." They have, however, in the plains succumbed to Aryan influences, and survive only in the hills where the difficulty of access has combined with the inhospitable character of the country to discourage the intrusion of outsiders.



517. The earliest general account of the languages of the Chota Nagpur Plateau with which I am acquainted is that of the late J. R. Logan in the Journal of the Indian Archipelago for 1852 and 1853.* They are there classed together as North Dravidian, but Mundári, Ho, Bhumij and Santáli are treated as forming a separate group called 'Kol,' and its linguistic affinities are described as follows:—

WHY CALLED MUNDA.

"The Kol is Dravidian considerably modified by ultra Indo-Gangetic, particularly in its glossary, and very slightly by Tibetan. The latter element is so small as to render it certain that the Kol was originally a pure Dravidian language, which was deeply influenced by the ancient Mon-Gangetic. The phonetic basis of the language and many particles and words are Dravidian, but the pronouns, several of the numerals, and a large portion of the words, are Mon-Anam."

In his Letter on the Turanian Languages, written in 1853, Max Müller gave the name "Munda" to the same group of languages, which he treated as forming an entirely independent linguistic family. Subsequently Sir G. Campbell gave them the name Kolarian, on account of an imagined connection between the Kols and Kolar in Southern India. It was noticed that there were marked affinities, especially in the numerals and pronouns, between these languages and those of the Mon-Anam and Tibeto-Burman formations, and this connection, though already explained by Logan, led to the view, enunciated by Colonel Dalton, that the tribes speaking them immigrated from the North-East.

The term Kolarian is objectionable as indicating, in its true meaning, a connection which is not proved, and as conveying to the uninitiated an idea that the languages referred to are in some way connected with the Aryan family.† Professor Thomsen and others have therefore used a new name, 'Khervarian,' from Khervar, which is said to be employed in the traditions of the Santáls as the designation of themselves and their connected tribes.‡

* These little known essays are of very great value, though they suffer from the incomplete state of our knowledge of many of the languages dealt with, at the time when they were written. The conclusions arrived at had been previously stated in an article by the same author in the "Edinburgh New Philosophical Journal" for April 1851, but this I have not seen.

† How little the true origin of the term Kolarian is known is shown by Lefèvre's criticism of it.—Race and Language, page 120.

‡ Mr. W. B Oldham says:—"The Santáls never so call themselves except in self-abasement. Their name for themselves, to themselves, and to their friends is Hor; to strangers it is Mánjhi. Their classic name is Kharwar"—"Some Historical and Ethnical aspects of the Burdwan District"—Index, page XXII.

Dr. Grierson, on the other hand, prefers the word Munda which was originally used by Max Müller on the ground that it should have been allowed to stand until it was shown to be unsuitable. I have accordingly used this term to indicate the family, though if the name chosen by the original authority is to be taken, it would seem that Logan's appellation of Kol should hold the field. It is also more suitable in itself as being connected with the various names Ho, Horo, Kol, Kora, Korwa, Khariá, etc., by which the tribes who speak these dialects designate themselves in their own tongue,* whereas Munda is a Sanskrit derivative applicable only to one tribe, and that not the most numerous.

ORIGIN OF MUNDA LANGUAGES.

518. The idea that the linguistic distinction between Munda and Dravidian, involved a corresponding distinction of race, has been shown by Mr. Risley's anthropometrical investigations to be quite unfounded. The tribes of Chota Nagpur who speak Munda dialects are physically undistinguishable from those whose speech belongs to the Dravidian family of languages. It is now well known that there is no necessary connection between race and language. The later Jews spoke Greek; Arabic is in Africa the language of many tribes who are not Semites by race, and the Mongoloid Pods and Chandals of Bengal speak Bengali—a language of the Aryan family. Recent enquiries tend to show that too much stress has been laid on the differences between the Dravidian and the Munda languages, and on the affinities between the latter and those of Further India, and just as the tribes of Chota Nagpur, whatever their form of speech, have been proved to belong to the same physical type, so, too the languages are now held to be very closely allied. "The Mundári Grammar," says Hahn, "bears a genuine Dravidian stamp on its brow."† To this extent, therefore, the view originally propounded by Logan is confirmed by modern research. The physical type of these tribes, like that of the great majority of the inhabitants of Southern India is Negritic. They may have come from the North-West by way of Arabia, where all traces of them have been obliterated by the intrusion of a Semitic race from the head of the Euphrates, but it seems more likely that they came from the South, either by sea, or at a time when India was connected with Madagascar by land.‡ If so, the variation from the Dravidian formation, which has taken place in the Munda languages which are spoken only in the north, must be due to contact in India with other linguistic families. Logan attributes these modifications to the influence of linguistic invasions from the North East, the first of which was the Mon-Anam, which was in its turn obliterated in India by languages of the Tibeto-Burman family, except in the Khasi Hills in Assam where a language belonging to this family still survives.

The latest speculators on the subject do not altogether accept this view, and there is a tendency to hold, on the other hand, that the common substratum of the two families was Munda, *i.e.*, that there were once Munda speakers in the places where Mon-Anam is now spoken. This hypothesis does not seem to explain how the Munda languages came to be differentiated from the Dravidian, but it would be out of place to pursue the subject further in a report on the Census of Bengal.§

CLASSIFICATION OF DIALECTS RETURNED.

519. No less than sixteen dialects belonging to the Munda family have been shown in Table X. The real number is considerably smaller, but until they have been completely surveyed and classified it seemed safer to give

* Kol has been identified with a similarly spelt Sanskrit word meaning "pig," but it is now generally held to be a variant of the word *Horo* meaning man. The change from *r* to *l* is familiar, and needs no illustration, while in explanation of the conversion of *h* into *k* we may cite *hon*, the Mundári for 'child,' which in Korwa becomes *Kon*, and *Koro*, the Muási (Korku) form of *Horo*, "a man." It may be added that the Khariás of Chota Nagpur call the Mundas Korá, a name closely approaching Kol (Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Vol. II, page 101). According to Mr. W. P. Driver, the Eastern Kols use *h*, while those further west prefer *k* (J. A. S. B., 1891, Part I, page 25). The only apparent objection to this word as the generic name of these languages is that it is sometimes used by Hindus to designate the non-Aryan tribes of Chota Nagpur generally, irrespective of the languages spoken by them.

† Kurukh Grammar, Introduction. Appendices IV and V of this work contain lists of words common to Oráon and Mundári, and points of resemblance in their Grammar.

‡ Naturalists urge that there must once have been an Indo-African land area (which has been called Lemuria) which broke up and sank beneath the sea in the tertiary period. The theory of this ancient land connection is well stated by Mr. O'Donnell in the Bengal Census Report of 1891, page 263. The Negritic physical type can be traced far beyond the limits of India to the Malayan peninsular, to Borneo, New Guinea and Australia.

§ That there was a Dravidian, as distinguished from a Munda, formation, not only in the tract where Mon-Anam is now spoken, but in the whole of Further India, Malaya, and in the islands of the Indian Archipelago as far as Australia, was one of Logan's express conclusions. He held that the Dravidian linguistic formation was once co-extensive with the distribution of the Dravidian physical type.

separate figures for each dialect bearing a separate name. According to Dr. Grierson Mahli and Kármáli are almost identical with Santáli, and Agariá with Ásur, while Mundári, Ho, Bhumij, Turia and Birhor are merely variants of one and the same language which Dr. Grierson calls Kol. Singli again is said to be a dialect of Korwá and Birjiá of Agariá. If we add together the dialects thus classified, the number of separate languages falls to seven, and it is probable that further enquiry will still further reduce the number. On the other hand it may be necessary occasionally to separate the figures returned in different areas under the same name. Thus Khariá in Ranchi and the adjoining states of Chota Nagpur is a Munda language, but enquiries made on Dr. Grierson's advice since Table X was printed, show that in Bonai and some parts, at least, of the Tributary States of Orissa the Khariás speak a Dravidian dialect closely allied to Oráon.

Ágariá ...	...	4,826
Juáng ...	...	10,798
Khariá ...	...	79,383
Kol ...	...	885,952
Korá ...	...	23,827
Korwá ...	...	16,055
Santáli...	...	1,760,370
Total	...	2,781,211

520. The persons speaking Santáli constitute more than three-fifths of the total number speaking Munda languages. Rather more than a third of them were enumerated in the district to which they have given their name, whither they immigrated from Hazaribagh during the early part of the last century.* Santáli speakers are still numerous in Hazaribagh and also in the whole tract of country lying south of the Sonthal Parganas as far as Mayurbhanj, including Manbhum, Birbhum, Burdwan, Bankura and West Midnapore. This tract may be taken as the home of the language, but it is still spreading as the tribe moves east and north, and Bhagalpur, Monghyr, Malda, Jalpaiguri and Dinajpur all contribute largely to the total. The persons speaking Santáli have increased by 10 per cent. since 1891 in spite of a marked diminution in the Chota Nagpur States where some other language, possibly Oráon, must then have been classed with Santáli.† The increase is most marked in Dinajpur, Malda and Jalpaiguri.

SANTÁLI.

It will be seen from Subsidiary Table IV that the Santáls for the most part speak their own language. It is only in outlying districts, such as Burdwan, Dinajpur, Purnea and Bhagalpur that they have begun, to any marked extent, to give it up in favour of some Aryan language. In the Sonthal Parganas some persons whose caste was entered as Rájá Mál returned Santáli as their language; in Burdwan, Bankura and Hooghly it was entered as the language of 568 Korás, in Manbhum of 745 Bhumijs, 257 Mundas, 110 Khariás, 98 Oráons and 48 Mahlis, while in Hazaribagh and Birbhum it was returned by a few Birhors and Mundas. Mahli on the other hand appears to be dying out and less than a-third of the persons so-called still speak their own tribal language. Kármáli is a form of Santáli which in the Sonthal Parganas is usually called Kol. I am not confident of the correctness of the figures for this dialect. In Hazaribagh it may have been confused with Kol meaning Mundári, while in Manbhum it is shown as the language of 2,438 Kurmis, which leads me to think that Kurmáli and not Kármáli was meant.

Santáli has received much study, especially from the Scandinavian Missionaries of the Sonthal Parganas. Mr. Skrefsud's Grammar is the leading authority on the language.

521. Kol is spoken by rather less than one-third of the total number of persons speaking dialects of the Munda family, or by rather more than half the number speaking Santáli. Its most numerous dialect is Mundári, the language of the tribe known to us by the Sanskritic word Munda, but who call themselves Horo (meaning man) and are called by their kinsmen the Khariás, Korá. Seventy-five per cent. of the persons speaking this dialect are found in Ranchi, chiefly in the eastern part of the district, in the Khunti, Tamar and Ranchi thanas. It is also spoken in Gangpur,‡ north Singhbhum and south Hazaribagh, and by emigrants in the tea-gardens of the Jalpaiguri district.

KOL DIALECTS—MUNDÁRI.

* There were few or no Santáls in the tract now known as the Sonthal Parganas in 1818, but ten years later they were becoming numerous. These earlier immigrants appear to have come, not from Hazaribagh, but from Singhbhum.

† The speakers of Santáli in the Chota Nagpur States in 1891 were shown as 97,005 against only 42,023 Santáls by race. There are now 20,943 persons speaking Santáli and 29,346 Santáls by race.

‡ About 80 per cent. of the Mundári speakers in the Chota Nagpur States were found in Gangpur.

Including converts to Christianity who returned their tribe as Munda, the total number of Mundas by race is 438,143 compared with 403,383 persons who speak the tribal language. In Ranchi, the head-quarters of the tribe, the Mundári speakers exceed the number of Mundas by race by about 11,000. The reason is that in this district persons of other tribes speak Mundári, and especially the Oráons in Ranchi thana, whose dialect of the language is known as Horolia Jhagar. The details are given in the margin. In Singhbhum also, a few Oráons, Bhumijs and Lohárs speak Mundári, as also do some Korás in Bankura. There is a tendency amongst Mundas when they emigrate to other districts, to give up their tribal dialect in favour of the local Aryan language, and in these districts the number of Mundári speakers is much smaller than the number of Mundas by tribe. And in Ranchi itself the tribal language has been abandoned by the members of that section of the tribe to which their former chiefs belonged, who claim a Rájput origin and call themselves Nágbansi, as distinguished from the Mánkipati, or ordinary Mundas. In the west of the same district and in Gangpur and Jashpur some of the tribe have assumed the name Sad Munda and have abandoned their tribal language and religion in favour of Hindi and Hinduism.

Tribe.	Number speaking Mundári.
Oráon	23,381
Lohár and Kol Lohár ...	2,348
Pán	2,059
Mahli	427
Tánti	139
Khariá	131
Kurmi	130
Birhor	128
Ghási	58
Gond	43
Total ...	28,744

Owing to differences of classification it is impossible to compare the number of persons speaking Mundári with the returns for 1891. If we add together all the Munda languages, except Santáli and its dialects, Mahli and Kármáli, it would appear that there is an increase of over 15 per cent., but the classification of these non-Aryan dialects in 1891 was not very accurate and the comparison may be misleading.*

Ho.

522. The Ho speakers are nearly as numerous as the Mundári. Their habitat is immediately south of the latter in Singhbhum and the adjacent Tributary States of Orissa and Chota Nagpur. Outside this tract the number of Ho speakers is insignificant. In Singhbhum they are known as the Larká, or fighting Kols, and in the Orissa States as Kolha. The dialect was first described by Tickell.† The main difference between it and Mundári is in the pronunciation. The letter *r* at the end of a word is often dropped; thus the tribal name which in Mundári is Horo becomes Ho. The number of Ho speakers is 367,613 as compared with 385,084 Hos by tribe. The Hos move but little from their homes and here, as a rule, they retain their tribal dialect. It is only in the Chota Nagpur States that they have abandoned it to any marked extent. In Singhbhum Ho is sometimes spoken by other tribes and it was returned at the census as the language of 1,004 Bhumijs, 307 Lohárs, 161 Oráons, 114 Santáls and 63 self-styled Goálas, as well as of some Native Christians.

Bhumij.

523. Bhumij is spoken chiefly in Midnapore, Singhbhum and the Orissa Tributary States, or in the same areas as Ho. According to Mr. Risley, the Bhumijs are nothing more than a branch of the Mundas who have spread to the eastward. Herr Nottrott says that their speech most closely resembles that of the Mundas, but the vocabulary published by Hodgson‡ shows on the whole a nearer relationship to Ho, with an occasional preference for the Santáli form of a word.§ The number of words that have no apparent correspondence with those in the other Kol languages is so small as to make it doubtful whether this is not due to such words having

* The 1891 returns show a language called Baiga spoken by 40,032 persons in the Orissa States. The language was not returned at all on the present occasion and enquiries made after the census failed to elicit any information regarding it. Dr. Grierson informs me that he also has been unable to trace any such language. In the Chota Nagpur States Korwa was returned in 1891 as the language of 46,606 persons, but no Korwas were shown in the caste table. On the other hand, as will be seen further on, there were 83,863 Oráons by race and only 110 by language. The usual word for the Oráon language is Kurukh and this was possibly taken as a variant of Korwa or Kol. The fact is that prior to Dr. Grierson's Linguistic Survey the correct classification of the terms used to denote language was a matter of very great difficulty and if, on the present occasion, a greater measure of success has been attained, it is very largely due to the light he has thrown on matters that were previously most obscure.

† J. A. S. B., 1840, Part II, page 997.

‡ Essays, on Indian Subjects, Vol. II, page 99.

§ Thus 'iron' is *mérhd* in Bhumij and *mérhad* in Santáli, while in Ho it is *mélá* and in Mundári *marhan*. In some specimens which I received from Mayurbhanj through the Deputy Superintendent of Census, Cuttack, Tamaria seemed more nearly allied to Ho, and Bhumij to Santáli. I sent the specimens to Dr. Grierson but did not myself continue the enquiry.

some different shade of meaning from that of the words taken as their equivalents in the other dialects.* I have included in Bhumij the dialect variously returned as Támariá, Tamuliá or Tamuliá Bhumij in Singhbhum and the Tributary States of Orissa and Chota Nagpur, the figures for which are reproduced in the margin. This is said to be practically identical with Bhumij. It must not be confounded with the Támariá of Ranchi which is the same as Pánch Parganiá, a form of Magahi.

Singhbhum	...	4,016
Orissa States	...	2,705
Chota Nagpur States		799
Total	...	7,520

The Caste Table shows that the strength of the tribe is 328,445, but only 111,210 persons speak the Bhumij language. In the Orissa States, Singhbhum and the west of Midnapore, the dialect is still extensively spoken, but elsewhere it has been abandoned in favour of some Aryan form of speech. On the other hand, it was returned in Singhbhum as the language of 500 persons of the Ho tribe.

OTHER MUNDA DIALECTS.

524. The other Munda dialects need not be discussed in detail, but it is necessary to advert to the extreme difficulty of distinguishing Korá, Korwá and Khariá. These words are spelt in a variety of ways, and it was often very difficult to decide which dialect was meant.† As far as possible they were distinguished, but in spite of the care that was taken, it is certain that some confusion must have occurred. In regard to Korá, it may again be mentioned that this is the name by which the Mundas are known to the Khariás, and that the Mundas themselves admit some connection with them. In Palamau the Korwás prefer to call themselves Koreá Munda.‡ The dialect of the Juángs has borrowed largely from Oriyá, but otherwise it is said by Dr. Grierson to be closely allied to the Munda dialect of the Khariás; while the latter, as has already been explained, in Bonai and in some parts at least of the Orissa States speak a Dravidian and not a Munda dialect.§ In Gangpur there are said to be two sub-tribes, Delki and Dudh, speaking slightly different dialects. A grammatical sketch of the Asur language by the Rev. F. Hahn has recently been published.‖ It appears that the language is very closely allied to Mundári and Santáli, but its vocabulary contains a few words borrowed from Oráon and Hindi.¶

Subsidiary Table No. V shows that Asur, Birjiá, Juáng and Khariá are still extensively spoken by the tribes from which they derive their names, but Turiá, Agariá, Birhor, Korá and Korwá are rapidly dying out.

DRAVIDIAN FAMILY—ORAON AND MALTO.

525. The Dravidian languages spoken in Bengal are only outliers of the main body of these languages which, in one form or another, are current throughout the southern part of the Indian Peninsula where they hold much the same position as do the languages of the Indo-Aryan family further north. They represent, says Dr. Grierson, a later stage of development than the Munda family, a circumstance which may perhaps be attributed to the fact that while the latter is the speech only of rude tribes ignorant of writing, the former boasts of several languages (notably Tamil) which have been spoken by highly civilised communities and which have an extensive literature of their own. The most numerous representative of the Dravidian family in Bengal is Oráon or Kurukh as it is called by the tribe concerned.** It is spoken by more than

* The difficulty of obtaining the exact equivalents of English words is very great, not only on account of the ignorance of the people dealt with, but also because in these rude dialects words with a general signification are often replaced by a number of words, the meaning of which is more specialised. Thus instead of a general word meaning "hair" there may be a number of different words for the hair of the head, the hair of the face, the hair of the body, &c.

† Korá in particular was spelt in many different ways, *e.g.*, Korá, Kodá, Kodári, Kherá, Khairá, &c.

‡ Driver J. A. S. B., 1891, Part I, page 24.

§ A specimen of the "Khariá" spoken in Pál Láhera which I sent to Dr. Grierson was pronounced by him to be simply badly spelt Oráon. I also obtained specimens from the Udaipur, Gangpur, Jashpur, Sirguja and Bonai States in Chota Nagpur. In Bonai, as in Pál Láhera, the language proved to be a form of Oráon, but in the other four States it is clearly allied to Mundári. The Khariás have intermixed both with Oráons and with Mundas and each of these tribes has a sub-tribe called by their name.

‖ J. A. S. B., 1900, Part I, page 149.

¶ The vocabularies of these unwritten languages are never very fixed and foreign words are easily admitted. Haldar's Mundári vocabulary (J. A. S. B., 1871, Part I, page 46) contains a sprinkling of words adopted from Hindi, but these are chiefly words embodying abstract ideas for which the Mundas have no equivalent in their own tongue.

** According to Hahn, Oráon is the name of one of the tribal septs which was applied by their Hindu neighbours to the whole tribe.

half a million people, mainly in the north and north-west of Ranchi, the south of Palamau, and the adjoining States of Gangpur and Jashpur* and also by emigrants in the tea-gardens of the Jalpaiguri district. The Oráons of Gangpur, who have long been separated from the main body of the tribe, have a special dialect which is locally known as Berga Oráon, but this was not separately entered at the census.†

The Caste Table shows the number of Oráons to be 652,286, and the tribal language is spoken by 543,505 persons. As in other cases members of the tribe who have emigrated to other districts are more prone to abandon their original language than those who stay at home. In the north of Ranchi, however, where they are much mixed up with Mundas, more than 23,000 Oráons have given up their language and now talk a dialect of Mundári known as Horolia Jhagar. On the other hand, a few Mundas, Khariás, Lohárs and Gonds in that district returned Oráon as their language. In Singhbhum also, some members of other tribes speak Oráon, including 806 Kurmis, 115 *soi-disant* Rájputs, 74 Támariás and 50 Lohárs. In Manbhum 72 Santáls, 19 Bhumijs and 5 Mundas were returned as speaking Oráon.

Tribe.	Number speaking Oráon.
Munda ...	... 724
Khariá ...	... 405
Lohár ...	... 145
Gond ...	... 75

The number of persons returned as speaking Oráon shows a great increase since 1891, owing mainly to the fact that only 110 persons were then returned under this head in the Chota Nagpur States, against 103,707 on the present occasion. The Caste Table shows 83,663 Oráons in these States in 1891 and 129,993 in 1901. There has been a marked increase in the Oráon speakers in the Jalpaiguri district, and a large number have been returned in Palamau, Hazaribagh and several other districts where none were reported at the last census.

526. The fact that an illiterate non-Aryan tribe, placed as the Oráons are, in the midst of a Munda-speaking population should still speak a language of another family, seems to point to a comparatively recent settlement in their present home, and this supposition is borne out by their own traditions. They believe that they came from the Carnatic, whence they went up the Narbada river and settled in Bihar on the banks of the Sone, and it is at least a curious coincidence that their language is more closely allied to Canarese than to any other Dravidian language spoken in the south of India.‡ Driven out by the Muhammadans, the tribe split into two divisions, one of which followed the course of the Ganges, and finally settled in the Rájmahal hills; while the other went up the Sone, and occupied the north-western portion of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where many of the villages they occupy are still known by Mundári names. The latter were the ancestors of the Oráons, while the former were the progenitors of the Málé, or Sauriá as they often call themselves, whose grammar is closely connected with Oráon,§ though it has borrowed much of its vocabulary from the Aryan languages in the neighbourhood.

The meaning of the word Kurukh is uncertain. It may come from the Dravidian-Scythian word Kuruk, "a crier," or it may perhaps be derived from the Munda Horo or Koro. The word is very similar to Korku, the name of a western Munda tribe, which is derived from *kor*, "man" and *ku*, the sign of the plural. Málé, like Horo, means "man."‖ Their language is known as Málto. It is also called Rájmaháli, but this term is sometimes also applied to the corrupt Bengali usually known as Mál Pahariá. Málto, itself, moreover, is not always used in the proper sense, and in Rajshahi it was entered as the language of

* Of the total number of Oráon speakers in the Tributary States, over 98 per cent. are found in Gangpur and Jashpur.

† It has been suggested that *Berga* is derived from *begárá hud*, but the etymology seems more than doubtful.

‡ Hahn's Kurukh Grammar. See also the article on Oráon in the "Tribes and Castes of Bengal."

§ See Appendix III to Hahn's Kurukh Grammar and the instructive remarks in the introduction to the same book. These later migrations of the Oráons have their counterpart in the still more recent movements of the Santáls who during the last eighty years have steadily worked their way from Hazaribagh and Singhbhum through the Sonthal Parganas to the uplands of the Bárind and are gradually moving still further afield.

‖ Strictly it means "he is a man," the affix *e* being the sign of the 3rd person singular of the verb substantive. Mr Oldham prefers the form Malér which is the 3rd person plural It is possible that the word may be derived from *Mala*, a Dravidian root meaning mountain, from which Oppert derives the names of various tribes such as Malla, Mái, Mhár, Mahár, Mhair, Pallar, Pallava, Bhil, etc., and having done so, classes them in consequence as Dravidian. Similarly he derives Koli, Kola, Koi, Kandh, Gond, Kodaga, Toda, etc., from another Dravidian root *Ka* (also meaning mountain), and having done so holds that they are all Gaudians.

some persons whose caste was shown as Mál Paháriá. The Mál Pahariás speak a form of Bengali, so that either the language entry was erroneous or the caste was wrongly described. I assumed that the caste entry was correct, and classified the language as Bengali. The number of persons shown in Table X as speaking Málto is 60,777, of whom all but about 1,000 are in the Southal Parganas. The corresponding figure for the Málé tribe in Table XIII is only 48,281. According to Mr. W. B. Oldham, the Máls on the border of the Málé country understand the tongue of the latter, but it seems doubtful if they would return it at the census, and even if they did, this would not wholly account for the discrepancy. The true explanation seems to be that Rájmahálí which, following the Linguistic Survey, I classed as Málto, should in many cases have been treated as Bengali, and that the word Málto itself was sometimes misused in the same sense. Except in the case of Rajshahi, the ambiguity attaching to these terms did not attract my attention in time to enable me to remove it by classifying the language of the persons so returned according to their caste or tribe.

Málto does not appear in the Language Table of 1891, and it is not quite clear how it was then classed. Possibly it was included in the figure for Mál Paháriá, which was treated as a language of the Dravidian family.

GONDI.

527. Gondi is returned by only 240 persons, chiefly in Angul. The Gond tribe is numerous, but most of its members have abandoned the tribal language in favour of some Aryan form of speech, usually Oriyá. In 1891 no less than 21,724 persons were shown as speaking Gondi in the Orissa Tributary States,* but on the present occasion not a single one was returned. The schedules were again examined, and it was found that Oriyá had in all cases been returned as the language of persons shown as Gond by caste. Particulars of some of these entries were sent to the States concerned for verification, and it was reported in all cases that Oriyá had been correctly entered as the language in use. I sent some specimens of the dialect in use amongst the Gonds of Mayurbhanj to Dr. Grierson who informed me that while the nouns were Oriyá, the pronouns were typical Gondi. It appears, therefore, that the transition from their own Dravidian dialect to Oriyá is not yet quite as complete as would appear from the statistics of the present census.

OTHER DRAVIDIAN LANGUAGES.

528. Kisán is the language of 2,055 persons in the Chota Nagpur States, which I have treated as Dravidian in accordance with Dr. Grierson's classification. It seems, however, that in some parts, the tribe may speak a Munda dialect, or it may be that the same name is used to designate different tribes. In the "Tribes and Castes of Bengal," Kisán is given as a title of Khariás and as a synonym for Nágesia: it is also a title of Oráons†. The great stronghold of Kandh or "Kui" as it is called by the people themselves, is Angul (especially the Kondhmals subdivision) where it is spoken by about 40,000 people, or nearly 84 per cent. of the Kandh tribe; the other Kandh speakers, about 15,000 in number, are found in the adjoining Tributary States, but here the majority of the Kandhs speak Oriyá or Hindi. Even in Angul the number of Kandh speakers is decreasing, the decline during the last decade being no less than 14 per cent. Dr. Grierson says that the Kandh language is much more nearly allied than Gond to Telugu. Malhar is the language of a small tribe of the same name which is found chiefly in the Keonjhar State. It escaped notice at the Linguistic Survey, but Dr. Grierson informs me that it appears to be a Dravidian dialect, so far as he can judge from a few specimens of the language which I obtained and sent to him.

Telugu is the language of some settlers in Cuttack, Puri and the more southerly States of Orissa. Elsewhere, it and Tamil are spoken chiefly by temporary immigrants. So far as the latter are concerned, the entry in the schedules was frequently Madrasi, and it was necessary to divide the persons thus returned between Tamil and Telugu as best one could. Frequently the birth-place gave the necessary clue, persons born in districts north of Madras being assumed to speak Telugu and those to the south Tamil, but this was not always the case, and the figures for each language taken separately are probably not quite accurate.

* The number of Gonds by caste was only 16,669 in the Orissa States according to the caste table of 1891.

† Dr. Grierson tells me that in the Central Provinces further enquiry seems to show that there is no such language as Kisán, but that the term is used generally to designate the speech of all cultivating aboriginal tribes, just as Kodá is in the case of those who live by earth-work.

529. The last family of languages to be dealt with is that known as the Tibeto-Burman. This is the name given to a variety of tribal dialects spoken mainly in the Himalayas, Assam and Burma, of which Tibetan and Burmese represent the two standards to which the other and ruder dialects tend to conform. According to Logan this formation must have arisen at a very ancient date in Eastern Tibet or adjacent territory, now Chinese. Burmese is nearer Chinese and represents the formation in a very archaic form, while in Tibetan it has been modified by Turanian influences. The languages of this family are distinguished from the Dravidian in that they are monosyllabic and have in many cases retained the use of tones. In Bengal, the Tibeto-Burman languages are found only along the northern and eastern frontiers. They were formerly spoken by the Rájbansi Koch, and also doubtless by many other tribes whose identity has long since been lost, but except in the hills and in the unhealthy terai at their base they have given way to Bengali. The languages of this family current in Bengal, which taken together are spoken by less than half a million souls, have been divided into six groups as shown in the margin. Of these the first and third are spoken in the Himalayas by tribes whose headquarters are for the most part outside British territory; their affinities have not yet been fully examined and the grouping is to some extent tentative and geographical. The Bodo, Kuki and Burmese groups, on the other hand, are fairly well known.

TIBETO-BURMAN FAMILY.

Himalayan	...	22,506
Sikkim	...	41,916
Nepal	...	113,240
Bodo	...	171,747
Kuki	...	26,642
Burman	...	74,540
Total	...	450,591

530. The first or Himalayan group includes Tibetan or the Bhotia of Tibet, Sikkim Bhotia, Bhotan Bhotia, Sharpa Bhotia and Toto. These languages are found almost entirely in Darjeeling, Jalpaiguri and Sikkim. With the exception of Sikkim Bhotia and Toto, they are spoken by immigrants whose home lies beyond the limits of British territory. The English word Tibet appears to be derived from the Mongolian Thübot, which according to Mr. Earle, whom I have to thank for an interesting note on these languages, is the Mongolian name for the Northern tracts of the Tibet Plateau. The Indian name for the Tibetan region is Bhot and the Tibetans call it Phö (spelt Bod). The people they call Phö-pá and the language Phöke (spelt Bod-sked). In English the language is ordinarily called Tibetan, but Dr. Grierson prefers to call it Tibetan Bhotia, taking Bhotia as the generic name of the family, and prefixing Tibetan to indicate the dialect spoken in Tibet proper. The Tibetan character was adopted from the Nágari about the year 632 by the minister of the king then reigning. Two distinct characters are recognised, *uchen* (possessed of a head) or the printed character, with the top line or *mátrá* and *u-med* (without a head), or the written form in which the top line is dispensed with. There is a third form called *gyuggi* which is also used in writing. The language is unusually difficult to learn owing to the use of a number of silent consonants; the spelling of every single word has to be committed to memory, and it is quite impossible from the sound to know how a word should be spelt. Mr. Walsh informs me that amongst the Tibetans themselves, the less educated are frequently unacquainted with the conventional system of orthography and spell many words incorrectly, thus in many cases altering the meaning which they wish to convey.

HIMALAYAN GROUP.

Tibetan Bhotia	...	1,810
Sikkim Bhotia	...	8,825
Bhotan Bhotia	...	7,294
Sharpa Bhotia	...	4,407
Toto ...	...	170
Total	...	22,506

Sikkim Bhotia and Bhotan Bhotia are of course the dialects spoken in Sikkim and Bhotan respectively. The Tibetan name for Bhotan is Lho* and for Sikkim Denjong; the people are respectively known as Lho-pá and Denjong-pá, and the dialects they speak as Lhoké (Drukpá or Dharma Bhotia) and Denjong-ki-ke. Sharpá Bhotia is the dialect spoken by a tribe of Tibetan origin in the North East of Nepal.† It includes Kágateh Bhotia which,

* *Lho* means "South" and *Denjong* "rice valleys." The Lepchas call the Bhotanese *Pru*, which reminds one of the appellation *Plava* used in the Jogini Tantra.

† It has been said that Shar is the name of a cantonal division of Eastern Nepal, but according to Mr. Earle it is the Tibetan word for "East," and appears to mean and include all persons of Tibetan origin who reside in the East of Nepal.

according to Mr. Earle, is identical with Sharpá but an educated Yákhá assures me that there is a slight difference between the two languages. Toto is spoken by a small community in the Jalpaiguri district whose ancestors probably came from Bhotan, and who have not yet abandoned their tribal speech in favour of Bengali.

Tibetan, of course, is well known, but the other languages of this group have not been properly examined. Tsangla or the form of Bhotan Bhotia spoken on the Assam frontier is said by Logan to have been largely influenced by the adjoining Bodo languages, but, judging from the words collected by Hodgson,* both it and Sharpá are, in their vocabularies at least, almost purely Tibetan. I have been favoured by Mr. Walsh with the following interesting note on the mutual intelligibility of these dialects:—

I have consulted several Tibetans about the mutual differences between these languages and their relative intelligibility to one another. The general opinion is that taking Central Tibetan as the standard, the Bhotanese is the least intelligible of all to persons of the other countries. A Bhotanese will understand a Tibetan better than the Tibetan will understand him, though they can make themselves mutually understood. A Sharpá would hardly understand a Bhotanese at all, as in their case the variation from the standard Tibetan is in another direction. Similarly, the Sikkim Language being spoken slowly and the consonants more clearly pronounced than in Tibetan or Bhotanese, a Bhotanese would understand a Sikkimite more easily than a Sikkim Bhotia would understand him. They could, however, make themselves mutually intelligible. The two languages of the above group that are the most similar and easily intelligible to one another are Sikkim Bhotia and standard Tibetan. This is owing to the fact that there has always been intercourse between Sikkim and Tibet, and that the Sikkim method of talking is slow and the consonants are more clearly pronounced than in Tibetan.

For this latter reason too, a Sharpá will understand a Sikkim Bhotia more easily than the latter will understand him.

I am not in a position to offer an opinion on the point but it is probable that the admixture of Malayan-Mongolian blood with the Bhotanese through the Assam frontier tribes, has affected their language to some extent, and may account for the difference between it and standard Tibetan. There is a noticeable difference in the physiognomy of the Bhotanese and the Tibetans; the cheek-bones of the Bhotanese are more prominent, and the type of face slightly different.

A comparison of the language returns with the Caste Table shows that the tribes of this group in almost all cases speak their own tribal dialects.

THE SIKKIM GROUP.

531. 'The Sikkim group includes only three languages, Limbu, Lepcha or Rong and Dhimál. Lepcha is a nick-name given to the people concerned by the Nepalese. They call themselves Rong, and are known to the Tibetans as Rong-pa or Mün-pa. Dhimál has hitherto been classed with the Bodo family, in consequence of Hodgson's associating it with the latter in his famous essay on the Koch, Bodo and Dhimál tribes. But at the time when this essay was written, the linguistic unity of all the languages now classed as Tibeto-Burman had not been recognised, and it was to the proof of this that Hodgson's efforts were directed. It does not appear that he ever considered the question of differentiating these languages by groups, and a glance at the comparative vocabulary given by him† will show that Dhimál differs from Bodo to a far greater extent than does Tipárá or Gáro, or in fact than any other language assigned to the Bodo group. I give below a list of sixteen out of thirty Dhimál words for which corresponding words were found in one or other of the neighbouring languages, and also the equivalents in Bodo:—‡

Limbu	22,035
Lepcha	19,274
Dhimál	607
Total ...	41,916

English.	Dhimál.	Bodo.	Languages of Sikkim and Nepal.
Bird ...	Jihá ...	Danchen ...	Jhá (Sharpá).
Blood ...	Hiki ...	Thŏï ...	Hí (Newár).
Cat ...	Menkon ...	Mouji ...	Myong (Limbu).
Dog ...	Khia ...	Choïmá ...	Khia (Limbu).

* Languages, Literature and Religion of Nepal and Tibet, Part II, page 29 ff. A collection of Tsangla Bhotanese sentences by the late Mr. E. Stack, I.C.S., was published a few years ago by the Assam Administration.

† Essays on Indian Subjects, volume I, page 1.

‡ The Dhimál and Bodo words have been taken from Hodgson's Essay on the Koch, Bodo and Dhimál tribes and the others from the lists of words given in Part II of the Languages, Literature and History of Nepal.

English.	Dhimál.	Bodo.	Languages of Sikkim and Nepal.
Ear ...	Nahathong ...	Khomá ...	Nhaipong (Newár).
Egg ...	Thui ...	Doudoï ...	A-ti (Lepchá) Thin (Limbu).
Eye ...	Mi ...	Mogon ...	Mik (Limbu) a-mik (Lepcha).
Fire ...	Men ...	Wát ...	Me (Limbu) Mí (Lepchá.)
Goat ...	Échá ...	Burmá ...	Sár (Lepcha).
Hair ...	Moi-Shú ...	Khomon ...	Moí (Gurung) Moá (Khambu).
Hog ...	Payá ...	Nong Yoma ...	Pyá (Chepáng) Phá (Newár) Phag (Limbu).
Horn ...	Dáng ...	Gong ...	Táng (Limbu).
Horse ...	On-hya ...	Gorai thángan ...	On (Lepchá and Limbu).
Iron ...	Chir ...	Shúrr ...	Chyá (Tibetan).
Mountain ...	Rá ...	Hájo ...	Rok (Lepcha).
Light ...	Jolká ...	Shráng ...	Jala (Newár).

There can be no doubt that in its vocabulary at least Dhimál is much more nearly allied to the other languages than to Bodo. Whether it should be assigned to the Nepal or the Sikkim group is less easy to say, but so far as its vocabulary is concerned it seems to resemble Limbu more than any other language, and it has accordingly been placed in the Sikkim group.

The title of this group is that given to it by Mr. Cust, but so far as it implies that its present head-quarters is in Sikkim, it is somewhat misleading, as out of a total of 41,916 persons speaking these languages, only 13,855 are found in what is now known as Sikkim. The majority (26,218) were enumerated in the Darjeeling district. Historically the term is more correct, as the part of the Darjeeling district where the Limbus and Lepchas are found has been taken from Sikkim within comparatively recent times.* The Dhimáls, however, live in the Terai, in the Siliguri thana and in the adjoining portion of Nepal. The Lepchas, Limbus and Dhimáls, like the tribes of the Himalayan linguistic group, in almost all cases speak their own peculiar dialects. The Lepchas have a character of their own which is said to have been invented by one of their former kings. Its general characteristics including its palatal sibilants, clearly point to Tibetan as the source of the Raja's inspiration but some of the individual letters seem to differ altogether from the corresponding Tibetan ones.

The Limbus are also said by Hodgson to have a character peculiar to themselves, but I have not been able to procure any specimen of it. According to Hodgson it is difficult to assign it to any known origin.†

532. The Nepal group comprises such of the languages of Nepal (other than the Aryan Khas) as were returned at the Census. Hodgson mentions many other languages as spoken in that most polyglot of countries and gives a number of comparative vocabularies and grammatical notes in a series of papers contributed originally to the journal of the Asiatic Society of Bengal and subsequently reprinted in two books entitled respectively—"The Languages, Literature and Religion of Nepal and Tibet" and "Essays on Indian Subjects." These papers, though most of them were written more than half a century ago, are still in many cases the only source of information available regarding the dialects with which they deal. As in the case of the Himalayan and Sikkim groups, the speakers of these languages in Bengal are found almost entirely in Darjeeling, Sikkim and Jalpaiguri.

NEPAL GROUP.

Murmi	32,062
Gurung	6,142
Mangar	16,661
Khambu	43,390
Newar	7,491
Thami	311
Yákhá	1,251
Mánjhi	903
Háyu	24
Sunuwár	5,006
Total ...	113,240

533. The most numerous of these languages is that which I have designated Khambu. It is not really a separate language, but a collection of sixteen dialects,‡ one of which, Báhing, has been described with considerable fulness by Hodgson. It should be explained that Hodgson gives the appellation Kiránti to these dialects, and includes in

KHAMBU AND YÁKHÁ.

* The Limbus are most numerous in the Darjeeling thana, and the Lepchas in Kalimpong.

† Essays on Indian Subjects, Volume I, page 401, foot-note.

‡ Excluding Yákhá. The existence of sixteen different tribes doubtless explains the expression "Solah Khambu" which is often applied to the country which they inhabit. Khambu seems to have no connection with Kham, the province of Eastern Tibet, whose inhabitants, called Khámpá, are well known on the Assam frontier.

the term, Yákhá and Limbu. Kiránti is a Sanskrit derivative which is used in the Mahábhárata in a very wide sense as meaning any border tribe, and although it is now applied by outsiders to all the tribes inhabiting the country between the Dud Kosi and the Singilela ridge, I am informed by an educated Yákhá that, strictly speaking, it is the designation only of the Ráis, *i.e.* of the Jimdárs and Yákhás who inhabit the portion of the present kingdom of Nepal which lies between the Támbor river on the east and the Dud Kosi on the west. Jimdár is often treated as a synonym for Khambu and in the Language Table I have taken it to be so. I am now informed, however, that the two terms are quite distinct. The Khambus of Darjeeling often assume the title of Rái and claim to be the same as Jimdár but their pretentions are not admitted in Nepal. Their country or Khambuán lies to the north-east of Kiránt Desh on the southern spurs of the Himalayas. The Limbu country, or Limbuán is east of Kiránt Desh and south-east of Khambuán. Towards the Mechi river the Limbus are much mixed up with Lepchás. Their language has been treated as belonging to the Sikkim group of languages, while Khambu and Yákhá have been classed with the Nepal group; but this, as already explained, is due to the fact that, in the absence of a scientific comparative analysis of these languages, our grouping is geographical rather than philological. Like the Khambus, the Limbu, Yákhá and Jimdár tribes have each several distinct dialects. More than 96 per cent. of the Khambus enumerated in Bengal were entered as speaking Khambu.* Those who returned other languages were found mainly in the Jalpaiguri district. Very few of the Yákhás living in Jalpaiguri have retained their tribal tongue, whereas in Darjeeling very few have abandoned it. It is said that even in their own country these tribes, women as well as men, can all speak Khas as well as their own dialects.

MURMI.

534. The Murmis are also known as Támáng Bhotias. There are traditions of their emigration from Tibet to Nepal, and for this reason it has been proposed to class their language with the Himalayan group. The vocabularies given by Hodgson, however, give rise to the presumption that it is more closely related to the Nepal group. In a list of 45 words, I counted 28 that closely resembled the corresponding Gurung words against only 14 that were like Tibetan. In dress and appearance also they resemble the Nepalese tribes rather than the Tibetans, and their present home is in Nepal. The Murmis have retained their tribal form of speech, and it is only in Jalpaiguri that a few of them speak other languages.

NEWÁR.

535. Newár is interesting as being the ancient State language of Nepal before the overthrow of the Newár dynasty in 1769. Unlike the other dialects of this group, it is the speech of a nationality or country rather than of a single tribe. The Newárs were the subjects of the old Newár kingdom, irrespective of the particular castes to which they belonged, just as the Bengalis are the inhabitants of Bengal and the Assamese of Assam in the restricted sense in which that word was used prior to the formation of the Assam Province in 1874.†

Buddhism spread to Nepal at a very early date, but although the majority of the Newárs were Buddhists they preserved their own national language. Their sacred books were in Sanskrit, but the medium of conversation in ordinary life remained purely Newár, and it has done so to the present day.‡ In this respect Buddhism presents a great contrast to the Hinduism of Northern India. Except in the solitary case of Manipur, wherever the Hindu religion has penetrated, the language is also of the Hindu type, but Buddhism leaves its votaries in possession of their own language, not only in Nepal and Tibet, but also in Arakan and Burma. The reason may perhaps be that Buddhism was an active, proselytising religion and was thus prepared to meet its neophytes half way, whereas admission to the Hindu social system is ordinarily accorded only to those who conform in all respects to the customs and practices of their Hindu neighbours.

Newár has three alphabets known as Bhanjin Mola, Ranja and Newári, all traceable to the Devanágari. The two former appear to have been used only

* Khambu here, as in Table X, includes Jimdár.

† Newár and Nepál are merely different forms of the same word.

‡ This will be apparent from an examination of the vocabularies at page 3 *et seq.*, Part I, at page 29 *et seq.*, Part II of the Languages, Literature and History of Nepal. A few words are found of Sanskrit origin, but these relate chiefly to religious and abstract ideas.

by the Buddhist Newárs, and even amongst them they are no longer in vogue. The Newári character is still current, and it is this that we see in the inscriptions on the Nepalese coins.

In the Darjeeling district almost all the Newárs speak their own dialect, but in Sikkim more than two-fifths of the total number enumerated returned Khas as their language, while in Jalpaiguri barely one-third still speak Newár.

OTHER LANGUAGES.

536. We may pass rapidly over the other languages of this group. Gurung and Mangar are spoken by the well known tribes of the same names who form the back-bone of our Gorkha regiments. They and the Sunuwárs have their home in the basin of the Gandak, to the north-west of Nepal Proper, but they have spread eastwards and are now to be found all over Nepal, and even in Darjeeling and Sikkim. The Gurungs, who, in Western Nepal are Buddhists, following the Lámás of Tibet, show more marked affinities to Tibetan in their vocabulary than do most of the other Nepal tribes. They are now abandoning Buddhism for Hinduism, and at the same time are giving up their tribal language in favour of Khas. Barely 42 per cent. of the Gurungs found in Bengal (including Sikkim) returned Gurung as their language.* The Mangars are much more faithful to their mother-tongue, and nearly 88 per cent. returned it at the census. The Sunuwárs and Thamis have also as a rule preserved their own language. Thami is sometimes supposed to be identical with Sunuwár, but this is a mistake as will be seen from a comparison of the Thami words given below with the Sunuwár vocabulary collected by Hodgson:—†

Air—Phásá	Day—Oláng.	Hand—Lák.
Ant—Tiku.	Dog—Kuchu.	Head—Kápu.
Arrow—Pará.	Ear—Kulná.	Hog—Lungur.
Bird—Ráhaleng.	Earth—Násá.	Horn—Ném.
Blood—Chái.	Eye—Méshé.	House—Ném.
Bone—Kosá.	Fire—Mé.	Iron—Chiném.
Buffalo—Meshá.	Fowl—Wá.	
Cow—Seyá.	Fish—Nángá.	

It is needless to observe that the Mánjhi here shown has no connection with Santál or Bágdi, but refers to the dialect of the Nepal caste of that name.‡ It is spoken by about half the persons shown as Mánjhi by caste, but it is possible that the caste return may include some persons who ought to have been classed as Santáls. Háyu or Váyu is spoken by a tribe inhabiting the basin of the Kosi, east of Nepal Proper. Their language has been fully described by Hodgson. It was returned by only 24 persons in Bengal.

THE BODO GROUP.

537. Leaving the northern sections of the Tibeto-Burman family we come to the great Bodo group, of which Kachári or Mech is usually taken as the main representative. It is probable that languages of this family were at one time widely spoken in Bengal Proper, especially north of the Padma, but they have given way to Bengali; and at the present time they are current only in Jalpaiguri, Mymensingh, Dacca and Hill Tippera.§ Their stronghold is now in Assam where they are still spoken by nearly half a million people. Thanks mainly to the labours of Hodgson and, more recently, of Messrs. Endle and Anderson, these languages are well known. They were discussed at some length in the Assam Census Report of 1891, and have recently been very fully described by Dr. Grierson in connection with the Linguistic Survey. They will, therefore, be dealt with very briefly here.

Mech	...	21,175
Kachári	...	234
Gáro	...	36,145
Tipara	...	101,671
Koch	...	12,622
Total	...	171,747

* In Sikkim, of 4,503 Gurungs, 2,721 returned their language as Khas and only 1,782 in Gurung. It has been stated that where a Nepali knows Khas as well as his tribal language he prefers to return the former, but this cannot explain the great defection from their tribal language on the part of the Gurungs as compared with other tribes. Of the 2,440 Mangars enumerated in Sikkim, only 406 returned Khas against 2,034 who gave Mangar in their parent tongue. Of 5,263 Murmis only 26, and of 5,916 Limbus, only 36 returned Khas as their language.

† Languages, Literature and Religion of Nepal and Tibet, Part II, page 29.

‡ According to Hodgson the designation embraces two tribes, Kúswár and Botia, each speaking a distinct dialect, who were dubbed Mánjhi by the Khas on account of their occupation as fishermen.

§ According to Logan traces of a prior Dravidian formation are more marked in Bodo than in other Tibeto-Burman languages.

538. Mech is a foreign word popularly derived from Mlechchha. The proper tribal name, like that of the Kacháris, is Bodo, which seems originally to have merely signified man.* It is almost identical with the Kachári of the Assam Valley, but has been shown separately in accordance with past practice. Of the total number of Mech speakers, all but 600 were enumerated in Jalpaiguri. About 86 per cent. of the persons returned as belonging to the Mech tribe speak their own language, but this high proportion is due, not so much to the Meches being as a class unaffected by the example of their neighbours, as to the fact that the adoption of Bengali as a language is usually accompanied by conversion to Hinduism and an effort to obtain recognition as good Hindus by abandoning the old tribal name and assuming some less distinctive appellation, such as Rájbansi, Kuri Sajjan or Kuri. The language, however, seems to have held its own during the last decade, and the number returned as speaking it is only about 400 less than in 1891. The persons who returned their language as Kachári were immigrants from Assam enumerated in Hill Tippera. Their dialect is thus probably that of North Cachar which is commonly known as Dimásá. The Kacháris by tribe outnumber the persons returned as speaking the Kachári language in the proportion of 4 to 1.

MECH, KACHÁRI AND GÁRO.

The home of the Gáros is in Assam, in the hills to which they have given their name. In this province the language is spoken mainly in Mymensingh, but it has also been returned in Dacca, Jalpaiguri, Rangpur and Kuch Bihár. There has been an increase of 45 per cent. in the number of Gáro speakers since 1891, which is due mainly to the figures for Mymensingh. More than 92 per cent. of the persons returned as Gáro by caste speak the Gáro language. The reason, as in the case of the Meches, is not that Gáro is specially qualified to resist the encroachment of Bengali but that when its speakers abandon it in favour of this language, they at the same time affect to be Hindus and hide their origin under some new designation. There are in Mymensingh several castes (*e.g.*, Hájang and Hadi) which are clearly of Gáro origin. Two dialects of Gáro were returned in Mymensingh, *viz.* Atong with 1,417 and Dual with 146 speakers. The former is mentioned by Dr. Grierson as being spoken in the Lower Somesvari valley. The latter is probably the same as Dálu which, according to the Linguistic Survey, is spoken in a village of the same name on the Bogai river. The term "Nám Dánu" is applied to Gáros who have left the hills and settled in the plains, and Dálu is also the name of a professedly Hindu caste of obviously Gáro origin.

539. The language described as Koch is spoken by a small number of people, who call themselves Koch Mándé, living in the Madhupur jungle on the borders of Dacca and Mymensingh.† It was formerly thought that the Koch Mándé were a remnant of the great Koch tribe which in North Bengal has lost its tribal identity by assuming the garb of Hinduism and the name of a Hindu caste. Latterly, however, the belief has prevailed that they are merely Gáros with a slight veneer of Hinduism. Their language is very closely allied to Gáro, but so also probably was that of the true Koch.‡ In Dacca most of the persons returned as Koch by caste speak the Koch language, but in Mymensingh more than 95 per cent. have abandoned it in favour of Bengali. In 1891 no Koch speakers were returned in Mymensingh, and only about half the present number in Dacca. The difference can only be attributed to a more accurate return on the present occasion.

KOCH.

* Bodo-k still means man in Tipárá.

† *Mándé* in Gáro means 'man' and the expression seems to lend some support to the hypothesis that has been put forward that the word 'Kachári' is derived from 'Koch-arui' or sons of the Koch.

‡ This is not the place for a lengthy discussion of the origin of the Koch Mándé but I venture to mention a few arguments which seem to support the earlier theory. The Koch Mándé have the same legend regarding their descent from a union between Mahádeb and Hira that is given in the annals of the Koch Kings, and the general idea in the locality they inhabit is that they came from a north-westerly direction. Five of their sixteen sections given in the Tribes and Castes of Bengal have the word Darrang prefixed to their designation, which seems to afford a clear indication of their former connection with the Assam district of the same name. The old course of the Brahmaputra flows not far from their present home, and they might quite easily have come thither from the country where the Koch kings formerly ruled. There are Gáro settlers in Dinajpur who have found their way thither from Mymensingh, and the journey of the Koch Mándé in the opposite direction, *i.e.*, down stream, would have been a much easier one. The Koch Mándé have no tradition of any connection with the Gáros.

In North Bengal Koch has not anywhere been returned as a language. The Rájbansi Koch of that part of the country now speak corrupt Bengali, and have completely forgotten their old tribal language.

Tipárá.

540. Seventy-five per cent. of the Tipárá speakers are found in the State of Hill Tippera, and most of the rest in the Chittagong Hill Tracts; a few only are found in the adjoining districts to the north and west. The language is in most respects very similar to Kachári, and where it differs, Gáro frequently supplies the connecting link. Sometimes, too, Tipárá words which have disappeared from Kachári are still preserved in the moribund Bodo dialect spoken by the Moráns of Upper Assam.* The persons who still call themselves Tipárás almost to a man speak the tribal language. Some of the Riyáng Tipárás (as shown in the margin) returned their language as Riyáng, but the great majority contented themselves with the general term Tipárá. I am not aware if the dialect spoken by the Riyángs differs in any way from that of other Tipárás. Tipárá was returned as the language of 621 Kukis, 314 "Kshattriyas," 159 Kahepangs, 114 Mursangs, 101 Káthichhuas, 59 Muhammadans and 6 Chákmás.

Chittagong Hill Tracts	...	47
Hill Tippera ...	...	692
Total	...	739

Kuki-Chin Group.

541. The Kuki-Chin languages are more nearly allied to the Burmese than to the Tibetan branch of the Tibeto-Burman family. They are spoken chiefly in the hill range that divides Assam from Burma, and were returned in Bengal, with very few exceptions, only in the Chittagong Hill Tracts and Hill Tippera, both of which tracts lie on the western extremity of this range. Neither of them found a place in the language returns of 1891. Manipuri, Meithei or Mekhali stands apart from the other Kuki-Chin languages, in that it has preserved many traces of a more ancient stage of phonetic development, and thus sometimes agrees more closely with Burmese and even with Tibetan than with the other languages of the group. It is interesting as being, so far as I know, the only language in Northern India which has been retained intact by a tribe that has accepted Hinduism and for which the Bráhmans have invented a written character (based of course on the Devanágari). The characters used for Tibetan, Newár and other Himalayan languages were also derived from India, but they were apparently in all cases introduced under Buddhist and not Hindu auspices. The persons speaking Manipuri outnumber the persons returned as Manipuri by race, as in their case the abandonment of the tribal language is by no means a necessary preliminary to conversion, and they often described themselves in the schedules as Bráhman or Kshattriya without adding the word Manipuri, and so escaped being relegated to that category. This explains why in Dacca there are 132 persons speaking the Manipuri language, while none are shown as Manipuri by race. In Hill Tippera it is returned as the language of 484 Muhammadans of Manipuri origin, and also of 17 Nápits and 9 Tipárás.

Manipuri	...	13,445
Kuki	...	6,838
Hallám	...	3,672
Banjogi	...	560
Pankhu	...	113
Khyang	...	414
Khami	...	1,469
Lushei	...	131
Total	...	26,642

Strictly speaking, Kuki is not the name of a language at all. It is a term applied by the people of the plains to various hill tribes on this frontier, much in the sense in which Paháriá is often used elsewhere.† In the Chittagong Hills

*According to Mr. Anderson, Kachári has suffered from phonetic decay more than most of the languages of this group. Thus Tipárá *ru* (*give*) becomes *hu* in Kachári and *chá* (eat) becomes *zá*; the Gáro, *nok* (home) becomes ná, and so on. "We also," says Dr. Grierson, "see going on before our eyes that process of phonetic attrition which in all the languages of the family has turned dissyllables into monosyllables." Thus *frán* "to dry" is compounded of two words *fi* "make" and *rán* "dry."

† It has been suggested that the word is really Koh-ki or "hill-man" an Urdu variant for Paháriá, but if this were the derivation the term would be *Koh-ka* not *Koh-ki*. *Khu* means "village" in Khami and other Kuki-Chin languages, and *ki* or *khyi* is sometimes the sign of the Genitive. It is possible that some of the tribes first met with when asked who they were described themselves as men of such and such villages. Thus a man from a hypothetical village Langrin might reply "Langrin khu-ki" and the word Khu-ki might thus be taken as indicating the tribal name. We know that the name of the Khami tribe is derived very much in the manner here suggested for Kuki. *Khu* means "village" as stated above, and *mi* means "person." An inhabitant of Balte, for instance, would be called *Balte Khumi* and the word *Khumi* has thus become the general designation of the whole tribe. It may be mentioned here that the Lushais and some of the Kukis are known to each other as *Khu-sak* and *Khu-tlang*, *sak* meaning "high" and *tlang* "low" and *khu*, as before, being the word for "village."

the term is used freely, not only of persons across the frontier, but also of people of all tribes other than that to which the speaker himself belongs. As regards language therefore, the term is practically equivalent to "Kuki-Chin, unspecified." In Hill Tippera it probably refers mainly to the Hallám and Rangkhol dialects.

I have included under this head the three dialects shown in the margin, not mentioned by Dr. Grierson, which were returned as languages in Hill Tippera. Of the other dialects of this group Hallám and Lushei were returned exclusively in Hill Tippera; and Banjogi Pankhu, Khyang and Khami, in the Chittagong Hill Tracts. Lushei, Banjogi and Pankhu belong to what Dr. Grierson calls the central group of Kuki-Chin languages; Hallám and Rangkhol to the Old Kuki; and Khyang and Khami to the southern group.

Murcham	715
Saimon dafa	59
Kahepang	5

542. The review of Bengal languages comes to an end with the Burma group, comprising Burmese, Arakanese and Mru. Burmese is spoken by a few scattered immigrants all over the Province Arakanese, which is merely the dialect of Burmese spoken in Arakan, is the language of the Maghs settled in the Chittagong Hill Tracts, Chittagong, Backergunge and Hill Tippera. There are also Maghs in Tippera and Noakhali, but these now speak Bengali,* as do the Chákmás to whom reference has already been made. Many of the Maghs of Chittagong also have returned Bengali as their language. Mru is a distant cousin of Burmese, and is spoken by a tribe of the same name in the Chittagong Hill Tracts.

BURMA GROUP.

Burmese	467
Arakanese	63,589
Mru	10,484
Total ...	74,540

543. In reviewing briefly the local extent of the different languages spoken in Bengal it has been repeatedly stated that a non-Aryan tribe has already abandoned or is gradually giving up its own native language. Occasionally it is replaced by another non-Aryan dialect, as in the case of the Oráons of some parts of Ranchi, who speak Mundári, or of the Khariás of Keonjhar, who speak Oráon, but more frequently it is an Aryan tongue which ousts it. Thus the Hindu refugees in Western Nepal carried with them their language which, after gradually supplanting the original Khas, is now steadily gaining fresh adherents at the expense of the various hill dialects current in Nepal. The Koches of Northern Bengal have completely forgotten their own dialect and know only Bengali. The Bhuiyás, even in Keonjhar, have no recollection of their tribal language, and the Bhumijes have abandoned theirs, save only in the Chota Nagpur Plateau and in Midnapore. The Chákmás have given up Arakanese and now use a mongrel dialect of Bengali, which they write in an old form of the Burmese character. The Maghs of Tippera and Noakhali have forgotten their own language altogether and those of Chittagong are gradually following suit. In the Sonthal Parganas the Mál Paháriás know only broken Bengali, and in Hazaribagh and Ranchi a kind of Magahi is spoken everywhere as a *lingua franca*, and is gradually ousting the tribal dialects, even in the family circle.

THE DYNAMICS OF LANGUAGE.

The reverse, however, never happens. There is no known case where any community has abandoned an Aryan language and adopted a non-Aryan one. The Lohárs and Tántis of Chota Nagpur who were returned as speaking Mundári and Oráon are not Hindus, but aborigines, to whom these functional designations have been applied.† Nor does a community speaking one form of Aryan speech easily give it up in favour of another. Muhammadans of up-country origin all over Bengal preserve the speech they brought with

* On noticing the absence of Arakanese from the language tables for Tippera and Noakhali, I caused the schedules to be referred to, and subsequently referred the matter to the District Magistrates for local enquiry the result of which established the accuracy of the census record. All the Maghs in these districts speak Bengali.

† Colonel Dalton speaks of the persons thus designated in the Kolhán as "remnants of the Aryan colonies that the Hos subjugated" who learnt the Ho language, but this does not appear to be the case. There are some foreign (Dikku) settlers in the Ho country but the Deputy Commissioner reports that, though they are conversant with Ho, they have not ordinarily given up or forgotten their own language which remains the vehicle of conversation among themselves. In a few cases, in the more remote localities, where their number is very small, they have abandoned their own languages and now speak only Ho, but these cases are so rare and the circumstances are so exceptional that they can scarcely be taken as constituting an exception to the general assertion made in the text.

them.* In their case, religious prejudice may account for it, but the peculiarity is not confined to Muhammadans. In Singhbhum, Bengali, Hindi and Oriyá are spoken side by side, and in Manbhum also the Aryan dialects are tribal rather than local. A more extreme case is furnished by the Siyalgirs of Midnapore and the Kichaks of Dacca: both are small isolated communities who have been settled in the midst of a Bengali population for many years, and yet they have both preserved their original Gujaráti dialect almost unchanged.

CAUSES OF PREDOMINANCE OF ARYAN LANGUAGES.

544. The phenomenon of one form of speech superseding another has often been noticed, and all over the world we see races speaking languages introduced from outside.† Sometimes it is due to conquest, as in the case of Alsace and Lorraine. It more often arises from contact and friendly intercourse, when the more advanced and easier of the two languages is adopted as a *lingua franca*, and then gradually ousts the weaker tongue. Thus Greek was at one time the common form of speech throughout Asia Minor and Northern Egypt. Both of the above causes were doubtless at work in ancient times in India. The tribes of Aryan speech who entered India from the North-West imposed their language on the people they subdued, while those whom they did not subdue gradually adopted it. The non-Aryan languages had no written character and no literature; their vocabularies were scanty, and they had no words to express many of the ideas, practices and implements, introduced by the invaders. They were thus bound to succumb to Aryan dialects wherever they came into contact, even if in other respects the conflict had been an equal one. But the Aryan dialects had other advantages. They were spoken by men of superior intelligence, knowledge and energy, who forced their way to the front, even in States that preserved their independence. More important still, they were the language of a religion of a far more elevated type than the primitive animism and demon worship prevalent amongst the non-Aryan tribes, and possessing a priest-hood far more subtle and awe-inspiring than the simple exorcists of the earlier faiths.

A striking instance of the way in which these moral influences can affect language without any aid whatever from physical force is afforded in the history of Assam. The Ahoms conquered Upper Assam early in the 13th century, and gradually extended their dominion over the whole of the Assam Valley. They were never in any way subject to any Hindu power, and even the Muhammadans not only failed to conquer them, but were eventually forced to retire before them. Yet in less than four centuries from their first appearance, we find them employing Hindus as envoys, and using Sanskrit as the language of the inscriptions on their coins and copper-plate land grants and as the medium of communication with other kingdoms. A hundred years later their king formally embraced Hinduism and became the disciple of a Brahman priest from Nadia. The Ahom tongue gradually fell into desuetude, and has long since disappeared from the realm of living speech, leaving scarcely any trace on the Aryan language which supplanted it.‡ This case is the more remarkable as Ahom had a written character and literature, and there was a powerful body of tribal priests who did their utmost to preserve the language and religion on which their own position so much depended.

545. The gradual disappearance of the non-Aryan dialects is thus only a matter of time. Even now it is only in the remoter tracts and in the less accessible and inhospitable hills that they still flourish. In the Himalayan Terai the Dhimál and Mech tribes still hold to non-Aryan dialects, but the Tháru all

* The Musalmans of Orissa, though they form an exceedingly small fraction of the population, have preserved a fairly pure, though not very grammatical, Urdu as the language of their home life. But they cannot write it any more than can the domiciled Bengalis write Bengali. When they are literate at all they use the Oriyá language and character. I should point out here that it does not follow that a Muhammadan in Bengal is of foreign origin because he speaks Urdu. The Garpeda Bhuiyá family of Balasore were formerly Hindus, but since they became Muhammadans they have abandoned their native Oriyá for the Hindustani of their co-religionists.

† In Africa, for example, the term Bantu comprises a complicity of people representing every shade of transition between the pure Negro and the Hamitic types, all of whom speak dialects of a common language. There is absolute linguistic unity with the greatest physical diversity. So also in the United States, English is the language spoken, not only by the Anglo-Saxon race, but also by the descendants of immigrants of all nationalities and even by the negroes. In the British Islands the speakers of English are by no means all Anglo-Saxons.

‡ I tried some years ago to make a list of Ahom words that have passed into Assamese, but was unable to find even fifty words in common use that have come down from the Ahom.

speak some form of Hindi, and the Koch talks what he is pleased to call Bengali. At the foot of the Garo Hills a few small settlements speak Gáro or Koch, and in Chittagong many Maghs still speak Arakanese. Otherwise it may be said that throughout the Bengal plains Aryan languages reign supreme. And even in the hills, the struggle is going on and the non-Aryan dialects are gradually giving way. In Nepal, as we have seen, Khas is driving the aboriginal tongues into oblivion. In Hazaribagh and Palamau a form of Magahi Bihári is in common use as a second language and is gradually being adopted by the non-Aryan tribes for domestic as well as foreign intercourse. In the Chota Nagpur States the Chattisgarhi dialect of Eastern Hindi is supplanting all the tribal dialects, while in the Orissa States Oriyá is the Court language of the chiefs, and is steadily growing in favour amongst the local tribes. The process of absorption will doubtless go on with increasing rapidity as communications continue to improve, and intercourse with the outside world becomes more and more extended and continuous. What the languages were which were spoken in Bengal before the Aryan dialects extinguished them, we can now only speculate. According to Logan there are traces of a Dravidian element in the dialects not only of the Bodo tribes, but even of the Nagas and Manipuris. This seems to have been the earliest linguistic formation all over India. It was displaced in Bengal by the Mon-Anam which has left a comparatively pure remnant in the Khási, while its mixture with the Dravidian in Bihar and Chota Nagpur led to the evolution of the Munda family of languages. Then came the Tibeto-Burman formation which spread along the Himalayas and up the Ganges valley as far as the Mahánandá. To this linguistic family belonged the dialects of the ancestors, not only of the Koch and Mech, but probably also of the Pod and Chandál. It is now spoken only by a few scattered remnants and even in the names of places its influence is rarely seen. The Tista and the Dimla recall the Bodo word for water, *Ti* or *Di*, and so does the Di-chhu, now usually known as the Jaldhaka river.* The Western Provinces of China and the eastern portion of Tibet are in Logan's opinion the hive from which the tribes who spoke the Mon-Anam and Tibeto-Burman languages originally came.

It will be amply apparent from what has already been said that the speakers of Aryan languages are by no means universally Aryans by race. These languages are spreading at the present day without any racial admixture at all, and they may equally well have done so in the past. The amount of foreign blood which the prevalence of the Aryan languages necessarily indicates is thus very small, and it is not absolutely certain that even this small admixture was Aryan. The people who brought the parent language may themselves have borrowed it from others, just as have those who are now spreading it, in the remote tracts where it is still struggling for the mastery.

The position of the Aryan languages as compared with the non-Aryan is specially strong, and it is not likely that the preceding linguistic formations were spread so easily. In other words, it seems probable that the diffusion of the earlier invading languages was accompanied by a more considerable racial mixture than was the case in connection with the spread of Aryan dialects in this Province. Here, however, we are trenching on the domain of anthropometry to which alone we must look for positive conclusions as regards race.

546. In concluding this chapter it may be interesting to note the degree of literary activity possessed by each language, as evidenced by the number of books published in it. Subsidiary Table VI shows the number of books published in each main language in each year of the decade exclusive of official publications.

Books Published in each Language, 1891-1901.

The total number of books of all kinds printed and published in Bengal during the decade 1891-1901 was 15,843. Of these 9,331 were in Bengali, 2,580 in English, 286 in Musalmani Bengali, 1,323 in Oriyá, 968 in Hindi, 258 in Urdu, 736 in Sanskrit, 45 in Persian, 32 in Tibetan, 37 in Santáli, 10 in Khas, 7 in Mundári and 43 in other languages. This is in addition to 127 books published in Assamese and 60 in other languages of that Province.

* The *Chhu* of Dichhu is the Tibetan word for water. Further east in Assam the majority of the river names are derived from the Bodo, *e.g.*, Di-phang, Dihing, Dihong, Dibong, Dikhu, Dikrai, Diju, etc. Incidentally it may be mentioned here that *Kosi* is simply a variant of *Khausi* the Newár word for "river." The Sanskrit names for the Tista are *Trishna* (thirst) and *Trisrota* (three springs) and a mythical origin of the river which accounts for these names is given in the *Káliká Purán*. Similarly the Kosi is said to be *Kausiki*, the daughter of Kúsik Rájá, king of Gádhi. Here, as in many other cases, the name has preceded and suggested the myth.

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. I—Showing the distribution of the total population by language.

Language.	Persons.	Male.	Female.	Proportion per 10,000 of population.
1	2	3	4	5
LANGUAGES OF INDIA.	*78,433,636*	*39,240,695*	*39,192,941*	*9,992*
Aryan	*74,518,085*	*37,289,542*	*37,228,543*	*9,494*
Bengali	41,482,899	20,842,136	20,590,763	5,279
Hindi	26,780,174	13,312,453	13,467,721	3,412
Oriya	6,202,751	3,079,207	3,123,544	790
Khas	81,313	41,949	39,364	10
Marwari...	10,677	6,282	4,395	1
Gujarati...	4,368	3,040	1,328	1
Panjabi	2,280	1,990	290	.....
Marathi	1,995	1,058	937	.....
Assamese	1,031	917	114	.....
Others	597	510	87	.....
Munda	*2,781,211*	*1,382,078*	*1,399,133*	*354*
Santali	1,724,227	858,418	865,809	220
Mundari...	403,383	198,481	204,902	51
Ho	367,613	182,635	184,978	47
Bhumij	111,210	54,047	57,163	14
Kharia	79,383	40,603	38,780	10
Kora	23,827	11,635	12,192	3
Mahli	18,801	9,177	9,624	3
Karmali...	17,342	8,732	8,610	2
Korwa	15,882	7,834	8,048	2
Juang	10,798	5,809	4,989	1
Turia	3,220	1,826	1,394	.....
Asur	3,126	1,645	1,481	.....
Birjia	1,377	685	692	.....
Others	1,022	551	471	.....
Dravidian	*683,732*	*337,330*	*346,402*	*87*
Oraon	543,506	266,205	277,300	69
Malto	60,777	30,994	29,783	8
Kandh	55,655	27,625	28,030	7
Telugu	18,680	9,697	8,983	2
Kisan	2,055	1,036	1,019	.....
Tamil	2,274	1,346	928	.....
Others	786	427	359	.....
Tibeto-Burman	*450,591*	*231,731*	*218,860*	*57*
Tipara	101,571	52,643	48,928	13
Arakanese	63,589	32,174	31,415	8
Khambu	43,390	22,126	21,264	5
Garo	36,145	18,085	18,060	5
Murmi	32,062	16,024	16,038	4
Bhotia dialects (including Tibetan).	22,506	11,898	10,608	3
Lambu	22,035	11,603	10,432	3
Mech	21,175	11,256	9,919	3
Lepcha	19,274	9,588	9,686	2
Mangar	16,661	8,961	7,700	2
Manipuri	13,445	7,078	6,367	2
Koch	12,622	6,297	6,325	2
Mru	10,484	5,352	5,132	1
Newar	7,491	4,020	3,471	1
Kuki	6,838	3,510	3,328	1
Gurung	6,142	3,076	3,066	1
Sunwar	5,006	2,692	2,314	1
Hallam	3,672	1,793	1,879	.....
Khami	1,469	761	708	.....
Yakha	1,251	659	592	.....
Others	3,763	2,135	1,628	.....
Khasi	*17*	*14*	*3*	.....
Khasi	17	14	3	.....
LANGUAGES FOREIGN TO INDIA.	*59,774*	*37,491*	*22,283*	*8*
English	48,450	28,236	20,214	6
Pashto	3,051	2,953	98	.....
Persian	3,020	2,251	769	.....
Chinese	2,302	2,064	238	.....
Arabic	1,254	885	369	.....
Others	1,697	1,102	595	.....

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. II—Showing the distribution by language of 10,000 of the population of each district.

District.	Number per 10,000 speaking languages of the—				
	Aryan family.	Munda family.	Dravidian family.	Tibeto-Burman family.	Other languages.
1	2	3	4	5	6
PROVINCE	*9,494*	*354*	*87*	*57*	*8*
West Bengal	*9,519*	*468*	*6*	.....	*7*
Burdwan	9,684	298	3	.....	15
Birbhum	9,401	595	1	.....	3
Bankura	9,106	893	.....	.....	1
Midnapore	9,363	632	3	.....	2
Hooghly	9,883	95	16	.....	6
Howrah	9,947	4	23	.....	26
Central Bengal	*9,911*	*30*	*10*	.....	*49*
24-Parganas	9,922	47	14	.....	17
Calcutta	9,575	.....	33	4	388
Nadia	9,995	1	1	.....	3
Murshidabad	9,887	100	11	.....	2
Jessore	9,997	1	.....	.....	2
North Bengal	*9,558*	*160*	*75*	*202*	*5*
Rajshahi	9,917	44	37	.....	2
Dinajpur	9,527	441	30	1	1
Jalpaiguri	8,465	363	684	478	10
Darjeeling	4,634	238	309	4,839	80
Rangpur	9,967	26	3	1	3
Bogra	9,938	54	6	1	1
Pabna	9,981	17	.....	.....	2
Malda	9,543	425	30	.....	2
Kuch Bihar	9,986	1	.....	10	3
Sikkim	2,730	.....	.....	7,268	2
East Bengal	*9,852*	*1*	.....	*146*	*1*
Khulna	9,995	4	.....	.....	1
Dacca	9,956	1	.....	41	2
Mymensingh	9,911	.....	.....	88	1
Faridpur	9,998	.....	.....	.....	2
Backergunge	9,967	.....	.....	32	1
Tippera	9,992	.....	.....	7	1
Noakhali	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....
Chittagong	9,840	3	2	152	3
Chittagong Hill Tracts	4,139	7	.....	5,854	.....
Hill Tippera	4,207	16	.....	5,770	7
North Bihar	*9,977*		*4*	.....	*2*
Saran	9,999	.....	.....	.....	1
Champaran	9,996	.....	.....	1	3
Muzaffarpur	9,998	.....	.....	.....	2
Darbhanga	9,998	.....	.....	.....	2
Bhagalpur	9,895	87	16	.....	2
Purnea	9,957	29	12	.....	2
South Bihar	*9,978*	*16*	*1*	.....	*5*
Patna	9,986	.....	.....	.....	14
Gaya	9,999	.....	.....	.....	1
Shahabad	9,993	.....	5	.....	2
Monghyr	9,934	61	.....	.....	5
Orissa	*9,946*	*23*	*29*	.....	*2*
Cuttack	9,965	.....	32	.....	3
Balasore	9,899	89	10	.....	2
Puri	9,957	.....	41	.....	2
Chota Nagpur Plateau ...	*7,215*	*2,197*	*586*	.....	*2*
Hazaribagh	9,216	766	25	.....	3
Ranchi	4,376	2,972	2,650	.....	2
Palamau	9,379	271	349	.....	1
Manbhum	8,509	1,485	3	.....	3
Singhbhum	3,820	6,058	116	.....	6
Sonthal Parganas	5,959	3,699	338	1	3
Angul	7,792	36	2,171	.....	1
Chota Nagpur Tributary States ...	7,814	1,128	1,058	.....	.....
Orissa Tributary States ...	8,054	1,837	109	.....	.....

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. III—Showing the distribution amongst Bengali, Hindi, Oriya and other languages of 10,000 persons in each district.

District.	Bengali.	Hindi.	Oriya.	Other languages.
1	2	3	4	5
PROVINCE	5,279	3,412	790	519
West Bengal	***8,778***	***394***	***343***	***485***
Burdwan	9,198	478	5	319
Birbhum	9,144	255	1	600
Bankura	9,067	36	2	895
Midnapore	8,045	344	970	641
Hooghly	9,445	409	29	117
Howrah	8,838	1,005	98	59
Central Bengal	***9,074***	***766***	***67***	***93***
24-Parganas	9,154	672	94	80
Calcutta	5,131	4,047	361	461
Nadia	9,919	74	2	5
Murshidabad	9,178	705	4	113
Jessore	9,973	22	2	3
North Bengal	***9,047***	***432***	***3***	***518***
Rajshahi	9,772	141	3	84
Dinajpur	9,213	313	1	473
Jalpaiguri	7,672	616	25	1,687
Darjeeling	1,799	893	1	7,307
Rangpur	9,704	258	2	36
Bogra	9,794	142	1	63
Pabna	9,866	123	2	19
Malda	7,408	2,134	1	457
Kuch Bihar	9,663	307	2	28
Sikkim	.....	36	.....	9,964
East Bengal	***9,768***	***82***	***1***	***149***
Khulna	9,954	38	3	5
Dacca	9,805	150	1	44
Mymensingh	9,749	162	1	88
Faridpur	9,940	56	2	2
Backergunge	9,947	18	2	33
Tippera	9 951	38	... ...	8
Noakhali	9.995	5	.....	.....
Chittagong	9,809	30	.....	161
Chittagong Hill Tracts	4,121	3	1	5,875
Hill Tippera	4,019	155	28	5,798
North Bihar	***72***	***9,895***	.....	***33***
Saran	3	9,996	.....	1
Champaran	5	9,947	.....	48
Muzaffarpur	4	9,993	... ...	3
Darbhanga	5	9,991	... ...	4
Bhagalpur	18	9,861	.....	121
Purnea	490	9,460	1	49
South Bihar	***6***	***9,968***	.....	***26***
Patna	7	9,975	.....	18
Gaya	6	9,990	.....	4
Shahabad	6	9,986	.....	8
Monghyr	8	9,923	.....	69
Orissa	***98***	***287***	***9,558***	***57***
Cuttack	65	291	9,607	37
Balasore	160	293	9,442	105
Puri	103	272	9,581	44
Chota Nagpur Plateau	***1,435***	***3,853***	***1,923***	***2,789***
Hazaribagh	57	9,153	1	789
Ranchi	95	4,249	30	5,626
Palamau	2	9,375	.....	623
Manbhum	7,243	1,251	8	1,498
Singhbhum	1,753	428	1,632	6,187
Sonthal Parganas	1,350	4,606	.....	4,044
Angul	4	48	7,740	2,208
Chota Nagpur Tributary States ...	347	5,985	1,477	2,191
Orissa Tributary States	343	47	7,665	1,946

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. IV—SHOWING THE DISTRIBUTION BY RESIDENCE OF 10,000 PERSONS SPEAKING EACH LANGUAGE.

Languages of India.	West Bengal.	Central Bengal.	North Bengal.	East Bengal.	North Bihar.	South Bihar.	Orissa.	Chota Nagpur plateau.	Remarks.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10
A. ARYAN FAMILY	*1,033*	*1,029*	*1,283*	*2,242*	*1,852*	*1,033*	*554*	*954*	
Bengali	1,746	1,625	2,185	3,998	24	1	10	341	
Hindi	121	221	161	82	5,111	2,872	44	1,418	
Oriya	456	83	6	4	.....	.....	6,307	3,054	
Khas	7	33	8,943	18	988	3	.....	9	Spoken by Immigrants.
Assamese	48	233	8,070	1,591	58	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Marwari	354	151	1,196	55	4,557	1,813	301	1,974	Ditto.
Panjabi	1,947	2,830	2,171	386	1,184	1,066	66	390	
Gujarati	1,703	4,872	144	131	295	279	1,175	1,401	Includes Siyalgir.
Marathi	4,690	552	83	95	75	1,825	927	2,351	Spoken by Immigrants.
Goanese	526	5,140	316	421	.....	.....	527	.....	Ditto.
Singhalese	.....	9,991	.....	455	.....	.....	454	.....	Ditto.
Kachchhi	.....	.....	.....	548	.....	.....	6,082	1,370	Ditto.
Kashmiri	.....	.....	3,333	909	4,546	1,212	.....	.....	Ditto.
Sindhi	.....	.....	5,625	.....	.....	2,750	.....	625	
Gipsy dialects	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1,507	.....	8,493	
B. MUNDA FAMILY	*1,386*	*84*	*577*	*6*	*85*	*45*	*34*	*7,783*	
Agaria	.....	.....	31	.....	.....	.....	.....	9,969	Palamau and Ranchi.
Asur	.....	.....	1,769	.....	.....	.....	.....	8,231	Ranchi.
Birjia	.....	.....	58	.....	.....	.....	.....	9,942	Palamau.
Juáng	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2	9,998	Orissa Tributary States.
Kharia	45	.....	520	.....	.....	.....	.....	9,435	Ranchi and Chota Nagpur Tributary States.
Mundári	53	118	596	19	22	.....	.....	9,186	Ranchi.
Bhumij	2,093	87	19	.....	.....	.....	32	7,769	Orissa States, Singhbhum and Midnapore.
Turia	118	1,484	4,845	.....	.....	.....	.....	3,553	Chota Nagpur States, Bogra, Jalpaiguri.
Ho	9	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	7	9,984	Singhbhum.
Birhor	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	10,000	Hazaribagh, Singhbhum and Ranchi.
Korá	6,569	212	91	9	.....	.....	297	2,822	Birbhum and Burdwan.
Korwá	.....	31	61	.....	.....	.....	.....	9,908	Chota Nagpur States and Palamau.
Singli (Erngs)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	10,000	Ditto ditto.
Santáli	1,976	95	728	4	133	72	48	6,945	Sonthal Parganas.
Karmáli	356	.....	1,199	.....	.....	48	.....	8,397	Ditto.
Mahli	1,161	196	903	.....	.....	.....	.....	7,650	Ditto.
C. DRAVIDIAN FAMILY	*75*	*106*	*1,104*	*5*	*89*	*15*	*175*	*8,438*	
Oráon	76	73	1,871	.....	96	18	.....	8,366	Ranchi.
Málto	6	.....	153	.....	56	.....	.....	9,786	Sonthal Parganas.
Gondi and Kisán	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	9	9,991	Chota Nagpur Tributary States.
Kandh	.....	.....	5	.....	.....	.....	2	9,993	Angul.
Malhar	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	10,000	Orissa Tributary States.
Telugu	438	885	19	179	1	23	6,158	2,297	Cuttack and Puri.
Tamil	638	6,992	61	57	40	48	1,724	440	Spoken by Immigrants.
Canarese	.....	3,371	.....	5,000	.....	.....	1,429	.....	Ditto.
Malayalam	.....	9,551	.....	.....	.....	.....	149	.....	Ditto.
D. TIBETO-BURMAN FAMILY	.....	*8*	*4,488*	*5,493*	*8*	.....	.....	*3*	
Tibetan	.....	83	9,891	.....	226	.....	.....	.....	Spoken by Immigrants.
Sikkim Bhotia	.....	1	9,998	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	
Bhutanese Bhotia	.....	4	9,994	1	5	.....	.....	3	Spoken by Immigrants.
Sharpa Bhotia	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Toto	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Only in Jalpaiguri.
Limbu	.....	.....	9,985	.....	15	.....	.....	.....	
Lepcha	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	
Dhimal	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Only in Darjeeling.
Murmi	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Spoken by Immigrants.
Gurung	.....	.....	9,993	7	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Mangar	.....	.....	9,857	15	138	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Khambu	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Newár	.....	.....	9,977	20	.....	.....	.....	3	Ditto.
Thami	.....	.....	9,807	193	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Yáthá	16	.....	9,984	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Manjhi	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Háyu	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Sunwar	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Mech	.....	.....	9,952	.....	.....	.....	.....	48	Ditto.
Kachári	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Chiefly in Mymensingh.
Garo	.....	.....	1,956	8,044	.....	.....	.....	.....	Do. Hill Tippera and Chittagong Hills.
Tipárá	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Dacca.
Koch	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Hill Tippera.
Kuki	.....	56	.....	9,944	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Hallám	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Manipuri	.....	4	2	9,993	.....	.....	.....	1	Chittagong Hill Tracts.
Banjogi	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Pankhu	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Khyang	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Khasi	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Hill Tippera.
Lushei	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	Spoken by Immigrants.
Burmese	107	6,139	354	1,006	942	192	86	514	Chittagong Hill Tracts.
Arakanese	.....	2	5	9,993	.....	.....	.....	.....	Ditto.
Mru	.....	.....	.....	10,000	.....	.....	.....	.....	

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. V.—COMPARING THE STATISTICS IN THE CASTE AND

LANGUAGES.	WEST BENGAL.		CENTRAL BENGAL.		NORTH BENGAL.		EAST BENGAL.	
	X.	XIII.	X.	XIII.	X	XIII.	X.	XIII.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
MUNDA FAMILY ...	***385,571***	***486,026***	***23,441***	***45,852***	***160,355***	***217,098***	***1,510***	***6,103***
Agaria	.....	24	.....	.....	1	54	.....	.....
Asur	.....	.....	.....	.....	553	638	.....	.....
Birjia	.....	.....	.....	6	8	157	.....	.....
Juáng	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	7
Kharia	359	10,028	.....	637	4,129	4,858	.....	28
Mundári	2,309	†8,329	4,766	11,145	24,037	32,456	735	3,483
Bhumij	23,279	66,386	963	12,484	213	4,903	.....	270
Turia	38	244	478	1,533	1,560	8,584	.....	558
Ho	334	478	.....	255	.....	2	.....	10
Birhor	.....	23	.....	1	.....	4	.....	.....
Korá	15,651	39,851	595	3,775	219	5,615	22	111
Korwa	.....	765	49	49	97	194	.....	.....
* Singli (Erega)	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....
Santáli	340,688	†358,685	16,317	15,414	125,595	154,413	733	996
Kármáli	670	.....	.....	.....	2,079	.....	.....	.....
Mahli	2,183	5,214	369	557	1,866	5,036	.....	110
DRAVIDIAN FAMILY ...	***4,156***	***9,137***	***3,959***	***10,045***	***75,450***	***102,598***	.....	***599***
Oráon	4,117	8,253	3,959	9,970	74,407	99,612	.....	562
Málto	37	449	.....	30	926	350	.....	.....
Gondi	.....	320	.....	43	.....	151	.....	24
Kisán	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2,434	.....	.....
Kandh	2	108	.....	2	27	27	.....	13
Málhár	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	18	.....	.....
TIBETO-BURMAN FAMILY	***5***	***81***	***365***	***1,442***	***202,214***	***228,003***	***247,507***	***348,133***
Himalayan Group—								
Tibetan	.....	.....	15	.....	1,754	†1,789	.....	.....
Sikkim-Bhotia	.....	.....	1	.....	8,853	†8,863	.....	.....
Bhotanese-Bhotia ...	.....	.....	3	3	7,282	†9,372	1	5
Sharpa-Bhotia	.....	.....	.....	.....	4,407	†4,428	.....	.....
Toto	.....	.....	.....	.....	170	171	.....	.....
Sikkim Group—								
Limbu	.....	.....	.....	.....	21,992	†23,373	.....	2
Lepcha	.....	.....	.....	.....	19,271	†19,451	.....	.....
Dhimal	.....	.....	.....	.....	607	632	.....	.....
Nepal Group—								
Murmi	.....	.....	.....	6	32,062	†32,920	.....	4
Gurung	.....	.....	.....	20	6,138	†14,513	4	4
Mangar	.....	.....	.....	2	16,422	†18,149	25	34
Khambu	.....	.....	.....	1	43,330	†44,309	.....	.....
Newár	.....	.....	.....	2	7,474	†10,365	15	30
Thami	.....	.....	.....	.....	305	293	6	.....
Yakhá	.....	.....	.....	.....	1,251	2,376	.....	.....
Manjhi	.....	.....	.....	.....	902	2,027	.....	.....
Háyu	.....	.....	.....	.....	24	37	.....	.....
Sunwár	.....	.....	.....	.....	5,006	†5,221	.....	1
Bodo Group—								
Mech	.....	.....	.....	.....	21,070	24,460	.....	18
Kachári	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	234	858
Gáro	.....	.....	.....	6	3,816	4,366	32,339	34,732
Tipara	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	101,571	†101,508
Koch	.....	21	.....	9	.....	258	12,622	64,031
Kuki-Chin Group—								
Kuki	.....	.....	38	7	.....	.....	6,800	9,163
Hallám	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	3,678	2,215
Manipuri	.....	.....	6	.....	2	.....	13,433	12,902
Banjogi	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	560	696
Pankhu	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	113	144
Khyang	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	414	416
Khami	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1,469	1,469
Lushei	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	131	135
Burmese Group—								
Burmese	5	29	280	758	17	22	75	35
Arakanese	.....	31	13	628	29	58	63,547	100,180
Mru	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	10,484	10,551
KHASI	.....	.....	***11***	.....	.....	.....	***6***	***3***
Khási	.....	.....	11	.....	.....	.....	6	

* Singli has been included under

† The figures given for Table XIII include not only Hindus and Animists who are shown in the body of that Table, but also the Native Christians referred included is as follows :—

Asur in Chota Nagpur Plateau	31		Turi in Chota Nagpur Plateau	118
Kharia in Ditto	10,367		Ho in Ditto	991
Munda in West Bengal	36		Santal in West Bengal	792
Ditto North Bengal	33		Do in North Bengal	211
Ditto Chota Nagpur Plateau	56,447		Do in Orissa	8
Total	66,515		Do in Chota Nagpur Plateau	7,920
			Total	8,931

LANGUAGE TABLES (TABLES X AND XIII) FOR TRIBES SPEAKING DIALECTS OF THEIR OWN.

NORTH BIHAR.		SOUTH BIHAR.		ORISSA.		CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.		BENGAL.	
X.	XIII.	X.	XIII.	X.	XIII.	X.	XIII.	X.	XIII.
10	11	12	13	14	15	16	17	18	19
23,635	***38,476***	***12,546***	***24,858***	***9,570***	***18,955***	***2,164,583***	***2,548,217***	***2,781,211***	***3,383,385***
.....	.....	.....	151	.....	.....	222	12,988	323	13,217
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2,574	†2,875	3,126	†3,613
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	1,309	9,723	1,377	9,887
.....	.....	.....	.....	2	3	10,706	11,159	10,798	11,169
.....	143	.....	.....	.....	144	74,896	†99,281	79,383	†115,119
905	2,991	2	188	.....	29	370,555	†383,413	403,253	†438,143
.....	.....	.....	1	356	7,617	86,399	296,086	111,210	328,445
.....	33	.....	1,624	.....	.....	1,144	†36,990	3,220	†40,560
.....	.....	.....	.....	244	773	367,035	†384,405	367,613	†385,925
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2	226	1,804	539	1,833
.....	1,191	.....	3,105	707	1,070	6,724	33,047	23,827	87,763
.....	318	.....	2	.....	301	15,736	38,971	15,882	40,690
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	173	175	173	175
22,730	33,536	12,401	10,781	8,261	†8,919	1,197,442	†1,247,420	1,724,227	†1,330,074
.....	.....	83	.....	.....	.....	14,510	.....	17,542	.....
.....	264	.....	2	.....	11	14,383	48,990	18,801	61,074
5,572	***18,573***	***969***	***1,851***	***27***	***3,597***	***572,564***	***914,839***	***662,697***	***1,061,239***
5,234	18,567	969	1,833	12	396	454,717	†513,173	543,505	†651,286
338	.....	.....	18	.....	1	59,476	47,423	60,777	48,281
.....	.....	.....	.....	2	105	238	201,647	240	202,393
.....	6	.....	.....	.....	1	2,055	30,137	2,055	32,574
.....	.....	.....	.....	13	3,180	55,613	121,011	55,655	124,328
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	465	1,448	465	1,467
349	***7,936***	***10***	***9***	***4***	***17***	***137***	***184***	***450,591***	***585,805***
41	40	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1,810	†1,838
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	.....	8,925	†8,963
6	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2	.....	7,394	9,380
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	4,407	†4,428
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	170	171
43	76	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	25	22,035	†23,376
1	1	1	1	.....	.....	1	.....	19,274	†19,453
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	607	632
.....	17	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	32,062	†32,947
.....	78	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	6,142	†14,615
214	901	.....	.....	.....	1	.....	3	16,661	†19,100
.....	381	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	43,230	†45,191
.....	382	.....	.....	.....	2	2	2	7,491	†10,853
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	311	293
.....	1	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1,251	2,377
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	902	2,027
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	9	.....	.....	34	46
.....	43	.....	.....	.....	4	.....	.....	5,006	†5,269
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	105	133	21,175	24,551
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	234	858
.....	2	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	36,145	†39,106
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	101,571	101,568
.....	6,050	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	6	12,023	70,375
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	6,858	9,170
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2,672	2,215
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2	.....	13,445	12,902
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	560	696
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	113	144
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	414	416
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1,429	1,462
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	131	136
44	5	9	8	4	 1	24	15	467	872
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	63,589	109,898
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	10,484	10,551
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	***17***	***3***
.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	17	3

the head "Kharia" in Table XIII.

to in the 'Remarks' column of that Table who have retained the memory of their origin and returned themselves as Munda, Oraon, &c. The number thus

Oraon	in West Bengal	...	...	...	...	72	Limbu	in North Bengal	 86
,,	North Bengal	...	...	...	...	110	Lepcha	ditto	 1,417
,,	Chota Nagpur Plateau			...	...	61,477	Murmi	ditto	 133
			Total		...	61,659	Gurung	ditto	 87
							Mangar	ditto	 34
Tibetan	in North Bengal			...	...	9	Khambu	ditto	 209
Sikkim-Bhotia	ditto			...	...	44	Newár	ditto	 78
Bhotanese-Bhotia	ditto			...	...	2	Sunwár	ditto	 61
Sharpa-Bhotia	ditto			...	...	5	Garo	ditto	 969

SUBSIDIARY TABLE No. VI—Showing the number of books published in each language, 1891-1900.

Language.	1891.	1892.	1893.	1894.	1895.	1896.	1897.	1898.	1899.	1900.	Total.
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
ENGLISH	304	202	282	227	345	263	230	207	234	286	2,380
BENGALI	734	548	714	612	951	732	784	662	642	910	7,329
Bengali and Sanskrit	151	170	124	76	146	119	93	86	72	103	1,134
Bengali and English	88	49	55	80	78	83	48	40	60	62	643
Bengali, Sanskrit and English	19	23	21	9	36	18	6	11	11	5	159
Bengali and other languages	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	66
TOTAL BENGALI	1,012	790	914	771	1,211	972	931	799	783	1,080	9,331
MUSALMANI BENGALI	6	19	23	24	46	30	22	19	17	49	248
Musalmani and Arabic	.....	.....	.....	.....	5	10	2	3	3	5	32
Musalmani, Bengali and Persian	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	2	.....	.....	.....	2	5
Musalmani, Persian and Urdu	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1
TOTAL MUSALMANI BENGALI	6	19	23	24	53	42	24	22	20	56	286
ORIYA	31	45	98	113	110	156	180	161	148	148	1,190
Oriya and Sanskrit	4	4	3	.....	6	12	17	14	28	18	112
Oriya and English	1	2	.....	3	5	2	1	1	2	2	19
Oriya, Sanskrit and English	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	1	.....	2
TOTAL ORIYA	36	51	101	122	121	170	198	177	179	168	1,323
HINDI	64	71	100	76	88	106	92	52	87	81	817
Hindi and Sanskrit	7	2	9	8	13	4	4	12	6	10	75
Hindi and English	6	3	4	1	4	3	2	6	3	8	42
Hindi, English and Urdu	1	1	.....	.....	2	2	2	....	3	1	12
Hindi and other languages	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	22
TOTAL HINDI	78	79	113	85	107	115	100	70	99	100	968
URDU	18	14	14	20	22	13	24	19	24	14	182
Urdu and English	2	3	2	5	6	3	.....	3	1	4	29
Urdu and Arabic	2	4	.....	2	2	2	1	5	4	3	25
Urdu and Persian	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	3	1	.....	3	2	10
Urdu and other languages	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	12
TOTAL URDU	22	21	16	27	31	21	26	27	32	23	258
SANSKRIT	123	60	51	50	44	54	50	48	89	99	668
Sanskrit and English	12	5	9	2	9	9	3	2	4	3	63
Prakrit and Sanskrit	.....	.....	.....	1	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	2	3
Pali and Sanskrit	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	1	1	.....	.....	.....	2
TOTAL SANSKRIT	135	65	60	53	53	64	54	50	93	109	736
OTHERS	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	.....	361

Chapter XI.

CASTE.

CLASSIFICATION OF CASTE ENTRIES.

MR. RISLEY'S WORK ON BENGAL CASTES.

547. THE preparation of the caste table was, next to that of occupations, the most difficult task in the whole course of the Census operations. It was not only that the number of castes in a huge Province like Bengal, containing several sub-provinces with entirely different caste-systems, is very great, but also that the more ignorant classes have very little idea as to what caste means and are prone to return either their occupation, or their sub-caste, or their clan, or else some title by which they are known to their fellow-villagers. The class from which the Census enumerators were necessarily drawn, moreover, is usually ignorant of all but the castes commonly met with locally, and the latter were therefore unable to correct the errors which the persons enumerated by them might commit. As a result of this the caste return for Bengal in 1891 was very incomplete, and out of about forty seven million Hindus and Animists, more than $2\frac{1}{4}$ millions were shown in the caste table under names indicating title, occupation, locality, etc., and not under their true castes. The return of the functional groups of Muhammadans was even more incomplete. In the Dacca district, for instance, not a single Khulu was shown in the final tables. Similar difficulties had been experienced on previous occasions also, and it was partly with a view to clear up the numerous doubts and ambiguities with which the whole question of caste was surrounded that the enquiries were set on foot, under Mr. Risley's guidance, which culminated with the publication in 1891 of the two volumes entitled—"The Tribes and Castes of Bengal." This treatise embodies the results of the most systematic and complete enquiry that has yet been made into the caste system of any part of India. It gives a full account of the castes shown in the records of previous enumerations and an explanation of the meaning of numerous terms used to indicate sub-caste, section, title, etc. A flood of light has thus been thrown on a subject which was previously very obscure.

THE CASTE INDEX.

548. It was of course impossible to supply Census officers with copies of this book, nor would they have been able to spare the time to study it. For Census purposes something much shorter and more compendious was needed, and I therefore prepared a small caste index in two parts. In the first part was given a list of all the castes and tribes mentioned by Mr. Risley with very brief notes as to the locality where found, the religion professed, the occupation usually followed and, in the case of tribes, the language commonly spoken. The second part contained all the more important terms, other than the names of true castes, which were found in the returns of the Census of 1891, with short notes, taken mainly from Mr. Risley's book, as to the meaning of each term and the castes who generally used it. These lists were subjected to a careful local scrutiny and verification, and this led to a vast amount of correspondence with district officers. After revision in the light of these enquiries* the Index was published as an Appendix to the Census Code and was freely circulated to all Census officers of the higher grades,† who were thus enabled to verify the entries in the caste column of the enumeration schedules and to advise the supervisors and enumerators whenever difficulties were met with.

* The additions that were made were chiefly in respect of Orissa castes and functional groups of Muhammadans. Part A of the Index as corrected with reference to further enquiries after the Census will be found in Appendix VI.

† Brief as it was, it still ran to thirteen pages of print, and it was therefore not given to the enumerators or their immediate superiors, the supervisors.

549. This index was found of the greatest possible use, and a very large proportion of the incorrect entries made by the enumerators were eliminated before the Census was taken. But even so a great number remained. Some of these were capable of correction with reference to Mr. Risley's book. But there were many terms which could not be so corrected, either because they were common to more than one caste, or because they were not mentioned in that book. In each case the schedules were first referred to, and it was often found that the difficulty had arisen owing to a misreading of the original entry. Ahda Kuria for example was thus found to stand for Awadhia Kurmi. Where the reference to the schedules did not clear up the difficulty and the number of persons concerned was considerable, a list of some of them was sent to the District Magistrate for local enquiry, and the entries were classified in accordance with the information thus obtained. The time at our disposal was limited, and it was impossible to make these elaborate enquiries in every single case. When, therefore, the number of persons affected was small the classification was made, as best one could, on such information as was available, and with special reference to the birth-place, parent tongue and occupation of the person concerned. In each case the classification proposed was examined by me personally before it was finally passed.

CLASSIFICATION OF DOUBTFUL ENTRIES.

These were not our only difficulties. Caste names are often spelt so similarly that it is almost impossible to distinguish between them. In Bhagalpur it was found impossible to separate Agarwáni and Agarwál,* and in the Sonthal Parganas the carpenter caste Bárhi was often spelt the same way as Bárai, the betel-vine grower.† In East Bengal a sub-caste of Chandáls, who are carpenters and are known as Barai, was similarly liable to be confused with the betel-vine growing caste. Khatri and Khetauri were very hard to separate in Bihar; while in Eastern Bengal Khatri and Chatri were found to be used almost indiscriminately, and it was impossible to be certain which caste was meant. In Bihar, the Nuniyá caste of saltpetre workers was almost inextricably mixed up with Noniár, a synonym for the Baniyá caste Rauniár.‡ As far as possible these entries were separated with reference to the occupation, but it is imposible to say that there has been no confusion in these and similar cases. All that can be said is that we did the best we could. The ambiguity was almost greater in respect of the return for Chota Nagpur. Rajwár is a distinct caste and also a synonym for Bhuiyá. Kherwar is the name not only of a true caste, but also of a section of Santáls and of a sept of Mundas. Khaira is the name of a separate tribe and also a synonym for Kora. Kisán is a synonym for Nagesia and a title of Oráons, and so on. Sometimes a word means one thing in one place and another thing in another. Mánjhi, for example, means a Santál in some districts and a Bágdi in others; elsewhere again it stands for any boatman, while in Nepal it is the name of what is there regarded as a true caste.§ Dulia usually stands for a palki-bearer, for choice a Bágdi; but in Malda it was found on reference to the Magistrate that 1,026 persons so returned were Tirhutia Tántis.‖ It is impossible in this report to detail all our difficulties or to explain the classification made in each case. I have given in the remarks column of Table XIII as full details as space would allow of the main items included under each head, and have left on record for the use of the next Census Superintendent an alphabetical list of about 6,000 doubtful entries, with notes as to the number of persons returned under each and the manner in which they were classified. The entries in this list are far from including all cases of classification, as many were dealt with on

* I had a number of slips sent to me for personal examination, but found it impossible in many cases to say which caste was meant. Judging from the occupations, however, most of the slips seemed to refer to Agarwál. There were 117 bankers and money-lenders, 91 piece-goods dealers, 6 other traders, 25 salesmen and shop servants, 15 cultivators and 11 persons of other occupations.

† The latter is supposed to be spelt with a soft and the former with a hard "r" but in practice the hard "r" is often used for both alike.

‡ Some times the addition of Beldár in the case of Nuniyás and of Baniyá in the case of Noniárs made it practicable to distinguish the two castes, but there were many slips where no clue could be obtained.

§ In Jalpaiguri, where there is large immigrant population, a careful examination of slips indicated that about two-thirds of the persons returned as Mánjhi belonged to the Nepal caste, that half the remainder were Santáls, and that the rest consisted of Beldárs, Musahars and Malláhs in about equal proportions. The slips were distributed accordingly.

‖ The occupations recorded on the slips were weaving, dealing in country cloth and playing on musical instruments.

the occasion of my visits to the different Census offices, or in the course of correspondence, and in the general stress of work many of these orders have been lost sight of. At the same time it is hoped that the volume above referred to, with the notes in Table XIII, will suffice to afford a fairly full record of our procedure, and to show at the next Census how far any variations that may then be noticed are attributable to differences of classification.*

As a result of these enquiries and of the classification, as far as possible, of all doubtful entries under the caste to which they appeared to belong, the number of entries in Table XIII of items that do not indicate true castes has been reduced to a minimum. In some cases, however, it was very difficult to say whether a particular name was that of a caste or a sub-caste. Where the probabilities seemed in favour of its being a true caste it was usually shown separately: in other cases I combined it with the caste to which it seemed to appertain, and noted the details of the figures so amalgamated in the column of remarks. The question as to what constitutes a separate caste is, however, a very difficult one, and as it was constantly cropping up in the course of the preparation of the caste-table it seems desirable to consider the matter in some detail.

DEFINITION AND ORIGIN OF CASTE.

550. There is perhaps no subject of equal prominence regarding which there is so much uncertainty in the popular mind as that of caste. It is generally thought that a caste is a group having common origin, a common organisation, and a common occupation, and that its members eat and drink together and intermarry. It is thought that the institution is fixed and permanent, that it owes its origin to the Bráhmans, and that one of the main features of Buddhism was its opposition to the caste system. Not one of these propositions is generally applicable. I propose, therefore, to examine them briefly, with special reference to the actual state of affairs in Bengal.

POPULAR IDEA OF CASTE.

551. And first as to origin. It is well known that the Bráhmans of Southern India are not pure Aryans,† and the same is the case with the Káma and Mástán Bráhmans of Orissa.‡ The last mentioned rank almost as low as Chásás, and some measurements recently made of their heads clearly proclaim a large admixture of Dravidian blood. The Gayáwáls also are of very doubtful origin.§ The Sákadvipi Bráhmans have recently been identified with the priesthood of the early Persian invaders of India.‖ The Manipuri Bráhmans are well known to be the offspring of Bráhmans by Manipuri women. The so-called Barna or caste Bráhmans, who minister to the lower castes and frequently intermarry with them, are often merely members of the caste who have gradually assumed the designation of the priestly caste of the Hindus, and according to Mr. Nesfield the Ojhá or Tántrik Bráhmans are, to a large extent, descended from aboriginal priests.¶ That ingenious writer, indeed, goes even further, and gives reasons for supposing that descendants of Mális, fishing Gonds, Bhuiyás and Báris may all be found amongst persons whose claims to Bráhmanical rank are now undisputed.**

QUESTION OF COMMON ORIGIN.

The heterogeneous origin of the Rájputs is even more certain. In the times of native rule any family that enjoyed political power was allowed to rank as Rájput and, as stated by Mr. Nesfield, the caste is simply "a congeries of men, of any tribe whatever, who were able at various times to seize lands and keep them, and who by intermarriages and alliances with others of their own status,

* The absence of any such record for 1891 makes it often very difficult to say what are the causes for the difference between the results of that and of the present Census in the case of certain castes. Thus Chásádhoba in Jessore shows a great increase compared with 1891. I conjecture that it is due to Haladhar, which I have treated as a synonym for this caste, having then been classed as Kaibartta; but the want of any notes on the classification then made makes it very difficult to say if this is the correct explanation.

† Madras Census Report, 1891, page 260.

‡ Puri District Census Report, 1891, page 1, and Cuttack District Census Report, page 10.

§ Statistical Account of Gaya, page 35.

‖ Proceedings A. S. B. December 1901, page 75.

¶ Brief view of the Caste System of the North-Western Provinces and Oudh, page 63. The Rájbansis who act as priests of the Limbus, call themselves Báman and will doubtless in time be recognised as Barna Bráhmans.

** *Ib.* paragraphs 21, 33, 34, 48, etc.

built up by degrees a separate class or caste distinct from and above the rest of the community."* In the Punjab any family of political importance could gain Rájput rank,† and in this Province there are numerous similar instances. "In Chota Nagpur," for example says Mr. Risley, "the methods by which many of the chief landholding families have transformed themselves into Rájputs may be traced beyond question at the present day."‡ The Khetauris, or aristocratic section of the Malé, claim to be Rájputs and so also do the Nágbansi Mundas, the Rájás of Pachet§ and other Bhumij zamindars of Manbhum and the Ghátwáls of Bhuiyá origin in Gaya. In the Orissa States all relatives of the Rájás, illegitimate as well as legitimate, are ranked as Rájputs.

Speaking of the Goálá caste Mr. Risley says that it "seems to have been recruited, not merely by the diffusion along the Ganges Valley of the semi-Aryan Goálás of the United Provinces, but also by the inclusion in the caste of pastoral tribes, who were not Aryans at all."‖ Similarly the Lohárs "are a large and heterogeneous aggregate, comprising members of several different tribes and castes, who in different parts of the country took up the profession of working in iron."¶ Again "the structure of the large and heterogeneous aggregate known as the Tánti caste suggests, not that all Tántis derive their origin from a distinct tribe devoted to the weaving trade, but that separate weaving castes were formed in different parts of the country out of the materials which were at hand in each case."** The structure of the Sunri caste affords "some ground for believing that it probably comprises several independent groups."†† The Khandáits of Orissa are descended from the old militia, and must originally have been recruited from men of a number of different castes.‡‡ According to Mr. Risley they are mostly Bhuiyás,§§ but the word Bhuiyá itself is a Sanskrit derivative, and we should hesitate before we "accept the conclusion that all tribes which bear the name at the present day are sprung from a common stock."‖‖ The Chásá caste of Orissa has notoriously been derived from numerous sources, and the application of the term is so wide that at the Census even the aboriginal Kurmis and Savars of Angul endeavoured so to return themselves. The above remarks are applicable to many other castes also including Bárui, Teli, Bárhi etc.¶¶ The so called Mánjhi caste of Nepal consists of two tribes, Kuswár and Botia, who have been dubbed Mánjhi by the Gorkhas by reason of their occupation.

It is not intended to assert that in no case is a caste a homogeneous entity. Far from it. There may be, and probably are, castes which are derived almost in their entirety from the same parent stock. What it is desired to lay stress on is that a common origin is by no means a necessary condition of caste membership, and it is hoped that this has been made abundantly clear.

552. In theory each caste has a distinctive occupation, but it does not follow that this traditional occupation is practised by its members. This subject will be dealt with in greater detail in connection with the statistics of occupation by caste, and will be only briefly referred to here. The

OCCUPATION NOT NECESSARILY UNIFORM.

* *Ib.* paragraph 38. The permanence of the promotion in the hierarchy of caste depended a great deal on two factors:—(1) The period for which the family or tribe was dominant, and (2) the extent to which they gave up non-Aryan practices before their political downfall. There are many race castes whose claims to Kshattriya rank are no longer admitted, because they never abandoned their 'impure' practices. These were condoned so long as they were powerful, but as soon as they were no longer of political importance these practices were held to be degrading.

† Punjab Census Report 1881, page 175.

‡ Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Volume II, page 185. In the United Provinces also many Rájput septs are closely connected with the aboriginal tribes, and girls of low caste are often taken by them as wives. (Crooke's Tribes and Castes of the North-Western Provinces, Volume IV, page 219.)

§ Some Historical and Ethnical Aspects of the Burdwan District, by Mr. W. B. Oldham, C.I.E., pages 68 and 9, and Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Volume I, page 127.

‖ Tribes and Castes, Volume I, page 282. The mixed origin of the Gaura caste of Orissa is even more apparent.

¶ *Ib.* II, page 22. The Kol Lohárs of Chota Nagpur are obviously aborigines, and many of them have not even abandoned their old non-Aryan languages.

** Tribes and Castes, I, 348.

†† *Ib.* II, 276.

‡‡ Cuttack Census Report 1891, page 8.

§§ Tribes and Castes I, 461.

‖‖ *Ib.* Volume I, page 109.

¶¶ For Bárhi see Tribes and Castes Volume I, page 108, for Teli Volume II, page 806.

traditional profession of the Bráhmans is the priesthood, but in practice they follow all manner of pursuits. Many are clerks or cooks, while some are soldiers, lawyers, shop-keepers and even day-labourers, but they remain Bráhmans all the same. The Chamárs of Bihar are workers in skin, but in Orissa they are toddy-drawers.* In Orissa and the south of Gaya the Dhobá is often a hewer and splitter of wood. In Bengal and Bihar the Dom is a scavenger or basket maker, but in the Orissa States he is a drummer or basket maker and has nothing to do with the removal of nightsoil: in Chittagong and Assam he is a fisherman, in Cashmere a cultivator and in Kumaon a stone mason. The Hári of Bengal is a scavenger, but in the Brahmaputra Valley he is a goldsmith. The Pods and Kaibarttas are each divided into fishing and cultivating sub-castes. The Tántis have taken largely to agriculture, but they are none the less Tántis.†

ENDOGAMY AND COMMENSALITY.

553. As regards endogamy and commensality there is scarcely a single caste in Bengal whose members as a whole will intermarry and eat together. Almost every caste is divided into a number of smaller groups who will only marry amongst themselves, and who will on no account give brides to or take them from other groups. Usually these groups will not eat together, and often they will not even take water from each other or smoke from the same *hukka*. The Bráhmans, for example, are divided into numerous groups amongst whom intermarriage is rigorously prohibited on pain of degradation, and who will not eat cooked rice together. Some of the groups are looked upon as degraded, and with these the others disdain to associate in any way whatever. These endogamous groups are generally known as sub-castes. Each sub-caste manages its own affairs quite independently of the others, and in the case of the lower castes each has its own separate *panchâyat*, or standing committee, by which all social questions are decided.

SUPPOSED FIXITY OF CASTE.

554. The idea that the limits of caste are absolutely rigid and permanent is equally devoid of foundation. In early times, as is well known, the intermarriage of Bráhmans with other castes was allowed, and the sage Vasishta married a woman, "of the lowest birth."‡ The only restriction enjoined was that a man's first wife should belong to his own caste, and this rule is still followed in Nepal. To the present day Rájputs are comparatively unfettered in their matrimonial arrangements, and will give their daughters to men of lower origin who have attained a high position, and can afford to pay for the privilege.§ The rule of endogamy is far stricter now than it was formerly, but we still see cases where much mixture is going on. East of the Brahmaputra the Káyasths and Baidyas intermarry‖, and in Orissa a Chásá can become a Khandáit and a Khandáit a Karan, provided that he is sufficiently influential and wealthy. There is a well-known family in Cuttack who are now recognised as, and intermarry with, Karans who were Chásás less than a quarter of a century ago.¶ This is a case of exceptionally rapid promotion, but intermarriage between adjoining grades of these three castes, for instance, between Karans and Mahánáik Khandáits, is quite common.** The Sudras of East Bengal, if well-to-do, can generally manage to obtain Káyasth brides and eventually to gain

* Possibly the Chamár of Orissa is ethnically distinct altogether. Babu Jamini Mohan Das thinks that he has got his name from the fact that he wears a piece of leather round his waist to protect his body from the rope he uses to assist him in climbing date trees. At the same time, even in Bengal, there are Chamárs who are toddy drawers, though this is not here the traditional occupation of the caste.

† I am referring here to occasional changes of occupation, or to occupations followed by individual members of a caste. It will be seen further on that when a group takes *en masse* to a new occupation, and abandons altogether that of the parent caste, it gradually loses connection with it and either becomes absorbed in the caste which ordinarily pursues the new avocation or obtains recognition as an entirely new caste. Whenever an occupation becomes permanent and hereditary it usually results in a change of the caste name.

‡ Brief View of the Caste System of the North-Western Provinces, p. 98. See also Les Castes dans l'Inde by M. Senart, page 139.

§ A prosperous Kumaon Dom can command a wife from the lower Rájput Khasiyas, and a successful Khasiya can buy a wife from a descendant of a family of pure plains pedigree. [Atkinson's Gazetteer of the Himalayan districts of the North-Western Provinces, Vol. XI, p. 441.]

‖ Chittagong District Census Report, 1891, page 49.

¶ Similarly, in Orissa low class Bráhmans can raise themselves to the higher ranks. A Bráhman family of Jhingarpur who were formerly Pándás are now allowed to intermarry with Sámanta Bráhmans.

** Cuttack District Census Report, 1891, page 8.

recognition as good Káyasths.* Báruis and even Maghs are also believed sometimes to become merged in the Káyasth caste. So also do well-to-do Karnis in Rangpur. In Buchanan Hamilton's time the Kalitás of Rangpur sometimes accepted Mech girls as their wives, and in his opinion the Bárendra Káyasths were originally Kalitás. Amongst the lower castes the practice of taking in outsiders is common. The Tántis admit women of other castes,† and the Muchis, Báruis, Bágdis, Korás, Dhobis and others will take in men of higher castes should they desire to obtain admittance.‡ The Chákmás also admit outsiders, and so do the Limbus and Meches:§ but here we are dealing with tribes rather than castes properly so-called. I am told that after the conquest of Nepal by the Gorkhas, the Khas wished the Sreshta, or warrior caste of the Newárs, to agree to intermarriage, *i.e.*, to become fused with them into one caste. The proposal was rejected, but the fact that it should have been made shows that caste is not looked upon by the people themselves as an absolutely stereotyped institution. Under native rule the Rájá often interfered in caste matters and a case has been reported from Talcher, where a former Rájá compelled his Chásá subjects to admit some Domul and Magadha Gauras to their community. Away from home low castes often assume the designation of high ones, and in Darjeeling many of the lowest classes of Newárs assert that they belong to the Sreshta caste.

555. The attitude of Buddhism towards caste is not a matter of much importance, so far as questions arising in connection with the Census are concerned, but it may be mentioned that caste as an institution was not attacked by the Buddhists and that their antagonism was directed, not against the general system, but against the supremacy of the Bráhmans and the theory that one caste had a better prospect than another of success in the next life. In the Madhura Sutta, for instance, Buddha's disciple Kachchána discusses caste. He mentions the four castes of Manu, but places the Kshattriya above the Bráhman. In the Ambattha Sutta, a Bráhman is made to admit that the offspring of a union between a Bráhman and a Kshattriya is a Bráhman and cannot be a Kshattriya, and also that an outcasted Kshattriya would be welcomed in the ranks of the Bráhmans‖ Buddha taught that caste need make no difference in success in life, nor in the attainment of bliss hereafter, nor in the liability of evil-doers to the punishment prescribed by law, nor in the respect due to those who lead a pious life. He never taught that there was no social distinction between one caste and another.

BUDDHISM AND THE CASTE SYSTEM.

556. What then is caste? It was defined by Mr. Nesfield as—

DEFINITION OF CASTE.

"A class of the community which disowns connection with any other class, and can neither intermarry nor eat and drink with any but persons of their own community,"¶

and by Mr. Baines as—

"the perpetuation of *status* or function by heredity and endogamy."**

The former definition, however, is applicable to the sub-caste almost as much as to the caste, while the latter is a description of the result of caste rather than a definition of what it is. The most recent as well as the most comprehensive definition with which I am acquainted is that given by Mr. Risley, in his draft Manual of Ethnography, where a caste is said to be—

"A collection of families or groups of families bearing a common name, which usually denotes or is associated with a specific occupation; claiming common descent from a mythical ancestor, human or divine; and professing to follow the same traditional calling. A caste is almost invariably endogamous, in the sense that a member of the large circle denoted by the common name may not marry outside that circle. But within that circle there are usually a number of smaller circles, each of which is also endogamous. Thus it is not enough

* Tribes and Castes, Vol. II, page 272.
† *Ib.*, Vol. II, page 298.
‡ *Ib.*, Vol. I, pages 40, 97, 235 and 508. Applicants for admission are usually persons who have been excommunicated by their original associates.
§ *Ib.*, Vol. II, pages 16, 11—87, I—170.
‖ Chalmers, J.R.A.S., 1894, page 341.
¶ Brief View of the Caste System of the North-Western Provinces and Oudh, paragraph 61.
** Census of India, 1891, page 182.

to say that a Bráhman at the present day cannot marry any woman who is not a Bráhman; his wife must not only be a Bráhman, she must also belong to the same endogamous division of the Bráhman caste."

It still remains to establish some criterion by which caste may be distinguished from sub-caste. The Sadgop, for instance, is a community that seems clearly descended from the Goálá. It is frequently looked upon as a sub-division of that caste, and a Sadgop can enter any other Goálá sub-caste by intermarriage. On the other hand they have abandoned the traditional occupation of the Goálás and have attained a higher status, so that Bráhmans will take water from their hands. The relation between the Chásá Dhobá and the common Dhobá is very similar to that between the Sadgop and the ordinary Goálá. Baniyá is a term applied to a number of trading groups of very different status and with different traditions of origin. Some, like the Agarwál, are allowed twice-born rank, while others like the Kalwár, are unclean, and water cannot be taken from their hands. In Bengal Proper the term Banik applies to five groups, Gandha Banik, Kansa Banik, Sankha Banik, Tantra Banik and Subarna Banik of which the first four are clean, and the fifth is looked on as degraded, owing to the enmity of Ballála Sena.

The descendants of various aboriginal tribes scattered throughout Bengal, who were originally imported by indigo planters, are known collectively as Buná. But amongst themselves they maintain their original tribal distinctions. Malláh, in the same way, is a generic name of several groups who live by boating and fishing, but who do not admit any connection with each other. Káorá is sometimes said to be a sub-caste of Dom and sometimes a sub-caste of Hári; it is also held by many to constitute a distinct caste. Let is often regarded as a sub-caste of Bágdi, but this is not admitted by the Lets themselves, and in the *Brahma Vaivartta Purán* they are given an independent origin. The Gonr and the Kándu both parch grain. Their rank is much the same, and in many ways they seem to be closely allied, but they do not themselves admit any connection. The Agradáni is by common consent a Bráhman, and yet not only will no pure Bráhman consort with him, but even the humbler clean castes would be defiled by drinking water brought by him. The Dálu, Hádi and Hájang of Mymensingh are clearly of Gáro origin, but they have become Hinduised, and no one would think of asserting that they are still Gáros. The Madhunápit is probably an offshoot from the Nápit, the Beruá from the Chandál, the Pátni from the Dom and the Puro from the Pod: but they all claim, and are generally accorded, the rank of independent castes. The Chási Kaibarttas vehemently deny all connection with the Jáliyás and claim to be a separate caste; yet the general opinion is that the two communities belong to one and the same caste. The Chanaur sub-caste of Kurmi are making equally strenuous efforts to establish their position as a separate independent caste, but hitherto without success.

557. What is the standard by which all these questions should be decided? It is clearly not the wishes of the people most concerned, or the Chási Kaibarttas would at once be separated from the Jáliyás, the Chanaurs from the main body of Kurmis and the cultivating Pods from those who live by fishing. Neither is it difference of status, or the Agradáni would no longer be classed as Bráhman. Nor is it a common name and occupation, or the words Baniyá and Malláh would be taken to stand for castes. Nor again does a common origin necessarily unite different groups into a common caste, or the Sadgop would be classed as a Goálá, the Dálu as a Gáro and the Chásá Dhobá as a Dhobá. No doubt all these factors affect the question: but in no case is their influence decisive, immediate and permanent. The real touchstone by which a decision is to be arrived at seems to be the general public opinion at the present time. Public opinion is no doubt liable to change, and when a sub-caste dissociates itself from the main body, either intentionally, as with the Chanaurs, or accidentally, by taking to a new occupation, as with the Beruás, it may gradually after a long series of years come to be looked on as a separate caste or, if the new occupation is that already practised by another caste, it may in time be treated as a sub-caste of that caste. There are numerous instances of this, but it will suffice to quote two, *viz.*, the Sukli Tánti and the Tánti Dhobá. This subject will be reverted to further on. It often happens

when different groups gradually converge, owing to similarity of occupation or general circumstances and social status, that in course of time they come to be regarded as forming branches of the same caste. The Let is now often held to be a Bágdi but, as noted above, he was formerly thought to be a quite distinct caste. Prior to the Gorkha conquest the Newárs, or old inhabitants of Nepal, were divided into numerous castes, but these have now been crumpled up: the distinctions between one caste and another are gradually being obliterated and, in course of time, the word Newár will be held to imply caste and not nationality as it once did.* There is a transition stage when it is very difficult to predicate definitely regarding a particular group whether it is a caste or a sub-caste. If caste were to be defined in such a way as to distinguish it from sub-caste it seems to me that this might be done in some such terms as the following:—

"A caste is an endogamous group, or a collection of such groups, bearing a common name who, by reason of similarity of traditional occupation and reputed origin, are generally regarded, by those of their countrymen who are competent to give an opinion, as forming a single homogeneous community, the constituent parts of which are more nearly related to each other than they are to any other section of the society."

The decision must rest with enlightened public opinion, and not with public opinion generally, as it often happens that a Hindu knows or cares but little about any caste other than his own, and is quite content to class together under such general terms as Baniyá, Malláh or Buná numerous groups which have nothing in common beyond a general similarity of occupation or social status.

ENDOGAMY AS A TEST OF CASTE.

558. A recent writer has urged that endogamy is the true test of caste, and that we should consider as separate castes each of the endogamous groups which go to make up a caste in the common acceptation of the word.† He instances the word Baniyá as a case of a generic term which is used to include various groups which have no real connection, and each of which in reality constitutes a separate caste. So far as this particular term is concerned it may at once be conceded that it is a mere functional designation, and that the various groups included under it, such as Agarwál, Oswál, Kalwár, etc., are true independent castes. But the number of such general terms is very small, and the only others I can think of which are in general use in Bengal are Malláh, Bediya, Nat and Buná.‡ These terms, it is true, do not indicate true castes, but it would be doing violence to language to apply the principle to other terms, such as Káyasth or Bárui or Kámár, and to say that each of the minor groups which compose these communities are separate castes. The Uttar-Rárhi Káyasth may not marry a woman of the Dakshin-Rárhi sub-caste, but he would smile with incredulous astonishment if he were told that he did not belong to the same caste. The caste system is no doubt closely bound up with endogamy, but the two things are not identical.

ORIGIN OF SUB-CASTES.

559. This question is so important in connection with the caste system that it is desirable to consider in some detail the causes which have led to restrictions on marriage within the caste. In Appendix VII I have given for some of the main castes a list of sub-castes with notes as to their origin, and the effect of the distinctions which they involve in respect of marriage, commensality and social rank. The information has been compiled from reports received from district officers, but want of time has prevented the careful collation of the different reports and the institution of fresh enquiries to verify or ascertain the causes of discrepancies. It is thus impossible to guarantee the accuracy of the details, but the compilation is still sufficient for our present purpose. The general conclusion that may be drawn from the information collected

* The Chandáls are split up into numerous functional groups and have traditions which correspond to what we know to be occurring with the Newárs. If, as seems probable, they with the Pods are the old inhabitants of the kingdom of Paundra Vardhana, there is no reason why these traditions should not be founded on fact.

† Monsieur Émile Senart in "Les Castes dans l'Inde."

‡ Malláh is an Arabic word meaning boatman, and was probably in the first instance used by the Muhammadans as a generic name for all the boating castes.

is that sub-castes arise from various causes of which the most common are:—

(1) *Residence in a different locality.*—Nearly every caste has territorial sub-castes such as Magahi, Jaunpuriá, Kanaujiá, Tirhutiá, etc., in Bihar, or Rárhi, Bárendra, Sikhariá, etc., in Bengal.*

(2) *The adoption or abandonment of a degrading occupation.*—The Dága Goálás are degraded for branding cattle, the Nada Bágdis for selling fish and the Hátua Bhandáris for shaving men of low caste. The degradation of the Mástán Bráhmans of Orissa is usually attributed to the fact that they cultivate with their own hands the Kachu (*Arum Indicum*) and sometimes follow the plough.

(3) *Difference of occupation, even if neither is degrading.*—The Chaurásia Bárais cultivate the betel-vine while the Jaiswár and Semeriyá sell the leaves.

(4) *Variations in social practices.*—The Biáhut Kurmis forbid widow marriage, the Dudhwár Dhánuks do not eat the leavings of other castes, and the Bánsphor Doms will not touch dead bodies. The Náthan Báruis wear nose-rings, while the Kotá do not. The Ekádasi Jugis mourn for 11 days, while the Másya do so for 30.

(5) *Pollution.*—The Pirális are said to be degraded for smelling beef cooked by Muhammadans, and in East Bengal numerous castes contain groups of persons with whom the other members of the caste will not associate, because Maghs are said to have entered their ancestors' houses and so caused them to be degraded.

(6) *Split in governing body.*—The Dhobis of Hooghly are divided into a Bara and a Chota Somáj. One section obeys the jurisdiction of the elder, and the other that of the younger, branch of the family of the original headman.

(7) *Greater prosperity.*—When a section of a low caste acquires greater power, wealth and knowledge than the rest, it often tries to dissociate itself from them. This is the case with the Konr Gops of Nadia, Murshidabad and Birbhum. Some of the well to-do Rájbansis of Rangpur have dubbed themselves Pákáhárs and seem on the way to form a separate sub-caste.

(8) *Difference of origin.*—The Bhuiyá Gauras of Orissa are a recent accretion from the ranks of the Bhuiyás and the Kol Lohárs of Chota Nagpur from those of the Kols. The Nanda Ghosh, sub-caste of Goálás, claim descent from the foster father of Krishna. The Chamár Tántis are weavers of the Chamár caste. It is a question whether some of these groups should not be regarded as sub-castes in the making, rather than as actual accretions. By the time groups of different origin have completely affiliated themselves the traces of their descent have usually been obliterated. This is the case with certain Bhumij zamindars of Chota Nagpur and Bankura, who now claim descent from a well-known clan of Rájputs. The fiction of a common origin cannot be established so long as the real difference is very apparent. Very often the only remaining trace of separate origin is to be found in the totemistic nature of exogamous groups, or in some survival of social or religious practice.†

Of all these causes of differentiation the only one that has always existed is the last. The nature of the others, and they account for the great majority of the existing sub-castes, suggests that they have split off from the parent caste rather than that they are separate entities as yet imperfectly assimilated. In the case of the Bráhmans, Baidyas and Káyasths of Bengal Proper we know that the present system of restrictions on marriage is to a great extent due to the "reforms" of Ballála Sena. The endogamous divisions of the Khatris are believed to have originated not so very long ago.

* Most of these causes of caste differentiation have already been noted by Mr. Risley. Very often this split was due to impure practices indulged in, or supposed to be indulged in, by persons residing in particular localities. Thus the prolonged residence of persons of Bihar castes in Bengal generally results in their being placed under a ban as regards marriage. The Baidyas, east of the Brahmaputra, are not allowed to intermarry with their caste fellows west of that river. In their case the interdiction is justified by the fact that they do not confine their matrimonial alliances strictly to their own caste.

† The Barhis east of the Mahánandá in Purnea are regarded as belonging to the regular Barhi caste, but the other Barhis do not intermarry with them. They appear to be of aboriginal origin, and are fishermen as well as carpenters. It is possible, therefore, that they may be an offshoot of the Rájbansis or, it may be, of the Chandáls. In Dacca there is a sub-caste of Chandáls who are carpenters and call themselves Bárai.

560. The general rule is strict that there must be no intermarriage between different sub-castes, and that they must not eat cooked rice together.* But it is relaxed away from home, or where the numbers of each sub-caste are small, or where for any other reason two groups find themselves drawn together. The Báruis of all sub-castes freely intermarry in Bankura, but not in Burdwan or Birbhum. In Puri the various sub-castes of Bhandári may not intermarry, but in Cuttack they are allowed to do so. The Magahia and Awadhia Dhobás intermarry in Bhagalpur, and the Magahia and Kanaujia sub-castes in Saran. All sub-castes of Dosádh intermarry in Monghyr. Some sub-castes thus gradually disappear. For instance, Mr. Risley tells us that the Saptasati Bráhmans are gradually being merged in the Rárhi sub-caste.†

Sometimes, and in some places, the tendency is to relax the restrictions on marriage, while at other times or in other places they become more stringent. The Bárendra and Rárhi Báruis do not now intermarry, but formerly they did so. Saraswat and Gaur Bráhmans intermarry in Bihar. In Burdwan the Dakshin-Rárhi and Bangaja Káyasths may intermarry, and in Nadia occasional marriages take place between the Dakshin-Rárhi and Bárendra sub-castes. The Uttarkul and Madhyakul Tántis intermarry in Midnapore and the Rárhi and Bárendra in Hooghly, where also the Ghana and Baraghari Telis intermarry. In Dacca two sub-castes of Teli used to intermarry only a few years ago, but the practice has now been given up. The Bardhamána and Goálábhuiyá sub-castes of Sutradhar, which were formerly strictly endogamous, have recently begun to exchange brides. The Baidyas are said to be considering the desirability of allowing members of different sub-castes to intermarry. There is a strong and growing feeling amongst the Káyasths of Bengal in the same direction. Amongst the Bhumijes, restrictions on marriage spring up and disappear according to the progress made along the path to Hinduism.‡ Sometimes the restriction is one-sided. One group, for some reason, thinks itself better than another and will not give it its girls in marriage, though it is still quite willing to take wives from it. This is the case with the cultivating Pods in the 24-Parganas, who will marry their sons but not their daughters to Pods of the fishing sub-caste, and in Saran, where the same relation exists between the Biahut and Kanaujia sub-castes of Teli.

561. The penalty for a breach of the rule prohibiting intermarriage between sub-castes is generally said to be expulsion from both communities, but there are many exceptions. Where one is admittedly superior to the other the offender finds a welcome in the lower of the two, and in many other cases the offence is easily expiated by the payment of a fine to the *panchâyat* and the giving of a feast to the caste people. The Magahia Barhi may enter any other Barhi sub-caste, or the Sadgop any other sub caste of Goálá.

So far as other social amenities are concerned it may be stated generally that the lower castes are far more strict than the higher ones. Amongst the higher castes, if certain degraded subdivisions be left out of account, there is usually no hesitation as to smoking from the same *hukka* or drinking water or eating *pakki* together, but amongst the lower castes these things are only allowed in special cases, or when away from home.§

The general conclusion indicated by an examination by the system of sub-castes seems to be that although, at any given time, a caste is seen to be split up into numerous separate groups that have no special connection with each other, the fact that they are all included in the same "caste," and the theory of a common origin which this term connotes, holds them together in some indefinable way. In certain circumstances different groups will coalesce, while in other circumstances fresh sub-castes will spring into existence, and in any case the restrictions on marriage in the case of the smaller unit are far less rigid than they are in the case of the larger one.

* The rule against commensality is not quite so universal as that against intermarriage. The restrictions on intercourse increase as one goes from the top to the bottom of the caste system. The highest castes may drink and smoke together; those of middle rank will only drink, and the lowest will accept nothing from each other.

† Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Volume I, page 154.

‡ *Ib.*, Volume I, page 121.

§ Want of space prevents me from attempting an analysis of the various practices of sub-castes in respect of eating, drinking and smoking together. The materials for such an analysis are, however, available in Appendix VII.

562. Monsieur Senart's proposal to identify the endogamous group with the caste is closely connected with his theory as to the origin of caste. He holds it to be the natural development of the family and tribal organization of the Aryans* which they brought with them to India, in the peculiar circumstances in which they were here placed, in the midst of a host of despised aborigines, amongst whom their original tribal groups were broken up and re-arranged, with whom there was a varying amount of miscegenation, and in whose presence their original scruples regarding purity were greatly intensified. The restrictions on marriage outside the village settlements, which were usually based on kinship, by degrees became more and more stringent. The example thus set by the Aryans was gradually imitated by the surrounding aborigines, while each community was led, by the varying scruples as to purity, to confine itself to particular occupations. In this way the present caste system gradually came into existence. The theory that the present system was evolved, by intermarriage and otherwise, from the old fourfold division of Manu into Bráhmans, Kshattryas, Vaisyas and Sudras is swept aside, and it is pointed out that this line of cleavage is based on "class" or *Varna* and does not correspond to "caste" or *Játi*.

ORIGIN OF RULE OF ENDOGAMY.

It is not for me to criticise the views of so distinguished and erudite a writer as Monsieur Senart, but I may perhaps be permitted to indicate some of the circumstances as they exist in Bengal, which would seem to point to an opposite conclusion. In the first place it may be noted that the restrictions on marriage in the case of the higher castes are either more recent or less complicated than those of the lower castes. The Bábhans and Rájputs have no endogamous groups. They may marry freely throughout the caste, and in the case of the Rájputs, it is at the discretion of the individual to give his daughter to persons whose claim to twice-born rank is very slender, provided they are of suitable rank and position. The Maithil Bráhmans of Bihar have no sub-castes, and in Bengal Proper many of the elaborate restrictions on marriage which now exist were imposed on the caste by an outsider, the great Ballála Sena. The tendency to endogamy is strong amongst many oriental nations, such as the Jews and Arabs, and, though it does not elsewhere attain the rigidity it has acquired in India the actual practice is very much the same elsewhere. A recent writer† says of theMuhammad ans of the North-Western Frontier that—

"According to their religious principles, every Muhammadan should marry from a family which is equal to his own in social position. He must not marry a woman superior to himself, as such inequalities place a man under the dominion of his wife. He may marry an inferior, but this is not considered desirable. In practice all Muhammadan tribes are very reserved in matrimonial matters. *Every one considers his own tribe to be superior and will not give away his daughter outside his own kith and kin.* These restrictions are, however, not observed by Pathans who give their girls to any one who will pay well for them."

We also find practical endogamy amongst the hill tribes. The Kukis of Hill Tippera prefer to marry within their own *daftá*, and usually do so, although there is no direct prohibition against marrying outside it. The Meches are divided into two sections, one of which will not readily admit outsiders though the other will do so.

563. The restriction on marriage generally originates in an idea that another community is less pure or inferior, and the first step is to refuse to give daughters in marriage. The objection to accepting girls of inferior rank is usually a much later development.‡ Sometimes this objection hardens into an absolute rule of endogamy. At other times it leads to a form of Kulinism. Many castes are divided into two classes, Kulins and Mauliks, and the latter pay the former for the privilege of forming matrimonial alliances with them.

* By Aryans is here meant the invaders of India who brought with them the languages of which Sanskrit is the type.

† Short sketch of the Musalman races found in Sind, Baluchistan and Afghanistan by Sheik Sadik Ali Sher Ali Ansari.

‡ The Konr Gop sub-caste of Sadgops will not give their daughters to the other sub-castes. Mundas take girls from Khariás but will not give them. There are exceptions, *e.g.*, amongst the Telis, the girls can be given to men of lower sub-castes but men must marry in their own or a higher sub-caste. The Káyasthś have a similar rule. The Kámtáli Koch of Assam will give his daughter to a man of a lower sub-caste but will not take a woman of lower rank as his wife. In East Bengal Káyastha will sometimes give their daughters in marriage to wealthy members of the Háluá Dás or Bárui castes. But in these latter cases the daughter who is given is practically sold outright and she is thenceforth cut off from commensality with her own family.

The practice of limiting marriages to a certain circle has doubtless been greatly encouraged by the circumstance that amongst Hindus marriage arrangements are made by the parents, and not by the parties themselves, and the selection of a husband or wife thus depends on social considerations rather than the personal affinities of the parties.

564. The old precept of the Shástras was that a man should take his first wife from his own community but might afterwards marry a woman of a lower caste, and there seems to be nothing in the customs of the Aryans that should have led to a gradually increasing stringency of the rules regarding the choice of a wife. The difference between the practice of endogamy, as it now exists amongst the Hindus, and the corresponding restrictions on marriage elsewhere, is that the latter are voluntary, whereas, in the case of caste, they are obligatory, and any breach of the recognised practice results in very serious consequences to the offender. The restrictions are greater and more universal, and the penalties are more severe and certain, in the case of the lower castes.* The reason seems to be that the latter are under a much more efficient system of caste administration. In the case of the higher castes there is no recognised organisation, but the lower castes, and especially the functional groups, have a very elaborate system. The primary object of the *Panchâyat*, or council of caste headmen, was to regulate matters connected with trade, but they gradually arrogated to themselves much greater power, and all social questions came within their purview. Their authority was absolute, and they had the power to punish disregard of it by the most severe measures, including temporary or permanent social ostracism.† The occupations practised by each functional group or guild tended more and more to become hereditary; outsiders were excluded with ever-increasing jealousy, and even social intercourse with other classes of the community was looked upon with constantly growing disfavour. The existence of the *Panchâyats*, not only fostered these prejudices, but invested them with an almost legal sanction, and the choice of a wife was regulated, not merely by a man's personal prejudices or predilections, but also by those of the caste to which

* Not only is this so but caste is weakest in the Punjab where the Aryan element in the population is strongest. "In the Punjab," says Mr. Baines, "caste is weak, tribe and race are strong."

† The higher castes are of course subject to penalties for breach of rule, but as there is no standing committee to adjudicate on such matters, the punishment is less certain. It requires a very serious offence, or one often repeated, to move the caste people into meeting together to deal with it. The difference between the control of a *Panchâyat* and that exercised by public opinion in the higher castes is well illustrated by what happened in the case of the first marriage between a Bangaja and a Dakshin-Rárhi Káyasth. "Amongst their relations," it is reported, "there were many who cut off their intercourse with the offending parties and even now some have not become reconciled." The penalty is not only less severe but it is also less permanent.

The caste headmen of the functional groups have exercised their authority from very early times. Two thousand years ago, trades and crafts were already largely hereditary, but with the exception of certain aboriginal tribes, trade did not then constitute the social cleavage known as caste. The headmen not only regulated the affairs of the industry, but also disposed of certain social questions, including disputes between husband and wife. (Early Economic Conditions in Northern India, J.R.A.S. 1901.) The trade guilds are very strict in Orissa and a Gaura who carries a *pálki* loses caste if he draws a boat. A Guriá who sells *murhi* may not sell *chira*. It should be noted that under native rule the Rájá exercised the position of Supreme Court of Appeal and at the present day this position is often held by zamindars of unusual authority or, in some cases, by the descendants of old ruling families.

This question of caste organisation is a very interesting one but considerations of time and space prevent us from dealing with it fully here. Usually the control rests with a panchâyat of the type described in paragraph 813. But in some cases, especially in Orissa, the system is somewhat different. The Gaura caste of Orissa for example has three officials known respectively as the Thánapati, Behárá and Mahanta. The Thánapati has a nominal jurisdiction over all members of a caste in a village, but the real power is now exercised by the Behárá, or head of a group of such units, and all caste questions are referred to him in the first instance. The Mahanta, usually a Gaura Baishnab, is the head of a group of Behárás, but his presence is requisitioned only in the case of important ceremonial observances. There is a Karan Baishnab at Nemal in the Cuttack district who is the Gosáin or Guru of all Gauras in Orissa and, as such, is the final arbiter of all questions which the subordinate caste officials fail to settle. The transgression of caste rules is punished by fines, varying according to the circumstances of the case and the means of the offender, which are imposed at caste meetings, presided over by the highest available caste official. These fines are supposed to belong to the community, and a portion of each fine is dedicated to the temple of Jagannáth. A fee is levied from each family of 6 pice and 18 pice in alternate years, all of which goes to the Gosáin, except the receipts for 4 houses in each circle, which go to the Behárá. Both the Behárá and the Mahanta receive a fee at ceremonial observances. These offices are all hereditary and are governed by the law of succession of property. A minor is represented during his minority by his nearest adult male relative.

The Bhandári caste is governed by a Behárá for each group of villages: all caste questions are referred to him. He is assisted by a Padhán or messenger. The Teli caste has a Thána for each village and a Behárá for each group of villages. The Guria has a Behárá for each group of villages and a Sardár Behárá over a certain number of Beharás. The Bárhi, Káumár, Dhobá, Gokhá, Kumhár, Thoriá, Máli, Chamár, Siyal, Tánti, Pán, Kandrá and Hári castes have only a Behárá, and the Jogis a Mahanta, who corresponds to the Behárá of the other castes. The Bauris have a Behárá, Adhikári and Mahanta, the Jyotish caste a Senápati and Mahápátra, and the Darji an Amin, Mantri and Behárá.

he belonged, as interpreted and enforced by the council of headmen.* It is thus that the system of caste exclusiveness has become more and more rigid.

565. The general conclusions suggested by these considerations may be summed up as follows:—

The notions regarding purity of occupation and of food and mode of living were probably imported by the Aryans. This race was deeply influenced by pride of blood, and had strong prejudices against marriage with the dark and barbarous aborigines, but the latter had already objections of their own against giving their women in marriage outside their own community. The absolute rule of endogamy which is now a feature, not only of almost all castes, but also of many sub-castes, is the outcome of the combined prejudices of the two races, fostered and developed by the powerful organisations which dominated over all affairs, private as well as business, of the various trades and crafts. The rules prohibiting intermarriage and commensality between different groups first attained their present rigid form amongst the industrial classes; as occupations became more and more hereditary, and intercourse with other groups grew more and more restricted, the idea gradually gained ground that all who practised the same occupation sprang from a common stock, and this idea gave fresh force to the spirit of exclusiveness to which it owed its origin.† The example set by these functional communities gradually spread to the race groups and also to the higher castes, but the latter have never been affected to the same extent except in a few special cases where it is due to outside interference.

For a confirmation of this theory we may refer briefly to the social organisation of the Muhammadans of this Province. There are the four race castes or classes—Saiad, Mogbal, Pathán and the true Shekh‡ which are collectively known as Ashráf or noble, corresponding to the Bráhman, Kshattriya and Vaisya, the twice-born castes, and the cultivating Shekhs and functional groups which are collectively known as Ajláf and correspond to the Sudras of Manu. Theoretically an Ashráf will never marry an Ajláf, but in practice he sometimes takes a second wife from their ranks. If he does so there is no penalty. Neither is there amongst the cultivating Shekhs. In the case of the functional groups, on the other hand, the rule prohibiting intermarriage is enforced as strictly as it is amongst the Hindus, the reason being that these groups are administered, like the Hindu functional castes, by panchávats who, though primarily appointed to regulate questions connected with the craft, now exercise authority over all sorts of social matters as well. It may be said that the rule of endogamy is a survival from Hindu times, but this is not a sufficient explanation; if it were, it would apply with equal force to the Shekhs, most of whom are the descendants of Hindus, but it does not, and the only reason for the difference seems to lie in the fact that the Shekhs have not the same elaborate system of panchávats.

ORIGIN OF EXISTING CASTES—FUNCTIONAL GROUPS.

566. We have hitherto been considering the origin of endogamy which is the most prominent characteristic of the system of social exclusiveness which we call 'caste.' The origin of the various castes actually in existence at the present time is a different question, which can only be briefly treated of here. The castes found in this Province may be divided into four categories, viz., (1) functional, (2) sectarian (3) race, and (4) mixed castes, *i.e.*, castes derived from the union of persons of different classes. I refer here to actual cases of miscegenation, and not to the Barna Sankar, or mixed castes of Manu.

* It must be remembered that although the wife must be chosen from the same community she must never be a resident of the same village. The Hindu always seeks his wife at a distance from his own home. This practice is supposed by Mr. Hewett to be a survival of the old matriarchal system of the aborigines, when each village looked to its neighbours for the fathers of its children (J. R. A. S. 1893, page 237) and in any case it seems to constitute a serious obstacle in the way of the theory that the endogamous group has developed from the family organisation of the early Aryan invaders.

† Speaking of village communities, Mr. J. D. Mayne says: In many cases they (the co-sharers) profess a common origin for which there is probably no foundation. In some cases it is quite certain that there can be no common descent, as they are of different castes or even of different religions. But it is well known that in India *the mere fact of association produces a belief in a common origin*, unless there are circumstances which render such identity plainly impossible (Hindu Law, page 197).

‡ In this province Shekh is the designation usually claimed by new converts. I am here, referring to those who have a better claim to be regarded as descended from Arabs.

The typical caste owes its origin to function.* A group of persons following the same occupation found it desirable in the interests of their profession to form themselves into guilds. These guilds gradually hardened into endogamous groups. Persons of different tribes who adopted the same occupation would each have their own guild, which would hold itself aloof from the other guilds of the same craft. Similarity of occupation, however, would gradually tend towards uniformity, not only in trade, but also in social matters, and the lower groups would doubtless gradually imitate the customs and observances of the higher ones, so that the ceremonial reasons for differentiation would gradually become less obvious. Then circumstances might arise, which would necessitate the united action of the different guilds, and they would thus gradually be bound together, so that in time the distinctions which still remained would be obliterated, and they would coalesce. At the present day, the distinctions based on sub-caste which exist in Bihar, are disregarded when the people concerned settle in Bengal, and members of different sub-castes will then eat together and intermarry. If distance thus binds them together, when the political system is the same and the means of communication are good, much more must it have operated in ancient times, when travelling was difficult and the country was divided into a number of separate, and often hostile, kingdoms. In this way, although the tribal origin of some of the functional sub-castes can still be traced from the names they bear,† we generally find at the present time that, if the occupation is really identical, the subdivision is territorial, and corresponds to the boundaries of the old Hindu political divisions, such as Tirhut, Magadha, Bhojpur, Kanauj, Rárh, Bárendra, etc. These divisions are no longer of any practical importance, and the distinctions which they involve are gradually being broken down. Caste, however, is a very conservative institution and the process is a slow one, except in cases where the circumstances are specially favourable. The tendency to amalgamation is most marked where the number in each group is small, as in the case above adverted to, of up-countrymen who settle permanently in Bengal. In some cases change of occupation or social customs has caused a split in a different direction, and here, not only does the tendency to fusion not exist, but the divergence gradually becomes more and more pronounced, until at last the sub-castes take rank as entirely separate castes.

567. Caste is said by Mr. Nesfield not to be fissiparous, but in Bengal it is so to a very high degree. We have already seen how the Sadgop has split off from the Goálá, the Chásádhoba from the Dhobá, the Dálu, Hádi and Hájang from the Gáro, the Pátni from the Dom, the Madhu Nápit from the Nápit, and the Mahili from the Santál, but these are only a few of many instances. The process is still going on, and the Kuri Sajjan is separating himself from the Mech, the Beruá, Kárál, Kandho and Káthuri from the Chandál, the Muchi from the Chamár, the Mátiá from the Muchi, the Bhuinmáli from the Hári, the Chanaur from the Kurmi, the Tili from the Teli, the Sáhá from the Sunri,‡ the Surajbansi from the Koch. In Dinajpur, where the invasion of Aryan castes is only small and recent, we find the Paliyas and Kaibarttas forming new functional groups.§ There is, for instance, a class of Paliyas, locally known as Goálá, who deal in milk, curds, etc., and the higher castes will take these articles from them. Some Kaibarttas of the same district prepare sweetmeats as a hereditary profession, and others work as goldsmiths.

* Instances of functional castes recruited from various sources have already been given in paragraph 551 above. Want of space forbids the multiplication of examples, but the case of the Darzi caste of Orissa may be quoted as a recent instance of occupation crystallizing into caste. There are three sub-castes, Gajakaran, Sipti and Mátiá. Each is now endogamous, but the various titles such as Mahárána, Mahápátra, Mahanti, Dás, etc. show that it consists of recruits from other castes who were ostracised for taking to the occupation of tailoring, and so were drawn together and gradually formed a new caste of their own.

† This branch of the subject has been ably elaborated by Mr. Nesfield in his Brief View of the Caste System of the N.W.P. and Oudh, paragraphs 179 *et seq*. As an instance amongst the castes of this Province of the way in which a tribe may be distributed amongst various castes, I may instance the Dhárhis, who form not only a separate tribe, but have also given sub-castes to the Musahar, Koiri, Dosádh, Chamár and Gonrhi.

‡ The Sháhás contend that they are traders, whereas the Sunri is a distiller, and the Sau the servant class of the Sháhás, occupying in regard to them the same position that the Sudras or Golám Káyasths of Eastern Bengal do in regard to the Káyasths.

§ For similar instances of inchoate functional groups in Assam, *vide* Assam Census Report of 1891 page 289.

In the case of the functional castes cases often occur where the process of separation from the parent stock, and affiliation with the new group, are incomplete. As instances of this we may note the Sukli Tánti, the Tánti Dhoba, the Chamár Tánti and the Jaiswár Kurmi, who seems by origin to be a Dhánuk and is still often so-called in Bhagalpur and Monghyr. Some groups are affiliated to different castes in different places. The Chiriamár is treated as a sub-caste of Bediya in Bengal and of Bahelia in the United Provinces, while in Orissa he seems most nearly allied to the Hári caste.

Sectarian Groups.

563. Although far less numerous than the castes which owe their origin to community of occupation, there are many whose existence began as a religious sect. The Atiths and Gosáins belong to this category, and so also probably do the Jugis and Saráks. The Baishnabs were originally a religious sect who admitted all comers, female as well as male, irrespective of the caste to which they previously belonged; outsiders are still admitted, but those from the higher castes form a separate community of their own and will not associate with persons of lower origin. The Baishnabs may now be regarded as a caste; but outsiders are still admitted, and the community has a bad name owing to the fact that most of its new members seek admittance either because they have been outcasted, or because they wish to form a matrimonial alliance not allowed by the rules of the castes to which they belong.* A more select but much smaller community of somewhat similar origin is that of the Sádháran Bráhmo Somáj.

Mixed Castes.

569. According to Manu, the Brahma Vaivartta Purán, the Játimála and other old works of the Hindus, all the existing castes are said to be descended from the original four, viz., Bráhman, Kshattriya, Vaishya and Sudra, by an elaborate and complicated series of intermarriages. It is the fashion to treat these theories with derision; but although they have clearly been pushed to an absurd length, there can be no doubt that some castes have originated in this way. In Nepal, even at the present day, the offspring of women of the Khas, Mangar and Gurung castes by Bráhman fathers rank as Khas, are recognised as twice-born, and wear the sacred thread in vindication of their claim to this high position.† In Orissa the children of maid servants, usually of the Chásá or Khandáit castes, by their masters are known as Shágirdpeshá, which is locally recognised as a true caste. It has several endogamous groups, distinguished according to the caste of the male parent, the most numerous being that with a Káyasth ancestry. The total strength of the Shágirdpeshás exceeds 47,000, and their number is still being added to by fresh cases of miscegenation. The Sudra caste of Eastern Bengal doubtless originated in a similar way, and in Bihar there are several communities of bastards known as Dogla, Suratwála and Krishnapakshi which, though at present not fully detached from the parent stock, may eventually harden into castes of the same kind. The Rájbansi Baruas of Chittagong are generally believed to be the offspring of Burmese fathers and Bengali mothers. It is not improbable that, in the past, similar mixtures from time to time occurred, and gave rise to new communities or, in other words, that some of the existing castes whose origin has now been lost sight of are descended from parents of different social groups. If so, the ancestry assigned to various castes in the Shástras may occasionally be correct, but the principle is applied with such universality that it is impossible to separate the few possibly true cases from the general mass of imagined ones. It is possible, however, that a careful examination of the old theories might occasionally furnish a useful hint as the basis for enquiry on other lines.

Race Castes.

570. But perhaps the most numerous group in Bengal is that of the race castes, *i.e.*, of tribes that have entered the Hindu system, losing, on the one hand, their distinctive language and non-Aryan forms of belief and the traditions of political life which

* The saying "Ját hárále Baishtam" is proverbial.

† Mahámahopádhyáya Hara Prasad Sastri tells me that he himself came across a case in Nepal of a Bráhman who had three wives of the Bráhman, Khas and Gurung castes and had children by each. Those by the first wife, who was of course the senior, ranked as Bráhmans, and those by the other two as Khas. For a further discussion of the origin of the Khas, see paragraph 895.

bound them together as a tribe, and acquiring, on the other, the ideas of purity and exclusiveness, and of subordination to the Bráhmans, which characterise the Hindu caste. It is not easy to say exactly where the dividing line lies between tribe and caste, and there are some groups, such as Báuri, Bhuiyá and Korá, where the transition from the one type to the other is incomplete, and which might, with almost equal propriety, be classed either as castes or as tribes. But leaving aside these, and the undoubted tribes, such as Santál, Oráon, Munda, Kandh and Gond, there is a large number of social groups which are now undoutedly castes, but which were formerly tribes, as, for instance, Chandál, Pod, Chero, Bhar, Kaibartta, Koch and Bágdi. There are others where the tribal origin is now quite indistinct, but whose names suggest that they were formerly non-Aryan tribes. To this category belong the Kurmis, Gonrs, Turis, Kándus, Koiris, Doms, Dhárhis, etc.* Others again, as Mr. Risley points out, have lost their original tribal name which has been replaced by a Sanskrit derivative, as in the case of the Musahars,† Rájbansis, Dhánuks, Chamárs and many more.

CASTE AND RACE.

571. How far is caste an index of race? The question can only be answered by anthropometry, but a few general conclusions, suggested by the line of enquiry we have been following, may perhaps be indicated. Generally speaking there has been less mixture in recent times in the race castes than in those based on function or sect. Sections of race-groups who take to special crafts may split off and form new castes, or be added to existing ones following the same occupation; but there is usually no tendency to incorporate groups of outsiders such as exists in the case of the functional groups, where community of occupation has a strong integrating influence. On the other hand, in earlier times various tribes of different origins may have been lumped together under a single appellation, such as Bhuiyá, which may, as Mr. Risley points out, be a title conferred on, or assumed by, many different groups with no real ethnic affinity.‡ At the present day the term Kol is generally used by Hindus to indicate any aboriginal tribe of Chota Nagpur, and not merely the persons properly so called. Dhángar and Buná are similar generic terms, which have no real meaning, but which may, at a later period, when the traces of varying origin have disappeared, be looked on as the names of race castes. When one nationality is conquered by another its constituent parts are often crumpled up out of all recognition. The word Newár formerly meant merely an inhabitant of Nepal, just as Bengali means an inhabitant of Bengal. There were numerous separate castes in the valley of Kathmandu, as there now are in Bengal, but the Gorkha conquest has thrown them into confusion and the tendency is growing to treat Newár as the name of a race caste.§ The Báuri caste was, probably, recruited from various aboriginal sources, and possibly also the Bágdi, though it should be noted that Mr. Oldham considers the latter to be "the section of the Mál, who have accepted civilisation and life in the cultivated country as serfs and co-religionists of the Aryans." The Mongoloid Koches who formerly ruled in North Bengal appear to have mixed with a Dravidian tribe known as Rájbansi, and the latter term, though now generally regarded as the name of a race caste, really includes at least two distinct groups belonging to different ethnic families.‖ How far the name is used by groups still distinct, and how far there has been a real chemical mixture, is a question which needs further enquiry.

OCCUPATIONS TEND TO CORRESPOND TO RACE.

572. In the functional castes the ingredients are much more composite. In some cases a different origin can still be traced by the names of the sub-castes such as Bhuiyá Gaur or Kol Lohár: and here intermarriage is not yet allowed, but in others traces of the original racial elements have been crushed out of

* Some old but well known races, such as the Bhars, have now well nigh disappeared. They cannot have died out, and their representatives have doubtless found admittance into other social groups. The Bhars, for instance, are supposed to be the main element in the caste now known as Pási.

† Mr. Risley is of opinion that the Musahar is merely a Bhuiyá who fell under the domination of the Hindus—Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Vol. I, page 111. Amongst their minor gods, says Mr. Risley, the Koiris still worship the aboriginal Bar Pahári or Marang Buru.

‡ Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Vol. I, page 108.

§ Mr. Earle informs me that the Limbus and Kiránti of Nepal also have a caste system, but that the Gorkhas will not recognise it and punish them if they attempt to air their views on the subject. For an account of the Newár castes, see paragraphs 886 to 894.

‖ See paragraph 617. The Dhimáls also are being absorbed in the Rájbansi caste. Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Vol. I, page 225.

existence by a fresh shuffling of the units, according to the localities which they inhabited in ancient times, when difficulties of communication were great and the country was broken up into numerous separate kingdoms. It might be surmised that, in this confusion, caste can no longer in any way correspond to race, but this does not appear to be the case. The Aryans and other recent invaders brought the higher arts and crafts to India and doubtless monopolised them. The aborigines were nomadic hunters and cultivators, belonging to a very primitive type of civilisation, and we still see these occupations in the hands of their descendants. Hunting, snaring, fishing, leather-dressing, basket-making, bamboo work, toddy-drawing, tattooing, midwifery, playing on drums and other simple musical instruments—these are the means of livelihood, not only of many tribes still outside the Hindu caste system, but also of the Tiyars, Kewats, Bágdis, Doms, Háris, Chamárs, Bediyas, Káorás and many other communities, all of low social rank. Some of the aborigines were reduced to servitude, and of these there are two branches—the unclean castes of scavengers and the like referred to above, and those who were employed on personal and domestic services and whom the necessities of the case rendered it desirable to treat as clean. Amongst these may be ranked the Kurmis, Kahárs and Dhánuks. It is not improbable that in the course of time, the constant employment of such castes in the houses of the better classes may have led to a certain infusion of Aryan blood. The higher occupations were doubtless a monopoly of the Aryans themselves and outsiders were only admitted where they were powerful, or the Aryans were few in number. Generally speaking, therefore, it may be said that the Aryan element is strongest in the highest castes and that it steadily decreases as one descends the ladder of respectability. There are, however, exceptions, and even the highest castes contain numerous foreign bodies, some of which have been absorbed, while others remain as separate and clearly identifiable entities. There are also cases where particular castes have been degraded, as probably happened to the Subarnabaniks, or promoted, as in the case of the Nepal Telis, who were made a pure caste by Jung Bahadur, and the Chási Kaibarttas, who were similarly favoured by Ballála Sena. Dominant non-Aryan tribes ranked high so long as they remained dominant, but when no longer in power, they quickly sank. The Dharuas were once powerful in Mayurbhanj, and were served by the washerman and barber, and even by good Bráhmans. Their power has gone and now, they are not only not attended by these castes, but their very touch defiles. The reason assigned is that they eat fowls, but this peccadillo was overlooked in the time of their prosperity. The Koch has sunk considerably since the days of his supremacy, and so has the Pod, whose claim to be considered a Brátya, or fallen, Kshattriya is doubtless due to a vague reminiscence of the time when his tribe ruled on the banks of the Karátoyá.

573. The Aryan strain, moreover, gradually becomes weaker as the distance from the Punjab increases. As the Aryan invasion spread, its character changed, and arms gave way to arts. Aryan priests, adventurers and merchants found their way to countries, which the Aryans had never conquered, and gradually gained a footing, either by converting the ruling families or supplanting them, or by establishing themselves as traders and the like. These early settlers were usually men, and they were fain to take to themselves women of the country. Their offspring were often recognised as belonging to the caste of the male parent. It is well known that the so-called Bráhmans of Manipur are descended from women of the country who were taken as wives by the early Bráhman settlers. The Kshattriyas, or Khas, of Nepal, are similarly descended from native women by Aryan fathers, and the same process doubtless went on elsewhere. When communications were less easy than they are now, up-countrymen who settled in Bengal frequently bought Bengali girls outright and installed them as their wives. At the present day, in Keonjhar, Goálás from other parts constantly take Bhuiyá women as their wives, and the offspring are frequently allowed to rank as Goálás.* These practices no doubt account

ARYAN ELEMENT DECREASES TOWARDS THE EAST.

* Mr. MacMillan's "*The Bhuiyds*," page 24.

for the low estimation in which persons in the west hold their caste fellows who reside further east. Most castes in Bengal are considered impure by their up-country namesakes.

574. The statement that the proportion of Aryan blood gradually decreases from west to east is, of course, merely intended to indicate the general tendency. There are necessarily some exceptions, due to special migrations on a large scale to some particular locality. There are various traditions of pious Hindu kings having imported colonies of Bráhmans from a distance. The Lion kings of Orissa are said to have brought 10,000 Bráhmans from Oudh, and to this day, their reputed descendants, the Shásan Bráhmans, display a very different physical type from that of the earlier immigrants, who had mixed more freely with the people of the country. So also in Bengal Proper, many of the Bráhmans and Káyasths are the descendants, not of the original stock, who gradually filtered down from the north-west, mixing more and more with women of the country as they came, but from persons directly imported from Kanauj by Ádi Sur, many of whom, with the aid of the rules laid down by Ballála Sena, appear to have preserved their purity of blood unsullied by any local admixture. When Bakhtyár Khilji overthrew the rule of the Sena kings, many persons of these castes fled to Eastern Bengal, where their descendants are still living. This explains why, at the present day, Bráhmans of that part of the country have a more Aryan type of feature than the Bráhmans of Bihar, who are descended for the most part from an earlier and more adulterated stock.* In the same way many Kshattriyas are reputed to have sought refuge in Nepal at the time of the Muhammadan invasion.

But although there are thus exceptions, there seems to be no doubt of the general truth of the two principles that have been enunciated above, viz., that (1) in any given locality the strain of Aryan blood is strongest in the castes that follow the occupations reputed to be the highest, and diminishes amongst the lower castes, and (2) that the Aryan element in the population gradually becomes weaker towards the East and South.

The first of these propositions has already been proved by Mr. Risley's anthropometric operations, and has been expressed by him in the apophthegm that the social status of castes varies inversely with the width of the nose.† The latter also, it would seem, is fully borne out by the measurements which have been made up to this time.‡

Social Precedence of Castes.

Social Precedence.

575. The ideas of social rank, as they now exist, seem clearly to have been introduced by the Aryans. Amongst the aboriginal tribes, each was independent of the other, and their simple minds were not troubled by ideas of precedence or of purity of occupation. The Aryans, however, had great pride of blood which, on their arrival in India,

* The circumstance was remarked by Mr. O'Donnell, but explained by him on other and, as I conceive incorrect grounds. The comparatively fine noses of some of the Chamárs noticed by Mr. O'Donnell are also attributable to the fact that this caste has migrated from the west in comparatively recent times.

† The Dravidian nose is thick and broad and so also is that of the Mongolians, though to a less extent. That of the Aryan, on the other hand, is finely cut. It must be borne in mind that variations in physical type may sometimes be due to selection. The Tagores have an unusually refined type of face, owing it is said to the selection of good-looking girls as brides for their sons. Girls of a fair complexion are preferred by many castes. In a recent article on the Coorgs and Yeruvas Mr. T. H. Holland has subjected certain criticisms on Mr. Risley's theory to a careful analysis, and has shown that the arguments on which they are based are fallacious (J.A.S.B. 1901 page 59).

‡ The above discussion regarding the origin of caste has arisen from a suggestion of the Census Commissioner for India that a sketch should be given of caste as it exists at the present day, with an explanation of the rules regarding exogamy, endogamy and hypergamy in force, and a comparison of the actual facts with the standard theory of Indian caste as given in Manu and other Indian writers. It is, I am aware, very imperfect, but I have had very little time to devote to the elaboration of the argument or the marshalling of the facts. The whole of this Chapter except the notes on the Saráks and on the Nepalese castes was written within three weeks.

There is one point which I have omitted to dwell upon, but which must not be lost sight of, viz., the fact that different parts of the country developed their own caste system independently, and consequently that functional groups bearing the same name in different parts of India have not necessarily any racial connection with each other. The general principle that the Aryans and semi-Aryans would everywhere keep in their own hands, as far as possible, the occupations which they regarded as most pure, would hold good every where, but the other elements would vary. In Orissa for instance they would usually be in the main Dravidian, and in East Bengal, Mongoloid. From time to time the original groups would be fused or split up, in the manner already described, in sympathy with changes in the political divisions of the country.

was intensified by the contrast between their own fair skins and fine features and the black colour and coarse physiognomy of the earlier inhabitants of the country. The latter were greatly despised by them and the contempt in which they were held finds constant expression in their early literature. In course of time there was a gradual fusion of the two races and the mixed breed occupied an intermediate position between the pure-blooded Aryans and the unadulterated aborigines. The different classes of the community followed different occupations, the Aryans being priests, landholders and merchants, and the mixed race, cultivators and domestic servants, while the aborigines followed their own primitive occupations, such as fishing and basket weaving and such menial avocations as the Aryans imposed upon them. As each kind of occupation was thus confined to a special class, it gradually came to be looked on as an index of race, and a man's social position was gauged by his means of livelihood. At first each class of the community had a variety of occupations open to it, but by degrees the process of differentiation spread further and particular occupations were gradually restricted to particular groups. In early days a Kshattriya, like Visvámitra, might become a Bráhman, but later on, a man was confined to the occupation and caste of his ancestors. As the Bráhmans and Kshattriyas thus gradually grew into different groups a long struggle for the mastery arose which is reflected in the legends that cluster round the name of Parasuráma, the great protagonist of the Bráhmans. The result, as we know, was that the priest triumphed over the warrior, and from that time to the present day the supremacy of the Bráhmans has become one of the cardinal doctrines of Hinduism, and is the main test by which we decide whether members of the non-Aryan tribes are to be classed as Hindus or Animists. With the glorification, I might almost say, the apotheosis of the Bráhmans, other considerations affecting social rank became more important, and the mode of living and ceremonial purity were more carefully looked to.

HINDU KINGS DECIDED QUESTIONS OF SOCIAL RANK.

576. Under the Hindu *régime* the social precedence of different castes was settled by the monarch himself. We know that the relative position of the various Newár castes of Nepal was decided by the Newár kings and that, comparatively recently, after the Gorkha conquest, Jung Bahadur raised the Sawmis, or Telis of Nepal, to the rank of a clean caste, owing to his friendship with a wealthy Sawmi named Dhar Náráyan. Oldfield mentions a case of a Khatri in Nepal, who was subjected to a disgusting degradation by which his caste was destroyed, but who was subsequently forgiven and restored to caste by the king "*who is supreme in such matters.*"* In Keonjhar, says Mr. Macmillan, the mass of the population follow the example of the Rájá, and the Bráhmans even take advice from the chief in regard to their usages and religious law.† There are numerous stories regarding the interference of Ballála Sena in caste matters, how he degraded the Subarnabaniks and Jugis‡ and made the Chási Kaibarttas a clean caste, and how he classified and settled the grades of several high castes including that of the Bráhmans themselves. In the same way the Maithil Bráhmans ascribe the introduction of the present system of settling their matrimonial affairs to the interference of a certain king. The authority of the Mahárájás of Nadia in caste matters was great and undisputed. It is probable that the king was, as a rule, guided in his decisions regarding caste matters by the advice of the Bráhmans, so long as they offered a sop to his own dignity by conceding to him and his tribe the rank of Kshattriyas.§

PRESENT CONFUSION AS REGARDS PRECEDENCE.

577. Since the temporal power has passed from the hands of the Hindus first to the Muhammadans and then to the British, there has been no authoritative pronouncement as regards the relative rank of the different castes, and in the absence of any one to curb, or allow, the pretensions of those that have

* Sketches from Nepal, Volume I, page 400. Traces of the power formerly wielded by Hindu Kings may still be seen in the attempts of zamindars in some parts of the province to punish refractory ryots by forbidding the Nápit and Dhobá to serve them. In Orissa this is called "*Dhobá Bhandári átak.*" In Bankura a Sarák who is found guilty of an offence requiring *prayaschitta* must go to the modern representative of the Pachát family and pay him a rupee before he may make atonement.

† 'The Bhuiyás,' paragraph 7.

‡ These castes seem to have been still Buddhists and may owe their degradation to this circumstance.

§ The concession usually lasted only so long as the tribe was dominant, *vide* paragraph 309 and footnote on page 171. See also paragraphs 616, 631, 693 etc.,

raised themselves above their old position, there is a great deal of uncertainty in some cases as to their relative position. The spread of western education has disseminated ideas of equality, and men are no longer prepared to admit the superiority of their neighbours merely because they belong to a caste which is supposed to stand on a higher level. The changes in the social and political conditions introduced by the British Administration have operated in the same direction. Appointments under Government are given regardless of caste. In the eye of the law all are equal, and the man of low caste is no longer compelled to stand aside when a man of higher rank passes, or to shout out, when walking abroad at night, to give warning of his approach or, as was sometimes the rule formerly, to paint on his forehead some emblem of his degrading occupation. All forms of employment are open to him, and his success in life depends more on his own efforts than on the trammels of the caste system. The Bráhmans have thus lost much of their former influence. The Shástras, which were once his monopoly, are no longer sealed books to the lower castes, and numerous Sháhás and Subarnabaniks are quite as competent as the Bráhmans themselves to search them for old rulings regarding caste questions. In towns a man of high caste has now-a-days no scruple in sitting on the same carpet with a Sháhá of good social position, or even in giving him the place of honour if he has the wealth to command it.

The nominal decision in caste matters rests with the colleges of pandits at Nabadvip and Benares, but it is doubtful if, in practice, it would be accepted by anyone who was adversely affected by it. Moreover, the pandits look to the old Shástras and take no account of changes that have taken place, owing to the great progress made in recent years by some castes, whose nominal position is a low one, but whose wealth, education and influence are such as to place them in practice on a much higher level than that assigned to them in the old religious books.* They support the pretensions of a few castes to a higher rank than has hitherto been accorded to them, but they do so, not on the ground that their position has improved, but by the fiction that their true origin has hitherto been misunderstood and by identifying them with some ancient caste of greater respectability than their own. In this way the Chási Kaibarttas have obtained recognition from some of them as the representatives of the ancient Mahisya.†

578. The test laid down by the Census Commissioner for fixing the scale of social precedence is not the rank assigned by the pedantry of pandits, but "Hindu public opinion at the present day." It is very difficult to say precisely what constitutes Hindu public opinion. The Hindus as a body are strangely indifferent to the circumstances of castes that do not clash with their own. Those of good position know very well from whom they can take water and those whose touch defiles, but they neither know nor care much regarding their relative position. The lower castes are even more ignorant of the rank of the higher ones. Where the relative position of two castes is disputed, the persons interested invariably support the claims of their own community. No Káyasth would ever admit the superiority of the Baidyas, nor would any Baidya consent to place the Káyasths above his own fraternity. The only point perhaps on which all alike are agreed is that the Bráhmans stand at the top of the hierarchy of caste. There is no question as to the order in which the four traditional castes of Manu rank, viz., first the Bráhman, then the Kshattriya, then the Vaisya, and then the Sudra, but this admission does not carry us very far. The conflicting claims of various castes are generally based on their pretensions to take their rank in one or other of these divisions. The Káyasths claim to be Kshattriyas,

* The great authorities on the subject of mixed castes are—(1) Manu (2) the Brahma Vaivartta Purán, (3) the Padma Purán, (4) the Játimála. The Játimála is a recent compilation and of no authority except in respect of the newer castes not mentioned in the other works. The Brahma Vaivartta Purán is alleged to have been written by Vyása, but its reference to numerous local castes of Bengal and its silence about some of the best known castes of Upper India clearly proclaim its author to have been a Bengali. Its main object is to prove that Krishna's consort, the milkmaid, Rádhá, is the real Adya Sakti or primordial energy of nature as opposed to the other Puráns where this position is assigned to Durgá.

† Mr. Risley quotes an interesting case of the same kind from Dr. Wise's papers. Kanta Babu, the banyan of Warren Hastings, was a Teli and did much to raise the position of his caste. He offered a large gift at Jagganáth but it was refused by the temple authorities on the ground of his humble caste. He appealed to the Pandits of Hooghly and Nadia who ruled in his favour on the ground that the Teli by using the balance *tula* must necessarily belong to the Banik, a clean Sudra caste.

the Chási Kaibarttas to be Vaisyas and so on. Then again, although the general order of these four classes is not disputed, there are numerous degraded sub-castes which occupy a lower status, such as the Áchárji and Agradáni Bráhmans.

STATUS OF PRIESTS.

579. But although it is impossible to arrange castes in an order that will command universal acceptance, there are certain well recognised tests of social position, by the consideration of which a fairly accurate scale of social precedence can be drawn up. The first great test is whether good Bráhmans will serve as priests, and if not, whether the caste is served by any Bráhmans at all. A Bráhman loses in social estimation if he acts as priest to any but those of twice-born rank, but he is not actually degraded for performing the priestly office for persons who are looked upon as clean Sudras. Consequently castes that enjoy the services of good Bráhmans may at once be separated from those whose Bráhmans are degraded. Similarly those who have degraded Bráhmans as their priests, rank higher than those who have no Bráhmans at all.

THE TAKING OF WATER OR FOOD.

580. Another generally accepted criterion is whether the higher castes may use water brought by a man of any particular caste or not. The castes from whose hands water may be taken are known as *jalácharaniya* the others as *jalábyabaháriya*. In some places, such as the 24-Parganas and Nadia, a distinction is made between Ganges water and ordinary water, and the former can be taken from the hands of all but the lowest classes of the community. Similarly, water can be used for bathing when it could not be taken for drinking or cooking purposes. In respect of food, the general rule is that no one will take cooked food, (rice and *dal*) from any caste inferior in rank to his own, or even from members of his own caste who do not belong to the same endogamous group as that to which he himself belongs.* Some go further and will not take such food from any one outside their own sub-caste except a Bráhman. Some will not even take it from Bráhmans. Amongst the orthodox castes it is considered an honour to take the leavings of a Bráhman, and these, when entertained by one, often insist on commencing their repast by eating a fragment from his plate.† With this exception, the eating of leavings indicates a very low social rank. Except in North and East Bengal, there is a distinction between ordinary cooked food, or *kachchi*, and food cooked with clarified butter (*ghi*), *i.e.*, *pakki*. The latter may ordinarily be taken, not only from one's own or any higher caste, but also from the confectioner class, the Mayrás and Halwáis. A great deal depends on whether a Bráhman will accept hospitality from a caste or not. There are some castes in whose houses he will eat *pakki* food only, and others in whose houses *kachchi* also may be eaten.

PERSONAL UNCLEANNESS.

381. The castes whose water may not be taken are further subdivided according to the degree to which their touch or presence causes pollution. In some cases the mere touch of a low caste man defiles and the person touched must change his clothes and bathe. In others, his entry into a house defiles all the water therein, which must forthwith be thrown away. In others again, his touch defiles *hukka* water. Even wells are polluted if a low caste man draws water from them, but a great deal depends on the character of the vessel used and of the well from which water is drawn. A masonry well is not so easily defiled as one constructed with clay pipes, and if it exceeds three and-a-half cubits in width, so that a cow may turn round in it, it can be used even by the lowest castes without defilement. A metal vessel does not cause contamination so easily as an earthenware one. Certain low castes are looked upon as so unclean that they may not enter the courtyards of the great temples. These castes are compelled to live by themselves on the outskirts of the village.

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* A few low castes such as the Rájbansi will not eat rice cooked by people of their own sub-caste unless they are near relatives. A Khariá will not even eat food cooked by his own mother-in-law, and there is a proverb that there are as many *haridás* (earthen pots) as there are Khariás.

† Nay, further, an orthodox Hindu of the old school commences the day by a sip of water in which the big toe of a Bráhman has been dipped. Such water is called Bipracharanámrita.

582. Much depends on the ceremonial observances of a caste. Those who forbid widow marriage rank higher than those who permit the practice. The eating of beef, pork, fowls, and vermin, the drinking of wine and the smoking of tobacco all tend to lower a caste in comparison with others who abstain from these impure habits. The castes whose widows observe *játyáchár* or asceticism, i.e. who refrain from meat and fish and take only one meal a day, enjoy a higher status than those whose widows live the same life as do married women. The order in which castes are placed in public banquets at which Bráhmans are present, is an excellent test of their real rank, while their customs at ceremonial observances, such as marriage, often throw light on their origin. The Khatri, for example, though now usually a merchant, always carries a sword on the occasion of his marriage, thereby indicating his Kshattriya ancestry.

CEREMONIAL OBSERVANCES.

583. The estimation in which various castes are held is reflected in the attitude of the Nápit and the Dhobá. The latter will not usually wash for the lowest castes. The former will not shave some castes, and there are others whom he will shave, but whose finger nails he will not pare, and others again whose finger nails he will pare, but not the nails of their toes.

THE ATTITUDE OF THE NÁPIT AND DHOBÁ, &c.

584. It must not be supposed that these tests are of universal application, or that they carry the same weight everywhere. In Bengal Proper only the lowest castes allow widows to remarry, while, in Bihar and Orissa only the highest castes forbid them to do so. The Nápit and Dhobá of Bengal Proper refuse to serve many castes whom their upcountry congeners will work for without hesitation. In Central Bengal a distinction is made between water from the Ganges and from other sources, but not so in parts of Bihar. In Nepal all Gorkhas will eat *pakki* together and will drink water from the same goatskin. In Orissa all low castes take fowls and alcoholic drinks, and all high castes abstain from both. In Bengal Proper only the lowest castes eat fowls, but even the highest drink spirits.

STANDARDS AND STATUS VARY.

Neither is the status of castes bearing the same name uniform throughout the Province. In Bengal Proper the Teli is a clean caste and water may be taken from his hands, but not so in Bihar. * In Bengal Proper the Tánti's Bráhman is not degraded, but in Bihar the case is otherwise. The Bhuiyá holds a high position in the Orissa States, but in Bengal Proper, he is unclean. Even within the same sub-province, the practice is not always uniform and the Chási Kaibartta who can give water to the higher castes in Central and West Bengal is not allowed to do so in the Dacca and Chittagong Divisions. The distribution of castes moreover varies, and some that are well known in one part of the country are not found at all elsewhere.

585. For the above reasons it is impossible to frame a single caste precedence list for the whole of Bengal, and it is necessary to deal separtely with each of the three large sub-provinces, Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. A separate list must also be given for the castes who have their head-quarters in Nepal, and another for the tribes of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, where Bráhmanical influence is weak, and rank depends mainly on the local influence of the tribe and the strength of the traditions regarding its past political supremacy. The list for Bengal Proper was originally compiled by Mr. Risley, and that for Bihar was drawn up by me from information which Mr. Risley placed at my disposal. The original Orissa list was drafted by Babu Jamini Mohan Das, Deputy Superintendent of Census, Cuttack. These lists were circulated amongst the districts to which they relate, where they were carefully considered by committees of Native gentlemen appointed for the purpose, and the original arrangement has been carefully revised in the light of the criticisms received from them.

MANNER OF PREPARING THE LISTS.

* This question of personal uncleanness depends mainly on the convenience of the higher castes who, in the absence of their ordinary domestic servants, are perforce obliged to accept the services of castes not usually held to be clean. The Chamáin, whose very touch defiles at ordinary times, may hand food to her patient, when attending a confinement, and in Orissa, the Jogi, when a physician, may touchhis patient without causing pollution, though an ordinary Jogi is held to be most unclean. In Bihar the Bári, though of non-Aryan origin, is held to be clean on account of the utility of his occupation.

586. The discussion of the relative rank of the different castes aroused an extraordinary amount of ill-feeling and jealousy between some of the castes whose position is disputed and in more than one instance the committees appointed to report on the subject professed their inability to come to a decision.* In some cases it is very difficult to arrive at any satisfactory conclusion on the evidence available. Moreover, where the relative rank of the castes concerned is very nearly equal, there is nothing to be gained by attempting to adjudicate between them, while to do so would undoubtedly cause much mortification to the community whose claims were over-ruled; the decision would not be accepted as authoritative, and far from extinguishing, it would add fresh fuel to the fires of acrimonious argumentation. In such cases, therefore, I have thought it better simply to place the castes in question together, without making any assertion as to their individual position in the group in which they are classed.

PRINCIPLES FOLLOWED.

Caste Precedence in Bengal Proper.

587. In Bengal Proper, as in all other parts of the province, and of India generally, the Bráhman stands without cavil on the top rung of the social ladder. There are three main classes of pure Bráhmans—Rárhi, Bárendra and Baidik, but there are others also, including the Kanaujiá and Maithil Bráhmans, who are chiefly immigrants from Bihar and upcountry, the Utkal who come from Orissa, the Madhya Sreni who are found in Midnapore and the Kámrupi Bráhmans of North Bengal, who serve as priests to the Rájbansis. Bráhmans who minister to the Káyasths and the castes of the Nabasákha group, suffer somewhat in public estimation,† especially the latter, and so do those who act as cooks, bakers, confectioners, hired worshippers of family idols and the like, but they do not lose caste. The Kámrupi Bráhmans, though not actually degraded, do not stand on the same level as the Bráhmans who officiate in the ceremonies of the Navasákhas.

GROUP I.—BRÁHMANS.

Bráhmans who serve castes ranking below the Navasákhas are called Barna Bráhmans and are degraded. They will eat *kachchi* food in the houses of their respective *jajmáns*, *i.e.*, of the persons whom they serve as priests. The higher castes will not take water from them and they rank below group IV. Their rank varies according to the castes whom they serve, but the Vyásokta Bráhmans who are the priests of the Chási Kaibarttas, rank lowest, as their own *jajmáns* even will not eat in their houses. The Agradáni who officiates at funeral ceremonies, the Áchárji who casts horoscopes and the Bhát or family bard, whose claim to be considered a Bráhman is disputed, also occupy a degraded position but not so low a one as the Barna Bráhmans. The Bhát is *jalácharaniya* and the Agradáni serves only the clean castes. The Áchárji on the other hand works for all castes, while the various caste, or Barna, Bráhmans minister only to the particular caste of which they are the priests.

There is another degraded section called Piráli, who are said to owe their low position to having been forced to smell or, as some say, eat, the cooked food of a Muhammadan.‡

588. The Khatris and Rájputs or Chattris stand at the top of the second group, but neither of these are, strictly speaking, Bengal castes. The Khatris found in Bengal are mostly temporary immigrants, but one of the leading families of this caste in the whole of India, that of the Burdwan Ráj, has been domiciled in the Province for several generations. The Vaisyas also have no representatives amongst the indigenous castes of this province, but the rank is claimed by the Agarwáls and one or two other trading castes of Upper India.

GROUP II.—OTHER CASTES RANKING ABOVE CLEAN SUDRAS.

* This happened in Calcutta amongst other places. The Committee was a specially strong one and was presided over by a Native Judge of the High Court, but the animosity between some of the members was so pronounced that it broke up without arriving at any definite finding.

† The Baidik Bráhmans who serve as priests to Sudra castes are known as Dakshinátya, while those who do not belong to a separate class and are called Páschátya.

‡ Some of the persons thus degraded managed to gain a partial readmittance to their original castes, but others did not and became Musalmans. These still retain many Hindu practices. See paragraphs 307 and 876. They are numerous in the Satkhira subdivision of Khulna.

Then come the two great castes—Baidya and Káyasth—who, with the Bráhmans, have a practical monopoly of all the higher Government appointments held by natives of the country. None of the disputes that arose in connection with the question of caste precedence were so violent or so acrimonious as those regarding the conflicting claims of each of these two castes to rank above the other. As already stated, I have no intention to venture on an award which would carry no weight, or to fan into fresh flame the smouldering embers of the controversy, but shall content myself with giving in a subsequent paragraph the main arguments adduced by each party in support of its pretensions. The Madhyasreni Káyasths, it should be mentioned, are degraded and rank in Group III.

The Águri, or Ugra Kshattriya, as he prefers to be called, occupies the lowest place in Group II, but it is not quite clear that he is entitled to such a high position and several of the district committees recommended his relegation to Group III.* Some serve as domestic servants. The Jana sub-caste wear the thread in a haphazard sort of way, and without any *Upanayan*, or ceremony of initiation. In Midnapore the Karan is included in this group, while its degraded sub-caste Srishta Karan ranks with Group III. This caste, however, belongs more properly to Orissa than to Bengal.

GROUP III.—CLEAN SUDRAS.

589. Group III comprises all the castes commonly regarded as clean Sudras, whose water is taken by the higher castes, and who are served by good Bráhmans. The group of functional castes, formerly nine but now seventeen, known as the Nabasákhas, is the type of this group, but it includes also several other castes whose rank is about on a par with that of the Nabasákhas. They are arranged below in alphabetical order, those marked with a capital N being the nine castes who, according to the Parásara Sanhitá,† originally formed the Nabasákha group:—

Bárui (N).	Kuri.	Ráju.
Gandhabanik.	Madhu Nápit.	Sánkhári.
Kalitá.	Málákar (N).	Sudra.
Kámár (N).	Mayrá (Madak) (N).	Támli
Kánsári.	Nápit (N).	Tánti (N).
Káshta.	Sadgop (N).	Teli and Tili (N).
Kumhár (N).	Pátiál.	

The relative rank of the castes in this group varies in different parts of the country. Some say that the original Nabasákhas stand above the others, some that the Sudra or Golám Káyasth should either go to the top of this group or be placed at the bottom of Group II, while some again award the first place either to the Sadgop (who in Midnapore has been recommended for inclusion in Group II), or the Bárui, or the Tili as distinguished from Teli.‡ The real difference, however, is so slight that it is impossible to draw any hard-and-fast dividing line between these castes. Several committees distinguish between Tili and Teli, and say that the latter is the same as Kalu and should go to Group VIII. The word Tili, however, seems to be confined chiefly to Central and Western Bengal. In Dacca the high class Teli calls himself Taipál. The Aswini Tántis alone are said to be Ácharaniya in Midnapore and the other sub-castes stand on a lower level. The Sadgops sometimes claim to be Vaisyas and to rank above the Káyasths, but their pretensions are far-fetched and fanciful. The Sudras or Golám Káyasths often call themselves Káyasths, and it is admitted that wealthy members of the caste can gradually obtain general recognition as such. The Pátials also often claim to be Káyasths, and so do many Báruis and the Káshtas, who

* Mr. W. B. Oldham says that the Aguris are by their own admission the product of unions between the Khatris of the Burdwan Ráj family and Sadgops (some Historical and Ethnical Aspects of the Burdwan District, page 18). I doubt if any Aguris at the present day would admit such a descent.

† The Sloka runs thus:—

Gopa, Máli tathá Taili, Tantri, Modaka, Báraji Kulála, Karmakárascha, Nápito Navasáyaká.

The Gop or Goálá, however, is no longer of Nabasákha rank and his place is taken by the Sadgop. The popular Bengali version is as follows:—

Tili, Máli, Tántuli Gopa, Nápit, Gochháli Kámár, Kumár, Pátáli Nabasákher Gáthuli.

Nabasákha is usually taken to mean the nine branches or arrows, but some say that it means the "new branches" as indicating recent recruits from Buddhism.

‡ In East Bengal the better class of Telis call themselves Taipál, which seems to correspond to Tili in Central and West Bengal. The persons returned as Teli probably include many who are really Kalu by caste.

are found only in Midnapore.* The Ráju is another local caste of Midnapore. There are two sub-castes Báyán and Dáina. The latter allow widows to marry and rank lower in consequence. The Kalitá is really an Assam caste and is found only in the districts of North Bengal which march with that Province. The Khyán or Khen, which is also confined to North Bengal, is the caste to which the dynasty of Nilambar, who was overthrown by Husain Sháh at the close of the 15th century, is reputed to have belonged. The caste is served by the same Bráhmans as the Nabasákha group, and its water is drinkable by the higher castes, but its right to a position in this group is not quite assured. Some would give it a position intermediate between this and the next group and others would place it at the top of the latter.

GROUP IV.—CLEAN CASTES WITH DEGRADED BRAHMANS.

590. The fourth group, though small, is well defined. It contains only two castes—the Chási Kaibartta and Goálá—who are *jalácharaniya* but whose Bráhman is degraded. The Chási Kaibarttas claim to be Máhisyas and to rank in a much higher place. I shall discuss their pretensions in more detail further on, but may mention here that the dividing line between them and the Jáliyá Kaibarttas is still far from clear or universally recognised; their Bráhmans are more degraded than those of the Goálás, and the Chási Kaibarttas themselves will not eat in their houses. They serve as menial servants; their women do not usually observe *Játyáchár*, and in many districts, such as Dacca, Tippera, Birbhum, Midnapore and Noakhali, their water is not taken by the higher castes.† In only one district, the 24-Parganas, has their promotion to group III been recommended.

In respect of the Goálás it should be noted that in a few districts their Bráhmans are not degraded and they consequently take a higher rank. Some of the sub-castes, *e.g.*, the Dága Goálás who brand bullocks, are degraded and their water is not taken.

GROUP V.—CASTES LOWER THAN THE ABOVE WHOSE WATER IS NOT USUALLY TAKEN.

591. Group V contains a very heterogeneous collection of castes who have little or nothing in common with each other, and whose juxtaposition is due to the fact that they all rank below the castes already enumerated, but are generally regarded as superior to the degraded castes of Group V. The village barber will shave them but will not ordinarily pare their toe nails, nor assist at their marriage ceremonies. They are as follows:—

Baishtam.	Loháit-Kuri.	Sunri (Sháhá).
Bhuiyá.	Nat.	Subarnabanik.
Jugi.	Nuri.	Surajbansi.
Kácharu.	Sarák.	Sutradhar.
	Swarnakár.	

In some places, where they are numerous, the Bhuiyás rank higher. In Keonjhar, for instance, they are regarded as a clean caste and water is taken from their hands. Baishtam‡ and Jugi occupy a very ambiguous position. The former group constitutes not really a caste but a collection of persons who profess to have rejected caste. Some of these come from high, and some from low, castes, but many of them retain their old social distinctions and a Baishtam of Káyasth descent would not ordinarily take water from the hands of one whose ancestors were Chandáls. Where their origin can be traced, those whose former caste was *ácharaniya* are still looked upon as clean, and their water is drunk. In other cases it is used only for purposes of ablution. The rank of the Jugis is very uncertain. They have no Bráhmans and they bury their dead, but if, as seems to be the case, they are the modern representatives of a religious sect, they can hardly be judged by the ordinary standards in these matters. Their water is not taken, and in many districts the barber and washerman refuse to work for them. Some say they are a low mixed caste,

* Some well-to do Káshtas of Midnapore are reported to have gained general recognition as Káyasths. The similarity of names (is it accidental?) is said to help them.

† It is occasionally taken in Dacca by personal friends of higher caste, but this is an exception to the general rule prevailing in the district.

‡ By Baishtam of course is meant the social group so called and not the Vaishnava sect. The Vaishnava Gosáins of Midnapore, for example, are not included.

formerly known as Jangi. This question will be further discussed in connection with their claims to a higher place than that here assigned to them. The Nuris, or lac bangle makers, have been placed in this group on the strength of a report from the Nabadvip Pandits.* The Subarnabaniks owe their low position to the fact that they are *jalábyabahárija*, but there seems good reason for supposing that their original rank was much higher than their present one. The story of their alleged degradation will be told further on. The Swarnakár and Sutradhar are two functional groups whose status is lower than would be supposed from their occupation, which is as good as that of most castes in Group III. The former is said to have been degraded for stealing a Bráhman's gold, and the latter for refusing to supply Bráhmans with wood for a sacrifice. The Kácharus, who are lac bangle makers, claim a Káyasth origin. They are served by the ordinary Nápit and Dhobá. The Lohait Kuris claim to be a cross between a Kaibartta and a Mayrá or Kuri. There are two sub-castes, one of which fishes with a rod and the other parches grain. The Saráks are *ácharaniya*, but they are looked on as degraded, the reason assigned being that they used a cow made of rice-paste (which they afterwards boiled) during some ceremonial observance.

The Bárendra sub-caste of Sunri, which calls itself Sháhá, is generally regarded as far superior to the ordinary Sunri. Many of its members are rich, influential and well educated, but it has not yet succeeded in detaching itself from the parent stock in the general estimation of the public. The Nápit will shave them, but will not cut their nails.

GROUP VI.—LOW CASTES WHO ABSTAIN FROM BEEF, PORK AND FOWLS.

592. I have combined in Group VI, a number of castes that, in the original draft, were distributed over four separate groups. The various committees differed so widely as to their relative position that it was found impossible to differentiate them in such a way as to reconcile the very divergent views that are held as to their relative rank. This group includes most of the great non-Aryan race castes of Bengal Proper. The arrangement as usual is alphabetical:—

Bágdi.	Hájang.	Naik.
Baiti (Chunári).	Jáliyá Kaibartta.	Namasudra (Chandál).
Beruá.	Kalu.	Paliya.
Bháskar.	Kán.	Pátni.
Cháin.	Karni.	Pod.
Chásá Dhobá.	Kapáli.	Puro.
Chásati.	Kawáli.	Rájbansi and Koch.
Dáoyái.	Kotál.	Sukli.
Dhobá.	Málo (Jhálo).	Tipárá.
Ganrár.	Mech.	Tiyar.
Ghorai.	Morangia.	

All of these castes are usually, but not always, served by the Bengali Dhobá, but only a few of them are shaved by the regular Nápit. The Namasudra and others have their own caste barbers. In Bágdi I include the sub-castes or, it may be, allied castes, Let and Bholla. The Beruás seem to be an offshoot from the Namasudras. They do not intermarry, but they have the same priests. The Paliyas, who are generally regarded as a sub-caste of Rájbansi, have a sub-caste called Sádhu Paliya, who supply milk and curds to the higher castes and rank accordingly in Group IV. The Pods are divided into the higher class, who live by cultivation and call themselves Padma Ráj or Brátya Kshattriya, and the fishing Pods. The former claim a higher position which is not usually conceded to them. In Burdwan their touch defiles and they rank very low in consequence. The Namasudras are generally held to pollute by their touch, and rank below most of the other castes of this group. The Rájbansis in North Bengal are looked upon as comprising two distinct classes, the better of which are to some extent *ácharaniya* and are served by Bráhmans who are not degraded; they call themselves Bhanga Kshattriya and it is said by some that they should be placed between Groups III and IV, but opinion as to their rank is divided. The other class of Rájbansis, including

*I am indebted to the Mahárájá Báhádur of Krishnagar for the information regarding the position of this caste.

the Desis, can be traced to a Koch origin and are generally admitted to belong to the group under consideration. There is a sub-caste of Sukli in Midnapore, called Chási Sukli or Solánki, which is served by good Utkal Bráhmans and is said to rank with the castes in Group IV.

The Tiyars may be of the same origin as the better class of Rájbansis of Rangpur, but further south they are held in lower esteem, and are neither *ácharaniya* nor served by good Bráhmans.

GROUP VII.—UNCLEAN FEEDERS.

593. The castes in Group VII are served neither by Bráhman nor by Dhobá nor by Nápit. They comprise—

Báuri.	Hári and Bhuinmáli.	Lodhá.
Chamár.	Káora.	Mál.
Dom.	Konai.	Muchi.
Gáro.	Korá.	Siyalgir.

The Doms and Háris who are scavengers rank below the others.

Caste Precedence in Bihar.

GROUP I.—BRÁHMANS.

594. The Bráhmans as usual occupy the first place. Most of them belong to the main division known as Pánch Gaura, which includes Maithil, Kányakubja or Kanaujiá, Sáraswati, Gaur and Utkal. Of these, the Maithil and Kányakubja sub-castes are the most numerous. All of them are looked upon as pure Bráhmans. The Sákadvipi Bráhmans, though regarded as foreigners by origin, are held in almost equal esteem, especially in South Bihar, where they officiate as priests at the worship of the Sun God. The Gayáwáls, or priests of the Gaya places of pilgrimage, are locally held in the highest regard, but elsewhere they stand on a somewhat lower level. The Gangáputras, who receive gifts made by people on the banks of sacred rivers, take a lower place, and a still lower one is held by the Mahá Bráhmans (Kantáhá or Mahápátra), corresponding to the Agradánis of Bengal, who officiate at the *Srádh* ceremony and eat at the burning-ghát.* Another somewhat degraded class are the Jaishis, who serve as priests of the lower castes, and the Dhámis, who assist at the ceremonies on the Rámsila and Pretsila hills at Gaya. The Bháts wear the thread and claim to be Bráhmans, but this is not always admitted: in point of status they stand at the bottom of Group II. The Kathaks rank even lower, as they sometimes take service with dancing girls.

GROUP II.—OTHER CASTES OF TWICE-BORN RANK.

595. In Group II are included the other castes that are generally admitted to rank as twice-born, or on a par with twice-born castes. They are arranged alphabetically as follows:—

Agarwál.	Káyasth.	Rájput.
Bábhan.	Khatri.	

The Khatris are often regarded as Vaisyas, but, as will be seen presently, they have succeeded in establishing their claim to be of Kshattriya descent. The relative rank of Bábhans and Rájputs varies in different districts, but Bábhans are usually considered superior to Rájputs. Their claim to be treated as Bráhmans will be discussed further on. The Káyasths say that they are Kshattriyas, who have abandoned the sword for the pen, and some wear the sacred thread, but not all. They are generally held to rank below the Khatri, Rájput and Bábhan castes. As a rule they will eat only rice cooked by Bráhmans, but the Amásth and Karan sub-castes will take also rice cooked by Bábhans.

GROUP III.—CLEAN SUDRAS.

596. Group III comprises castes from whom water may be taken and who have good Bráhmans as their priests. They correspond to the Nabasákha group in the scheme for Bengal Proper. The relative rank of the different castes varies from district

* The word Mahá Bráhman is of course used ironically. There are many similar instances of this ironical origin of names. The Bráhman cook is often sarcastically called Mahárái or Pujári, the unclean sweeper Mehtar, or prince, Jamádár, or headman, and Halálkhor, or eater of lawful food. The cook in European households is addressed by the other servants as Khalifa, or Chief, and so on.

to district, and it is impossible to fix a generally applicable scale of precedence; but, with a few local exceptions, the castes in sub-group (*a*) may be said to enjoy a higher degree of consideration than those in sub-group (*b*)—

Sub-group (a).

Adarki.	Gangautá.	Támbuli.
Agrahari.	Gareri.	Kasaundhan.
Ahir (Goálá).	Gonr.	Koiri.
Atith and Jogi.	Gurer.	Kurmi.
Bais.	Halwái.	Máhuri.
Bárai.	Kahár.	Márkande.
Barnawár.	Kándu.	Muriári.
Chero.	Kasarwáni.	Rájbhar.
Debhar or Deohar.	Kaserá.	Rástogi.
Dhánuk.	Kherwár.	Rauniár.
	Sinduriá.	

Sub-group (b).

Agarwáni.	Hajjám.	Nágar.
Amát.	Kumhár.	Sonár.
Barhi.	Laheri.	Tháru.
Bári.	Lohár.	Thatherá.
Dhimar.	Máli.	

In some places the Dhánuk, Kahár and Kurmi (other than Awadhia) take a lower place, because they are domestic servants and eat the leavings of the higher castes. The Awadhia Kurmis and Biáhut Hajjáms, whose widows do not remarry, rank higher than other sub-castes. In some places water is not taken from the Barhi, Gareri, Gangautá and Laheri castes, and they rank lower in consequence. Elsewhere, again, the Barhi, Thatherá, Lohár, Kumhár and Laheri are regarded as holding a better position than that here assigned to them on the ground that they do not take employment as household servants. The rank of the Atith and Jogi sometimes varies according to the caste of origin. In some places the Barhi, Chero, Gareri, Dhánuk, Kahár, Kumhár, Kurmi and Laheri castes, or some of their sub-castes, suffer in public estimation because they eat fowls.

GROUP IV.—INFERIOR SUDRAS.

597. In Group IV are included a number of castes from whose hands water is not usually taken, and whose Bráhmans are degraded, but who are not regarded as altogether impure and are allowed to enter the courtyards of the great temples:—

Beldár.	Káth Baniyá.	Sunri.
Bhar.	Kalwár.	Suráhiyá.
Bind.	Kewat.	Teli.
Cháin.	Malláh.	Tiyar.
Gandharb.	Nuniá.	Turaha.
Gonrhi.	Saráogi.	

All of these eat fowls except the Kalwár, Káth, Saráogi, Sunri and Teli. In some places the Turahas rank in the next lower group. In a few districts water is taken from all the castes of this group except Kalwár, Sunri and Teli.

GROUP V.—UNCLEAN CASTES.

598. Next come the castes, other than scavengers and filth-eaters, who are considered so unclean that they may not enter the courtyards of the great temples. They are usually served by the barber, but he keeps a special razor and pair of scissors for them:—

Bántor.	Dhárhi.	Khatwe.
Bediya.	Dhobá.	Kurariár.
Bháskar.	Dosádh.	Musahar.
Bhuiyá.	Gangái.	Naiya.
Chamár.	Kádar.	Nat.
Chapotá.	Kallár.	Pási.
Chápuál.	Khatik.	Rajwár.
	Tátwa.	

Most of these castes eat fowls. The Dosádhs, Dhárhis, Bahelias, Dhobás and Kádars also eat pork, and the Chamárs and Naiyas pork and beef.

GROUP VI.—SCAVENGERS AND FILTH-EATERS.

599 The sixth group comprises the sweeper castes and filth-eaters, viz.—

Aghori.	Dom.	Kanjar.
Bhángi.	Halál Khor.	Kánri.

Those Doms who are basket-makers rank higher than those who are scavengers, and may be considered on a level with the castes in Group V. The Bhángi is really the sweeper caste of Hindustan and is not numerous in Bihar, unless, as is sometimes the case, the term is held to include Halálkhor.

Caste Precedence in Orissa.

600. The Orissa Division, though so small, has a complete caste system of its own, differing in many respects from that of Bengal, far more than that of the latter differs from the caste system of Bihar. The conditions throughout are remarkably uniform, and the undermentioned arrangement of castes has received, in almost all respects, the unanimous approval of the caste committees who reported on the subject. It has thus been possible to differentiate the various social grades to a greater extent than was found feasible in the larger sub-provinces.

GROUP I.—BRÁHMANS.

The Bráhmans, as usual, head the list. The best, or Shásan, Bráhmans act as priests only to the castes in Group II. Those in Groups III to VI are ministered to by Pándá or Deuliá Bráhmans,* who rank lower than Shásan Bráhmans, but from whose hands all other castes will take water. From their ranks are supplied the local Agradánis, or Marhiás as they are called in Orissa. The latter are not held to be degraded and are freely employed as cooks.†

The Mástán Bráhmans, who serve as cooks in the temple of Jagganáth, are degraded. The reason usually assigned is that they handle the plough and smoke tobacco, but the real reason is probably that they are not of pure Bráhmanical origin. There is a tradition, common in similar cases throughout India, that they are the descendants of Sudras who, in a war between two Rájás, were disguised as Bráhmans and given the sacred thread, and were subsequently allowed to retain it. Their ancestors may have been Buddhist priests or the representatives of the earlier Bráhman settlers who mixed more freely with the people of the country than those who came later. The titles of the Mástán Bráhmans also seem to indicate that they are not of the same stock as the subsequent immigrants.

GROUP II.—CASTES OF TWICE-BORN RANK.

601. The next group is very similar to the corresponding groups elsewhere with the addition of several local castes. It includes—

1. Khatri.	4. Khandáit.	6. Daitá.
2. Rájput.	5. Vaisya, Gandha, or Putali Baniyá.	7. Baru.
3. Karan.		

The Khatris are generally placed above the Rájputs, but intermarriages sometimes take place.‡ The Karans and Khandáits claim Kshattriya descent. They rank on about the same level. The Khandáits here referred to are the true, or Mahálák, Khandáits who forbid widow-marriage. Chásás sometimes claim the title, but they allow their widows to marry and their pretensions are not generally admitted. The Vaisyas are placed below the Karans and Khandáits, as the occupation followed is less pure.

GROUP III.—CLEAN SUDRAS.

602. The castes in the third group practise widow-remarriage, but they abstain from spirits. The higher castes will take water and *pakki* from their hands. They are

* Deul means a temple.

† The Bráhman cook of Orissa is commonly called Pujári.

‡ In Puri some of the persons calling themselves Khatri or Rájput are the descendants either of the illegitimate offspring of Mahratta officers or of their standard bearers and camp followers, who were recruited from amongst the low castes of the country. The former rank above Karan and the latter below Baru. There are, however, several high-class Khatri families in the district, including that of the Rájá of Puri, who is a lineal descendant of the last Hindu King of Orissa and, as trustee of the great temple of Jagannáth, is commonly known as the Thákur Rájá. Elsewhere Khatris are looked on as better than Rájputs, and the more respectable chiefs claim to be of this caste; the Rájputs are said to rank somewhat lower, as their legitimacy is suspected.

divided into two sub-groups with reference to the degree of purity of the traditional caste occupation—

Sub-group (a).

1. Chásá.	3. Ráju.
2. Máli.	4. Sudha.

Sub-group (b).

5. Guriá.	9. Gaura.
6. Barhi.	10. Pátrá.
7. Kundrá.	11. Darji.
8. Kámár.	12. Bhandári.

The Mális are closely allied to the Chásás or Orh Chásás. They are employed in the worship of Mahádeb and Thákuráni or Grámdevtí. The Ráju and Sudha rank about on a par. In sub-group (*b*) the Guriá, or confectioner, holds the highest place, as its occupation is better than that of the other castes. The Barhi, Kundrá and Kámár are of nearly equal rank. The Gaura or Goálá is degraded because he is a *pálki*-bearer as well as a keeper of cows. He will take boiled rice from the Barhi, but not from the Pátrá caste. The position assigned to the Darji is that of the indigenous group of tailors; there is a sub-caste of Bengali origin, found chiefly in the towns, whose water is not taken by the higher castes, and whose proper position is in Group IV. The Bhandári is placed at the bottom of Group III, as he will take boiled rice from all the other castes contained in it, except the Bengali Darji.

GROUP IV.—UNCLEAN SUDRAS.

603. The castes in Group IV are served by the same Bráhmans as those in Group III and their touch does not defile, but they are not *jalácharaniya*, and they may draw water only from masonry wells in metal vessels—

1. Chitrakár.	6. Thátári.	11. Golá.
2. Khitibansi.	7. Kharurá.	12. Dográ.
3. Sonári.	8. Káchrá.	13. Kantábudiyá.
4. Sankhári.	9. Tánti.	14. Tulábhiná.
5. Kánsári.	10. Thoriá.	

The Káchrás trade in brass and bell-metal, but their name seems to indicate that they formerly dealt in glass. The Madras Baliyás, who sell glass bangles, are also called Káchrá, but there is no connection between the two castes. The degraded position of the Tulábhiná is ascribed to their using an instrument in which there is hide.

GROUP V.—CASTES WHOSE TOUCH DEFILES.

604. The main difference between Groups IV and V is that the touch of the latter defiles cloth:—

1. Teli.	5. Kewat.	9. Bhát.
2. Kumhár.	6. Kaibartta.	10. Jyotish.
3. Rárhi.	7. Kartiá.	11. Jogi.
4. Niári.	8. Khodál.	12. Sundi (Sunri).

The low position of the Telis is attributed to their employment of bullocks for pressing oil, and that of the Kumhárs to the fact that they sell earth. The Rárhi, Niári, Kewat and Kaibartta are supposed to spring from a common parentage, but the two former have given up fishing and taken to purchasing grain and carrying loads. The barber will pare the nails of their fingers only; hence they are known as *dasanakhi*. The Bhát and Jyotish may have descended from Bráhmans. The rank of the Jyotish is the lower, as persons of this caste serve the Chamárs as priests. The Jogis are beggars and physicians. They will accept alms from all castes down to Jyotish. The Sundi is the lowest caste served by Pándá Bráhmans and by the ordinary barber.*

GROUP VI.—CASTES THAT EAT FOWLS AND DRINK SPIRITS.

605. The sixth group comprises castes who eat fowls and drink spirits, but who abstain from beef. There are three well-defined sub-groups: the first are served by the Dhobá and have the Jyotish as their priest; the second are not served by the Dhobá and have no priest of any kind; and the third, though

* In Puri it is said that the Teli, Kumhár, Jogi and Jyotish should rank in the next higher group, as their touch does not defile cloth and they may draw water from masonry wells. Further enquiry, however, shows that although this is sometimes the case in towns, the group in which they are shown above is that to which they really belong.

comparable to the second in other respects, rank lower mainly on account of the freedom of their women.

Sub-group (a).

1. Siyal. | 2. Chamár.

Sub-group (b).

1. Dhobá.	4. Ghusuriá.	7. Khatiá.
2. Báuri.	5. Gokhá.	8. Sanái.
3. Taulá.	6. Girigiriá.	9. Naliá.

Sub-group (c).

1. Ahir Gaura. | 2. Kelá. | 3. Kandrá.

The women of the Ahir Gaura caste dance in public. They profess not to eat fowls or drink spirits, but are said to do so secretly. The women of the Kelá caste, which is identified with the infamous Byádha of the Shástras, beg openly. The Kandrá women are not ill-behaved, but the men are professional thieves, and they eat pork. Like the Pán they often serve as village chaukidárs.

GROUP VII.—BEEF EATERS AND SCAVENGERS.

606. The last group consists of the very lowest castes and includes—

1. Mahuriá.	3. Pán.
2. Dom.	4. Hári.

All eat beef. The Hári ranks lowest as he removes night-soil. The Dom of Orissa does not do this, but his position is still very degraded. In the Tributary States the Pán ranks higher. He is there largely employed as a weaver and calls himself Pátra Pán or Buná Pán.*

I have omitted several mixed groups from the above list. The Shágird-peshás labour under the stigma of illegitimacy and although their water is taken as a matter of convenience they cannot, on that account, be ranked amongst the clean castes. The Chattarkháis are also omitted, as they now live outside Hindu society, but at the same time they retain their original caste distinctions. Chokars, or the children of prostitutes, are also left out of account. They are outcastes.

Caste Precedence in Nepal.

PRECEDENCE LIST FOR NEPALESE CASTES AND TRIBES.

607. The order of social precedence amongst the Nepalese castes and tribes, as given below, was prepared by Mr. Earle when he was Deputy Commissioner of Darjeeling. It does not refer to the Newárs, who are a nationality rather than a caste, and have their own caste system and caste precedence list as described in paragraphs 887 to 894 of this chapter.

Group I.—*High Castes.*

1. Bráhman or Bahun.	3. Thakuri.
2. Sannyási.	4. Khas.

Bráhmans will not eat rice cooked by any other caste. They will take water from all castes except those in Group III. Sannyásis will eat *kachchi* prepared by any one ranking in this group, but not by others. The Thakuris will take cooked rice only from Bráhmans or from members of their own caste. The Khas will take it from a Bráhman or Thakuri, but not from a Sannyási.

Group II.—*Intermediate Castes and Tribes.*

5. Gurung.	10. Yákhá.	15. Thami.
6. Mangar.	11. Mánjhi.	16. Háyu.
7. Sunuwár.	12. Murmi.	17. Khawás.
8. Jimdár.	13. Sherpa.	18. Gharti.
9. Limbu.	14. Tháru.	19. Kamára.

* Buná means 'weaving.' There is no connection between this word and the homonym by which the coolies brought from Chota Nagpur to Central Bengal by the indigo planters are collectively known. The latter word is probably derived from *ban*, 'jungle.'

Group III.—*Low Castes.*

20. Kámi.	22. Damái.
21. Sárki.	23. Bádhi.

24. Gáin.

The last five are not served by Bráhmans, but appoint priests from amongst themselves. They have no dealings of any sort with the castes in Groups I and II, and are obliged to leave the road on the approach of any one belonging to any of these castes. They are not allowed to enter the courtyards of temples. The Kámis and Sárkis eat rice only when cooked by members of their own community.

Tribal Precedence in Chota Nagpur.

608. As regards the non-Aryan tribes it is very difficult to fix any general scale of social precedence. The position of each tribe varies from place to place according to its local strength and the traditions of former rule. The Bhuiyás rank highest in Keonjhar, the Mundas in the south-east of Ranchi, the Kharwárs and Cheros in Palamau, the Hos in Singhbhum, the Kandhs in the Khondmals and so on. In these circumstances no useful purpose would be served by a lengthy discussion of the subject, but if further information is desired, it will be found in Appendix VIII which contains two interesting reports, prepared respectively by Mr. Streatfeild, Deputy Commissioner of Ranchi, and Babu Jamini Mohan Das, Deputy Superintendent of Census, Cuttack.

PRECEDENCE OF TRIBES IN CHOTA NAGPUR PLATEAU.

Disputed points of Social Precedence.

609. I have already mentioned that numerous claims were advanced by various castes to a higher rank than that generally or universally accorded to them. One of the best and most interesting memorials in connection with this subject was received from Rájá Ban Bihári Kapur advocating the claim of the Khatris to rank as Kshattriyas, but it is unnecessary to discuss the point in this report. The headquarters of the caste lies beyond the borders of this province, and the claim has already been admitted by the Census Commissioner for India.

CLAIMS TO HIGHER RANK. BRÁHMAN SUB-CASTES.

The Baidik Bráhmans submitted a memorial urging their right to rank as the highest class of Bráhmans in Bengal Proper on the ground that they are the descendants of the original settlers. They say that the alleged descent of the Rárhi from the Kanaujiá Bráhmans is a myth and point out the following points of difference, *viz.* (1) the Rárhi Bráhmans have different titles and *gotras* from those of Kanauj, (2) they allow polygamy, which the Kanaujiá Bráhmans do not, (3) the wife must be younger than the husband, but there is no such rule amongst the Kanaujiás, (4) there is no tradition outside Bengal of the original settlement from Kanauj which was not a seat of learning in ancient times, (5) the Kanaujiá Bráhmans are mostly Tántriks while those of Rárh are not, (6) the Rárhi Bráhmans say they are descended from the Hindustani wives of the original immigrants, and the Bárendras from their Bengali wives; the latter deny this, but probably the original emigrants, if the story of their advent is true, came unaccompanied by any wives at all.

Except in special cases of degradation or admitted pre-eminence, it would be an interminable task to endeavour to arrange sub-castes in the order of social precedence. In all cases it is usual to find each sub-caste claiming to rank higher than the others, and if any difference actually exists, it is usually purely local, and due to local causes, such as numerical superiority and the like. Both the Bráhmanical sub-castes referred to above are pure and it seems, therefore, unnecessary to attempt to adjudicate as to their relative rank.

The Áchárji Bráhmans protested against being considered degraded and urged that the Bráhmans who minister to them do not suffer in general estimation as do those who minister to Sudras, and that they perform all the six duties enjoined on Bráhmans in the Shástras. There is, however, no doubt that the Hindus as a body regard Áchárji Bráhmans as standing on a lower level than

those whom I have placed above them in the precedence list for Bengal Proper.

BÁBHAN.

610. The Bábhans filed several representations, asserting that they are Bráhmans who have given up the priesthood and taken to landholding. It is said that they are addressed as Sarma on ceremonial occasions, that the Rájputs and other castes offer them *pranám* (adoration) as they do to Bráhmans and receive *ásirbád* (benediction) from them, that their manners and customs are those of Bráhmans, and that some subcastes of Káyasths will take *kuchchi* food prepared by them. Certain references are made to various Greek and Chinese writers, who said that many Bráhmans had given up asceticism and the taking of alms, and lived by cultivating the land and acquiring territorial possessions. The best opinion at the present time is perhaps in favour of the Bráhmanical origin of the Bábhans,* but it would be incorrect to say that they are, therefore, Bráhmans still. In the eyes of the general Hindu public they constitute a separate caste, which is generally, but not always, regarded as slightly superior to that of the Rájputs.

BAIDYA.

611. The Baidyas claimed to be placed next to the Bráhmans on the ground that they are identical with the Ambashtas of the Shástras and so are descended from Dhanvantari, the son of a Bráhman father and a Vaisya mother, at a time when marriages with women of lower caste were legal,† and it was held that the offspring occupied a position intermediate between that of the parents, but inclining rather that of the father on account of the superiority of the seed over the soil. Some Baidyas, it is said, act as spiritual guides to Bráhmans, who are not thereby lowered in general estimation. The Sákadvipi Bráhmans of Bihar, who also practise medicine, are alleged to regard the Baidyas as their equals. They claim to rank above the Rájputs of Bihar as the latter engage in manual labour and plough with their own hands, and merely shuffle on the *janeo* or sacred thread at marriage, whereas the Baidyas follow no degrading occupation and observe the full ceremony of investiture or *upanayan*; they also perform the complete marriage ceremony, including perambulation of the sacred fire, which is neglected by the Rájputs; and they alone, of the non-Bráhmanical castes, have the right to study the Veda, from which circumstance the modern name of the caste is derived. They claim precedence over the Káyasths on the following additional grounds:—

(1) the Káyasths are Sudras and have been held to be so by a High Court ruling to which a Káyasth Judge subscribed.

(2) The Káyasths mourn for 30 days like the Sudras, whereas the Baidyas mourn for 15 days only.

(3) When the Sanskrit College was first opened the only castes admitted were Bráhmans and Baidyas.

(4) The Káyasths were originally the servants of the Bráhmans and Baidyas,‡ and when poor they are still found taking employment as domestic servants, whereas the Baidyas will never do so.

(5) On ceremonial occasions, when different castes are collected, flower wreaths and sandal wood paste are offered first to Bráhmans, then to Baidyas and after them to Káyasths.

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* Mahámahopádhyáya H. P. Sastri points out that Bábhan is merely the Páli form of Bráhman and that the word is often found in Asoka's Edicts. He conjectures that those now known as Bábhans remained Buddhists, after the Bráhmans around them had reverted to Hinduism, and so the Páli name continued to be applied to them. The Pandit explains the synonym Bhuinhár or Bhumiháraka as referring to their having seized the lands attached to the old Buddhist monasteries. The family titles of the Bábhans also favour their claim. The Mástán Bráhmans of Orissa have many more non-Bráhmanical titles than have the Bábhans, *e.g.*, Sáhu, Senapati, Soyái, Jena, Padhán, Máhánti.

† Such marriages between a man of a higher and a woman of a lower caste were formerly allowed, and were known as *Anulom*. Marriages between a woman of a higher and a man of a lower caste were called *Pratilom*, and were forbidden.

‡ A leading Baidya tells me that there is a proverb in support of this allegation, viz. :—

Jata Bráhman tata Káet
Jata Baidya tata Káet
Jata Káet tata Káet.

612. The most vigorous of all the agitations that arose in connection with the caste question was that of the Chási Kaibarttas.* They urge that they are entirely distinct from the Jáliyá Kaibarttas and that their proper appellation is Máhisya,† an ancient caste of much respectability which is said to be descended from a Kshattriya father and a Vaisya mother. The Chási Kaibarttas claim to be Máhisyas on the ground that they have the same origin, and quote *slokas* from the *Padma Purán* and the *Brahma Vaivartta Purán* in support of this claim. They have also succeeded in obtaining *vyavasthás* from some eminent pandits acquiescing in the desired identification. The *sloka* from the *Padma Purán*, however, is said not to be found in the ordinary editions and the quotation from the *Brahma Vaivartta Purán* is incomplete; the next *sloka* goes on to say; "but by their connection with the Tivars in the Kali Yuga they became fishermen and were fallen."‡ This passage, therefore, even if it supports the alleged origin of the Kaibarttas as a whole, disposes at the same time of the claim of the Chási sub-caste to be distinct from the Jáliyá, and also to rank higher than they do on the strength of their alleged descent, even if it be genuine. It is argued, however, by the opponents of the Máhisya movement that the whole passage is spurious, and does not occur in many trustworthy editions, such as that in the Sanskrit library at Benares. It is asserted also that the protection of grain was the occupation of the Máhisyas and not agriculture. The word Kaibartta again is usually derived from *ka*, water and *vartta* engaged, and the common patronymic is Dás, a Sudra title.

Chási Kaibartta.

There seems to be no room for doubt as to the common origin of the two sections of Kaibarttas, and in remote tracts, such as the Tributary States of Orissa, inter-marriage is still permitted between them. In Dacca, some people were entered at the Census as Chási Kaibartta by caste and fishermen by occupation. At the same time, in the greater part of Bengal Proper, the process of differentiation has proceeded so far that they now constitute practically separate communities. Water is not taken from the Chási Kaibarttas in all districts, but in some it is.§ In the Tribes and Castes of Bengal Mr. Risley says regarding them:

"It seems likely as time goes on that this sub-caste will rise in social estimation, and will altogether sink the Kaibartta, so that eventually it is possible that they may succeed in securing a place with the Navasákha."

This was written only ten years ago, and at that time, not only had the Máhisya theory not been developed, but the word is not even mentioned in Mr. Risley's book. Even now the claim is confined to Central and Western Bengal, and the lower sections of the community are still but imperfectly acquainted with their new name and the improvement in their status which it is intended to connote.‖ In Eastern Bengal Dás, Hália Dás and Kaibartta Dás, are the names by which the Chási Kaibartta prefers to be known. In Sylhet, when able to afford it, he takes Káyasth girls in marriage and describes himself as a Káyasth or Sudra. In some parts, chiefly in Eastern Bengal, the fishing section are also sinking the Kaibartta and call themselves Jáliyá or Jáliyá Dás. In Noakhali a small section of the Chási sub-caste, there known as Hália Dás, tried unsuccessfully to get themselves returned as Deba Dás.¶

* This agitation was pursued with great energy, and in the 24-Parganas, Nadia, Midnapore and other districts, influential committees were formed to draw up petitions, to inform the lower classes of their community of their newly discovered status, and to urge them to return themselves as Máhisya at the census. They were allowed to do so, as Máhisya is a name assumed by no other modern caste and there was thus no risk of confusion. The so-called Máhisyas were all classed as Chási Kaibartta in the course of tabulation.

† The Máhisya has been identified with the Mahesri of Upper India.

‡ Tiyar is still the name of a Kaibartta sub-caste in Orissa.

§ I am told that in Nadia the higher castes arranged not to take water from them as a sign of their disapproval of the agitation.

‖ In Mymensingh many withdrew their claim to the new title on its being stated that the word meant 'pertaining to a Mahish' (buffalo). In Nadia on the other hand the new idea gained such ground that many Chási Kaibarttas in domestic service under other castes threw up their work saying it was beneath their dignity. Finding, however, that no other means of livelihood were available they were soon fain to return and beg their employers' forgiveness.

¶ The Kaibarttas, says Dr. Grierson, seem to have been a non-Aryan race and to have entered Bengal from Orissa. They conquered by force of arms and the defeat, by them, of the Rájá of Msina is the subject of a local poem. They founded several great families of which that of the Rájá of Tamluk still survives. The history of their arrival accounts for the peculiar dialect of Bengali spoken by them. Probably owning originally to some non-Aryan language, they arrived in Midnapore speaking a corrupt patois of Oriyá, and on this, as a basis, they have built the dialect of Bengali which they speak in their present home.

613. The Jogis strongly objected to the ordinary spelling of their caste name (Jugi) which is popularly derived from Jungi, a low mixed caste, whose traditional origin is from a Sudra father and a Chandál mother.* They say that they are the descendants of Bráhman ascetics or Yogis who were degraded on account of a quarrel with the Bráhman priest of Ballála Sena. They point to the fact that they call themselves Náth, address their wives as 'Debi' and wear the thread; but the thread was assumed very recently and they may equally well have adopted the titles they now use in recent times. There seems reason to believe that they are descended from a religious community, but this does not in the least confirm their claim to Bráhmanical origin. The Jogis and other religious sects of Upper India freely admit members of all castes,† and there is no reason for supposing the case to have been different with the ancestors of the caste under consideration. They were possibly Buddhists. If so, their degraded position might easily be due to their having remained in that faith after the general population had reverted to Hinduism. They call their priests, who belong to their own community, Mahátma or Pandit, both of which terms were formerly in use amongst the Buddhists. They bury their dead in a sitting posture, with the legs crossed as in the conventional attitude of Buddha, and the face turned to the north-east. Their occupation of weaving is one which was often resorted to by decayed religious communities.‡ All the persons known to outsiders as Jugi are not allowed to call themselves Náth. Some mourn for 30 days like Sudras and some for only 10 days like Brahmans. It may be, therefore, that there were originally two different communities, the one derived from Jogis and the other from Jungis. In Nepal there is still a distinction between Jogi and Jugi. The former term is synonymous with Sannyási, while Jugi is the name of the dancing and musician caste of Newars.

Jogi or Jugi.

However this may be, it is admitted that the Jogis or Jugis of Bengal Proper are looked upon as degraded, and if one of them happens to enter the room of a Hindu of good caste the cooked food and drinking water must be immediately thrown away.§ There is, therefore, no real dispute as to the position accorded to the caste by Hindu public opinion at the present day.

614. The Káyasths claim to be Kshattriyas who took to clerical work, whereas according to them, the Baidyas, as a mixed or Barna Sankar caste, hold a much lower position. They also deny that the Baidyas are identical with the Ambasthas of the Shástras, and urge that if they were a genuine survival, they would not be confined to Bengal Proper, but would also be found in the great strongholds of Hinduism. Lastly, they say, that it is only within the last hundred years that the Baidyas have abandoned their old Sudra ritual and assumed the thread, with the aid of Rájá Ráj Ballabh who bribed the Bráhmans into acquiescence. They say that in all other parts of India the Káyasths wear the thread, and there are numerous *Vyavasthás*, or opinions of Pandits, admitting their Kshattriya origin. They occupied a high position under Hindu kings, and in the *Akbarnámah* it is stated that the zamindars of Bengal were mostly Káyasths. Much stress cannot be laid on the period of mourning, for while, on the one hand, the Pándavas mourned for 30 days after the battle of Kuru Kshettra, on the other, many low castes, such as the Koch and Chandál, mourn for a much shorter period. In the Vallálacharita by Ananda Bhatta written in 1510 it is stated that the "Tailika, Gandhika and Vaidya are clean Sudras. Of all the Sat Sudras the Káyastha is declared to be the best."

Káyasth.

As already stated, it seems to be undesirable to endeavour to arrive at a definite conclusion regarding the relative rank of these two castes.

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* According to the Brahma Vaivarita Purán the Jungis are descended from a Vesyadhári or false hermit by a Gangáputra girl.

† In the Punjab in 1891 more than 38,000 Jogis returned themselves as Muhammadans by religion.

‡ The Saráks are weavers and the Jogis of Bihar spin thread. In the Punjab Census Report for 1891 Mr Maclagan points out the connection which exists between religion and weaving in that Province. There are he says some Musalman tribes who, in many parts of that province, perform indifferently the functions of the weaver and the Mullah. Kabir was a Joláhá by caste and so also was Dudhu Miyán, the great reformer of East Bengal. These cases, however, are not strictly analogous, as they refer to weavers who have taken to religion and not to religious bodies who have become weavers.

§ In Orissa the Jogis are named in a list of eleven outcaste tribes who are not allowed to enter the temple of Jagannáth. For a further reference to the Jugis, see paragraph 787.

615. The Awadhiá Kurmis urged that they should be ranked as Kshattriyas. Some pretend that the word Kurmi is a corruption of Kshattriya while others derive it from their progenitor, Karna, a Kshattriya of the Lunar race. They say that their ancestors concealed their origin and took to agriculture, in order to escape from the persecution of the Buddhist King Asoka. Bráhmans take water from them; they perform their *Srádha* on the 12th day and *kachchi* food prepared by them is taken by Kahárs, Bháts, and other castes who would not take such food from Sudras. They will not engage in domestic service, and when wealthy, they are invited to attend at ceremonies of the higher castes and exchange presents with them. Amongst rulers of Kurmi origin are mentioned Sivaji, the Bhonslas of Nagpur and the Scindias of Gwalior. All connection is denied between the Awadhiá sub-caste and the other classes who go by the name of Kurmi. There is no doubt that the Awadhiá Kurmis rank higher than the rest, but they are not recognised by Hindu public opinion as forming a separate caste.

KURMI.

616. The higher class Pods who live by cultivation and call themselves Padma Ráj urge that they are of Kshattriya origin and have no connection with the fishing Pods. They have, however, quite failed to establish any racial difference between themselves and the Pods who live by fishing, and the connection is clearly indicated by the fact that they are still willing to accept the daughters of the fishing Pods as their wives, though they will no longer give their own daughters in marriage to members of that section of the caste. They are often known as Paundra or Pundarik which seems to connect them with the ancient kingdom of Paundra Vardhana* and their claim to Kshattriya rank probably arises from a faint remembrance of the days when they were the ruling tribe in that part of the country. There is a sub-caste of Chandál known as Pod, and there seems reason to believe that the two castes are offshoots of the same parent stock.† There is a tradition that the original Pod was a half-brother of the original Chandál. Whatever their ancestry may be, there is no doubt as to the position which the Pods occupy in Hindu public opinion at the present day, and this is the position which has been assigned to them in the precedence list.

POD.

617. The Rájbansis of North Bengal wished to be styled Bhanga or Brátya Kshattriyas and to be classed amongst the twice-born castes. They tell various stories of their origin, the favourite one being the well-worn legend that their ancestors were the descendants of Kshattriyas who discarded their sacred threads when fleeing from the wrath of Parasuráma.‡ Another story is that they are descended from Rájá Bháskara Varman, who was related to many Kshattriya families, and so must himself have been of the same caste. These legends may at once be rejected, and even if they had some substratum of truth, which does not appear to be the case, they would not affect the estimation in which the caste is held at the present day. At the same time, the enquiries which I have caused to be made seem to show that there is a good foundation for the assertion of the Rájbansis of Rangpur that they have no connection with the Koches, and that the two communities spring from entirely different sources. Though in some places there has been considerable racial intermixture, the Rájbansis appear to be a Dravidian tribe allied, it may be, to the Tiyars, who often call themselves Rájbansi in the districts south of Rangpur, as far as Nadia and Jessore, and they probably owned the name long before the Mongoloid Koch kings rose to power.§ When the latter attorned to Hinduism they assumed the caste name of the most numerous Hinduised community in their neighbourhood and, owing to the loose organisation of the original Rájbansis, there was a considerable intermingling

RÁJBANSI.

* The Pundras are mentioned in the Mahábhárata as one of the five chief races of Eastern India (Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Volume II, page 176).

† Tribes and Castes of Bengal, Volume II, page 186.

‡ This king was ruling in Kámarupa when Hiuen Tsiang visited the country about 640 A.D.

§ I am told that fishing was the traditional occupation of the Rájbansis of Rangpur and that they have gradually taken to cultivation, owing to the silting up of the large rivers, such as the Karátoyá, which once flowed through the district. We see the same process of transition amongst the people who call themselves Rájbansi in Nadia. They were originally fishermen, and most of their villages are on the banks of rivers, but they are gradually giving up fishing for cultivation. With the change of occupation comes a claim to occupy a higher social status. As regards the assumption of the name Rájbansi by the Tiyars, it may be noted that there are still traditions of former Tiyar Rájás in various parts of Bengal.

of the two races while the Koch kings ruled, especially towards the north and north-east where they were most numerous. In Jalpaiguri and Kuch Bihar, and in Goalpara in Assam, the persons now known as Rájbansi are either pure Koches who, though dark, have a distinctly Mongoloid physiognomy, or else a mixed breed, in which the Koch element usually preponderates. Further away, the Koches did not so readily abandon their old religion and their tribal name, and the original Rájbansis were less willing to mix with them. In Rangpur we find Rájbansis and Koches inhabiting the same villages but remaining as perfectly distinct communities with very different physical characteristics. The religion also is different. The Koch worships Siva and eats pork, while the Rájbansi is usually a Vaishnava and eschews unclean food. The Kámrupi Bráhman serves Rájbansi and Koch alike, but the Maithil Bráhmans, who sometimes minister to the Rájbansis, will have nothing to say to the Koches, and the Nápit, though he shaves them, does so with some reluctance. The Koches sometimes serve as *pálki*-bearers but the Rájbansis never do so. The tendency of the Koch to merge in the Rájbansi seems to have received a check, and the true Rájbansis now refuse to ally themselves to the Koches, even when the proposals are otherwise of a very advantageous nature. Thus a clerk of the Rangpur Registration office, who was a Rájbansi, refused to give his daughter to a scion of the ruling family of Kuch Bihar, and a Rájbansi family of Nilphamari was outcasted for contracting a matrimonial alliance with another branch of the old royal family. A Koch who rises in the world does not, in Rangpur, find it easy to become a Rájbansi.*

SADGOP.

618. The Sadgops claim to be Vaisyas, but their pretensions are unsupported by any solid argument† and they are still commonly regarded as a purified sub-caste of Goálá who have obtained a higher position than the rest by adopting agriculture as their occupation. The other Goálá sub-castes will all admit a Sadgop into their ranks, should he wish to join them. This subject will be further discussed in connection with their local distribution (paragraph 658).

SHÁHÁ.

619. The Sháhás submitted a memorial stating that they are Kshattriyas by origin and Vaisyas by profession and quoted several passages in the Shástras in support of their contention. They say they were degraded not for any fault of their own, but because the vice of drunkenness had spread amongst the people and, being unable to cope with it, the Bráhmans declared the dealers in spirit to be degraded. They now follow the occupations assigned to Vaisyas and should, therefore, they say, be classed in Group II. There is no doubt that the Sháhás are an enlightened and progressive community and that they include in their ranks many zamindars and rich traders. But the criterion on which the precedence list is based, is Hindu public opinion, and there can be no doubt that, judged by this standard, their position is still a humble one. The fact of their having been degraded is not disputed, and the Hindu would never think of revising a decision arrived at many centuries ago.‡

* Unfortunately, in the course of tabulation, I treated Koch and Rájbansi as synonymous terms, and did not compile separate figures for each. A separate return would have been of little use in Jalpaiguri and Kuch Bihar, where the Koches freely call themselves Rájbansi, but it would have afforded some idea of the relative strength of the two communities in other districts.

† They deny that Gop means Goálá and assert that as, in a few cases, Vaisyas are said to be Gopála, therefore Gopála is synonymous with Vaisya. The Sadgops were often called Chási in old Bengali literature and so must be Vaisyas, as cultivation was one of the main occupations of the Vaisyas. Goálá and Gop are of course both derived from Gopála and ordinary Goálás are often called Gop. Chási or Chásá again is the appellation of many other castes, such as Chásá Dhobá, Chási Kaibartta, and the great cultivating caste of Orissa, who have never yet dreamed of a Vaisya ancestry. It would be easy by a similar line of argument to prove that any class of persons belongs to any desired caste. A few cases are quoted where particular Sadgops were honoured as Vaisyas, but these alone are not sufficient.

‡ The degradation may be a fiction, *i.e.*, the rank of the Sunris may always have been low. But this is immaterial. The result is the same so far as their present status is concerned. It is interesting to note some of the methods by which a class gradually works upon public opinion. In Tippera it is said that at one of the Munsiff's Courts the Sháhás pay the pleaders as much as Rs. 50 to have themselves entered under the title of 'Ráy' in the documents they file in Court. At Brahmanberia a Sháhá who had spent a sum of money on some public purpose applied to be entered as 'Ráy' in the Municipal books in recognition of his liberality. Similarly the Jugis endeavour to have themselves described in their documents as Deb Náth. In Malda and some of the neighbouring districts the Sháhás seem to be more successful in shaking off the trammels of their humble origin. The persons there known as Gaur Banik are alleged to be of Sháhá origin and at the present census they have gone a step further and in many cases have succeeded in getting themselves returned as Agarwálas.

620. The Subarnabaniks submitted petitions protesting against their proposed classification and urging that they should be treated as Vaisyas. They are a wealthy and well educated community and there seems to be little doubt but that they occupied a position of great respect until degraded by Ballála Sena on account of their sympathy with the Páls who, like themselves, were Buddhists. If, therefore, the origin of a caste, or its status in the eyes of a foreigner, were to decide its rank, there would be little doubt as to the right of the Subarnabaniks to a place in Group II. The touchstone, however, is Hindu public opinion at the present day, and according to this standard, there is no doubt that the caste ranks below the Nabasákhas. Their Bráhmans are degraded and their water is not taken.*

SUBARNABANIK.

621. The claims of other castes, whose pretensions are vaguer and less circumstantial, may be more summarily dealt with. The Gandhabaniks claim to be Vaisyas, and in some respects they seem superior to the Nabasákhas, but it is in this group that they are placed by Hindu public opinion in Bengal Proper. In Orissa they are generally regarded as Vaisyas and have been entered accordingly in Group II. The Chásádhobás also pretend to be Vaisyas and called themselves Haladhar.† The Paliyás desire recognition as Brátya Kshattriyas, the Chási Suklis as Solánki Rájputs, the Patiáls, the Sudras of East Bengal, the Báruis of Mymensingh, the Shágirdpeshás of Orissa, and the Khyáns of Rangpur as Káyasths, the Tiyars as Rájbansis‡ and the Kalus of Manbhum as Telis. The Sutradhars, while admitting their degradation, claim to rank with the Nabasákhas on the ground of their common origin. A section of the Chandáls, who were fain to be returned as Namasudras in 1891, now pretend that the Nama and the Sudra are two distinct classes, and that they should be known as Sudra to distinguish them from the degraded Namas, with whom they deny all connection. The only one of these claims that deserves discussion is that of the Sudras to be considered Káyasths. These Sudras, as is well known, are the servant class of the Káyasths. Their origin is uncertain, but they are probably descended from various clean castes who were reduced to a position of servitude.§ The dividing line, at the present day, between them and the Káyasths is not very rigid, but it undoubtedly exists, and although rich Sudras may, occasionally, be recognised as Káyasths, it by no means follows that the whole community should be so classed.

OTHER CASTES.

It is a curious circumstance that, with scarcely an exception, these claims to higher caste, or to new and more pretentious names, are confined to Bengal Proper. The reason seems to be that the various tribes of this part of the Province have come under the influence of the caste system in comparatively recent times, and that their relative rank has never been stereotyped by Hindu kings under the influence of their Bráhman advisers.‖ The differentiation of the people according to function, which was so complete in Upper India, never proceeded far enough in Bengal to obliterate the earlier racial distinctions, and the castes of Bengal are, to a great extent, race castes with traditions, more or less obscure, of former rule; in the days of their supremacy they were probably allowed the rank of Kshattriya, but they have been deposed from it since the loss of their political power. The bulk of the claims that have been discussed are those of race castes to be considered Kshattriyas, or of certain functional groups to be considered Káyasths. The pretensions of the latter seem to be a reminiscence of the time when the number of Aryan settlers in Bengal was very small and those who came found it easy to obtain recognition as Káyasths, just as at the present day, all classes of Newárs, when they leave Nepal, profess to belong to the Sreshta caste.

* Their water appears to be taken by the Bráhman Goswámis of Kharda, Bagnapara, Nadia and Faridabad, but this is not the general practice.

† In Rajshahi some of them gave Háliá Rái as their caste name.

‡ This is said to be the name given them in the Brahma Vaivartta Purán.

§ In Chittagong there are said to be two classes of Sudras, viz., Pushpánjuli or Phullájáliá, who are descended from maid-servants by their Káyasth masters, and Hángutiá who are the offspring of widows.

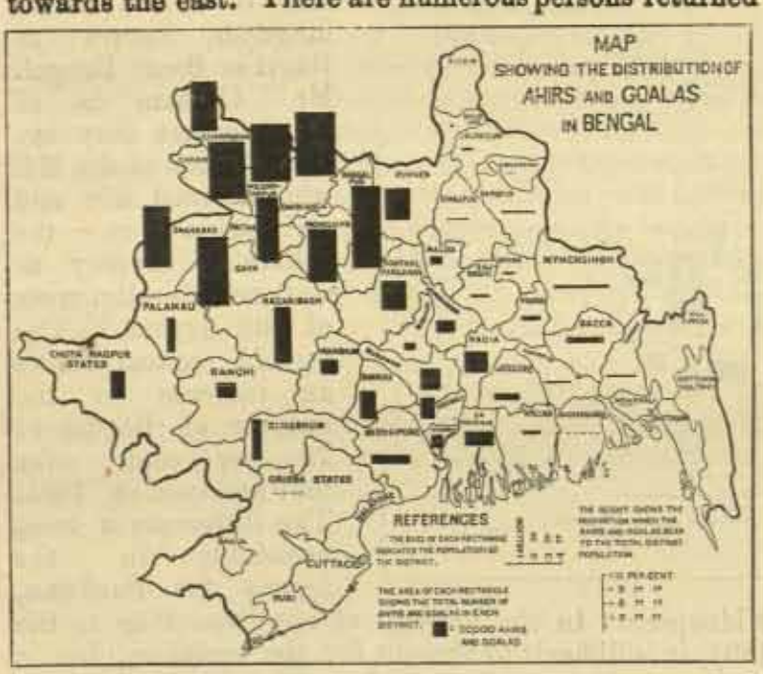
‖ Many of the earlier rulers were non-Aryan, and the Buddhist kings, even when Aryan, troubled themselves very little about caste. They left the people alone, and did not try to force upon them the caste system which had developed itself in other parts of India. The Sena kings were Hindus, and one of them, Ballála Sena, did a great deal in this respect in some parts of Bengal, but his successors were overthrown by the Muhammadans before the influence of his 'reforms' had had any great or permanent effect on persons who were not already Hindus.

DISTRIBUTION OF MAIN CASTES AND VARIATIONS SINCE 1872.

622. The number of castes is so great that it is impossible to discuss in detail their distribution, and the variations in their strength, as compared with previous censuses. Ordinarily the main castes only will be dealt with, and others will be referred to only in a few cases of special interest. A tabular statement of the variations since 1872 in the strength of the more important castes will be found in Subsidiary Table No. II at the end of this Chapter. I have given below a series of maps showing the distribution of the main castes, and a word or two is perhaps necessary regarding the system on which they have been prepared. The strength of the caste to which the map refers is represented in each district by a rectangle, of which the base indicates the total population of the district, while the height shows the proportion which the strength of the caste in question bears to the total population; thus the area of the rectangle shows the actual strength of the caste.* This method of graphic representation is that recommended by M. Jacques Bertillon. Its superiority to the ordinary method of tinting or shading a map lies in the fact that it affords an index to the absolute as well as the relative strength of a caste. In the case of the Kaibarttas, for example, a map prepared on the ordinary system would merely show that the proportion borne by the caste to the total population is about the same in Midnapore as it is in Howrah and would not bring out the fact that the actual number of Kaibarttas is about four times as great in the former as in the latter district.

ÁHIR OR GOÁLÁ.

623. The Áhirs or Goálás with a strength of nearly four millions are by far the largest caste in the Province. They are found mainly in Bihar, and their number rapidly decreases towards the east. There are numerous persons returned under this head throughout Chota Nagpur, but many of these belong to various aboriginal tribes who have gradually come to be known by the designation of Goálá or of some synonymous term, because of their occupation, but who do not yet belong to the true Goálá caste. I have included in Goálá the figures for Mahkur, which is shown by Mr. Risley as a subcaste, but the Deputy Commisioner of Ranchi reports that the people so called are "a wandering tribe, said to hail from Orissa, who come into the jungles of this district to graze buffaloes." The strength of the caste is slightly less now than it was ten years previously, the reason apparently being that it is found mainly in Bihar where there has been a decline in the general population. The number of Goálás is still greater by nearly 21 per cent. than it was in 1872.



624. The Bábhans, though they number 1,144,162, are practically confined to the Patna Division. A few have overflowed into Bhagalpur and Hazaribagh, but elsewhere

BÁBHAN.

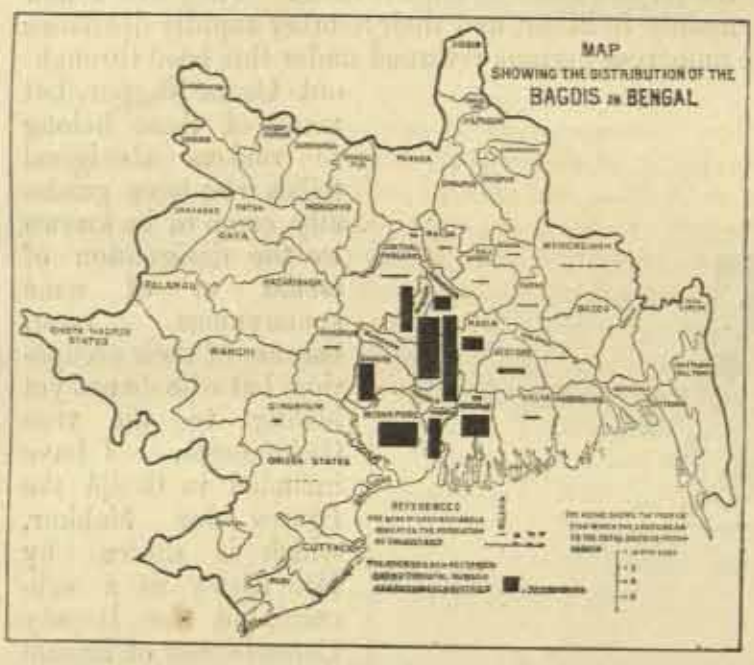
* Let C=strength of caste, and P=Population of the district. The height represents the proportion which the caste bears to the population of the district, *i.e.*, $\frac{C}{P}$, and the base represents P. The area of each rectangle = height × base = $\frac{C}{P} \times P = C$.

the number is inconsiderable. There is a decrease of nearly 6½ per cent., compared with 1891, owing mainly to the figures for Monghyr and the Chota Nagpur States. In the latter there seems to have been some confusion in 1891 between Bhuiyá and Bábhan, Bhuinhár being a synonym for both castes. In Monghyr the number at the last census was 35 per cent. in excess of that returned in 1881, and 46 per cent. more than in 1872. The number now returned in that district, although 48,000 less than in 1891, exceeds the figure for 1872 by more than 17 per cent.



625. The distribution of the Bágdis, who number more than a million, is also very local. They are found in any considerable number only in the Burdwan Division, and in two or three of the adjoining districts of the Presidency. This caste gave its name to, or received it from, the old division of Ballála Sena's kingdom, known as Bágri or South Bengal. Mr. Oldham is of opinion that they are "the section of the Mál who accepted life and civilisation in the cultivated country as serfs and co-religionists of the Aryans." The present census shows an increase in the number of Bágdis of 28 per cent. over that returned in 1891. The difference is most noticeable in the figures for Burdwan, Bankura, Hooghly and Midnapore. In the absence of any record as to the classification adopted in 1891, it is difficult to account for the variation, but it may be conjectured that it is due mainly to the inclusion under the head Bágdi at the present census of the figures for Mánjhi in Bankura, Danda Mánjhi in Midnapore, Duliá in Hooghly, and Let in Birbhum, some of which items may have been added to other castes at the last census.

Bágdis.



626. The Baishnabs who aggregate nearly half a million show only a nominal increase over the number returned in 1891. This caste grows, not only by natural processes, but also by fresh accessions from outside, and a larger increase might well have been anticipated. It is probable that some of the sectarian groups now shown separately were added to it at the previous census, and that in Orissa, where Vaishnavism is a matter of sect rather than caste, many persons returned as Baishnabs in 1891 have been shown, on the present occasion, under their proper castes. In some parts there are indications of a decline owing to the gradual

Baishnab.

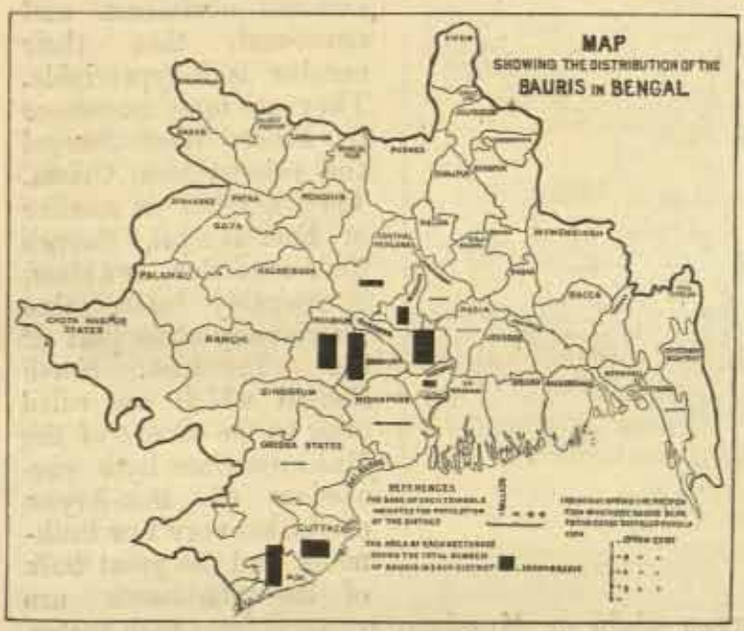
contraction of private charity, the misappropriation of public charitable funds and the want of any fresh religious stimulus.

BANIYÁ.

627. Baniyá is a vague functional term which includes many different castes. The figures show a steady decrease, which is satisfactory, as it shows that at each succeeding census the caste column is filled in more accurately than at the preceding one. Probably most of the persons returned as Baniyá belong to low castes such as Sháhá and Kalwár.*

BÁURI.

628. The distribution of the Báuris is much the same as that of the Bágdis, except that comparatively few of them are found in Midnapore, and that they are numerous also in Cuttack and Puri. Their presence in these two districts, coupled with their almost complete absence from Balasore, is a curious phenomenon for which I have no explanation to offer. A former Magistrate of Cuttack was of opinion that the persons known by this name in the south of Orissa are ethnically distinct from those of West Bengal. The Orissa Báuris weave a kind of coarse cloth. The caste has grown by nearly 8 per cent. since the last census. The variations from district to district are generally slight, but there is a great decrease in Purnea, and about 1,400 are shown in the returns for Mymensingh and Chittagong, where there were previously only a few score.



BHUIYÁ.

629. There is an increase of 32 per cent. in the number of Bhuiyás, who aggregate about two-thirds of a million. This is due, partly to a more careful differentiation of the figures for Bábhan and Bhuiyá in the Chota Nagpur States, and partly to the elimination of Buná from the returns for Bengal Proper. But the difference occurs mainly in the figures for the Sonthal Parganas where the Bhuiyás are now returned at 119,059, compared with only 26,351 in 1891. The number of Ghátwáls or Ghatwárs in the same district now stands at only 8,135, compared with 101,285 at the last census. Most of the Ghátwáls are Bhuiyás, and if the two be taken together, their number in this district is almost the same now as it was ten years ago. As noted elsewhere the word Bhuiyá is a Sanskrit derivative and it does not follow that there is any

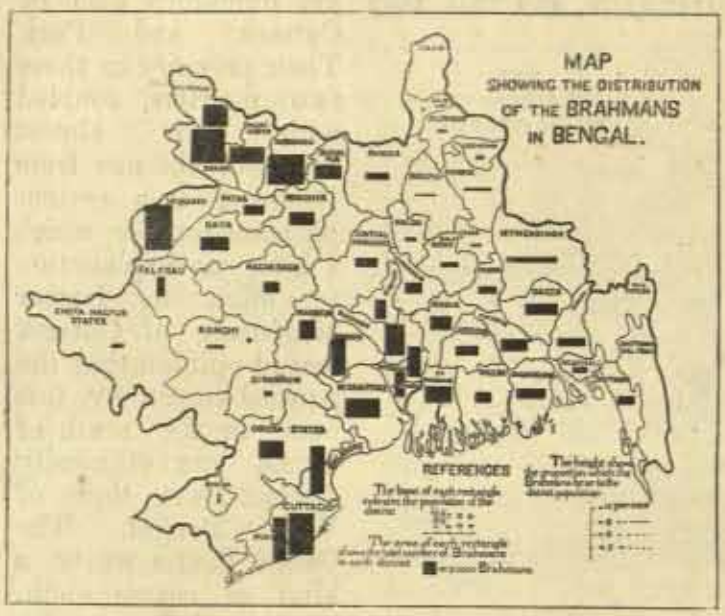


* This supposition is confirmed by the comparative illiteracy of the persons thus returned (*ante* paragraph 491). In Malda and the neighbourhood there are several communities, alleged to be of Sháhá origin, who have used the word Banik as a convenient halting place between their original and a much higher caste.

necessary connection between the people known by that name in different parts of the country. Mr. Oldham identifies the Bhuiyás of the Sonthal Parganas with the Mál,* whom in many respects they closely resemble, and the accompanying map shows that the Bhuiyás are found chiefly to the north and west of the country occupied by the Bágdis. Mr. Bompas looks on the Bhuiyás of Manbhum as quite distinct from those of Bonai.

BRÁHMAN.

630. Next to the Goálás, the Bráhmans are the most numerous caste in Bengal, and they are by far the most widely distributed. Numbering not much short of three millions, they are found in every district in the Province, and it is only in the outlying tracts, in the extreme north-east and south-east, that their number is inappreciable. They are most numerous in Bihar, West Bengal and priest-ridden Orissa. Their number is smaller in East Bengal, though their condition, as a class, is probably better there than in any other part of the Province. North Bengal which was ruled prior to the advent of the Muhammadans by a succession of non-Aryan chiefs, has very few Bráhmans, and the great bulk of its inhabitants are either race castes of nonAryan origin or Musalman converts from such castes. The Bráhmans are increasing very slowly. The gain during the last two decades has amounted to only 1·70 and 2·67 per cent., respectively.



CHAMÁR AND MUCHI.

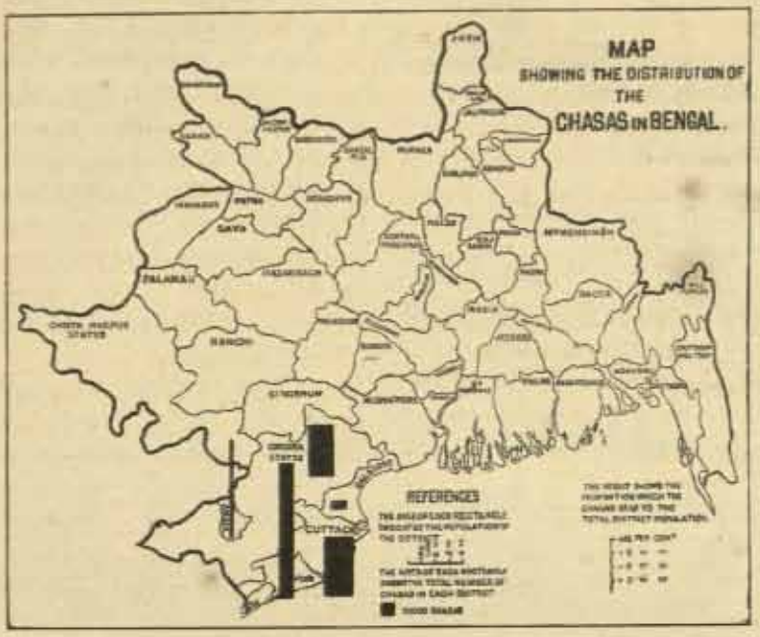
631. The Chamárs and Muchis form practically one caste, and they number more than 1,600,000. Their home is in Bihar and the United Provinces, but they are steadily migrating to Bengal where there is no indigenous caste of skinners, tanners, hide-dealers and cobblers. The number of Chamárs in East Bengal is still small, but it is rapidly growing. In the Province, as a whole, there has been an increase of nearly 9 per cent. since 1891. Though undoubtedly descended from them, the Muchis now claim to be distinct from the Chamárs, but a comparison of the sex proportions of the two groups shows that, while Chámar females outnumber the males, amongst the Muchis the latter are in excess. The reason seems to be that many of the Bihar Chamárs are called Muchi in Bengal, and as males are in marked excess amongst those who come to Bengal, the sex proportions are disturbed in consequence.



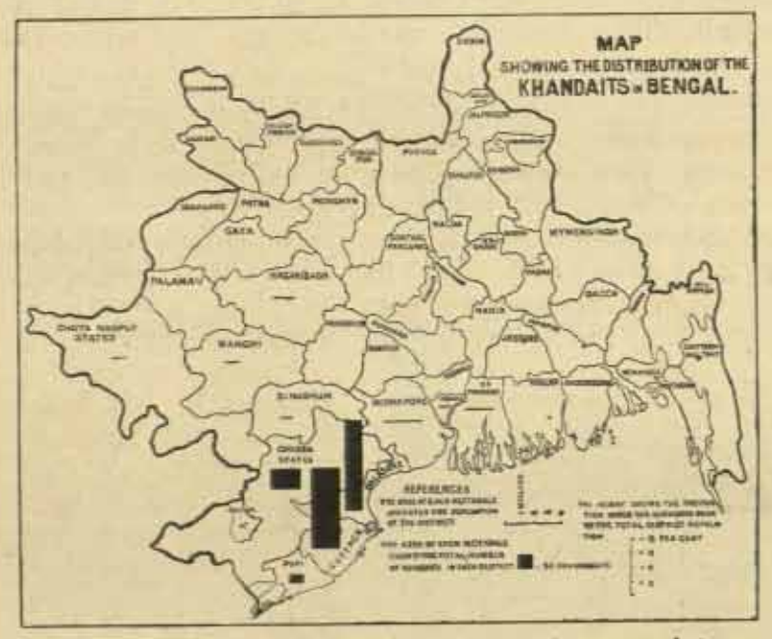
* In another place he identifies the Mál with the Malli of the Greek geographers.

CHÁSÁ AND KHANDÁIT.

632. The Chásá is the great cultivating caste of Orissa where it comprises about one-seventh of the entire population. It is known to be recruited mainly from various aboriginal tribes, and the process of accretion seems to be still going on. The caste showed an increase of nearly 26 per cent. in 1891, and it has again grown in about the same proportion. There are, however, other reasons for the increase. Many Chásá profess to be Khandáits, or hide their identity under the term Sudra, and this tendency is more successfully restrained at each new census. The Magistrate of Cuttack reports that, in the course of checking the schedules, many entries of Khandáit were changed to Chásá. The real growth is, therefore, less than the figures would indicate.



633. The Khandáits are now slightly less numerous than the Chásás, and their apparent increase since 1891 is only 5½ per cent. Both Chásás and Khandáits are practically confined to Orissa. The distribution of the two castes is shown in the maps in the margin. The main difference is that the proportion of Chásás to Khandáits in Puri is almost exactly the reverse of that in Balasore. The proportion of the former decreases from south to north and that of the latter from north to south. This difference in the distribution is possibly, to a great extent, a matter of nomenclature, and the claims of Chásás to be returned as Khandáit, may have been more leniently dealt with in Balasore than in the southern part of Orissa.



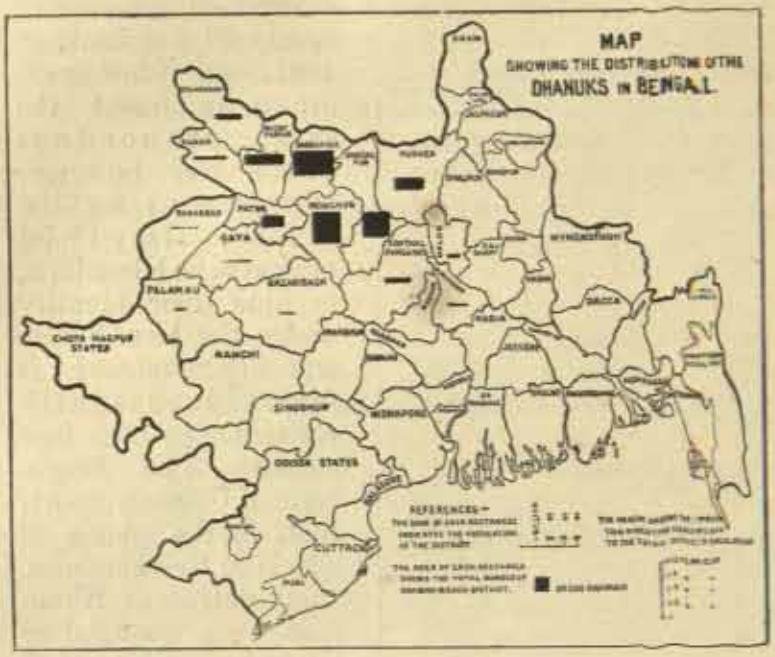
There is some difference of opinion as to the origin of the word Khandáit. The general view is that it means swordsman (from *Khandá*, a sword), but it is a significant fact that one of the caste *Santaks*, or devices endorsed on documents, is a *Kánda* or arrow.* Another explanation which has been put forward, and with much plausibility, is that Orissa was formerly divided into *Khandas*, or groups of villages corresponding to the *pargana* of Muhammadan times, and that there was over each a headman called *Khandapati*, which was subsequently corrupted to Khandáit.†

* The other is a *Katári* or dagger.

† The word *Khand* is still used in Lower Assam to indicate the group of villages under the supervision of a Mandal or Patwári. For further observations regarding the Khandáits reference may be made to the recent Orissa Settlement Report by Mr. S. L. Maddox, I.C.S., paragraph 332.

634. The Dhánuks are a Bihar caste with nearly 600,000 representatives. They are most numerous in Darbhanga, Monghyr and Bhagalpur, and very few are found outside these three districts and the tracts immediately adjoining them. They have increased by 3 per cent. during the last decade, compared with 6·3 per cent. in the previous ten years. In Bhagalpur and Monghyr, Dhánuks are said to be also known as Jaiswar Kurmis and and this may have some times led to confusion.

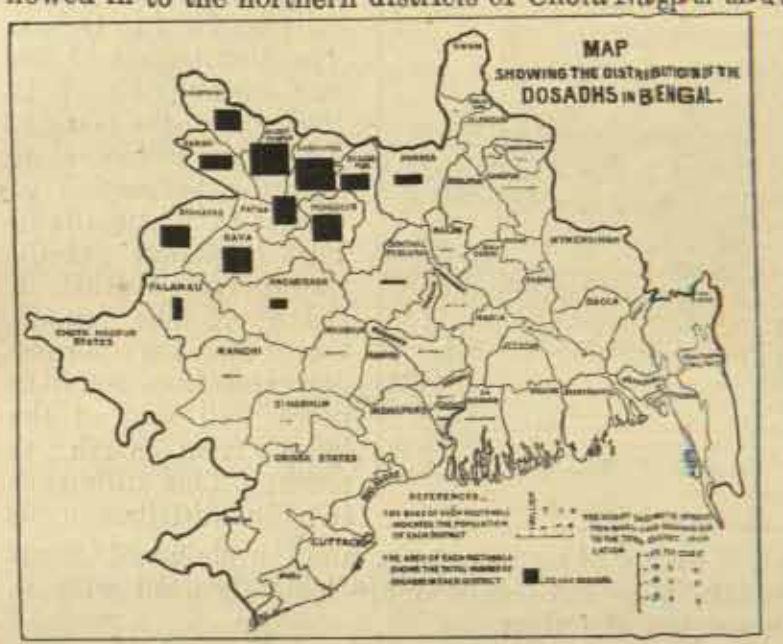
DHÁNUK AND DHOBÁ.



The Dhobás, who are rather less numerous than the Dhánuks, have lost ground slightly during the decade. The whole of the decrease has occurred in the Presidency Division where there has been a corresponding increment in the number of persons returned as Chásádhobá.

635. The Dosádhs, with a total strength of nearly 1,200,000, are found in all Bihar districts, but are most numerous in Muzaffarpur and Darbhanga. A few have overflowed in to the northern districts of Chota Nagpur and a few are scattered about Bengal Proper, where the large proportion of males shows that they are mainly temporary visitors employed on earthwork and in the mills.

DOSÁDH.



They have decreased in number by about $1\frac{1}{2}$ per cent. since the last census. The loss is shared by all districts in which they are numerous, but is greatest in Champaran. Many of them are landless labourers, and they probably suffered in the famine more than the cultivating classes.

636. The Gaura, or Goálá caste of Orissa, with about 430,000 representatives has remained stationary during the decade, the reason probably being that on this occasion persons returned by the name of some aboriginal tribe, *e.g.*, Bhuiyá, with the addition of the word Gaura, were classed under the real tribe and not as Gaura.

GAURA.

637. As will be explained in the next section the Gangái and Gangautá are really separate castes, but Gangái was classed with Gangautá at the last census. This explains the falling-off under Gangautá on the present occasion. The figures for the two castes taken together show a slight increase.

GANGÁI AND GANGAUTÁ.

638. The same explanation applies to the decrease under the head Gonrhi. It is due entirely to the separation of the figures for Gonr which were included in it at the last census and were added to Kándu in 1881. The Gonrhis are fishermen, while the Gonrs are grain-parchers and are generally regarded as allied to the Kándus, from whom, however, in spite of the identity of occupation they are really quite distinct. The two castes (Gonr and Gonrhi) are very hard to distinguish in the vernacular, but special attention was paid to the point at the time when the caste table was being prepared, and the entries on the slips were carefully examined. The occupation found on the great majority of the slips treated as Gonr was grain-parching.*

GONR AND GONRHI.

639. The Háris show an increase of nearly 6 per cent., but the real growth is greater, as several castes have now been shown separately which were added to Hári in 1891, *e.g.*, Hádi in Mymensingh and Halálkhor in Saran and other Bihar districts.

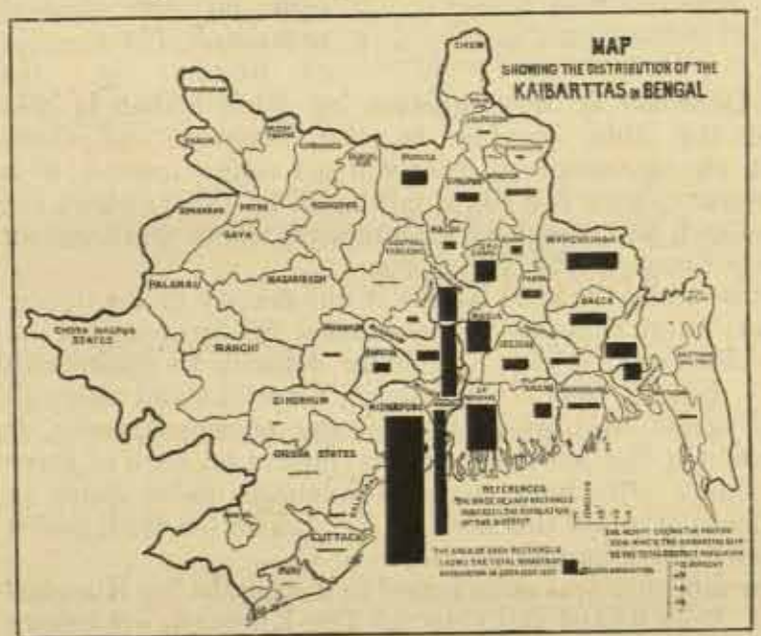
HÁRI.

640. The great increase under Ho is also due to changes of classification. The persons returned as Kolha in the Orissa and Chota Nagpur States and Singhbhum were on this occasion added to Ho, of which the term is a synonym, whereas in 1891 theys were shown separately as Kol.

HO.

340. The Kaibartta is the great race caste of Midnapore. It is also well represented in the districts east and north of this centre as far as Mymensingh and Purnea. The total strength is nearly two and-a half millions, and the increase during the decade is rather more than 11 per cent. During the previous ten years, there had been a decline of 10 per cent., and the number of Kaibarttas at the present time is not quite 3,000 more than that returned in 1881. Possibly some items, which have now been shown under other heads, may then have been classed with Kaibartta. In Malda, for instance, about 26,000 persons returned as Haladhar Chásati have now been classed as Chásati. There was no such entry in the Census Tables of 1891, and it is presumed that persons in question must then have been classed as Kaibartta.

KAIBARTTA AND KEWAT.



The Kewats of Orissa and Bihar (about 372,000 in number), who correspond to the Kaibarttas of Bengal Proper, show a slight increase of 3·68 per cent. The gain would have been greater, but for the separate entry of certain communities in Orissa. which were previously treated as Kewat sub-castes.

642. Karan is the writer caste of Orissa. Its total strength is now about 189,000 compared with 130,000 in 1891. The great increase is due to the figures for Midnapore, where almost all the Karans, who are numerous in that district, were classed as Káyasths at the last census. The Midnapore caste return shows an increase of about 49,000 Karans and a falling-off to the extent of 41,000 in the number

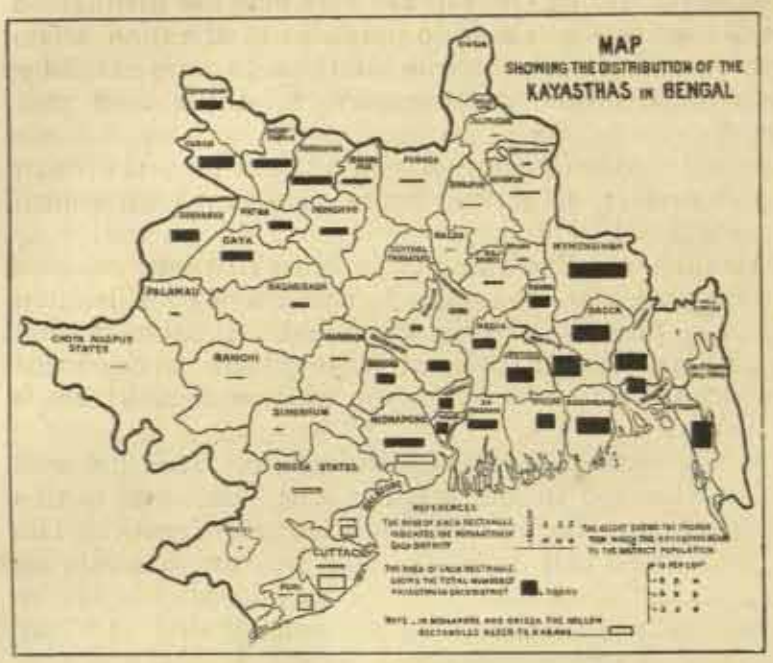
KARAN.

* The Gonr is described by Crooke in the "Tribes and Castes of the North-Western Provinces and Oudh," Vol. II, page 430. Fishing is there mentioned as one of the caste occupations, but as noted above, in Bihar the Gonr is almost invariably a grain-parcher. There is often, however, a connection between the two occupations, as in the caste of the Kewats of Orissa. Possibly further enquiry may show that Gonr and Gonrhi are only different forms of the same word, and that the two groups spring from the same source.

of Káyasths. If this be allowed for, the Karans are only about 10 per cent. more numerous than they were ten years ago.

KAYASTH.

643. The Káyasth, or great writer caste of Bengal and Bihar, has a total strength of rather more than one and one-third millions. They are found in considerable numbers in all parts of Bengal Proper and Bihar. They are most numerous in the Dacca,* and least so in the Bhagalpur and Rajshahi Divisions. There is an apparent decrease of about 8 per cent. since the last census, but this is due mainly, if not wholly, to changes of classification. As noted in the last paragraph, more than 40,000 Karans were classed as Káyasths in Midnapore in 1891, and in East Bengal a greater number of Sudras succeeded in thus returning themselves than was the case on the present occasion. The number of Sudras in the Dacca and Chittagong Divisions is now greater by 62,000 than it was in 1891. The addition of this number to the Káyasths of those Divisions would result in an increment of nearly 9 per cent., instead of a decrease of about 2 per cent. There is a slight falling-off in Bihar, where the general population has declined, and especially in Monghyr, where there was an unexplained growth of 50 per cent. at the last census.



644. The large increase under the head Khaira is due mainly to the figures for the Chota Nagpur States where it is probably accounted for by more careful classification. As noted elsewhere, it was extremely difficult to distinguish Khairá from Korá, Khariá, Kharwár, and although great care was taken on the present occasion, it is still impossible to guarantee the accuracy of the figures for each of these castes taken separately. I may note here that the increase under Korá in Manbhum is due to the inclusion under this head of the figures for Mudi which has been ascertained to be a local synonym for it.

KHAIRÁ.

645. An even greater difficulty was experienced in distinguishing Khetaurí from Khatri and Chatri. The Khetaurís are known mainly from Mr. Oldham's book on "Some Historical and Ethnical Aspects of the Burdwan District."† Mr. Oldham looks on them as the royal section of the Mál tribe. They have traditions of former rule in various parts of Bihar, and the name assumed by them is, in his opinion, as near an approximation to that of the classic warrior caste of ancient India, as they dare to use. However that may be, the two words are most difficult to distinguish, and at no previous enumeration have the Khetaurís figured in the census returns as a separate caste. Even on the present occasion, although special attention was given to the subject, the total number returned is only

KHETAURI, KHATRI AND CHATRI.

* The Káyasths of Chittagong are said in the recent settlement report on that district to have gone there originally as agents and clerks of the Moghals.

† Mr. Oldham spells the name Katauri, but in the schedules it was variously spelt as Khetaurí, Khetárí, Khetarí and Kheturi, never as Katauri. The word reminds one of the Ketúre who once ruled in Kabul and of their congeners the Katyúras of Kumaon who were ruling in the eighth century when Sankaráchárjya exterminated the Buddhists (Atkinson's Gazetteer of the Himalayan Districts of the North-Western Provinces and Oudh volume II, page 439). It may be interesting to mention that although there are Khetauris who hold a high position, the great majority of those whom we were able to identify were returned as jotdars, tenants, grocers, rice-pounders, day-labourers, field-labourers and cowherds. Possibly the better classes were more successful than their poorer brethren in persuading the enumerators to describe them as Khatris or Rájputs.

3,712, as compared with Mr. Oldham's estimate of 50,000. Many must still have been classed as Rájput or Khatri.

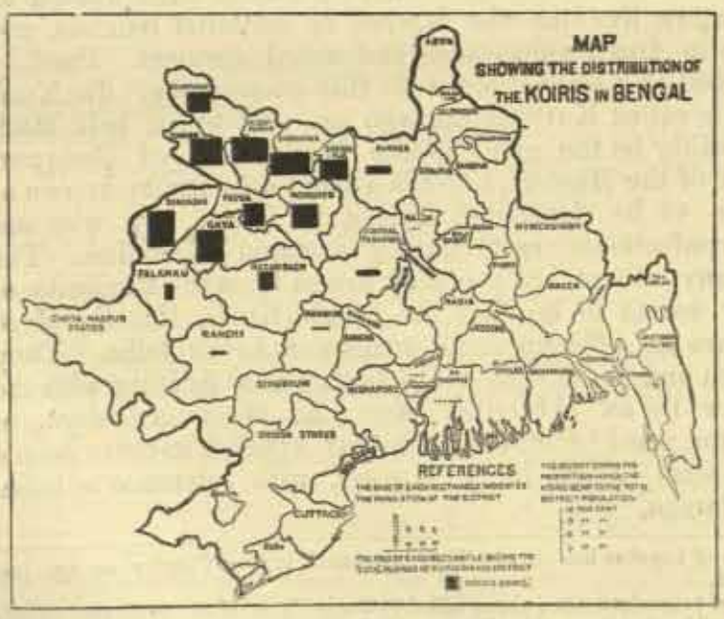
The distinction between Khatri and Khetri or Chettri meaning Rájput is equally difficult to draw, especially in East Bengal where a man will write Khatri and pronounce it Chettri. Mr. Howard, the Deputy Superintendent at Dacca, after giving the matter most careful attention and examining many slips himself, was forced to admit that he could not distinguish the two castes, and classed all such entries as Rájput which, in that part of the country, is undoubtedly the caste of the great majority. In other parts of the Province the distinction has been attempted, but it is impossible to repose much confidence in the details for each caste taken separately. At the last Census Khatris were shown separately in the Provincial Caste Summary, but were omitted from the district details, where the figures appear to have been amalgamated with those for Rájput.

646. As explained elsewhere the Kurmis of Bihar are an entirely separate caste from the Kurmis of Chota Nagpur. The latter are found mainly in Manbhum and are more pronouncedly Dravidian than the homonymous caste of Bihar. They have a dialect of their own, known as Kurmáli, a mixture of Bengali and Bihári, with here and there a few aboriginal words. The two communities should in theory be distinguished by the "r", which is soft in the one case and hard in the other, but in practice the rule is not observed, and both words are usually spelt exactly alike. They have, therefore, perforce been shown under the same head. Their combined strength is nearly 1,400,000, and they have grown by nearly 6 per cent. since 1891.

Koiri; Kurmi.



647. The Koiris are believed to be very nearly allied to the Kurmis, and a comparison of the accompanying map with that given above for the Kurmis will show that, if the districts south of Hazaribagh, where the aboriginal Kurmis are chiefly found, are left out of account, the distribution of the two castes is very much the same. The Koiris are considerably more numerous than the Kurmis in Gaya and Monghyr, and much less so in Patna. The total number of Koiris exceeds one and a quarter millions and the increase during the decade is about 6 per cent., or about the same as that of the Kurmis.



LEPCHAS.

648. The present census shows no decrease in the number of Lepchas, but the enumeration of Sikkim in 1891 was incomplete, and our figures, therefore, cannot throw light on the question whether, as is often alleged, this small but interesting community is gradually dying out or not. I have made enquiries into the matter and find that, although the general idea is that their number is decreasing, there is not much evidence that this is really so. The Lepchas are undoubtedly less numerous in the neighbourhood of Darjeeling than they were some years ago, but this is due mainly to migration. The Bhotias have, to a great extent, ousted them from employment under Europeans, and the extension of tea cultivation has made it necessary for those who live by cultivation to move elsewhere, either towards Kalimpong or across the Sikkim border. In former times Lepchas were often forcibly enslaved by the Bhotias, and many were carried away to Tibet and Bhotan. The descendants of these slaves would gradually come to be looked on as Bhotias. Although this cause of decrease has ceased, there is still a small but constant drain, owing to the intermarriage of Lepcha women with Bhotias and Nepal Paháriás. There is no tribal organisation amongst the Lepchas, and so there is nothing to check these marriages, the off spring of which are usually considered to belong to the male parent's tribe. Many Lepchas have gone to the Terai at different times, and these have gradually died out, but those who remain in the hills are very healthy, and although, so far as the statistics of marriage by caste go, they usually have fewer children than the people of the plains,* there seems no good reason to suppose that at the present time they are declining in number.

MÁL, MÁLO AND MALLAH.

649. The increase under Mál is due mainly to the figures for Mymensingh, where 35,190 have been returned, compared with only 5,955 in 1891. In 1872 and 1881 the number in that district was 20,166 and 21,920, respectively. Málo shows a great increase, chiefly in Pabna, Jessore, Dacca, Mymensingh and Tippera, where it is due to a great extent, to the classification under this head of persons returned as Jáliyá. It is very difficult to distinguish between Mál, Málo and Malláh. The last is an Arabic term meaning boatman, and it has not as yet quite gained the status of a caste. Many persons of the Kewat, Gonrhi, Bind and other boating castes are loosely known as Malláh in Bihar, in much the same way as in Bengal they are sometimes called Jáliyá. The use of the word at the census was discouraged as much as possible.

MAYRÁ AND KURI.

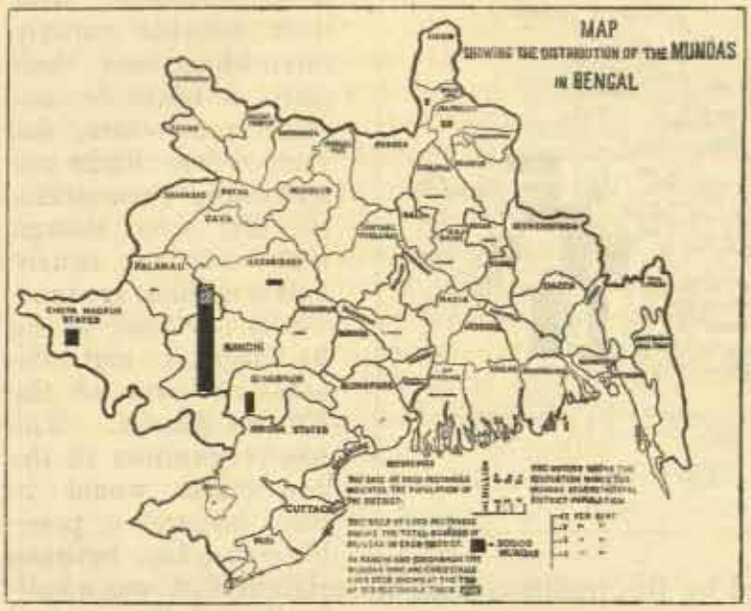
650. In Rangpur Mayrá includes 25,000 persons returned as Kuri,† but it is doubtful how many of these belong to the true confectioner caste. The occupation shown on the slips for these persons was usually, 'cultivator,' or 'field labourer,' and seldom the characteristic employment of the Mayrás. There is a local caste known as Mech Kuri who are cultivators, live like the Meches in scattered hamlets, and closely resemble that tribe in dress, appearance and social customs. Possibly many of the persons returned as Kuri belonged to this community. In Kuch Bihar there are some people called Kuri Sajjan who are said to be half Mech half Koch and may possibly be the same as the Mech Kuri of Rangpur. Further south, on the bank of the Meghna, there is a small community known as Loháit-Kuri. They claim to be descended from a Kaibartta boy who was bought by a man of the confectioner caste during a season of famine. The tradition, however, like many others, has probably arisen from the similarity of name, and the probability seems to be that the Loháit-Kuris, like the Mech Kuris and Kuri Sajjans are an offshoot from some non-Aryan tribe. They are fishermen by occupation and angle with a rod from a boat drifting with the current. Kuri may either be an old tribal name like Mech or Paliya, or it may be a corruption of the word 'coolie,' which was applied to these people in the same way as in Central Bengal Buná is used, with reference to tribes from tha Chota Nagpur Plateau.

* The small size of the families of Lepchas has already been discussed in the Chapter on age (see page 218, footnote to paragraph 402).

† The word Kuri, when applied to confectioners, seems allied to Guria (from Gur), the name of the Orissa confectioner caste. It is possible that Kuri, though commonly held to be a sub-caste of Mayrá is in reality the name of an entirely distinct group, which by reason of similarity of occupation has gradually come to be regarded as a branch of the main Bengal caste of confectioners.

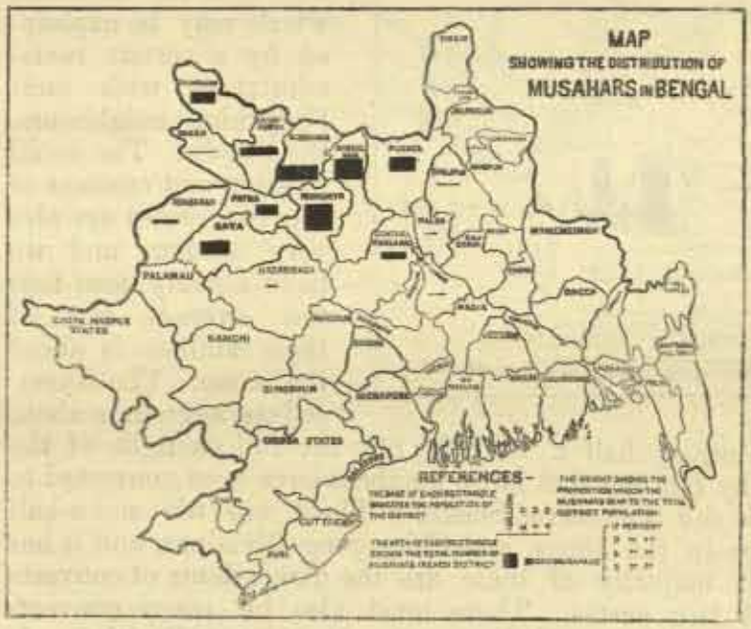
MUNDA.

651. The Mundas, who are practically the same tribe as the Hos and Bhumijes, under another name, and are closely allied to the Santáls, are almost confined to Ranchi. Some are found in the Chota Nagpur States, Singhbhum and Hazaribagh, and some in Jalpaiguri and the Darjeeling Terai, whither they have gone to work on the tea gardens. Many also have been recruited for Assam, and the number in that Province represents more than a sixth of the total strength of the caste, which is rather less than half a million, unless the 56,000 Native Christians of Munda origin be taken into account, in which case it slightly exceeds this figure. The Mundas in Bengal have increased by only $5\frac{1}{4}$ per cent., but there has been much emigration since 1891. In Assam and Bengal taken together, the increase exceeds 11 per cent.



MUSAHAR.

652. I have already adverted to the connection between Bhuiyá and Ghatwár, and Mr. Risley has given good grounds for supposing that the Musahar also is a Bhuiyá.* The whole of Bihar was apparently once peopled by Dravidian tribes, some of whom retreated before the Aryan invasion into the hilly fastnesses of the Chota Nagpur Plateau, while others remained behind and fell into a condition of degradation and servitude. A comparison of the accompanying map with that already given for the Bhuiyás will show that the distribution of the two communities fits in very well with this theory. The Bhuiyás occupy the country to the south of that where the Musahars are found, and the two castes are met with together only along the common border line—in Gaya, Monghyr, Bhagalpur and the Sonthal Parganas. The Musahars are more numerous by $7\frac{1}{2}$ per cent. than they werein 1891.

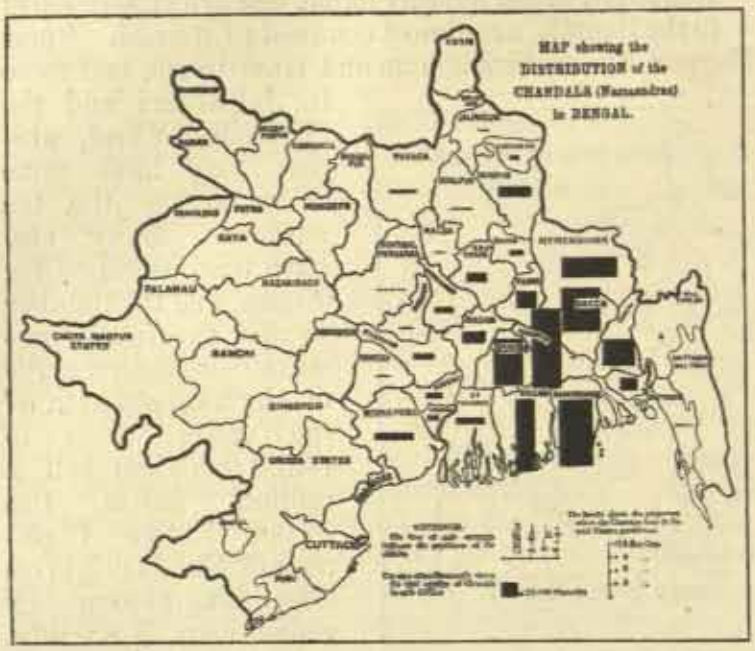


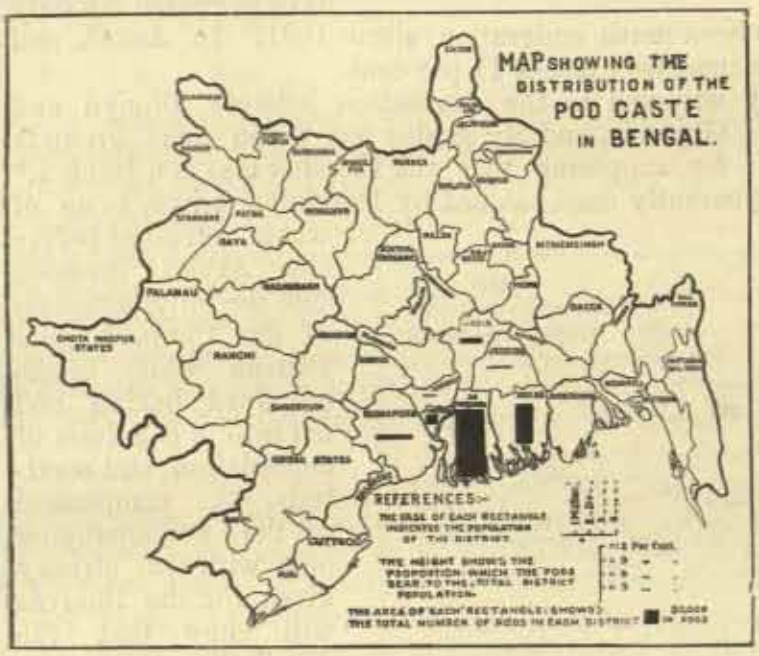
NAMASUDRA AND POD.

653. The Namasudras or Chandáls are the great race caste of East Bengal. Their main habitat is in the swamps of Backergunge and Faridpur, where they live an almost

* "Tribes and Castes of Bengal," Vol. II, page 113. There have been other theories also regarding the origin of the Musahars, but all point to non-Aryan affinities. Mr. Magrath was inclined to affiliate them with the Tháru, and Mr. Nesfield with the Cheros and Savars who play a prominent part in the legendary history of the Ganges valley. Musahar, like Bhuiyá, is a Sanskrit derivative, which Mr. Risley takes to mean rat-catcher, and it does not follow that all the persons bearing the name at the present time in different parts of the country have sprung from the same non-Aryan tribe.

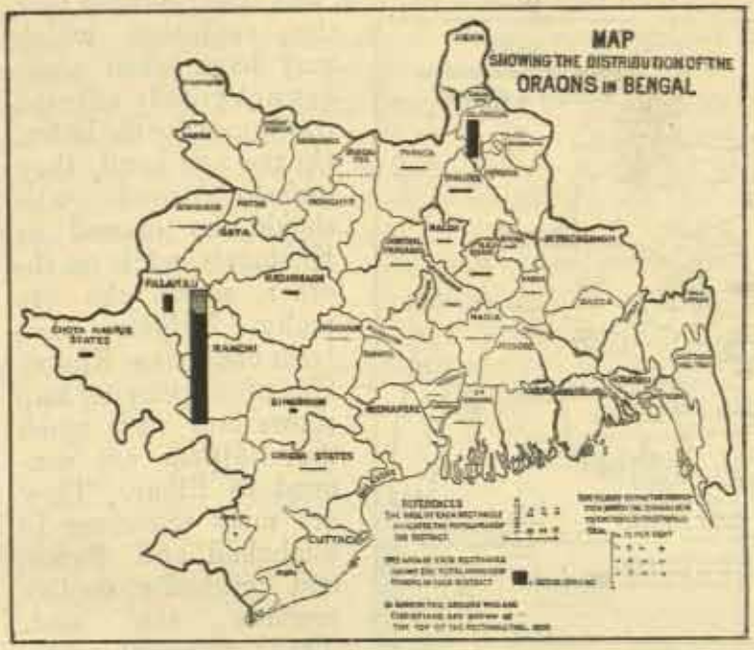
amphibious life, but they are also found in large numbers in the surrounding districts, especially in Khulna, Jessore, Dacca, Mymensingh and Tippera. Further west their number rapidly diminishes, and their place is taken by another race caste, the Pod, whose limits are still more circumscribed, and who, though they number nearly half a million, are practically confined to the 24-Parganas and the adjacent part of the Khulna district. The relative position of the two castes would in itself suggest a possible connection between them, and this is confirmed by the tradition that the original Pod was a half-brother of the original Chandál. The head-measurements taken by Mr. Risley show a close resemblance in the shape of the skull, but the Pod has a broader nose than the Chandál, which may be explained by a certain racial admixture with their platyrhine neighbours, the Bágdis. The social position and customs of the two castes are also very similar, and we have already seen that the average size of their families is about the same. The Namasudras aggregate about 1,861,000, and the Pods nearly half a million; but the full strength of the tow castes is concealed by the fact that large numbers have been converted to Muhammadanism and now call themselves Shekh. There are ten and-a-half millions of Muhammadans in the Dacca and Chittagong Divisions, and it has been shown that the great majority of these are the descendants of converts from the ranks of these two castes. There must also be many converts of the same origin in the southern districts of the Presidency Division. It would probably to safe to say that at least nine millions of the Muhammadans of Bengal Proper belong to this stock. Tradition connects it with the ancient Buddhist kingdom of Paundra Vardhana, the capital of which was on the bank of the Karátoyá, and it has been noticed elsewhere that the Pods still preserve some recollection of their old religion and worship Buddha under the name of Dharmaráj or Dharma Thákur. The ethnic characteristics of this race are in the main Mongoloid. It probably entered North Bengal by way of the Brahmaputra valley and ruled there until it was pushed southwards by a second invasion of the Koch and other Mongoloid tribes from the same direction. The Namasudras have increased by 5, and the Pods by 11 per cent. during the last decade.





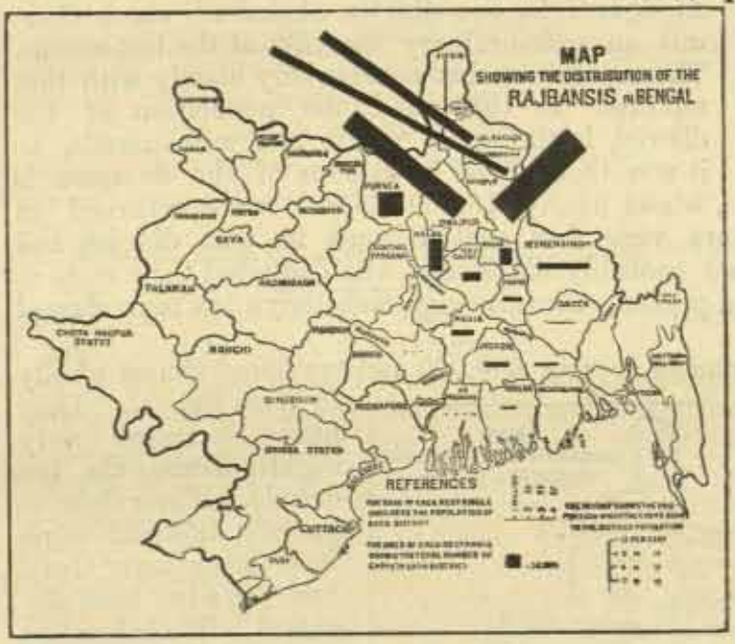
654. The Oráons like the Mundas are a very local caste. Their home is in the Ranchi district, and very few are found elsewhere. There are colonies in Jalpaiguri and the Darjeeling Terai, whither they have gone for work on the tea gardens. Their total number in this Province is nearly 600,000 in addition to about 60,000, Christian converts of Oráon origin. There are also about 20,000 members of this tribe in Assam. In Ranchi the Oráon is usually described as Animistic by religion, but in other parts of Bengal he was generally returned at the census as a Hindu. The probable history of the Oráons prior to their settlement in the Ranchi district, and their apparent connection with the Malé of the Rajmahal Hills have been discussed in the Chapter on Language, paragraph 526.

ORÁON.



655. I have referred in paragraph 617 to the mixed origin of the Rájbansis. Some are descended from Mongoloid Koches, while others, probably the main body, are of Dravidian stock. However that may be, their distribution is extraordinarily local, and while they bulk very largely in the population of a few districts in North Bengal, very few are found elsewhere. In Kuch Bihar 60 per cent. of the inhabitants are Rájbansis, in Jalpaiguri 41, in Dinajpur 32, and in Rangpur 23 per cent. This is in addition to a large number of converts to Muhammadanism. The total number of Rájbansis slightly exceeds two millions, and they have increased by 4 per cent. since 1891.

RÁJBANSI.

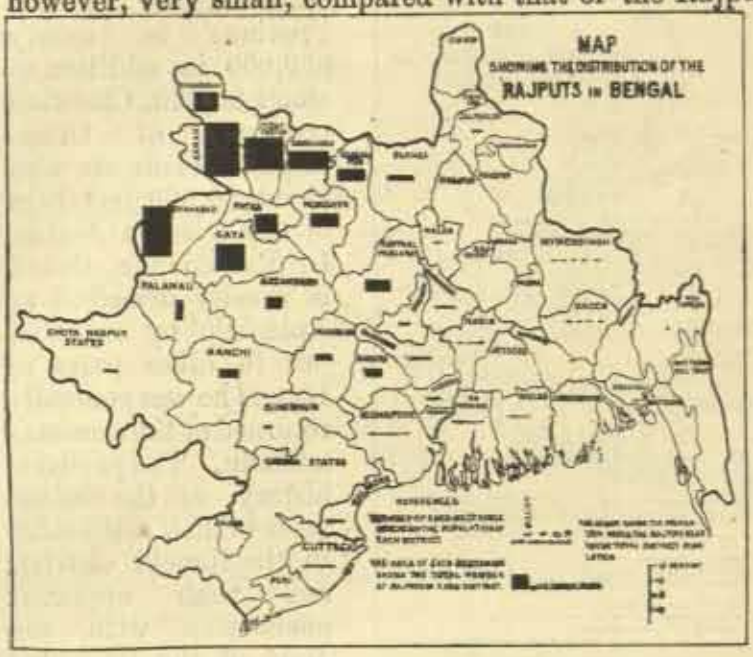


656. The Tiyars, though more numerous by 38 per cent. than in 1891, are still considerably below the number returned at the two previous enumerations. There are remarkable differences in the figures for several districts of Northern and Eastern Bengal, where they are attributable to variations in the system of classifying such terms as Rájbansi and Jáliyá, especially the former. The figures for Tiyar at the present census should be read with the note in Table XIII, regarding the distribution of some of the figures returned under the head Rájbansi. In that note it has been assumed the Rájbansis of North Bengal are distinct from the Tiyars who use that appellation. They are not now fishermen as the Tiyars are, but it is probable, as noted elsewhere, that many of them, if not the majority, are closely allied to them by origin.

TIYARS.

RÁJPUT.

657. I have referred already to the difficulty of distinguishing between Chattri, used as a synonym for Rájput, and Khatri and to the probability that the figures for Rájput include many who are really Khetaurís. The total strength of these two castes is, however, very small, compared with that of the Rájputs, and it is probable that the confusion which may have taken place has not greatly affected the figures for the latter. On the one hand, they include some who should be classed as Khetaurís, while on the other, some who are really Rájputs have been classed as Khatri. The accompanying map shows how very much the Rájputs are confined to Bihar. They are most numerous in Shahabad and Saran, and gradually decline towards the east. Those returned under this head in the Chota Nagpur Plateau are mainly the descendants of ruling families amongst the aboriginal tribes, who now pretend to be Kshattriyas.



As compared with 1891 the number of persons shown as Rájputs shows a decrease of $7\frac{1}{2}$ per cent., most of which occurs in the figures for one district, Shahabad, where there was an extraordinary increase at the last census. The present number agrees very closely with that reported in 1881, and the population of the district is the same, within a few thousands, as it was then. The remainder of the decrease is accounted for by Rangpur, where nearly 18,000 Rájputs were returned at the last census. There are very few real Rájputs in that district, and the persons so entered were probably Rájbansis who described their caste as Bhanga Kshattriya. At the present census Bhanga Kshattriya has been classed as Rájbansi.

Census of	Number of Rajputs in Shahabad.
1872	158,633
1881	297,195
1891	280,963
1901	296,987

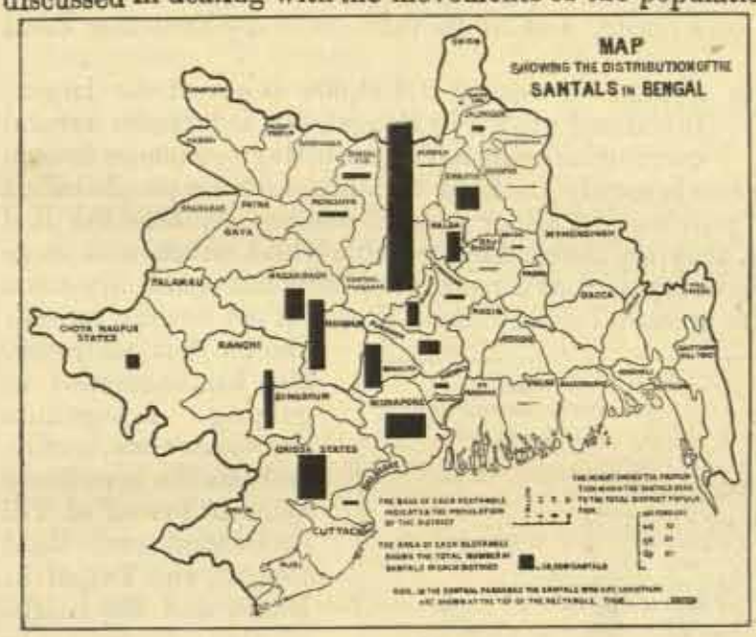
658. The Sadgops number nearly 600,000 and are found almost wholly in West Bengal. They have increased very slightly during the last decade. Their claim to be of a different origin from the ordinary Goálá has already been discussed. Their location in a tract of country, inhabited mainly by non-Aryan tribes, militates strongly against their assertion that they are an off-shoot of the ancient Vaisyas. As will be seen by a reference to the maps showing the distribution of Bráhmans, Bábhans and Rájputs, the Aryan element in the population, such as it is, is strongest in Bihar, where there are no Sadgops at all. The Aryan



invasion followed the course of the Ganges, and as one recedes from that great highway the strain of Aryan blood diminishes. At the same time a close observer considers that the Sadgops, though they must have been Goálás originally, have often a more Aryan type of face than the other castes around them, and he concludes that this is due to a certain admixture of Bráhman blood.* We have seen in North Bengal how the higher castes take water from persons who would be considered unclean elsewhere, and probably in West Bengal the Goálás were similarly selected as the servants of the higher castes, and so not only gained a higher social status, but also received a certain infusion of Aryan blood. Another reason for their higher status is that they were formerly the dominant caste in Gopbhum, or the country between the Adjai and the Damodar rivers.

SANTÁL.

659. The last of the great race castes, or rather tribes, to be mentioned is the Santál which aggregates more than 1,800,000. The migrations of this tribe have already been discussed in dealing with the movements of the population,† and it is unnecessary to revert to the subject here. It will be seen from the map that the Sonthal Parganas is still the great home of the tribe, while in the Orissa States, Midnapore, Singhbhum and Hazaribagh, where they lived before the great exodus in the early part of the last century, the proportion which they bear to the population is not now very much greater than that in Dinajpur and Malda, whither they are now working their way. The figures for Santál include the Kherwárs or Santál Puritans, who must not be confused with the Kharwárs of Chota Nagpur. It is supposed that the Santáls as a tribe were called Kherwárs before they settled in the Sáont country in the Midnapore district, but the persons now distinctively known by that name are the descendants of the section of the tribe who became followers of Bhagirath, a Santál who endeavoured to start a movement to turn the Sáhibs and zamindars out of the country, and who was tried for sedition in 1871 and imprisoned at Bhagalpur, where he died. The growth of the Santál population since 1891 amounts to 24½ per cent. This phenomenal increase is due mainly to the figures for the Orissa States, Dinajpur and the Sonthal Parganas. In Dinajpur there has been an extraordinary amount of immigration from the Sonthal Parganas, and the apparent growth in the latter district is largely accounted for by the fact that in 1891 more than 110,000 persons were returned as Paháriá. In its strict sense this means Malé, but the word is also used of any aboriginal tribe, and it doubtless included a large number of Santáls.



SONAR AND SUBARNABANIK.

660. Sonár shows a decrease, and Subarnabanik a considerable increase as compared with the last census. This is owing to the figures for Orissa, where most of the people treated as Sonár in 1891 have now been classed as Subarnabanik. This was due to a mistake on my part when passing the caste tables for the Orissa districts. The Sonár is there called Sonári Baniyá and I inadvertently classed the persons so returned under the head Subarnabanik.

* Mr. Oldham in "Some Historical and Ethnical Aspects of the Burdwan District," pages 17, 26 and xxi.

† *Ante* page 139.

TANTI AND TATWA.

There is an apparent increase of 18 per cent. under Tánti and Tátwa, but in 1891 the figures for several districts showed an extraordinary diminution as compared with the earlier censuses. This was especially the case in Monghyr and Purnea where the greater part of the present increment has occurred. As compared with 1881 the growth of the Tántis is rather less than 3 per cent. This is about what might be expected in the case of a functional caste whose traditional occupation is gradually becoming less profitable. Recent accretions such as Sukli Tánti and Chamár Tánti would gradually drop the Tánti and revert to their old name, and in course of time they would be followed by others, originally Tántis, who, like the Tánti Dhobás, would begin by taking to a new occupation and adding its distinctive name to that of their own caste, and would then gradually drop the Tánti altogther.

YEAR OF CENSUS.	NUMBER OF TANTIS IN—	
	Monghyr.	Bhagalpur.
1872	86,203	66,683
1881	88,469	64,675
1891	38,131	12,853
1901	88,022	80,202

TELI.

662. The Teli with a total of nearly 1,400,000 is one of the largest functional groups in Bengal, but it includes several communities who have very little resemblance to each other. The true Teli caste is mostly confined to Bihar, and the people called Teli in other parts of the province are either not oil-pressers or, like the Kol Lohárs of Chota Nagpur, they are descendants of aboriginal tribes who have taken to the characteristic occupation of a recognised caste and gradually come to be called after it. The present Teli in Bengal Proper is not usually an oil-presser but a trader. He has succeeded in gaining recognition as a clean caste, and he eschews the hereditary name in favour of Tili in Central and West Bengal, and Taipál in Dacca and the neighbouring districts. In the former tract the actual oil-pressing caste is the Kalu whose affinities are markedly Dravidian. The hollow rectangles on the map in the margin show the distribution of the latter caste, but the figures are not very reliable, because the Kalu prefers to call himself Teli, just as the true Teli endeavours to divest himself of that designation. In Midnapore and Orissa, the word Teli is already applied to the local class of oil-pressers, whose origin is doubtless more nearly akin to that of the Kalu than to that of the Bengal Teli caste. During the last decade the Telis have added $2\frac{1}{3}$ per cent. to their number.



BRIEF ETHNOGRAPHIC NOTES.

SCOPE OF DISCUSSION.

663. The necessity of completing this report at an early date prevents me from entering at any length into the interesting field of ethnography, even if this had not been rendered unnecessary by Mr. Risley's exhaustive treatise on the Tribes and Castes of Bengal. But the present census has brought to light a number of new castes, chiefly in Orissa and the outlying parts of the province, and it is necessary to explain briefly what are the main characteristics of these castes. Sometimes again, I have treated as separate castes, groups which have hitherto been

regarded as sub-castes, and here, too, it seems necessary to give reasons for the procedure followed. It should be understood that the following notes are directed mainly to the above objects, and are not intended to contain a complete account of the castes mentioned, or to repeat information already available elsewhere.

ADARKI.

664. Adarki or Adbaniyá is usually recognized as belonging to the group of Bániyá castes, but the number of Adarki shopkeepers is small, and cultivation is the usual means of livelihood. The traditional occupation is the growing of ginger (adrak) which gives its name to the caste. At the present time all kinds of crops are grown, except onions, which they are not allowed even to touch. Most Adarkis are petty cultivators, but some of the poorer ones are field labourers. They believe that they came originally from Oudh, but the name by which they are now known is not to be found in the list of Oudh castes. They have no exogamous or endogamous subdivisions. They follow the ordinary social practices of high caste Hindus, perform the usual *Srádh* ceremonies, and are governed by the Hindu law of inheritance. Srotriya Bráhmans act as their priests. Polygamy is allowed only when a woman is proved to be sterile, but even then her consent is said to be necessary. In such a case a man may marry his wife's sister. He may also do so if his first wife dies. Divorce and widow-marriage are forbidden,* and child-marriage is in vogue. By sect some are Saiva or Sákta and some are Vaishnava. The majority pay special adoration to Sokhá and Sambhunáth. Those who are Vaishnavas or who worship Sokhá and Sambhunáth abstain from taking animal food and drink, but others eat the flesh of he-goats and of fowls. They will eat, drink or smoke with no other caste, high or low.

AHIR GAURA.

665. I have shown the Ahir Gaura of Orissa as a separate caste, as there is nothing but the name to connect this group with the great pastoral caste of Orissa. They seem in reality more allied to the Kelá or some other gipsy caste, and may possibly be connected with the Aherias of the United Provinces, who have been declared to be a criminal tribe, under Act XXVII of 1871. They do not tend cattle and rarely have any cultivation. They perform and dance in public, and their women take the most prominent part.

BÁGHUTI.

666. The Bághuti is a small community living in the Jajpur Subdivision of Cuttack and the adjoining parts of Balasore and the Orissa States. They appear to have been classed as Bágdi in 1891, but there seems to be no connection with that caste beyond a slight resemblance in name. The Bághutis have no traditions as to their origin. They rank somewhat higher than the Báuris.

BANDÁWAT.

667. The Bandáwats are found chiefly in the Chorparan thana of Hazaribagh. They wear the thread and claim to be Rájputs. They abstain from widow marriage, are served by good Bráhmans, and their water is taken by the higher castes. They have a bad reputation as highwaymen.

BANJÁRÁ.

668. The Banjárá or Labáná is found in small numbers in some of the more remote parts of the Chota Nagpur Plateau. He is an itinerant trader, who carries his goods on pack-bullocks. He is clearly the same as the Banjári or Lambádi of Madras. The Banjárás of the United Provinces have been fully described by Mr. Crooke.

BANJOGI.

669. Banjogi is the name of a small tribe of the Chittagong Hill Tracts. Its linguistic affinities lie with the Kukis. It is considered by Captain Lewin to be an offshoot from some Kuki tribe.†

BANPAR.

670. Banpar is treated by Mr. Risley as a sub-caste of Malláhs and Gonrhis, but the general opinion in Bihar seems to be that it is a separate fishing caste. I have, therefore, thought it better to give it a place in Table XIII.

* This is the statement made by two headmen of the caste to Mr. O'Malley, Joint-Magistrate, Gaya, but it requires to be verified. In the Tribes and Castes of Bengal it is said that widow-marriage is allowed.

† Hill Tracts of Chittagong, page 65.

671. The term Barna Sankar properly refers to the various castes which, according to Manu and other Hindu writers, are descended from intermarriages between the four original castes. But at the present day it is more specially applied to bastards or the offspring of persons of different castes. I have included several items under this head, viz:—

BARNA SANKAR.

(1) Chatrisa, the name given to a small community of outcastes and bastards in Murshidabad.

(2) Chhokar, the designation of the children of prostitutes in Orissa.

(3) Jaraj, the usual appellation of bastards in Backergunge.

(4) Khanchra, a similar term in use in Shahabad.

(5) Dogla, (6) Krishnapakshi, and (7) Suratwála. These three terms are now used in Bihar as synonyms for Barna Sankar, but each has also a more precise meaning of its own. In this narrower sense Barna Sankar is applied to the offspring of Bráhmans, Bháts, Bábhans and Rájputs by women of lower caste. In Gaya and Patna the term Suratwála usually connotes the offspring of Gayáwál Bráhmans by mistresses belonging to the twice-born castes. They wear the thread and call themselves Bráhmans, but they cannot obtain general recognition as such,* and are fain to get their wives from a similar mixed community descended from the Sákadvipi Bráhmans of Rajgir. In Shahabad the term has a wider meaning and is applied to the offspring of Bráhmans by any woman of lower caste. Krishnapakshi means the dark half of the lunar month, the period supposed to be favourable to illicit intercourse, and the word is usually employed to indicate the descendants of Káyasths by their maid-servants of the Dhánuk, Kurmi and Kahár castes. Dogla (from *do*, two and *ghalla* grain) is a harsher term than the others, and is applied generally to all bastards, especially to those of low caste. These bastards as a rule form distinct communities, but they retain the name of their father's caste and will not intermarry with half-breeds of other castes. Occasionally, when one of them becomes rich, he succeeds in obtaining as his wife the daughter of a poor man of the caste to which his father belonged, and so gradually escapes from the stigma of illegitimacy. Their status is generally low, but Bráhmans will take water from the hands of those whose progenitors on both sides were *jalácharaniya*. Usually these persons were returned as Dogla Kurmi or Krishnapakshi Káyasth, etc., *i.e.*, the father's caste was added to the special designation, and in such cases they were treated as belonging to the caste named.† The persons shown in the caste Table as Dogla, Krishnapakshi, etc., are only those whose caste of origin was not mentioned.

672. Behárá is the name usually given to Muhammadan *pálki*-bearers, and when used by Hindus it generally indicates profession and not caste. In North Bengal, however, it appears to be the name of a genuine caste. The people thus designated are cultivators and *pálki*-bearers, forbid widow-marriage and employ Patit Bráhmans as their priests. In Rangpur it is said that they are an offshoot of the great Koch tribe, whose ancestors were employed on forced labour by their Muhammadan conquerors. They are often known as Koch Behárás. It is possible that they may be the same as Dáoyái for which the word is said to be a synonym in Jalpaiguri and Dinajpur. In Midnapore the persons returned as Behárá are said by the Magistrate to be really Háris by caste.

BEHÁRÁ.

673. The Bhakats or Bhoktás of Midnapore are a small community of rather less than 3,000 persons. They profess to be descended from seven upcountry mendicants, who settled in the district twenty-five generations ago. This tradition, however, is at variance with the fact that they are divided into four exogamous septs of a purely totemistic pattern, viz., Shándilya (from sál fish), Chandrárishi (from Chandkurá), Bámrishi (from the bán fish), and Káshyapa (from kachchhap, a turtle.) The

BHAKAT.

* Mr. Oldham, Magistrate of Gaya, informs me of a case in which a rich Bábhan Suratwála tried in vain to be accepted as a pure Bábhan.

† Thus Rájput includes 637 persons returned as Dogla Rájput. Similar classification was made in respect of Dogla Rautia (113), Dogla Baniyá (122), Dogla Káyasth (102), Dogla Bráhman (98), Dogla Chik (73), etc. Krishnapakshi Káyasth (506) was added to Káyasth and Krishnapakshi Kurmi (101) to Kurmi. These are only illustrations: a fuller list of such items will be found in the manuscript index of caste classification referred to in paragraph 549.

persons of each sept show great reverence for the object after which it is called and abstain from killing or eating or even naming it. It would thus appear that they are an offshoot from some Dravidian tribe, but it is not easy to trace any special affinities. They do not appear to be the same as the Bhakat Oráons of Ranchi, nor have they any marked points of resemblance to the Kharwárs and Bhuiyás, who use the word Bhakat or Bhogta as a title. They profess the Hindu religion, and are very strict in their observances. They are served by degraded Bráhmans. Their favourite object of worship is Rám. Amongst the minor deities Manasá and Sitalá take the first place. Offerings of he-goats and sweetmeats are made to both of them by the males of the caste. Women and children take no part in the worship. Bráhmans do not assist in the worship of Sitalá. Girls are married either before or after puberty. In the former case a second ceremony (*garbhádhán*) is subsequently performed. The bridegroom puts on a sacred thread in the course of the marriage ceremony and wears it for nine days, when the priest again removes it. Widow-marriage is not allowed nor divorce. They burn their dead, and perform the *srádh** on the 13th day. By occupation they are cultivators and day-labourers.

Bháskar.

674. Bháskar is recognised by Mr. Risley as a separate caste, but the total number of persons so returned is very small. In North Bengal they are painters and not makers of idols of wood and stone, which appears to be their usual occupation elsewhere.

Bhogtá.

675. The Bhogtás are often said to be a sub-caste of Kharwár, but Mr. Streatfeild, after careful enquiry, informs me that in Ranchi at least they are a separate caste, and deny all connection with the Kharwárs. They are grain-parchers by traditional occupation, but at the present day they are usually labourers and cultivators. In Palamau the persons known as Bhogtá are perhaps Kharwárs.

Bholla.

676. Bholla, is the designation of a small community living in Panchthupi and Barwan of Murshidabad and the Labpur and Mayureshwar thanas of Birbhum, apparently a recent offshoot from the Bágdi caste. I have treated it as a sub-caste of the latter, but it is not at all certain that this procedure is correct, and local opinion favours the view that it is a separate and independent caste. The names applied to these non-Aryan communities are, however, very vague in their meaning and uncertain in their application. According to one report the general appellation of several of them is Mánjhi, which includes four subdivisions, Bágdi, Let, Mál, and Bholla. Another account connects the Bholla with the Kusmetiá sub-caste of Bágdi. However that may be, there is no doubt that the two communities are very closely allied. They eat *pakki* and drink together, smoke from the same *hukka*, and are served by the same class of degraded Bráhmans, who also work for the Mál and Let. They do not intermarry, and the Bhollas claim superiority over the Bágdis on the ground that they do not, like the latter, catch and sell fish, or carry the *pálki*, and that divorce is subject to greater restrictions. It appears, however, that fishing is still the occupation of the poorer members of the community. The others are mostly non-occupancy raiyats and day-labourers. Many of them are dacoits, thieves and clubmen, or *láthiáls;* a few work as carpenters and potters, and a few are village watchmen. According to one account there are three subdivisions, Elanchi, Phingaráshi and Kásyapa, but this requires to be verified. Girls are married before they attain puberty, and boys before they are sixteen. A degraded Bráhman performs the ceremony. Polygamy is allowed in theory, but in practice it is rare. Widows may marry again, and generally do so if the first husband leaves them childless; there is no restriction on their choice of a second consort. The marriage ceremony of a widow is conducted by one of her relations. The offspring of such marriages rank below those of virgin wives. Divorce is permitted if infidelity is suspected. If a man marries a divorcée, he is out-casted. The dead are burnt, buried or thrown into a river. The *srádh* ceremony is performed after 10 days. Fish is eaten, and also goats and fowls. The leavings of Bráhmans are taken, but not those of other castes.

* *Srádh* is the Hindi, and *Sraddha* the Bengali, spelling. For the sake of uniformity I have used the former for all castes, whether in Bihar or in Bengal Proper.

677. The following notes on the Bhotias of the Jalpaiguri Duars are based on a report from Mr. Warde-Jones, Subdivisional Officer of Alipur, where a considerable number of them are settled. They have much deteriorated in physique and are darker in complexion than the Bhotias of the hills. There is now no intermarriage between them and the plains people, but it is probable that there was a considerable intermixture of blood in the past when the Bhotias ruled in the Duars.

BHOTIA.

There are, says Mr. Jones, ten castes:—

Shuji, the highest, from which the Lámás are chiefly recruited. The Dharma Rájá belongs to this caste.

Sham.—Soldiers, cultivators, weavers, &c. Many also become Lámás.

Khochi.—Headmen of villages: are vested with petty magisterial powers and some executive authority. They transmit the orders of Government and collect the revenue. Some are traders and cultivators, and some become Lámás.

Shemo—Follow all respectable professions. Some become Lámás, but these rank below the Lámás of higher castes.

Jan.—A similar caste but of lower rank.

Narkhojog.—Rank below Jan. They cannot become Lámás.

Tabagomti.—Menial servants.

Gan.—Iron-smelters and blacksmiths.

Golám.—Coolies and cultivators.

Jamkhep.—Potters.

The first five castes, who are considered superior, can eat together, but they will not eat with the lower castes. As a rule, the castes are endogamous, but intermarriage is permitted between Shuji and Sham, Khochi and Shemo, Narkhojoga and Tabagomti, Gan and Jamkhep.

The Bhotias eat most animals, except mules, horses, elephants, tigers, cats, and dogs. A sort of black pudding is considered a great delicacy. Some tribes in Bhotan eat pythons; they light a fire over the hole in which the reptile seeks shelter and, when it is dead, dig it out and eat it forthwith. There are no special ceremonies at birth, but an astrologer is called in to give the child a name. Marriage before a Lámá is considered specially binding, but as a rule the union is effected by a mere agreement to marry followed by cohabitation. Divorce is easy. Polygamy exists, but not, says Mr. Jones, polyandry.* It has been said that during a man's absence from home, his younger brother may cohabit with his wife, but this is denied. Dead bodies are usually cremated and the ashes cast into the nearest stream, but persons who have died of epidemic disease are buried, and prayer-flags are erected over their graves. Bhotias believe in the presence of the spirits of the dead. They are of two kinds. One is visible and anthropomorphic with a black skin; the other is invisible, but so fatal that if its shadow falls on a man he is sure to die. When sickness or trouble comes, an exorcist or diviner is consulted, in order to ascertain the devil requiring to be worshipped, and the place where the offering should be made. A fowl or a pig is killed there and offered to the devil, after which it is taken home and eaten. In the case of bad dreams a Lámá is sometimes called in instead of an exorcist, and he offers prayers to remove any evil threatened.

The nominal religion of the Bhotias is Buddhism, but in Jalpaiguri the enumerators occasionally returned them as Hindus.

678. Binjhiá and Birjiá are sometimes said to be identical, but the Deputy Commissioner of Ranchi reports that this is an error. The former is an agricultural and land-holding caste, speaking Oriyá in the south of the district and Nágpuria Hindi elsewhere. They are Hindus and claim to come from the Vindhya range; hence their name. The Birjiás, on the other hand, are a non-Hindu aboriginal tribe and live by *jhuming*. They are said to be identical with the Agariá sub-caste of Páu. The two words are so similar that it is impossible to give reliable figures for each separately, so I have shown them jointly as Binjhiá in the body of Table XIII, but have given separate figures for Birjiá, for what they are worth, in the column of remarks.

BINJHIÁ.

* There is no doubt that polyandry still exists in the hills, but it is quite natural that it should be dying out, under the influence of their neighbours' example, amongst the Bhotias settled in the plains.

679. The Bunás are the descendants of various aboriginal tribes and low castes of West Bengal and Chota Nagpur who were imported to Bengal Proper in the days when indigo was widely cultivated there. They are known to outsiders by this general appellation, and will usually give it as their caste name to any outsider who may question them on the point, but they still preserve among themselves their original distinctions; and although they may eventually coalesce into a new caste, there is no sign of their doing so at present. Special efforts were made at the present census to eliminate the word Buná and obtain the correct caste entry, and with very fair success. In Nadia, for instance, where 16,997 persons were returned as Buná in 1891, only 1,943 were so shown on the present occasion. There were also 4,372 persons, as noted in the margin, who were returned by their proper caste or tribal name with the addition of the word Buná. The figures are interesting, as they show the classes of people who were mainly imported by the indigo planters. The persons shown as Buná without any distinctive affix were distributed proportionally amongst these castes and tribes.

Buná.

Bágdi	2,745	Mundá	57
Bhuiyá	307	Bhumij	53
Oráon	230	Santál	51
Kurmi	149	Dosádh	42
Kapáli	146	Dom	31
Lohár	144	Rajwár	25
Sunri	126	Nápit	20
Turi	89	Hári	7
Báuri	82	Tiyar	4
Muchi	64		

680. Chápáti or Chápat is a small caste found only in the Tulsihatta thana of Malda. I have classed it with the Chapotá caste of Purnea, but the identification is not complete. Both have similar occupations and both rank low, and the names of course are very similar. But so far as my limited enquiries go, there are in other respects no marked points of resemblance between the two communities. The Chápátis believe fishing to have been their traditional occupation. At the present time some fish and some live by cultivation, and a few are landless labourers. They have no traditions regarding their origin. Polygamy is allowed. The price of a virgin-wife is Rs. 31. If a widow marries again, the bridegroom pays her father Rs. 9 and her father-in-law Rs. 16. Divorce is allowed only for adultery with a man of another caste. The priests are degraded Bráhmans. Formerly dead bodies were thrown into a river, but it is now the custom to cremate them. The *srádh* is performed, in the case of married men, on the 13th day after death, while, for those who die unmarried, it is performed on the 4th day. There is no propitiation of ancestors in general. The Chápátis drink spirits and eat pork. Their water is taken by their priests but not by high caste Hindus. They rank low, and eat, drink and smoke with Háris, Doms and Mehtars.

Chápáti and Chapotá.

The Chapotás are usually cultivators, but some live by fishing. They have degraded Bráhmans, allow widow marriage and worship the ordinary Hindu gods. Amongst the major deities, Káli and Náráyan, are most reverenced, while amongst the minor ones Bishahari is the favourite. The offerings consist of goats and pigeons. Tuesday is the favourite day for the worship of this godling. They bury their dead, placing the corpse on its right side, with the head to the north. The usual *srádh* is performed for the propitiation of ancestors in general. They eat the flesh of crocodiles. They profess to be descended from a man who sprang from some betel-leaf which Siva spat out after chewing it.

681. Cháupál or Chápuál is the name of a small caste of weavers found only in the Kishanganj subdivision of Purnea, whither they are supposed to have migrated from Nadia in a famine year. They are quite independent of any other caste, and there is now no trace of their caste of origin. They have Maithil Bráhmans as their priests. They worship Siva and the other Hindu gods, but pay special homage to Bishahari, the god of serpents. They perform the *srádh* on the 12th day after death. Infant and widow-marriage are practised; divorce is not allowed.

Chápuál.

682. The Cherwas of the Chota Nagpur States are now reported to be a separate tribe, but, following Mr Risley's classification, I treated them as sub-tribe of Kaur. The total number of persons returned as Cherwa was 7,618.

Cherwa.

683. Chik, Baráik or Chik-Baráik is sometimes regarded as a sub-caste of Pán (or Pánr), but the people so-called claim to form an entirely distinct caste, and Mr. Streatfeild, who took great trouble over all caste questions connected with the census, informs me that he is convinced of the justice of this claim.

CHIK.

684. In Bengal and Bihar Chitrakár indicates occupation only,* but in Orissa it is the name of a separate caste, which is found mainly in Cuttack and Puri. The traditional occupation is painting. The Chitrakárs are served by good Bráhmans, but their water is not taken by the higher castes. Their widows are allowed to re-marry.

CHITRAKÁR.

685. The Dagrás are found chiefly in the Bhadrak and Dhamnagar thanas of Balasore. The term means "a messenger," and it is said that the Dagrás were postal runners, either during Muhammadan rule or under the Maráthás, when they acquired considerable jágirs, known as Áráji Dagrái, which are still in existence. Most of them are cultivators, but in Bhadrak some are hereditary holders of proprietary tenures, the grant of which dates from Maráthá rule, when one of the caste rose to be the local governor of Bhadrak. According to some they were brought from Nagpur by the Maráthás; others allege that they are connected with the Dogras of Upper India. They bear the same titles as Chásás, and it may therefore be surmised that they are a functional off-shoot from this caste.

DAGRÁ.

There is very little in their social customs or religion to distinguish them from their neighbours. They have no sub-castes nor *gotras*. Some girls are married before, and some after, attaining puberty, but in the former case, cohabitation is not allowed until the bride attains puberty. The marriage ceremony is performed by a Bráhman priest who recites some *mantras* and joins the hands of the bride and bridegroom; this is called *hasta granthi*. Polygamy is allowed. A widow may marry either her late husband's younger brother or some other blood relation of his, provided always that he is younger than the deceased. The marriage ceremony in this case is a simple one. The parties put on new clothes and pledge their troth before a sacred fire. The bridegroom then presents the bride with some ornaments; this is the binding part of the ceremony. Divorce is not recognised.

The Dágrás belong to the Vaishnava sect of Hindus and adore Rádhá, Krishna, and Chaitanya. They also worship the minor village gods or Grám Devatá to whom they offer sweets, curds, milk, and fruit. They are served by good Bráhmans. They burn their dead and bury the ashes carefully. They perform the *sapinda* ceremony yearly during the fortnight ending with the Mahálaya; they also propitiate their ancestors on the day of the *Diwáli* or *Shyámá pujá*, or on the day of the new moon. They eat the flesh of goats, sheep, and deer, and also fish, both scaly and scaleless. They will eat with no other caste whatever its rank may be.

686. Daitá is the name of a microscopic caste found only in Puri. On the occasion of the *Snán Játrá* and *Rath Játrá* festivals, the Bráhman priests, who ordinarily perform the worship of the idols in the temple of Jagannáth, stand aside, and the Daitás take their place. From time to time the old idols are replaced by new ones,† and the work in connection therewith is also done by the Daitás and not by the regular Sebaks. They hold several rent-free villages granted them in former times as a reward for their services in the temple. Some act as *Pándás*, or guides to the pilgrims, and find the employment a very profitable one. They are believed to be of Savar origin, but their position has been raised by the nature of their employment, and they are now regarded as equal in point of

DAITÁ.

* It is a question whether Chitrakár has not hardened into a caste in parts of Bengal. This word, Patuá and Patuni are synonymous terms meaning 'a painter,' but some of the people thus returned in Malda followed a variety of occupations other than painting; some were cultivators, and others, goldsmiths, zamindars' peons, chaukidars, &c.

† This is done when two *asáḍhas* fall in the same year. The ceremony is called *Nuá Kalabar* or "new body." This monopoly of some of the priestly functions at Jagannáth can only be due to their having formerly been the sole priests and to the later advent of the Bráhmans. If the Bráhmans had been the first in the field, they would never have relinquished part of their duties to aboriginal rivals.

rank to the Karans, whose customs they ape, and with whom they occasionally intermarry. Karans who form matrimonial alliances with them are, however, looked down upon by their caste fellows. They have only one *gotra*, that of the *Nága* or snake. They are served by good Bráhmans. They forbid widow marriage, and the only point in which their customs differ from those of other high caste Hindus is that they do not burn, but bury, adults of either sex who die while still unmarried. In such cases the corpse is laid on its back with the head to the north.

DANDAMÁJHI.

687. The Dandamájhis are found mainly in Midnapore. I have treated them in Table XIII as a sub-caste of Bágdi, but it is not by any means certain that they belong to this caste, and they themselves strenuously deny it.* They are also known as Danda Chhattra Mánjhi. There are five exogamous subdivisions (called *gotras*), viz., Káshyap or Káchhim (the tortoise), Sálmáchh (a fish), Depáik (a kind of bird), Chándkura máchh (a fish) and Pát (a fibrous plant). These are totemistic. The persons of each section or *gotra* show their respect for the animal or plant after which they are named by saluting it, and by abstaining from killing, cutting, eating or in any way making use of it. According to one account there are three sub-castes, Dandamánjhi, Lohár Mánjhi and Kesaikulia Mánjhi, while according to another, the only restriction on marriage is based on locality, persons living in certain parganas refusing to intermarry with persons living in certain other parganas. The caste traces its origin to a Mánjhi, who held the earthen pots (danda) containing the resin used for Siva's *Charak pujá*. Infant marriage is practised. The ordinary form of ceremony current amongst Hindus is observed at marriage. The re-marriage of widows is forbidden. By sect the Dandamájhis are Sáktas. They employ degraded Bráhmans and burn their dead, and there is little to distinguish them from their Hindu neighbours. They believe their original occupation to have been fishing, a means of livelihood which is still largely followed; some are also cultivators and day-labourers. Many of their women are employed as maid servants, even by high caste Hindus, but they are not allowed to touch water used for drinking or cooking purposes. They eat all sorts of fish, and also the flesh of such animals as are lawful for Hindus.

DÁLU.

688. The Dálus are a small caste in the north of Mymensingh under the Gáro Hills. They appear to be a Hinduised section of the Gáros, and in the Linguistic Survey of India the word is given as a name of a dialect of the language spoken in the Garo Hills. There are two sectarian sub-castes, Adhikári and Vaishnava, who consider themselves superior to the ordinary Dálus and will not give them their daughters in marriage; they have, however, no objection to taking girls from them as their wives. An Adhikári is a Vaishnava who has obtained a certificate from the Gurus of Uthali in Dacca that he and his ancestors for several generations have been strict Vaishnavas. They admit outsiders of higher caste, who are required to give a feast on entering the community. Infant marriage is in vogue. The marriage ceremony is performed by an Adhikári Dálu and the binding portion of the proceedings is the pouring of water by the bridegroom over the bride's head and his own. Polygamy and divorce are permitted. Widows may marry again (*niká*), but not with any blood relation of the former husband. The Dálus burn their dead, except when death results from epidemic disease, when the body is buried. The usual *srádh* ceremony is performed, the Adhikári presiding. Their women weave cloths for their own wear; the men are cultivators. They worship the ordinary Hindu gods, with the aid of their Adhikáris, and follow the usual Hindu rules of inheritance. This, however, seems to be a new development. In a vernacular book written about 20 years ago,† it is stated that at that time property amongst the Dálus descended, as it still does amongst the Khásis and Gáros, through the female and not through the male. They eat the leavings of superior castes. The Adhikáris do not eat meat, but the ordinary Dálu will

* It is some times said that Mánjhi is the main caste and that there are four sub-castes, Lohár, Danda, Kesaikulia and Kheriá. The caste names of these non-Aryan communities are both uncertain and fluctuating.

† "Sherpur Bibaran, An account of the Sherpur pargana," by the late Babu Hara Chandra Chaudhuri.

eat the flesh of almost all animals, whether cloven-footed or not, except that of cows, monkeys and vermin. They will eat *kachhi* (not *pakki*) and will drink and smoke with the Hádi caste, to which caste they seem to be very closely allied.

DARYA DÁSI.

689. Darya Dás was a Vaishnava mendicant of the Koiri caste who became the founder of a new sect, which obtained many adherents in Bihar and the adjacent parts of the United Provinces, especially amongst the Kurmi and Koiri castes. The word indicates sect not caste, but the persons who used it at the census were probably mendicants of the Order who had abandoned caste distinctions.

DARJI.

690. Darji, like several other terms which merely denote occupation in other parts of the Province, is the name of a true caste in Orissa. The occupation of course is sewing. There are two sub-castes, Káyasth and Sudra. The former consists of immigrants from Bengal who have taken to sewing and have gradually crystallized into a separate endogamous group. They are found chiefly in towns. So far as one can judge from their titles (Maháráná, Mahápátrá, Mahanti, Dás, etc.,) the Sudra Darjis appear to have been recruited from various Orissa castes who were excommunicated for following this occupation. They rank higher than the Káyasth Darjis, and their water is taken by the higher castes, while that of the latter is not. In Cuttack the Sudras are further subdivided into three groups, Gaja Karan, Sipti and Mátiá, none of which will intermarry.

DEOHAR.

691. The Deohars or Debhars are by tradition inoculators, but at the pesent day they are largely employed as vaccinators. They are found mainly in Darbhanga, where they are said to form a separate caste. It is supposed that they may be an off-shoot from the Goálás, but the two communities are now quite distinct.

DHÁMIN.

692. Under Dhámin two very different groups are included. The members of one, properly called Dhámi, act as priests to pilgrims at Gaya, while those of the other make fans and brushes of peacocks' feathers, and bring musk and skins from Nepal. They also beg, tell fortunes, catch hawks, collect reeds, etc., and have a bad reputation with the police. Probably most of the persons shown under this head in the districts south of the Ganges belong to the former, and those north of that river to the latter, community.

DHANUA.

693. The Dhanua, Dharua or Dalua caste is found in the Orissa States, Midnapore and Singhbhum. They were once the predominant tribe in the Narsinghpur State, and formed the main element in its militia and in that of Mayurbhanj. At that time they ranked high and enjoyed the services of the Bráhman, Bhandári and Dhobá, all of which are denied to them now that they are no longer of any political importance. They are said to form an entirely distinct community.*

DHÁRHI.

694. The Dhárhis of this Province are found chiefly in Patna and Monghyr, but they are most numerous further west—in Gorakhpur, Basti and Gonda.† They may possibly be of the same origin as the Dosádhs, but they now form an entirely distinct caste. They are possibly the same as the Dáhi or Dárhi mentioned by Hodgson as one of the broken tribes of Nepal‡ There are no sub-castes and no *gotras*. They are said to be notorious criminals and look on thieving as their traditional occupation, so much so that a theft committed in another man's preserve without his consent is mentioned as a bar on intermarriage. At the present day many have become village chaukidars and field watchmen. Many also are field labourers and a few cultivate their own land. They trace their origin to five men who were roasting a cow in a jungle near Rájgir, and hid themselves in the animal's skeleton when Sri Krishna unexpectedly appeared on the scene. In respect of marriage, their customs are the same as those of other low caste Hindus. The essential feature of the marriage ceremony is the *sindurdán*, or the smearing of the bride's forehead with vermilion. Widow re-marriage is permitted. Divorce for unchastity is allowed. They employ degraded Jaishi

* Mr. Risley mentions Doroá as a sub-tribe of Gond.
† Crooke's "Tribes and Castes of the North-West Provinces and Oudh," Vol. II, page 276.
‡ Essays on Indian Subjects, Vol. I, page 161.

Bráhmans and profess to worship the regular Hindu gods. Their chief working deity, however, is the Grám Devatá Goreiya to whom they make offerings on all feast days. Their household gods are Káliji and Bishun Maháráj, to whom they offer clarified butter, and burn wafers of sandal wood. They burn their dead (except infants who as usual are buried) and make a point of throwing at least five of their bones into the Ganges. The *srádh* is performed on the 11th day. They eat pork, rats and fish of all kinds, but not beef, fowls' eggs, lizards or vermin, nor will they touch other people's leavings. They will not eat *kachhi* or smoke with any other caste, but will drink with Dosádhs.

DHIMAR.

695. The Dhimars are found chiefly in Darbhanga, and are probably an off-shoot of some other caste, but it is difficult to ascertain which. Their name seems to be derived from Dhibara, a fisherman, which is also the origin of the word Tiyar. They are sometimes affiliated to the Kahárs, but beyond the fact that some are *pálki*-bearers, there seems to be no special connection with this caste. They believe the parching of grain to be their traditional occupation, but, as noted above, some now serve as *pálki*-bearers and others work in lac, deal in fish, and serve as masons, menial servants and day-labourers. They have a tradition that they came originally from Benares in the retinue of a Rájá named Sibai Singh. They have only one *gotra*, the Káshyapa, which is the common property of so many non-Aryan tribes on the road to Hinduism that there is a Bengali proverb:—

Hárire Márire Káshyapa Gotra.

They are served by good Bráhmans and are *jalácharaniya*. They burn their dead, and on the third day offer a kind of intermediate *pinda* or funeral cake to the spirit of the deceased. It is placed on the ashes of the pyre, which are then piled up round it, a Tulsi plant being placed on the top. They are votaries of Sakti. Amongst their minor deities are Sokhá, Sambhunáth and Gobind. Some are Pánchpiriyás.

FERINGI.

696. The Feringis of East Bengal are the descendants of Portuguese pirates, and of converts made by the priests who accompanied them. It is not possible to form any estimate of the extent to which Portuguese blood flows in their veins. At the present day, they are darker than the natives amongst whom they live, but colour is a very uncertain guide. A Nepalese hillman notoriously changes colour rapidly if he settles in the Terai, and the Goanese of alleged Portuguese origin are also very dark. The Portuguese in question were originally in the service of the Kings of Arakan, who settled them at Chittagong, where they remained harassing the neighbouring country until 1664, when Shaista Khán succeeded in getting them into his power and transferred many of them to Dacca. In Nawáb Jafar's rent-roll the naval establishment included 923 Feringis who were chiefly employed as gunners.* The present Feringis are ignorant but very proud, and will not do any manual labour. Their condition is gradually deteriorating. They are Roman Catholics by religion and still bear Portuguese names. They wished to be returned at the census as Eurasians.

GANDHARB.

697. Gandharb is the Bihar caste which supplies dancing girls and prostitutes.† In Muzaffarpur there are five exogamous *gotras*, Ramsi, Arakh, Páchbháiyá, Sháhmal and Sital. There are no regular sub-castes, but the Gandharbs of Bihar will not intermarry with those of Nagpur. They say that they came to Bengal from Benares, whither it is said they were brought from Western India in the sixteenth century by Rájá Domanderia of Chandramalgarh in the Benares district. The married members of the caste are cultivators, but they encourage prostitution among their unmarried daughters. Intermarriage with other castes is not allowed, but those who are professional dancing girls and prostitutes adopt girls of all castes and bring them up to their profession. They practise child-marriage and forbid their widows to marry again. Divorce is said not to be permitted. They are Hindus of the Saiva sect; they burn their dead, perform the *srádh*, and

* J. A. S. B., 1873, p. 220.

† A full account of the caste, as found in the United Provinces, is given by Mr. Crooke.

follow ordinary Hindu observances, except that in the matter of inheritance the sons and daughters of a dancing girl share alike. They will take water from the hands of Kurmis and Kahárs. In Benares it is said that Bráhmans will eat *pakki* food prepared by them, but this is not the case in Bihar.

In 1891 a distinction was made between Gandhár and Gandharb, and the former is mentioned by Mr. Risley as a sub-caste of Malláh. I have, however, been unable to trace any separate group of this name, and although the census slips were carefully examined, the entries all appeared to refer to Gandharb and not Gandhár. The persons shown under the latter head against Darbhanga in 1891 appear from the district returns to be really Gandharb. It is also reported from Patna, Gaya, Shahabad, and Muzaffarpur that the proper caste on that occasion was Gandharb, while in Singhbhum, where also some persons were shown as Gandhár, the very word is unknown. The only trace I could get of any group of that name was through an Inspector of the Bankipore Census office, who was told by a Gandharb that there is a small separate community of itinerant musicians in the United Provinces who are known as Gandhár.

GANGÁI OR GANESH.

698. Gangái or Ganesh is sometimes identified with Gangautá, but this is incorrect. The caste is found chiefly in Purnea and in the districts to the east and south-east of it. In Purnea again they are found chiefly in the Kishánganj subdivision along the course of the Kankái river, a Himalayan tributary of the Mahánandá, and there is a saying in the district—

Jahán, jahán Kankái, tahán, tahán Gangái.

The similarity between this name and that of the river suggests that they have been called after it. The Gangáis are said to have a fair complexion with a broad flat face and depressed nose, and generally to present a distinctly Mongoloid appearance. It is said that the head-quarters of the caste are in the Nepal Terai. The usual occupations are cultivation, weaving and lime-burning. There are two sub-castes, Bara or Bábu and Chota. The latter are superior in status, as they abstain from pork and alcoholic drinks in which the Bara Gangái freely indulges. The separation between the two groups is not quite complete, and a Chota Gangái will take a wife from, though he will not give his daughter to, a member of the Bara Gangái sub-caste. Some perform the *srádh* on the 13th and others on the 30th day. When their paddy is in ear, they have a peculiar custom of going to their fields and calling out to the God of Plenty *Khato Nabho Suraha*, after which they return home and immolate a pig to the deity. They rank with Hajjáms, Mális and Sunris.

GÁRÁL OR GANDAK.

699. The Gárás have been treated as a sub-caste of Chandál, but it is sometimes said that they are really a distinct caste. They usually call themselves Gandak and claim descent from Gandak Rishi. They do not admit any connection with the Chandáls, and do not intermarry with them. Their social status is slightly superior to that of the Chandáls, and they are shaved by the ordinary Nápit, who refuses to work for the latter. They mourn for 30 days as do the Káyasths and Sudras, while the Chandáls observe only ten days' mourning. Their traditional occupation is the preparation and sale of "chira" and "muri." Some are shop-keepers and some day-labourers. Infant-marriage is practised. Widow re-marriage and divorce are not permitted. There are no exogamous or endogamous subdivisions; some are called Kulins and some Mauliks, but these terms involve no restriction on marriage. They are served by degraded Bráhmans, follow the ordinary Hindu observances and worship the ordinary gods, but pay special reverence to Káli. They hold sacred the Bat, Bel and Nim trees and will not cut or burn them.

GAURA.

700. The Gaura is the Goálá caste of Orissa. There are several sub-castes, of which the Mathurapuri ranks highest in Balasore, because its members do not carry the *pálki*; in Cuttack all Gauras will do so. The Gopapuri sub-caste is noticeable for the fact that the women are almost the only ones in Orissa who do not wear nose ornaments, a circumstance which, they pretend, connects them with Krishna's mythical milkmaids. The young women of both sub-castes prepare the butter and *ghi* which the elder ones take round for sale with their milk. Field labour of

all kinds is eschewed by the Gaura women. The sub-caste known as Magadha, ranks last and is probably a recent accretion from some aboriginal tribe.

GHÁNTRÁ.

701. Ghántrá is the name of a small caste of workers in brass and iron who are found mainly in Angul, whither they are said to have migrated during a famine. Their favourite deity is Káli, who is represented by an iron rod, and to whom they make offerings of fowls, goats, rice and milk. Once a year, during the *Káli pujá*, they worship a lump of charcoal as the emblem of their craft. They eat fowls and drink wine, but do not take other people's leavings. They have no Bráhmans to serve them.

GHATWÁR.

702. The term Ghatwár or Ghátwál was originally purely functional, and was applied to the low castes who were employed, in the days of native rule, to guard the passes, and protect the people in the plains from the incursions of the wild tribes in the hills. In Bihar they now usually claim to be Suryabansi Rájputs, and in Bhagalpur it is reported that the richer members of the community have married into orthodox Rájput families. The origin of the Ghatwárs has generally been forgotten, but in the Chota Nagpur Plateau, they are in most parts believed to be Bhuiyás.* Mr. Driver, whose knowledge of the Chota Nagpur tribes is unrivalled, tells me that they are the Northern Bhuiyás, and are divided into two sub-castes, Singh and Rái, of whom the Singh alone claim to be Rájputs. A reporter from Hazaribagh also says that there are two classes of Bhuiyás, and that the higher and more Hinduised call themselves Ghatwár. These are served by good Bráhmans and their water is taken. Ghatwárs who are well-to-do cultivators call themselves Bábuán, and when they become zamindars they assume the name Tikáit.† There is a proverb—

Ghaté te Ghatwár, Vaté te Tikáit.

The Tikáits again call themselves Rájputs and wear the thread. The lower or Rikhiásan Bhuiyás are regarded as unclean; they eat pork and rank very low, on about the same level as Ghásis.‡

In Gaya the Ghatwárs have succeeded in dissociating themselves from the Bhuiyás and are regarded as a separate caste. The richer members of the community call themselves Tikáit, wear the sacred thread and abstain from animal food and drink. A Tikáit will not intermarry with an ordinary Ghatwár. Both sections marry as adults and, unlike most Hindus, they usually choose as their bride a girl of their own village. They allow widow marriage but forbid divorce. Polygamy is only allowed in case the first wife proves sterile. The marriage ceremony is of the usual type. The binding element is the smearing of the bride's forehead with vermilion. Widows are married by the same ceremony as virgin brides.

GHORÁI.

703. Ghorái is the name of a small agricultural community in Midnapore. It has been treated as a sub-caste of Kadmá in Table XIII, but it is not quite certain that this is correct. The Ghoráis have separate priests from the Kadmás. They have no traditions regarding their origin.

GHUSURIÁ.

704. The Ghusuriás are a low caste of Orissa who tend pigs, from which circumstance they derive their name. Their original settlement is said to have been in Puri, and those to the south of the Bráhmani river consider themselves superior to, and will not intermarry with, those living north of that river. In Balasore there are two endogamous sub-castes, Bichha and Nagesha. They will admit outsiders of higher caste. Adult marriage is the rule, but there are exceptions. A man may marry two sisters. Divorce is allowed and the *divorcée* may marry again. So may widows. At the marriage of virgin wives the joining of the hands of the bride and bridegroom constitutes the binding part of the ceremony, while in the case of widows (whose marriage is called *Dutiya*), the smearing of the bride's forehead with vermilion is the essential element.

* In Manbhum their affinities are said to be with the Bhumij.

† In Bonai the word Tikáit means "a recipient of the *Tiká* or mark of investiture," and is applied to the eldest son or heir-apparent of the Rájá.

‡ Rikhiásan is also a section of Musahars in Bihar. I have already referred to the supposed connection between the latter and the Bhuiyás.

The Ghusuriás are not served by Bráhmans,* and their priests are Baishnabs of their own caste. Their religion is of very primitive type, and is chiefly thought of in times of epidemic disease, when a pig is killed at some place where three roads meet, as an offering to the Joginí or disease-godling, and the carcase is thrown away. When a Ghusuriá dies, the corpse is rubbed with turmeric and bathed, wreaths of flowers are placed on the neck, and it is then buried in a kneeling position with the face bent downwards and the hands placed under the thighs.

The social rank of Ghusuriás is very low. They eat pork, beef and fowls, but not monkeys, jackals or reptiles. They take the leavings of Dhobás and higher castes. Their touch defiles.

GIRGIRIÁ.

705. The Girgiriás are found mainly in the Orissa States and Angul. By profession they are fishermen, and it is sometimes said that they are a sub-caste of Kewat, but this seems to be doubtful.

GODRÁ.

706. Godrá is the name of a small caste of basket-workers found in Angul and the Orissa States.

GOKHÁ.

707. The Gokhás are fishermen, but their touch defiles and they rank far below the Kewats, who also live by fishing. The name of the caste is derived from *go*, water, and *kháya*, living. Like the Beruás of Eastern Bengal, they may use only bamboo fishing contrivances, called *Shálua*, and are forbidden to fish with nets. They also cure fish all along the coast. Their women sell fish. Some have abandoned their traditional occupation and taken to cultivation, while others serve as *pálki*-bearers, when they are called *Káduabehárá* or 'mud bearers' to distinguish them from the regular *pálki*-bearers of the Gaur caste. These *pálki*-bearing Gokhás form a separate sub-caste known as Kándia, while those who do not carry *pálkis* are known as Málik Gokhá. Marriage within the usual degrees of relationship is prohibited, and a man is also forbidden to give his daughter in marriage to the family from which he has obtained his wife. The marriage ceremony is of the usual type, but it always takes place in the house of the bridegroom, the explanation given being that a bridegroom was once carried off by a tiger while on his way to the bride's house. Widows are allowed to marry again. Divorce is permitted in the case of adultery. The Gokhás eat pigs and fowls. They are nominally Hindus of the Vaishnava persuasion, but their worship is of a very primitive nature. Their chief object of adoration is Básulái, whom they worship with offerings of spirits, fowls and pigs on the full-moon day of Ásárh and whenever epidemic disease appears. Women join in the worship and look after the sacrifices, while the men sing and dance and play on an instrument called *Mádal*. They also worship trees which they smear with vermilion.

GOLÁ.

708. Golá is a low caste of Orissa with several endogamous sub-castes, viz:—

(1) Gandia. Live by cultivation, chiefly of onions and garlic, and by the manufacture of gunny-bags;

(2) Bengali. Are prohibited from growing onions and garlic and from making gunny-bags, and are usually cultivators or petty traders;

(3) Tulábhiná, or cotton carders, and

(4) Thoriá, or traders in grain which they carry on pack-bullocks, whence their name. It is a moot point whether Tulábhiná and Thoriá are sub-castes of Golá or separate castes. Pending the decision of this question, I have entered them separately in Table XIII. The gradual introduction of railways and roads is causing many Thoriás to take to cultivation as a means of livelihood.

GUNI.

709. The Gunis are usually beggars. They also sell wooden necklaces. They are found mainly in the Tributary States of Chota Nagpur and Orissa, but their total number is very small.

* Some Bráhmans will accept money from Ghusuriás and other low castes to perform a *puja* on their behalf in their absence, either at home or in some temple or other holy place. When this is done, the Bráhman will place part of the *bhog* or offering in a pot and leave it near the man's home, and the latter then takes it away and eats it.

710. Gurer is said to be the name of a distinct caste in Bihar, but it is not mentioned by Mr. Risley, and I have received very little information regarding it. The persons so returned were usually shop-keepers.

GURER.

711. Hádi or Hátri is the name of a caste peculiar to the north of Mymensingh. Like the Hájangs and Dálus they are probably of Gáro origin, but one informant says that, according to their own traditions, their ancestors were Koches from the foot of the Himalayas, and they have the same tradition of origin as the Koch Kings, viz., that they are descended from Siva by a Koch girl, Hirá. For this reason they often call themselves Sib Paddhata or Sib Sankar Das. They intermarry only amongst themselves. As with the Dálus, the only sub-castes are sectarian. The Adhikáris, or priestly section, and those who are strict Vaishnavas, will not give their daughters to other Hádis, though they will take their wives from them. Some are Sáktas and some Vaishnavas. The latter sect is believed to be of recent adoption. Girls are married before puberty. Polygamy and divorce are allowed. Widows may re-marry and may take as their second spouse any one whom they might have married when virgins, except the near relations of the first husband. Their children do not rank on quite the same level as those of virgin-wives. They employ degraded Bráhmans, and their religious beliefs and observances are much the same as those of ordinary Hindus. The women worship the planet 'Sani' on Saturday and Mangalchandi on Tuesday. Subháchani and Lakshmi are also worshipped by them. With the exception of the Adhikáris and Vaishnavas, the Hádis eat pork and all flesh, except that of cows, monkeys, fowls, and vermin; they also drink wine. They eat the leavings of superior castes. They rank with Dálus and Hájangs with whom they will drink and smoke. In 1891 they appear to have been confused with Bhuinmáli or Hári.

HÁDI.

712. The Hájangs are another small community of Bodo, and probably of Gáro origin, who are most numerous in Mymensingh, but are found also in the Garo Hills, Sylhet and a few other districts of Assam. They speak a broken dialect of Bengali peculiar to themselves. A brief description of them was given by me in the Report on the Census of Assam in 1891 (page 233).

HÁJANG.

713. Iriká, Idigá or Chelia Golá is the name of a small community found in Puri and the Orissa States. Their head-quarters is in Ganjam, whence they are said to have immigrated in recent times. In Puri they rear goats and sell milk, *ghi* and vegetables, but in Madras they are said to be toddy-drawers. They are served by good Bráhmans from Ganjam. Their favourite object of worship is Narsingh, an incarnation of Vishnu who slew the demon Hiranya Káshyapa. They also worship two minor deities, Elámá and Kamur.

IRIKÁ.

714. The Hálláms are a Kuki tribe resident in Hill Típpera. As has been noted in the Chapter on Language they speak a special dialect of their own. They are divided into 12 exogamous clans.*

HÁLLÁM.

715. I have included Jáduá in the figures for Bráhman, but their claims to Bráhmanical rank are perhaps almost as doubtful as those of the Kápuriás who have been entered as a separate caste. They figure amongst the criminal communities described in the Police Code, where it is said that they are notorious swindlers who work on the religious credulity of their dupe; they frequently induce him to borrow money and entrust it to them, whereupon make off with it. They profess to cure barrenness and also practise astrology and fortune-telling. It is thought that they may be Aherias in disguise.

JÁDUÁ.

716. The Jadupetias are a curious community of the Sonthal Parganas, Manbhum and Birbhum, occupying a place midway between Hinduism and Muhammadanism. The majority were entered by the enumerators as Hindus, but some were described as Muhammadans. They say they are the descendants of a Muhammadan *fakir*

JADUPETIA.

* Riáng, Márchum, Káipháng, Kálai, Rángkhol, Chaiyáng, Dhanchá, Rakshyungchá, Bangcher, Rupini, Chaimál.

by a low caste Hindu woman. They believe in Alláh, but also worship Káli, Manasá Debi and other deities of the Hindu Pantheon. Hindu priests sometimes officiate when they offer sacrifices to Káli. They practise circumcision and bury their dead. On the other hand, many of them shave off their beards, and kill animals, as the Hindus do, by severing the head from the body. Many again bear Hindu names, and their married women mark the parting of their hair with vermilion. Some refrain from beef. They have a Kázi who officiates at their marriages, but not necessarily at their burial services. By profession they are brass-workers, and make trinkets, gongs, weights, &c., of that metal. Some again are mendicants; they draw pictures of persons recently dead and exhibit them to the bereaved relatives, who give them presents.

Jagwá.

717. The Jagwás, or Sajiannas, are a small caste found in Gaya. They profess to be Bráhmans by origin, but they are popularly supposed to be degraded Bábhans, and this view is confirmed by the fact that their caste title is Singh. They claim descent from Yagyavalkya, probably on account of the similarity of name; this, however, is more likely to be derived from their original occupation which, according to the Aushnasi Smriti, was to serve as watchmen at sacrificial rites (Jagya). Their main occupation at the present day is attendance at the *srádhs* of high caste people, where they are feasted and given presents. They eat voraciously on these occasions, and their manner is rude and boisterous. To meet one of them at any other time is considered a bad omen. They eke out their earnings by agriculture; some have attained the status of occupancy raiyats and a few have become zamindars. They are illiterate and uncouth, but in respect of marriage, diet and social matters generally, they follow the observances of high caste Hindus. They are served by good Bráhmans. Some are Saivas and some are followers of Vishnu. Their favourite godlings are two spirits, viz., Vishnupati Thakur (male) and Mainyaji (female), to whom they make offerings of sweetmeats and wearing apparel. To the former the sacred thread is also offered. The great time for worshipping them is on the occasion of marriage.

Jhorá.

718. The Jhorás are a fairly numerous caste of the Tributary States of Orissa and Chota Nagpur. They are usually fishermen or gold washers, and are said by some to be a sub-caste of Kewat. This may possibly be the case, and the name is mentioned by Mr. Risley as that of a sub-caste of Kewat in Bihar. On the other hand some Jhorás are Animists, whereas all Kewats are Hindus.*

Jyotish.

719. In Bengal, Jyotish is merely a functional appellation, meaning an astrologer, who is usually an Áchárjí Bráhman, but in Orissa it is the name of a separate caste of astrologers. They read out the almanac daily to the villagers, and many of them hold rent-free lands given to their ancestors by the old Hindu Kings. They act as the priests of the Chamár and Siyal castes. They are served by good Bráhmans and are orthodox Hindus, but they are regarded as degraded and their touch defiles cloth. They are also known as Náik, Grahabipra and Gamak. The last mentioned synonym is also the name of the corresponding caste in Assam, the social position of which, however, is far higher.

Káchrá.

720. There are two classes of Káchrá, one consisting of immigrants from the Madras Presidency, and the other an indigenous caste of Orissa. The former rank lower. The latter, who are here referred to, are variously said to be descended from Vaisyas, Khandáits and aboriginal tribes. The name of the caste is usually derived from its traditional occupation, viz., the dealing in beads and other articles made of glass (*Kách*), but some say it is from 'Káchar,' meaning too much haggling over the price of the utensils sold by them. At the present day the members of this caste are usually workers and dealers in brass and bell-metal and some are well-to-do traders. Polygamy, divorce and widow marriage are allowed. They usually bury their dead and perform the *srádh* on the tenth day. They abstain from fowls and spirits, but their water is not taken by the higher castes.

* The word seems to be derived either from *jhár*, jungle or *jar*, a water channel. The word Jhárjá is commonly used in the Tributary States to denote jungly tribes.

721. Káháliá, like Daitá, is a small caste of the Puri district. The people thus designated are believed to be descended from the illegitimate children of the dancing girls attached to the great temples, but they themselves deny this and profess to have come originally from the banks of the Ganges. They play in the temples on a wind instrument called *Káháli*, from which their name is derived, and sometimes describe their castes as Tali Sebaka, *i.e.*, inferior temple servants. Marriage is prohibited within three generations on the side of both parents. The binding portion of the marriage ceremony is the tying together of the hands of bride and bridegroom with Kusa grass. Widows may marry again; the second husband is usually the younger brother of the first. The ceremony, when a widow marries, is a simple one, and consists in the public presentation to her by the bridegroom of bangles and a new cloth which have been previously consecrated by a Bráhman. Divorce is allowed for adultery or incompatibility of temper. They are served by good Bráhmans and are Vaishnavas by sect. They burn their dead.

KÁHÁLIÁ.

722. In the body of Table XIII, I have grouped together under the head 'Kallár,' several small communities of outcastes, but have given the necessary details for each in the column of remarks. Most of these unfortunate persons lost their caste on the occasion of some famine, but the Káthichhuás, who are found only in Tippera, are descended from Káyasths and other Hindus, who were outcasted by intermarrying or eating with Tipárás.* They are also known as Tripur Dás. They will intermarry and eat with Tipárás. They keep up, to some extent, their old Hindu customs and observances, but very few of them have preserved any traditions regarding their original caste. The Chattarkháis are found only in Orissa. Although looked upon by others as outcastes, they maintain amongst themselves their original caste distinctions, and it is possible that some of them described themselves accordingly at the census.

KALLÁR.

723. The Káltuyá, Kolthá or Kolitá of the Orissa and Chota Nagpur States has sometimes been identified with the Kalitá caste of Assam, but beyond the similarity of name and the fact that each is supposed to have a larger infusion of Aryan blood than most other local castes, there seems to be very little ground for the assumption that they have sprung from the same stock. The Káltuyás of Angul have the same tradition as that heard in Chota Nagpur by Colonel Dalton that they originally emigrated from Mithila, but they have no written records, and the fact that they possess an outfit of totemistic septs militates strongly against the theory of an Aryan origin. These septs are Nágesh, Pipal, Ganesh, Hasti and Kachhap. The animal, etc., after which the sept is named, is held sacred, and a man of the Nágesh clan would never kill a snake, nor would one of the Pipal clan cut down a pipal tree (*ficus religiosa*). In the Orissa States the Káltuyás are found chiefly in Dhenkanal, Talcher and Hindol. They are often called Káltuyá Chásá, and many were entered as Chásá at the census. They are described in a report from Angul as a sub-caste of Chásá, but it is admitted that they will not associate or intermarry with other groups known by that name. Infant marriage is the rule. Divorce and widow re-marriage are permitted. Adultery is looked on as a serious offence only if it be committed with a man of another caste. They are served by good Bráhmans. They are Vaishnavas by sect, and specially worship Jagannáth, Rádhá and Krishna, and Chaitanya of Nabadvip. They also worship the Grám Devatá or village deities, of whom there are about twenty, especially in Ásárh to invoke rain, in Bhádra when the new rice appears, and in Fálgun after the harvest home, when a bountiful harvest in the coming year is prayed for. Some of the godlings are believed to be malignant, and these are worshipped whenever disease breaks out.

KÁLTUYÁ.

724. The Kalu is treated by Mr. Risley as a sub-caste of Teli, but he says that "their separation from the main body of the Telis is so complete that many regard them as a separate caste." I have shown them separately, as the standard which I have taken for differentiating castes is Hindu public opinion, and there is no doubt that in Bengal the Teli and the Kalu are generally held to be distinct. The

KALU.

* *Káthi* means cooking stick, and *chhuá*, touched.

Pandits of Nadia and Hooghly have ruled that the Teli or rather Tili, is a Baniyá caste, and in any case, he is no longer an oil-presser; he admits no connection with the Kalu; he has a different Bráhman, and he ranks on an entirely different social plane.

The betrothal customs of the Kalus of Manbhum are peculiar. Next to the bride and bridegroom the principal parties are their maternal uncles.* They sit facing each other with a napkin spread between them, and untying a bundle of cakes place them on the napkin. They then put bits of the cakes into each other's mouths, the uncle of the niece exclaiming each time, "I give my niece to your nephew, protect her from shame and danger." The bride then touches the feet of her prospective uncle-in-law, who puts a garland of flowers round her neck and gives her some betel-nuts and palm-leaves. This is known as *Guátiká*. A day for the actual celebration of the marriage is then fixed, and the ceremony is carried out with the aid of the family priests.

The *srádh* is performed on the 31st day.† With the invitation to the relatives of the deceased is sent a certain number of betel-nuts. If 14 nuts are sent, the recipient understands that he and all his family are invited to the ceremony, but if only nine are received he knows that the male members alone are expected to attend. The males of the caste wear a necklace of beads and the females an ornament called *hánsuli*. The females, other than those of the Sikhariá sub-caste, are not allowed to tattoo the forehead or to wear a nose-ring. The Kalus worship the *Ghani*, or instrument by means of which they press oil, on the first day of Mágh.

KÁNDÁRI.

725. Kándári is a sub-caste of Pátni in Malda. Many of them are now shop-keepers. The persons concerned applied to the Magistrate to be allowed to return themselves as Karan, and he granted their request.‡ The enumerators, however, appear to have usually exercised their discretion in the matter and, in spite of the Magistrate's order, only 59 Karans were found in the returns. These are probably Kándáris.

KANDRÁ.

726. The Kandrás are a low caste in Orissa. They are usually day-labourers or village chaukidars, the latter being considered the traditional caste occupation. The name is said to be derived from their skill in archery (*kánda* means 'arrow'), and in former times they and the Páns formed the rank and file of the local militia. They are also known as Digrurk. Their women are very industrious. They serve as coolies, and collect and sell shells, feathers, fire-wood, etc. Their touch defiles and they have no Bráhmans. The marriage ceremony is conducted by an elderly man of the caste, who places a thread round the necks of the bride and bridegroom and proclaims them man and wife. Divorce is allowed for infidelity or incompatibility of temper. They profess to be Vaishnavas, but their main object of worship is the Grám Devtí to whom they resort in time of trouble. They allow their widows to marry again. Dead bodies are either burnt or buried; in the latter case the corpse is laid on its back with its head to the west. On the Mahálaya Amábásya day, rice and curry are cooked and offered to the ancestors; a small portion is thrown into the fire and the rest is then eaten. There are three sub-castes—

(1) *Kalandi Baishnab.*—They serve the other sections of the caste as priests and adjudicate upon social questions. They also trade in stone utensils and beg. They rank highest.

(2) *Machua.*—Prepare and sell contrivances for catching fish.

(3) *Chandali.*—Make and sell mats.

KADMÁ.

727. Kadmá, which is returned mainly from Midnapore, is said by some to be the same as Kandrá, but as the identification is not complete, I have thought it better to show the two items separately.

* This savours of a time when the matriarchal form of polyandry was in vogue. There are also traditions pointing to a period of polyandry of the fraternal order, where several brothers shared a wife in common. It is said that at one time the eldest brother alone married and the younger brothers remained single. The degradation of the caste is attributed to the incontinence of these younger sons.

† The Sikhariá sub-caste perform it on the 11th day.

‡ The Magistrate of this district granted several similar requests by other communities, and the Malda caste returns are somewhat confused in consequence. Amongst others he allowed the Gaurdeshi Baniks to be entered as Agarwál, the Rangabaniks as Bais Bániyá, and the Bangadeshi Baniks as Maheswri.

728. The Kantábudiyás or Kántádiás are dealers in tobacco, cultivators and petty traders. They are found only in Cuttack. They have no traditions as to their origin, and the fact that 'Kantábudá' means 'a thorny bush' throws very little light on the question. They have the same titles as Chásás, and may have been degraded from that caste in consequence of their occupation as tobacco-dealers. As with the Daitás, persons who die unmarried are burned and not cremated.

KANTÁBUDIYÁ.

729. The Káorás were treated in 1891 as a sub-caste of Dom, but it seems preferable to show them separately. They are most numerous in the 24-Parganas, where they are reported to form a distinct caste, and the same view is taken in Midnapore and Khulna. In Howrah, Hooghly and Burdwan they are said to be a sub-caste of Háris. They are swineherds by profession. They rank with Doms and Háris, but do not intermarry with either of these communities. There is a marked resemblance in sound between Káorá or Káonrá as it is more correctly spelt and the Orissa caste Kandrá. The social position of the two groups is also very similar, and it is possible that further enquiry may establish their identity.

KÁORÁ.

730. Most of the Kápuriás found in Bengal come from the United Provinces, chiefly from the Fatehpur district. While wandering about the country, which they do only in the dry season, they live in small tents. They beg and steal, and deal in ponies and goats. Their women make baskets of grass and of leaves of the date-palm. They usually claim a Bráhmanical origin, and many of them appear to have been returned as Bráhmans at the census.* Their subdivisions, traditions and social customs correspond very closely to those described by Mr. Crooke. They are usually Sáktas. The only minor deity adored by them is Sitalá, to whom they offer rice, fruit, sweetmeats and goats. No regular *srádh* ceremony is performed. The period of impurity after death is only of three days' duration. Widow marriage is allowed, and the deceased husband's younger brother has the first claim.

KÁPURIÁ AND KÁPURI.

The persons enumerated in Orissa who are shown under this head belong to an entirely different community. They are called Kápuri and claim to be Khandáits, but are not generally regarded as such, and are held to be so degraded that even the washermen will not take food from their hands. Bráhmans serve them, but will not take water from them. They act as priests to the Kurmis, Gaurs and Kaibarttas. They are quite distinct from the Pátrás of whom Kápuriá is a title.

731. The Kartiá is a fishing caste found only in Puri and the Orissa States. Its origin is unknown. The social status is low.

KARTIÁ.

732. Kasarwáni is the name of a Baniyá caste of Bihar and the United Provinces. Mr. Crooke derives the word from *Kánsya kára Vanij*, "a seller of brass vessels," but Mr. O'Malley reports from Gaya that the correct word is *Kesarbáni*, meaning a dealer in saffron (*kesar*), and that the cultivation and sale of saffron constitutes the traditional occupation of the caste. At the present time they are usually grocers and general dealers and a few have entered Government service. As in the United Provinces, so in Bihar, the current tradition is that the caste emigrated from Karamanikpur, but this place is located by some in Cashmere and by others in the district of Allahabad. The cause of the migration is said to have been a conflict with the local ruler in which the Kasarwánis were worsted. There are 96 different exogamous groups which are said to represent the descendants of the 96 Kasarwánis who survived the above conflict. They belong to various religious sects—Saiva, Vaishnava and Nánakshái, but all practise in their own houses the strange Pánchpiriyá cult. The offerings to the five *pirs* consist of sweetmeats, cooked rice and flesh which are afterwards consumed by the members of the family; no

KASARWÁNI.

* In the notes prepared in the course of compilation regarding the castes and occupations of persons from distant districts, I found in several cases (*e.g.*, in Birbhum) the entry:—
"Fatehpur—Bráhmans, beggars." Fatehpur is the head-quarters of the Kápuriás and begging is their main occupation. Sherring mentions Kupuriya as a clan of the Saraswat Bráhmans.

outsider, not even a married daughter, is permitted to partake of them. Those who are not Vaishnavas eat the flesh of goats but not of sheep. They are served by good Bráhmans. There is no marked peculiarity about their marriage customs. Widow marriage is permitted, and the choice of a second husband rests with the widow's guardian. Polygamy, though uncommon, is not forbidden; it usually occurs only when the first wife proves barren or suffers from an incurable disease. The time when the *srádh* is performed varies; in some cases the ceremony takes place after 13 days, and in some after 15, 17, 20 or 30 days. In respect of inheritance the Kasarwánis belong to the Mitakshara school.

KASAUNDHAN.

733. The Kasaundhans are grocers like the Kasarwánis to whom they appear to be very closely allied. In Gaya it is asserted by the latter that the former are descended from their own illegitimate offspring, a statement which is of course stoutly denied by the Kasaundhans themselves. They have, however, the same tradition as the Kasarwánis regarding the emigration of their ancestors from Cashmere. There are two sub-castes, Sáth and Eksáth, corresponding to the Khara and Dusrá sub-castes found in the United Provinces. The Sáth sub-caste wears the thread and forbids widow marriage, which is allowed amongst the Eksáth branch of the community. The Nánakshábi sect is that to which they commonly belong and, like the Kasarwánis, they often worship the *Pánch Pir*.

KATHAK.

734. The Kathaks are a caste of story tellers, singers and musicians. They claim a Bráhmanical origin and wear the thread, but they now form an entirely distinct, and very disreputable, community and it seems on the whole better to treat them as a separate caste, in the same way as has been done in the case of Bhát, Jagwa, Kápuriá and Tiklihár, all of whom claim to be Bráhmans.

KÁTHURIÁ.

735. In the "Tribes and Castes of Bengal" Káthuriá is said to be a degraded sub-caste of Sutradhar who work as carpenters and also deal in lime. But in East Bengal they are generally supposed to be an off-shoot from the Chandál or Namasudra caste, and in Table XIII they have been included in the latter, but the necessary details have been given in the column of remarks. They do not intermarry with the Namasudras, but they have the same priests. They make lime by burning the shells of the Shámuk or Jhinuk.

KELÁ.

736. The Kelás are a low Orissa caste of fowlers, jugglers and beggars. They are said to have come from Madras about forty years ago. They are nomadic and in their manners and customs, they correspond very closely to the Bediyas of Bengal. The Kelás living between Jajpur and Jellasore are not allowed to marry with those living in other parts of Orissa. Four sub-castes are reported from Cuttack, *viz.*, Naluá, or Pátrásaura, Sápua, Mátiá, and Sabákhiá, or the omnivorous ones. In Puri there is a fifth sub-caste called Gaudia and in Balasore Adhhariya is returned instead of Mátiá. With the exception of the Naluás the Kelás speak a mixture of Oriyá and Telugu which in the case of the Sabákhiás approaches much more nearly to Telugu than to Oriyá. The Naluás, on the other hand, are said to speak an archaic form of Bengali; they also differ greatly in appearance from the other sub-castes, being of fair complexion with well marked Mongoloid features. The Naluás catch and sell birds, the Sápuas exhibit snakes, the Mátiás are earth-workers and the Sabákhiás are professional beggars. The last mentioned will eat anything, even dead snakes. They wear a plume of feathers in their turbans and paint their faces. They are said to frighten people into giving them alms by cutting their bodies and vomiting in front of their houses. Begging, however, is by no means a monopoly of the last mentioned sub-caste. The begging party usually consists of a man with his wife and child. The woman sings and dances while the man plays on a rude instrument called *dhuruka*. They move about in gangs of from 10 to 50 members, and take up their quarters under trees or in market sheds. Some of them make mats from the leaves of the date-palm, fans of peacock feathers and the arrows called *Khandsara* used by some of the higher castes in certain religious ceremonies. They have no Bráhmans and the old men of the caste act as

priests. They chiefly worship Thákuráni to whom they sacrifice fowls and goats. They allow widow marriage and divorce. They bury their dead with the head to the south, males being laid on the back and females with the face downwards. In Balasore, the corpse is placed in a sitting posture. They admit outsiders after immersion in the Baitarani river, at the Dasaswari ghât, and the giving of a feast to the caste people.

KHANDEWÁL.

737. The Khandewáls or Khandelwáls are a trading caste similar to the Agarwáls. They profess to be descended from Khandina Rishi. Others derive the name from Khandela in the Jaipore State. Some are Hindus of the Vaishnava sect and wear the thread, and some are Jains. Unlike the Agarwáls, the adherents of the one religion do not intermarry with those of the other.

KHÁRURÁ.

738. Khárurá is derived from "kháru," a bracelet, and is the name of a caste found in Orissa and Ganjam who make and sell brass bangles and other utensils. They will not work in bell-metal. They are served by good Bráhmans, but their water is not taken by the higher castes; according to some they are a sub-caste of Thátári.

KHATIÁ.

739. The Khatiá, like the Kartiá, is an Orissa caste found mainly in Puri. The distinction between the two is that while the latter catch, the former sell, fish. The traditional origin of the caste is from a Kshattriya father and a prostitute mother. They have the usual customs of low caste Hindus. The ordinary barber and washerman will not serve them.

KHELTÁ.

740. The Kheltá is a dancing caste similar to the Gandharb, by which name it is sometimes known. The male is called Kheltá and the female Kheltni. The males play and sing while the women sing and dance. Some of the women are prostitutes. The dancing consists of a series of high jumps. The songs are in a peculiar dialect, a jumble of Hindi, Santáli and Málto. There are four exogamous subdivisions, Kálkhor, Chhabadi, Bandhaiyá, and Pobiár. There are also two sub-castes, Gaur and Mallár, which are looked upon as degraded, and the other Kheltás will not give them their daughters in marriage, though they have not the same objection to receiving brides from them. Mahagawan and Godda are recognised as the head-quarters of the caste. Orphans and females ejected from higher castes are admitted to their community. They have a slang language of their own, but usually converse in Hindi. Those who take to cultivation and abstain from singing and dancing are looked upon as more respectable than their *confréres*.

KHITIBANSA.

741. Khitibansa or Mátibansa is a caste peculiar to Orissa. Their title is Náik, but they are quite distinct from the Jyotish caste, who use the same title. They have also no connection with the Mátibansa Tántis. Those who are literate generally serve as teachers and are locally called Abadhán; those who are not literate exhibit the idol of Mangalá or Basanta Thákuráni, the goddess of small-pox. They trace their origin to a clay figure made by Anádi, or Eternity, the great mother, who endowed it with life and learning, and directed that its descendants should be called Mátibansa and should teach boys in schools. The story of the origin of this community is said to be given at length in the *Siva Purán*.

KHODÁL.

742. The Khodáls are a low caste of Orissa who are said in Puri to have come from Ganjam; but if so, it is curious that they should be most numerous in Balasore and Midnapore. In Balasore they dig earth and grow vegetables, while in Puri they are *pálki*-bearers, day-labourers and firewood collectors and sellers. Their practices are similar to those of other low caste Hindus.

KICHAK.

743. The word Kichak is a very elusive one, and I have been unable to trace true origin of the name, as applied to the small community in the Dacca district which was thus returned at the census. The word is as old as the *Mahábhárata* and the Pándavas are said to have visited the country of the Kichaks. They are mentioned by Hodgson as sharing the Nepal Terai with the Dhimál, Bodo, Tháru and Denwár tribes. In the Statistical Account of Purnea they are

named with the Kiráts as aboriginal chiefs who preceded the Muhammadans, but no trace can be found of them in that district at the present time. They are also referred to in the traditions current in Rangpur regarding Prithu Rája, whom they are said to have overthrown. But here too there are now no Kichaks and the very name has been buried in oblivion.

In the Police Code the Kichaks are described as "an off-shoot of the great Báuri race of Upper India" who make incursions into Bengal in the cold weather, travelling as far east as Rangpur. These people profess to come from Ghazipur. Their ostensible means of livelihood, it is said, are begging, jugglery, sorcery, but they are also thieves, cattle-lifters and passers of counterfeit coin.

The Dacca Kichaks have a tradition that their ancestors were dacoits, and that they were deported from Dinajpur and Rangpur by two Magistrates, whose names sound like Cooper and Nixon, some 60 years ago. They are now street sweepers, but will not remove night-soil, and disclaim all connection with Háris and Doms. They speak a dialect of their own which has been ascertained to be a form of Gujaráti. They have no priests. Marriages are celebrated by the panchávat. No caste will take water from them, but the Dhobá will wash for them and up-country barbers will shave them. They will take water from all Hindus, except absolutely unclean castes, and also from Musalmans. They are occasionally employed as *shikáris*, and are reported to be very expert at catching hares. They were shown separately in the District Census Report of 1891, but were grouped under some other head (not now ascertainable) in the Imperial Tables.

KONAI.

744. I have shown Konai as a separate caste, as the Magistrates of the districts where it is chiefly found report that it is so, but it is sometimes considered to be a sub-caste of Muchi. In Pabna, Mátiál is said to be synonymous with Konai, but persons so returned have been classified as Muchi. There are two sub-castes, Chási and Kurur. The former are cultivators and occasionally fishermen or field labourers, while the latter are drummers, or dealers in hides. The community has no traditions as to its origin. Its social rank is low. Smoking with Muchis is allowed. Chási Konais are fairly orthodox in their diet, but the Kurur sub-caste will eat the flesh of buffaloes and sometimes even that of cows. They specially venerate Manasá, the goddess of snakes, and worship Dharmaráj in Baisákh and Jaishta on the night of the full moon. Widows are allowed to marry again. The wedding ceremony in such cases is a simple one. An earthen pot full of water is placed before the happy couple, and the bridegroom presents his lady-love with a new *sári* or dress cloth.

KONDIÁ.

745. The Kondiás are found only in Purnea and are said to be allied to the Kurariárs. Like the latter they were originally hunters, but have now become cultivators and menial servants. The connection between the two castes is no longer admitted; they neither eat together nor intermarry, and are served by a separate class of inferior Bráhmans. The favourite deity of the Kondiás is Bishahari. They practise infant and widow marriage. In Table XIII they have been included in the figures for Kurariár.

KUCHBANDIYÁ.

746. Kuchbandiyá or Kuchbandhwá is the name of the group who make the brushes (*kunch*) used for cleaning thread, and collect the *khaskhas* grass for making *tátis*, etc. They have been classed as Nat in Table XIII for Bengal, but in the United Provinces they are considered to be a sub-caste of Kanjar. The word Kanjar, however, appears to be used there in a wider sense than in Bengal, and includes Nat, Beldár, Jogi and other groups which in this Province are looked on as forming independent castes.

KUKI.

747. The word Kuki is really a generic term used by the people of the plains to denote the hillmen, other than Tipárás and Chákmás, of Hill Tippera and the Chittagong Hill Tracts.* In the hills the word is freely used of any stranger, regardless of his tribe, and Mrungs, Khamis, Paukhus and Banjogis are often thus designated by their neighbours. I have received very interesting notes on some of

* For a proposed derivation of the word, see the footnote † to paragraph 541 in the Chapter on Language.

these tribes from Mr. Sandys of Agartola, but they are too lengthy to be reproduced here.

KUMUTI.

748. The Kumutis are practically confined to Puri and the Orissa States whither they are said to have migrated from Ganjam in Madras. Intermarriage with their caste fellows in Ganjam still exists. They profess to be descended from an Ambastha father, and a Sudra mother, and they assume the thread at marriage. They are usually pedlars or grocers; a few are zamindars, while the poorest amongst them collect and sell the leaves of the sál tree (*shorea robusta*). They marry by preference the daughter of their maternal uncle; if there be none such, they must obtain the consent of their caste fellows before they can marry any one else. They do not eat fowls nor drink spirits. They are served by good Bráhmans and forbid their widows to marry again, but their water is not taken by the higher castes.

KURARIÁR.

749. The Kurariárs are a criminal tribe of Purnea and the Nepal Terai. They are also known as Byádh, *i.e.*, fowler, and their traditional occupation is to catch birds for sale. Many of them sell fuel, and it is not unlikely that the word Kurariár may be a corruption of Kuthariá or Kurhaliá, from *Kuthár* or *Kurháli*, the name of the axe used by them for splitting wood. They live in the jungle and subsist largely on jungle products. They have a bad reputation, and are often mixed up in dacoities and other offences against property, fleeing to the Nepal Terai when wanted by the police. They claim connection with the Tiyars, and will eat any food except cooked rice at a Tiyar's house, though the latter will not return the compliment. There was formerly a prejudice against eating anything cooked by a married daughter, but this is gradually dying out. They call themselves Hindus, but the principal object of their worship is Lálmohan Palwán, a deified hero who is reputed to have been killed by a tiger. They usually employ the village barber as their matchmaker and as the officiating priest at their marriage ceremonies, but sometimes degraded Kanaujiá Bráhmans serve them. They do not eat any unclean food.

LET.

750. I have shown Let as a sub-caste of Bágdi with which it appears to have been classed at previous censuses, but it is generally regarded as a separate caste in Birbhum and the adjoining districts, where it is chiefly found. It is also mentioned as a separate caste in the *Brahma Vaivartta Puran*,* where its origin is attributed to the union of a Tiyar husband and a Tailakar wife, and its traditional occupation is said to be dacoity. The head-quarters of the community are at Songora Bazar in Birbhum. There are two exogamous divisions, Káshyap and Áládasi, but no sub-castes. They trace their origin to one Ásipákar, but cannot say who he was. By occupation the Lets are day-labourers; they also fish with nets (bamboo fishing traps are *taboo*), catch tortoises and knit nets. Many are village watchmen; a few are cultivators. They rank with Máls and Bágdis, and all three will smoke from the same *hukka*, though they will not eat together. The Lets are Hindus and employ degraded Bráhmans for religious and ceremonial purposes. They pay special reverence to Manasá, and also to Dharmaráj, who is given offerings of rice-beer on the full moon nights of Baisákh and Jaishta. They usually burn their dead, but bury them on the bank of a river when fuel cannot be had; in such cases the grave is six feet deep and the corpse is laid on its back. They perform the *srádh* ceremony after 10 days, and propitiate the spirits of departed ancestors at marriage. Infant marriage is practised. Smearing the bride's forehead with vermilion constitutes the essential part of the marriage ceremony. Widows are allowed to marry again by the Sagái rite; the second husband is usually a widower when the iron bangle of his previous wife is placed on the widow's arm. Her rights and privileges are precisely the same as those of a virgin wife. Divorce is permitted for infidelity, barrenness, incompatibility of temper, or failure to

* *Brahmakhanda* Cap. X, verse 101. The mention of Let in this ancient work shows that the name must formerly have been applied to a much larger community than that which is known by it at the present time. We have seen elsewhere how easily the designations of these non-Aryan tribes change. The Santál was known successively as Horo and Kherwár before he obtained his present tribal name and at the present day he usually describes himself as Mánjhi. In many parts the Bágdis also are morelgenerally known as Mánjhi.

maintain. The Lets eat goat's flesh, fish, both scaly and scaleless, and ducks, but abstain from the flesh of pigs, cattle, fowls, &c. They will admit outsiders of a decidedly superior caste, *e.g.*, members of the Nabasákha group, but not Bágdis, Kalus, Dhobás, and the like. An outcasted Kumhár and a Puro are reported to have been recently received into the Let caste in Birbhum.

LODHA OR NODH.

751. Lodh, Lodha or Nodh is the name of an aboriginal tribe of Angul and the Orissa Tributary States. Its head-quarters is in the Central Provinces, where it numbers over a quarter of a million. It is also found in Midnapore, where it is reputed to have come from Singhbhum and Mayurbhanj, and the connection is admitted by the Nodhs of Mayurbhanj, who are one of the oldest tribes in that State. The terms Sabar and Sahar are said to be synonyms of this tribe in Midnapore. The Magistrate of that district thinks they may be allied to the Savars described by Mr. Risley, but in Mayurbhanj the Savars rank considerably above them, having the use of Bráhman, Dhobá and Nápit and being allowed to wash the plates of the higher castes, which privileges are denied to the Nodhs. The Sahars, though they rank on a level with the Nodhs, are also said to be a distinct tribe in Mayurbhanj. The Chirimárs of Midnapore town, who live by snaring birds, are said to be a branch of this tribe. There are three exogamous sections Sálmách, Káchhim and Churki Álu. In Midnapore the origin of the tribe is attributed to the five Pándavas by whom they were employed to hunt animals, while in Mayurbhanj they trace their descent from Bali Rájá. Their traditional occupation is the collection of jungle produce, such as cocoons, lac, resin, honey, wax, &c. Many still live by these means in the Tributary States, whence they are called Lodha Khediá, but in Midnapore they are usually cultivators, day-labourers and fire-wood collectors. They admit outsiders of higher rank. They practise infant marriage. In Midnapore they allow polygamy and forbid widow re-marriage, but in the Tributary States polygamy is forbidden, while widows are allowed to marry again, and are not hampered in their choice of a second spouse by the preferential claim of the younger brother of the first husband. Divorce is allowed only in the case of unchastity, when the woman is outcasted. According to a report from Midnapore, marriages are arranged by the parents. The marriage ceremony is performed by a man of the caste, who is known as the Kotál. He ties Kusha grass on the hands of the bride and bridegroom, and after leading the former round the latter several times, he places them facing each other on opposite sides of a small platform or *bedi*, made of earth brought the previous day by the females of both families from the foot of a *Sidha* tree (*Nauclea cadumba*), on which two pots of water with a mango twig in each are standing. The bridegroom then puts an iron bangle on the bride's wrist and smears her forehead with vermilion; this completes the ceremony. In the Tributary States the practice of getting earth from the foot of a *Sidha* tree is not in vogue. Sitalá is the chief deity of the Lodhas. In Midnapore they also worship Varuna and Bhairab. They burn their dead and mourn for 10 days. On the 11th day they shave themselves and wash their clothes and present rice and a small sum of money to an Áchárji Bráhman or to some Vaishnava mendicant.

There is a caste called Lodha in the United Provinces;* and the few persons thus returned in Bihar and Bengal Proper (outside Midnapore) probably belong to this community.

MAHURIÁS.

752. The Mahuriás of Orissa have no connection with the Mahuris of Bihar who are traders and money lenders. Their name is derived from the wind instrument called *Mahuri* (corresponding to the *Shánái* of Bengal) on which they play on the occasion of marriages and the like. Their females make and sell ropes. They are said to be allied to the Háris and Doms, and to be quite distinct from the Bediyas, in spite of the fact that, like some of the latter, they are also known as Chirimár from their killing and selling birds.

* Crooke's "Tribes and Castes of the North-Western Provinces and Oudh," Vol. III, page 364. These Lodhas claim kinship with the Lodhis of Central India. They are apparently of non-Aryan origin, and it is possible that the similarity of name is not altogether fortuitous.

753. Majhwár is a Dravidian tribe of Udaipur, one of the Chota Nagpur States, about half of whom are Hindus and half Animists. They are basket and mat-makers, and workers in bamboo generally. They are also known as Sonta. A few are found in Gangpur and Sarguja, and also in Mirzapur, where they have been described by Mr. Crooke, who says that they often call themselves Mánjhi like the Santáls. They are, it is said, allied to Chero, Pán and Parahiya, and many of their subdivisions are common to Gonds and other races. The basis of the tribal organisation is totemistic, and their traditions in Mirzapur point to a previous residence in the Western Vindhya and Kaimur ranges.

MAJHWÁR.

754. The Malárs are a wandering caste of moulders in brass found in Chota Nagpur. Mr. Streatfeild writes of them as follows:—"They claim to be Hindus and Aryans, but the local tradition is that the original Malár was the elder brother of the original Oráon, and that having accidentally discovered, while warming himself by a fire one cold morning, that brass could be cast into ornamental shapes by means of sand moulds, he left his brother to do the ploughing and took up casting in brass as a profession. Their work is often very clever; small brass ornaments such as are worn by the Kols, brass ornamentation on weapons, and especially elaborately ornamented *poilas* or seer measures, being successfully cast by them. In habits they are absolutely nomadic, each family wandering about as work presents itself, staying in a village for a year or two and then moving on. I know two houses of Malárs permanently settled in a Munda village, speaking Mundári and working as cultivators, but a regular Malár in the same neighbourhood told me that these were practically outcasted. They have no legends of any ancestral home, and bury their dead in the village where they happen to die without marking the spot in any way. Their language is a slang formed by syllabic perversions of Nágpuriá Hindi."

MALÁR.

755. There is a small tribe in the Orissa States called Málhár, but in spite of the similarity of name there seems to be no connection between them and the Malárs. There may, however, have been some slight confusion between the two in the course of compilation. The Málhárs live mainly on fruits and roots found in the forests in which they live and by the sale of wild honey and other jungle products.

MÁLHÁR.

756. Mallik is the name of a community found only in Manbhum, chiefly in the Jherriah, Raghunathpur and Nirsha thanas. They are locally reported to form a separate caste, and are in no way related to the Bágdis who use the word Mallik as a title.* It is suggested that they may be of the same stock as the Mál Paháriás. The zamindári of Pandra at one time belonged to the Malliks. In the Sonthal Parganas some people returned as Mallik Mál were reported by the Deputy Commissioner to belong to the Mál tribe, and it seems probable that the Malliks of Manbhum are of the same stock. Pending further enquiry, therefore, I have treated them as a sub-caste of Mál.

MALLIK.

The following notes on the Malliks are based on a report from the Subdivisional Officer, Gobindpur:—

They call themselves Deobansi Malliks as distinguished from another group called Rájbansi Mallik with which they repudiate all connection. The whole caste has the same totem Pátrishi, the Indian Paradise flycatcher. The only bar on marriage is that a man may not espouse his first cousin or any nearer relation. Divorce, polygamy, and widow marriage are allowed. The former is effected by publicly tearing a leaf in two. Marriage is both infant and adult. The binding part of the ceremony consists of the placing of an iron bangle on the left wrist of the bride. They profess to be Hindus, but their religion is of a very low order. They specially worship Mahámái Káli, Manasá, and five Deotás called Thulha, Baghut, Monongiri, Babiari and Máyá. The offerings to these deities are usually fowls, sheep and goats. They perform the ceremonies themselves, but once in five years, when they worship the sun, (Bhagawán) a degraded Bráhman is called in, and he also assists at marriages and funeral ceremonies. The dead are usually burnt. They are cultivators

* In Orissa the Kandrás use Malik (with one *l*) as a title and often so describe themselves when asked as to their caste.

and day-labourers. They eat pork and fowls, but abstain from beef and vermin. They will take cooked food from Bhuiyás, but not from Doms or Háris.

MÁTIÁL.

757. Mátiál has been included in the figures for Muchi. It is the name of a community who were apparently Muchis by origin and who have not yet altogether succeeded in obtaining general recognition as a separate caste. They do not usually skin animals, but many of them deal in hides. They seem to be allied to the Konais who have already been mentioned. The Káráls, who are sometimes looked on as a sub-caste of Chandál, also appear to be connected with the Mátiáls. They are fishermen and cultivators and deny the relationship, but they claim descent from Janak Muni, the mythical ancestor of the Mátiál.

MINOR FOREIGN CASTES.

758. Of the 78 'minor foreign castes,' of which the details are given at the end of the Caste Table (page 266 of volume II), a considerable number refer to sepoys of the Bombay and Madras establishments who were quartered in Bengal at the time of the census, and others, such as Bhulia, were found in outlying tracts bordering on other Provinces. The only caste shown in this list, of which any considerable number was enumerated in a non-contiguous district, is the Katiá, which were returned as the caste of 239 persons in Midnapore. The Katiás are a weaving caste of the Central Provinces, but they had come to Midnapore to serve as coolies on the railway.

MORANGIA.

759. The Nepal Terai, north of the districts lying between Jalpaiguri and Muzaffarpur, is shown in Rennell's Map of 1779 as Morang,* and the small community known in Kuch Bihar as Morangia doubtless derive their name from this tract of country. The tradition is that they are descended from twelve persons presented as slaves by the Rájá of Morang to the Koch King Nar Náráyan who ruled in the 16th century. They say that they then wore the thread, but gradually discarded it. They did not know the use of the plough when they first came to Kuch Bihar, and the pargana in which they were settled is still known as Kodálkheti from the fact that they used the spade to till the soil. The Morangias will not eat food cooked by any other caste, not even by Bráhmans. They mourn for 10 days. Widow marriage is prohibited.

NAHURA.

760. Nahura is the name of a small non-Aryan tribe of Angul and the neighbouring states. I have not yet obtained an account of it.

NÁIK OR LÁIK.

761. Náik is a title of many castes, and it is not at all certain that the persons so returned at the census form a separate community of their own, but they have been shown as such, in accordance with a report received from Bankura, where they are chiefly found, and in the absence of sufficient information to affiliate them to any other group. Possibly they are Khairás. They claim to rank above Báuris and Bhuiyás. They abstain from beef, pork and fowls, but not from spirits. They burn their dead and perform the *srádh* ceremony on the 12th day. Widows may not re-marry and divorce is allowed only for aggravated unchastity. A man may marry again if his first wife is barren or has an incurable disease. Outsiders are not admitted into the caste.

MRU.

762. The Mru or Murung is a small tribe confined to the Chittagong Hill Tracts. They speak a language of their own which is allied to Burmese. A small proportion of them are Buddhists, but most call themselves Hindus. The name may be derived from Mrohaung, the ancient capital of Arakan. This may possibly also be the derivation of the word Magh, which is usually pronounced with a nasal sound—something like Moung.

NALIYÁ.

673. The Naliyás are found mainly in Puri whither they have immigrated from Madras. They live on the coast and are sea-fishermen. There are two sub-castes, Jáliyá and Khálási. The latter work in sea-going vessels. Some dig earth, pull punkhas and carry loads. The rule amongst them, as amongst the Kumutis, is that a man should, if possible, marry his first cousin. A widow may marry again, and

* It is also shown on Van den Broucke's map as comprising the whole Himalayán tract from Bihar to Assam, and is mentioned more than once in the Alamgirnámah and in the annals of the Koch Kings.

it is thought proper for her to espouse her first husband's younger brother. The sons inherit, and if there are no sons the property is taken by the community. They profess to be followers of Rámánuja. They worship Varuna with offerings of flowers and sweetmeats before launching a boat or casting a net. In time of trouble goats and fowls are sacrificed to Thákuráni. They do not perform the *srádh* ceremony, but are beginning to offer *pindas* to their ancestors in general on the Mahálaya day.

NAT.

764. Nat in Bihar corresponds very much to Bediyá in Bengal, and in the widest sense would include several castes which I have shown separately, such as Kanjar, Gandharb and Kheltá. In Sanskrit the word means 'a dancer.'

NEKUÁ.

765. Nekuá or Neko is the name of a small community found only in the 24-Parganas. They were formerly weavers, but are now cultivators. They have separate priests of their own, and the Magistrate reports that they cannot be affiliated to any other caste.

NICHAUNDIA.

766. Nichaundiá is a Baniyá caste of Gaya. Rájá Mán Singh, who is supposed to have lived for some years at Mánpur village near Gaya, is said to have brought two colonies of Agarwáls from Narnaul. The second colony, which arrived some years after the first, found that the latter had taken to eating fish and flesh, from which all Agarwáls should abstain; they therefore gave them the nickname Nichaundiá by which they have ever since been known.* There is nothing to distinguish the Nichaundiás in their social and religious observances from other respectable Hindus. They are served by high class Bráhmans. Amongst the minor deities they pay special adoration to a male spirit called Bandh Gosáin, whose worship at marriages is indispensable, and who is propitiated by offerings of sweetmeats, male attire and incense. The Nichaundiás abstain from all animal food. Their original occupation was trade and money-lending. At the present day they are mostly traders, grocers, cloth-sellers and tobacconists, but some have taken to agriculture.

PAHIRÁ.

767. The Pahirás are a small tribe found mainly in pargana Dolma, in Manbhum, who have abandoned their original Munda language in favour of Bengali. I have no special information regarding them.

PANKHU.

768. The Pankhus are a small tribe of the Chittagong Hill Tracts allied to the Banjogis. They have been described by Captain Lewin in his book on the Hill Tracts of Chittagong.

PÁTRÁ.

769. Pátrá or Kápuriá is the name of an Orissa caste who trade in silk cloth and piece-goods. They string necklaces and make and sell the bands used by Oriyá children for tying up their hair. The weaving of coloured silk cloth seems to have been their original occupation. There are four sub-castes—Phulia, Tasaria, Dandia and Bania. They are Vaishnavas by religion and specially venerate Bala Deva. They are served by good Bráhmans and are *jal chal*, *i.e.*, their water is taken by the higher castes.

PORAWÁL.

770. Porawál is a caste of Baniyás returned only in Hazaribagh and Cuttack. Mr. Crooke mentions Parwál and Purwál as two Baniyá castes of the United Provinces, and says that the latter caste has a tradition that it originally came from Puri.† The late Jogendra Náth Bhattáchárya in his book on "Hindu Castes and Sects" derives their name from Pore Bunder in Gujarat.

PUNDÁRI (PURO).

771. The Pundáris or Puros are found mainly in Birbhum, Malda, Rajshahi and Murshidabad. The name seems to indicate that they are in reality Pods, but by residence at a distance from the head-quarters of the caste they have gradually come to lose connection with it, and the Puros of Malda profess to know nothing of the Pods of the 24-Parganas, though they admit that they belong to the same caste as the Puros of Birbhum. According to the Játimála they are descended

* *Nich* means 'down' and *aundhá* 'with face downwards.'

† "Tribes and Castes of the North-Western Provinces and Oudh," Vol. III, pages 136 and 181.

from the union of a Vaisya man with a Sunri woman. Their usual occupation in Malda is the cultivation of the mulberry plant and the rearing of silkworms, but some are zamindars, occupancy and non-occupancy raiyats and landless labourers. In Nadia they are vegetable growers and cultivators, and believe that the growing of vegetables was their original occupation. Three endogamous groups are reported from Malda, viz., Pundra, Paundrik and Supundra. The first two, it is said, are found in Malda and the third in Birbhum. In Nadia also there are three sub-castes, but they are here known as Begune, Piyáze and Peto. In Malda there are five exogamous *gotras*, Chandra Rishi, Ala Rishi, Mug Rishi, Tula Rishi and Káshyapa Rishi, said to be named after the spiritual guides of the original families from whom the present members of the caste claim descent. The Puros claim as their progenitor Pundra, son of Bali and founder of the ancient kingdom of Paundra Vardhana. Their present social position is low, and they do not aspire to the designation 'Brátya Kshattriya' as do the better class Pods of the 24-Parganas. It is said that their features and complexion differ very little from those of the Nabasákhas and other Hindu castes of the same rank. Their Bráhmans are degraded, but claim to be descended from the Bárendra and Baidik sub-castes. They are Vaishnavas by sect, and worship Vishnu as Pundarikakshya, the Lotus-eyed, a circumstance which suggests another derivation for their caste name, although it is equally likely that the latter suggested to their Bráhmans the desirability of inculcating the worship of this particular form of Vishnu. They forbid widow marriage and follow the ordinary observances of middle class Hindus. Their favourite godlings are Mangalchandi and Bisahari. Unmarried girls worship Kátyáyaní.

In the state of Baud there is a small group of persons known as Pundári Máli. They grow flowers and vegetables. In accordance with local opinion they were treated at the census as a sub-caste of Máli, but the similarity of name and occupation would seem to suggest their original identity with the Pundáris or Puros of Bengal.

Rájú.

772. The Rájus are numerous only in Midnapore and Orissa. Their main occupation is cultivation, but a few are money-lenders and zamindars. They trace their origin to a certain Rájá Chauranga Deb, of Orissa, who, when encamped at Jellasore or, as some say, Dantan, fell in love with two girls, the one of the Vaisya and the other of the Dhobá caste. His descendants by the former are known as Dáina, and those by the latter as Báyan. The females of the former class wind their *sári* or skirt from the left, and those of the latter, from the right side of the waist. The two groups do not intermarry. The Dáina sub-caste considers itself superior to the Báyan, and it forbids the re-marriage of widows, which, though discouraged, still takes place occasionally amongst the Báyans. Owing to the influence of their progenitor, it is reported that in former times the Rájus were allowed to intermarry with the Sadgops of Bengal and the Chásás of Orissa, and this is said to account for their family names, of which Ghosh, Pál and Datta are the same as those of the Sadgops, while Jena, Sháhámal, Padhán, Mahanti, etc., are found amongst the Chásás. The Rájus rank with the Nabasákha group and are served by good Bráhmans. Some of their leading men are beginning to claim a Kshattriya origin and to assume the sacred thread. The social and ceremonial practices of the caste are much the same as those of the Nabasákhas. At marriage the essential portion of the ceremony is the binding together of the hands of the bride and bridegroom with Kusha grass. In the case of virgin wives the right hands are taken while when widows marry again it is the left hands which are bound together. A bride of the Báyan sub-caste ties a small quantity of ashes in the corner of her *sári*, which is supposed to be a token of her descent from a Dhobá.

There seems to be no connection between this community and the caste of the same name in Madras.

Rárhi.

773. Rárhi is the name of the Orissa caste of grain-parchers. The women parch the grain and the men sell it in the bazaar. The caste is found chiefly in Balasore. Some say that it came originally from Bengal, while others are inclined to think that it is a functional off-shoot from the Kaibartta caste.

774. I have referred to the group of persons known in Orissa as Sabákhiá in the note on the Kelá caste, of which it is probably a sub-caste. In Table XIII I have treated it as a separate caste, but on further consideration I am doubtful if this procedure was correct.

SABÁKHIÁ.

775. The Sahars are numerous in Cuttack, Puri and the Orissa States. They are said to be different from the Savars. Many are day-labourers. They subsist largely on jungle products and are skilful hunters and fowlers. They employ no Bráhmans, and their chief object of worship is the Grám Devtí. There are three endogamous sub-castes, Basu, Palia and Paika. Nothing is known about their origin. They allow divorce and the re-marriage of widows. They drink wine and eat all kinds of animals.

SAHAR.

776. Sámanta is a title of Rájputs, Khandáits, Águris and other castes, but, like Náik, it is reported to be a separate caste in Bankura, where it is the name of a community of persons residing chiefly in the Chhatna pargana, who appear to be of aboriginal origin, but who now claim to be Rájputs. The Rájá of Chhatna is himself a Sámanta. There are six sub-castes, Charakdángá, Mei, Házrá, Háral, Banti and Pátharmeriyá. Intermarriage is not absolutely prohibited, but a man will not give his daughter elsewhere so long as he can find a suitable bridegroom in his own section of the community. Girls are married very young if a suitable match can be arranged, but many grow to maturity while still virgins. Widow marriage is forbidden. The Sámantas abstain from drink and unclean food and profess to follow the Hindu law of inheritance. They are served by good Bráhmans. The usual occupation is cultivation.

SÁMANTA.

777. The Sanáis were returned only in the Narsinghpur State and Cuttack. They are reported be to a degraded caste of sweepers, but appear to have no connection with the Hári or any of the other sweeper castes.

SANÁI.

778. The Saráks are an archaic community of such special interest that I may perhaps be pardoned for giving a somewhat more detailed account of them than has been thought necessary in the case of other castes. They are described by Mr. Risley as "a small caste of Chota Nagpur who seem to be a Hinduised remnant of the early Jain people, to whom local legends ascribe the ruined temples, the defaced images, and even the abandoned copper mines of that part of Bengal." The recent census shows that the caste is much more widely distributed than was apparent from the statistics of earlier enumerations, but it is doubtful whether even the present figures represent its full strength. In many parts the Saráks have taken to weaving and are popularly known as Saráki Tánti, and they have thus doubtless sometimes been entered at the census as Tánti and not by their proper caste name. In the Pipli thana of Puri, a local reporter has estimated that there are a thousand Saráks, but only 150 have been returned at the census.

SARÁK.

Burdwan	...	819
Birbhum	...	87
Bankura	...	1,972
Midnapore	...	436
Hooghly	...	165
Sonthal Parganas	...	982
Cuttack	...	176
Balasore	...	5
Puri	...	150
Hazaribagh	...	26
Ranchi	...	1,942
Manbhum	...	10,496
Orissa States	...	129
Total	...	17,385

The word Sarák is doubtless derived from Srávaka, the Sanskrit word for "a hearer." Amongst the Jains the term was used to indicate the laymen or persons who engaged in secular pursuits as distinguished from the Yatis, the monks or ascetics, and it still survives as the name of a group which is rapidly becoming a regular caste of the usual type (Saráogi). The Buddhists used the same word to designate the second class of monks, who mainly occupied the monasteries; the highest class or Arhans usually lived solitary lives as hermits, while the great majority of the Bhikshus, or lowest class of monks, led a vagrant life of mendicancy, only resorting to the monasteries in times of difficulty or distress. The origin of the caste is ascribed in the *Brahma Vaivartta Purán* to the union of a Joláhá man with a woman of the Kuvinda, or weaver caste. This, however, merely shows that at the time when this *Purán*

was composed, or when the passage was interpolated,* the Saráks had already taken to weaving as a means of livelihood. Mr. Risley says that the Saráks of Manbhum, though now Hindus, retain traditions of having formerly been Jains.

Saráks of West Bengal and Chota Nagpur.

779. It is now reported from Manbhum and Ranchi that they claim formerly to have been Agarwáls who venerated Pareshnáth and inhabited the country on the bank of the river Saraju which flows into the Ganges near Ghazipur, in the United Provinces, where they lived by trade and money-lending. They cannot explain why they left their original home, but in Manbhum they say that they first settled near Dhalbhum in the estate of a certain Mán Rájá. They subsequently moved in a body to Pachet, in consequence of an outrage contemplated by Mán Rájá on a girl belonging to their caste. In Ranchi it is believed that their first settlement was at Ogra near Puri, whence they subsequently migrated to Chota Nagpur. In Burdwan and Birbhum there is a tradition that they originally came from Gujarat, but in the former district the popular belief is that they were brought thither as sculptors and masons for the construction of stone temples and houses, the remains of which are still visible on the bank of the Barákar. They themselves say that their ancestors were traders and revered Pareshnáth, but at the present time, as in Birbhum, Bankura, and Manbhum, they call themselves Hindus. The Saráks of this part of the country are served by Bráhmans, who in some parts are, and in others are not, held to be degraded by acting as their priests. In Manbhum it is said that they were not served by Bráhmans of any kind until they were provided with a priest by a former Rájá of Pachet, as a reward for a service rendered to him by a Sarák, who concealed him when his country was invaded by the *Bargis*, *i.e.*, the Maráthás. There are seven *gotras*, or exogamous groups†—Ádi or Ádya Deb, Dharma Deb, Rishi Deb, Sándilya, Káshyapa, Ananta, and Bharadvája. In Birbhum Gautam and Vyása are also given as the names of *gotras*, and in Ranchi Batsava is added. They are also divided into four *tháks* or sub-castes based on locality, viz.—

(1) Pánchkotia, or inhabitants of the Pachet estate in Manbhum,
(2) Nadipáriya, or Saráks residing on the right bank of the Dámodar in Manbhum,
(3) Birbhumiya, or residents of Birbhum, and
(4) Támáriya, or residents of pargana Támár in Ranchi.

There is a fifth sub-caste based on occupation, viz., the Saráki Tántis or Tánti Sáraks of the Vishnupur subdivision of Bankura, who live by weaving and are held to be degraded. The latter, again, have four subdivisions—Asvini Tánti, Pátrá, Uttarkuli, and Mandarani. In the Sonthal Parganas the sub-castes are Phul Saráki, Sikhariá, Kandala and Saráki Tánti.

Except for the few traditions mentioned above, the names of some of their *gotras*, and the extreme tenderness for animal life mentioned by Mr. Risley, which not only makes them strict vegetarians, but even leads them to eschew altogether the use of the word 'cut,' there is little to distinguish the Saráks of West Bengal, Manbhum, and Ranchi from the ordinary Hindus amongst whom they live.‡ In Ranchi the Saráks specially venerate Syáma Chand whose worship is performed by a Bráhman. All fines imposed for caste offences are set aside for the worship of this godling.

Saráks of Orissa.

780. In Orissa the Saráks are weavers, and are often known as Saráki Tánti, but they are accorded somewhat higher rank than the ordinary Tántis. There are here four main settlements, viz., in the Tigaria and Baramba States, in the Banki thana in Cuttack, and in the Pipli thana of Puri. The Puri Saráks have lost all connection with the others, and do not intermarry with them. Though they are not

* Joláha is a word of Muhammadan importation, and is derived from the Arabic Johálá, plural of Jáhil, ignorant.

† In Dumka the *gotra* does not operate as a bar on marriage. They perform their *srádhá* on the 11th day and not on the 30th as elsewhere.

‡ In Manbhum they abstain from felling or from eating the fruit of the *dahuk* (Artocarpus Lacucha) and *dumur* (Ficus Glomerata) trees. The word 'cut' is also taboo to the Baishnabs of Bengal, and there is a well known story of the imbroglio that arose between a girl and her *guru* owing to her having to avoid the use of this word. The Saráks will not eat onions.

served by Bráhmans, they call themselves Hindus. They have no traditions regarding their origin, but like all other Saráks are strict vegetarians. The Saráks of Baramba, Tigaria and Banki are closely connected and still intermarry. Those of Baramba were shown as Buddhists at the census. The others also say that they are Buddhists, but at the census they were entered as Hindus. The tradition current amongst both communities is that their ancestors came from Burdwan to worship at the temple at Puri, and that the Rájá of Orissa (the Thákur Rájá of Puri), who was himself a Buddhist, took much interest in them and settled them near his palace on some land which he assigned to them for their maintenance. This tradition is, to some extent, confirmed by their titles, some of which, such as Chánd, Datta, Kar, and Nandi, are more common in Bengal than in Orissa. There are various references in their religious writings to Bardhamán which probably stands for Burdwan. The use of the word Sarák by a Buddhist community seems to indicate that they were originally a sectarian group that has hardened into a caste, and Babu Jamini Mohan Das, who has collected for me most of the information regarding the Orissa Saráks, says that they are in many respects similar to the Dasnámi Sannyásis of Cuttack, a caste of known sectarian origin which will presently be referred to. A parallel caste of Buddhist monks abandoning celibacy and forming domestic ties is furnished by the Bánhras of Nepal who will be described further on in the notes on Nepal castes.

These Buddhist Saráks profess to have four *gotras*, viz., Ádi Deb, commonly called Áyi Deb, Krishna Deb, Hema Deb and another which has not yet been ascertained, but may possibly be Dharma Deb.

They assemble once a year (on the Mágh Saptami) at the celebrated cave temples of Khandagiri to offer homage to the idols there and to confer on religious matters.* They also worship an idol called Chaturbhuja,† whom they identify with Buddha, especially on the Baisákh Chaturdasi, or day preceding the full moon, which they say is the anniversary of Buddha's wedding.‡ The offering consists of edible fruits, rice, etc. Cooked food is never offered. The only offerings at Hindu temples of which they will partake are those made to Jagannáth at Puri, which, as is well known, is often said to be of Buddhistic origin. All their ceremonial observances are commenced with the recitation of the formula:—

Ahinsá parama Dharma.

They say that they follow the precepts of the Sisu Veda, but cannot tell what doctrines are therein inculcated.

Girls are married between the ages of 7 to 11, and boys between 15 and 20. They say that widow-marriage is forbidden in their *Shástras*, but of late it has crept in. Marriages and other ceremonies are performed by any one of the caste who can read the *Mantras* and is allowed to call himself Áchárya.§ The only occasion when Bráhmans are employed is at the *Hom* ceremony. At marriage the proceedings commence with the following ceremonies:—

(1) Ábáhana, or welcome to Buddha Deva.
(2) Puja to Ganapati and Varuna.
(3) Naibedya, or offering to Buddha and the ten Dikpáls, or guardian deities of the ten directions.‖

* These temples are situated midway between Puri and Cuttack, about 12 miles west of the high road, and have been fully described by Hunter. They are of undoubted Buddhistic origin, and represent various phases of Buddhist life, from the small rock cells of the early Buddhist missionaries to the elaborate Queen's palace, of later times, when Buddhism had become the State religion. They cover a period from about 200 B. C. to 474 A. D., when the Kesari or Lion dynasty rose to power.

† In the Vishnupur Circular cards, which date from about the tenth century and which have recently been described by Mahámahopádhyáya Hara Prasad Sastri, the figure representing Buddha is four armed. The Náráyana Chaturbhuja described in Mr. Westmacott's "Traces of Buddhism in Dinajpur" (J. A. S. B., 1875, page 189), may also be a representation of Buddha. On the other hand, the image actually worshipped on the occasion mentioned in the text (in Tigaria at least) has only two arms, and is undoubtedly a representation of Buddha.

‡ The full moon day of Baisákh is looked on by Buddhists generally as their most sacred day, being the anniversary not only of the birth, but also of the enlightenment and the *pari-nirvána* of Gautama Buddha.

§ This is the title still borne in Nepal by the Buddhist priests of the Newárs. According to one account the sister's son is preferred as priest if he possesses the requisite qualifications.

‖ India, Agni, Jam, Nairit, Varuna, Váigu, Kubir, Siva, Brahma and Ananta.

(4) Gandhádhibása, or welcome to the bride and bridegroom.
(5) Worship of 18 Mátrigan, including 12 deified women* and six essential human virtues.†
(6) Nandimukhí Sráddha, or offerings to the spirits of the ancestors of the bride and bridegroom.

Then follows the *Kanyá Dán*, or bestowal of the daughter in marriage. A compound of milk, curds, honey, molasses, and *ghi* is next offered to Buddha, and eaten by the bride and bridegroom; this is called *Madhu parka pánchámrita*. After this comes the binding part of the ceremony, the joining of hands, or *hastagranthí*, and the father then makes over the bride to her husband's care (*samarpan*). The *Hom* ceremony is now performed by a Bráhman called in for the purpose, and the Áchárya concludes the proceedings by calling upon Buddha to shower his blessings on the young couple. In confirmation of the tradition amongst the Ranchi Saráks that their ancestors were once settled in Orissa, it may be mentioned that their marriage ceremony is very similar to the above, except that the preliminary welcome to Buddha is dispensed with.

The *srádh* is performed on the 11th day. The rules prohibiting the eating of animal food and the taboo of the word meaning 'cut' are as strict amongst these Buddhist Saráks as amongst those of Burdwan. The caste organisation is very complete and is much the same as that of the *hátua* or trading castes of Orissa. At the head is the Mahápátra, who decides various social and caste questions with the aid of his Paramánik or Assistant, Thánpati or peon, and Pákhá or page. In important matters the decision rests with the community, who are called together by the Mahápátra and deliberate under his guidance. All fines that may be imposed go towards meeting the cost of the *Bauddha Pujá* in Baisákh. The Thánpati presides at this *pujá;* if he is impure owing to a death or birth in his family, the Pákhá takes his place. At caste feasts the Mahápátra is always served first. At marriages the Mahápátra and Paramánik are each given a piece of cloth, and the Thánpati and Pákhá both receive ten betel-nuts. The rank of all these caste officials is hereditary. Some of the Saráks are in possession of old palm-leaf records, but they know very little regarding their contents.‡

Sarbhang.

781. There is a small community in the Champaran district known as Sarbhang, which is said to be sprung from promiscuous intercourse between Sannyási ascetics and loose women. No caste restrictions are observed; they admit outsiders of all castes and religions and will take food from any one. They worship Rám Chandra and hold that the whole world is full of Rám, so everything is pure. The dead are buried. The usual occupation is begging, but some have settled down to cultivation. The caste, if such it can be called, ranks with Aghoris and is regarded with scorn by respectable Hindus.

Sectarian castes.

782. In many parts of the province there are communities descended from religious sectaries who are known variously as Gosáin, Sannyási, Dasnámi, Atith and Jogi, and as these terms are often used in very different senses, it is desirable to explain their various meanings.

Gosáin.

783. Gosáin or Goswámi may be literally translated as one who has mastered his senses, and was originally applied only to persons who had abandoned all worldly interests and adopted a life of asceticism and contemplation. It seems to have been primarily a title of the followers of Sankaráchárjya, but was assumed by the great Vaishnava reformer, Chaitanya, and since his time it has, in Bengal and Orissa, come to be used specially of persons of the Vaishnava sect. Amongst the latter the term was first applied to certain Bráhmans and other great religious preceptors, and it is still used by their descendants as a family

* Gauri, Padmá, Sachi, Medhá, Sábitri, Bijayá, Jayá, Debasená, Swáhá, Swadhá, Mátri, and Lokmátri. Amongst the Hindus of Bengal only sixteen Mátrikas are worshipped, the omissions being Mátri and Lokmátri, both of which are general terms with no definite application. I am informed that the Bráhmans of Orissa, like the Saráks, take eighteen as the number of Mátrikas.

† Dhriti (patience), Pushti (nourishment), Khamá (forgiveness), Tushti (contentment), Atmá (soul), and Adhishtátri Debatá (guardian deity).

‡ I have since procured one of these manuscripts through Babu Jamini Mohan Das and made it over to Mahámahopádhyáya H. P. Sastri for critical examination. The marriage ceremony as therein described differs in some respects from that mentioned in the text.

title, usually in the form of the *tatsama* Goswámi. It is also the title assumed by any Baishnab who sets himself up as a Guru or spiritual guide. In the rest of the province the word is sometimes employed as a title of Bráhmans, but it is more generally understood as a synonym for Sannyási or Atith, and indicates the followers of Sankaráchárjya, both celibates and house-holders. It is used in the latter sense chiefly in Darbhanga, the Sonthal Parganas and parts of Chota Nagpur. The term is also sometimes applied to those Jogis who are followers of Machendra Náth, and in the north of Chota Nagpur the Jogis generally are known as Náth Gosáin.

Sannyási.

784. Sannyási in its strict sense means "one who has given up all earthly desires," but the word now includes all kinds of Saiva mendicants. It is generally confined to those who are celibates, but in Orissa and Midnapore it indicates the caste, to be presently described, which is known in Saran as Gharbári Atith, and in the Sonthal Parganas and a few other districts as Gosáin. In Nepal I am told that Sannyási, Jogi and Atith are all synonymous terms, indicating the ascetics who belong to the various orders founded by Sankaráchárjya collectively known as Das-námi. Any one of any caste can become a Sannyási, but low caste members of the cult cannot mix with those of higher caste. They are cenobites, but it is open to them at any time to leave the monasteries and become house-holders or Gharbári Atiths.

Atith.

785. Atith* means "an unexpected guest" and was originally a general designation of all wandering Saiva ascetics, but it is now more specialised and is generally applied to the followers of Sankaráchárjya, who are more precisely known as Dasnámi with reference to the ten sub-sects or *kuris* into which his followers were ultimately divided. At the present time the Atiths are divided into two main classes, Sannyási Atiths or ascetics and Gharbári Atiths or house-holders.† Both classes are addressed as Bábáji as a token of respect. They are often known to outsiders as Gosáin. In Midnapore and Orissa the word Sannyási is used as the designation of those who are house-holders. The following more detailed particulars regarding the two sections of Atiths are based mainly on information received from Saran where they are most numerous.

Sankaráchárjya, who is regarded by his followers as an incarnation of Siva, had four disciples, and these disciples established the ten orders of ascetics or Atiths enumerated in Mr. Risley's articles on Dasnámi. Sankaráchárjya's mission was to extirpate Buddhism, and wherever a Buddhist monastery was found, a *math* of his own followers was established. These ascetics took a vow of celibacy and were supposed to devote themselves entirely to religious matters. But large landed estates gradually became attached to the *maths*, and the inmates, though they did not marry, formed liaisons with women of different classes. Many of these *maths* still survive, but side by side with the anchorites, or Sannyási Atiths, corresponding groups of house-holders, or Gharbári Atiths, have gradually come into existence. They attribute their origin to an intrigue between a Sannyási Atith and a Bábhan woman, and it seems not unlikely that they are the descendants of the women attached to the *maths*. Or it may be that they are the descendants of followers of the sect who never took the vow of celibacy, or of backsliders who broke their vows and settled down and married. The fact that outsiders frequently address them as Gosáin seems, however, to indicate that their ancestors were spiritual guides, and the possession by many of them of grants of rent-free land points in the same direction. They wear the same distinctive yellow turban and necklace‡ as the Sannyásis, and retain the terms, Giri, Puri, &c., which they add after their own names.§ The fact that a man belongs to one or other of these classes or *kuris* does not, however, limit the choice of a wife, and the only restriction in this respect is that a man may not marry in his father's *gotra*, nor within the fourth or fifth degree of relationship on the mother's side. The marriage ceremony is of the

* Spelt Athith in Champaran and Atithi in Gaya.

† These Gharbári Atiths have their counterpart in the Bánhras of Nepal, see paragraphs 887 & 888.

‡ Some dye all their clothes yellow and also their bedsheets. The *Rudráksha* or necklace contains 108 beads. They have also an elbow string with 27 and a wristlet with 5 beads. Strings with 5 beads depend from each ear.

§ The most common *Kuris* amongst the Gharbári Atiths are Giri, Puri and Arun.

ordinary type, and the painting of the bride's forehead with vermilion constitutes the binding element. Among the well-to-do, infant marriage is in vogue, but the poorer classes marry as adults. Widows are not allowed to marry again, and outsiders are not admitted to the caste. The Atiths are served by good Bráhmans on ceremonial occasions, but their Gurus or spiritual guides are taken from their own community. They are in the main worshippers of Siva, to whom flowers, etc., are offered, and goats are sometimes sacrificed. In Saran it is said that the godlings Bándi and Goreiya are also worshipped. The Gharbári Atiths sometimes burn their dead, but both they and the Sannyásis usually bury them in a sitting position with their hands clasped as in meditation. This burial is called *Samádhi*. Sometimes the dead bodies are thrown into the Ganges supported by floats so as to maintain the sitting posture. They perform the usual *srádh*, but those who are ascetics offer the *pinda* only to their deceased spiritual leaders. In Saran the Gharbári Atiths are fairly prosperous. Some are zamindars and others are money-lenders and cultivators. A few are landless labourers, and some still follow their traditional occupation, mendicancy. In Darbhanga they usually sell beads. In Midnapore they act as the priests of the Jogis. Elsewhere they are usually cultivators. In Gaya a few are clerks in Government service. They are generally regarded as a clean caste, and their water is usually taken. Their social position varies. In Saran they are said to rank low, but in Gaya they are reckoned to stand next to the Bráhmans and they pronounce the *Asirbád* or 'benediction' to all the other castes. The Gharbári Atiths will not eat with the Sannyásis, as the latter take in outsiders, while the former do not. The latter theoretically admit all castes, but in practice they receive only those who are *jalácharaniya*. They do not employ Bráhmans. Some of them are in charge of great temples, such as those of Bodh Gaya and Tarakeswar, and are very rich. As an instance of the slender connection between theory and practice in Hinduism, it is pointed out by Mr. Oldham that the Mahant of the famous temple of Bodh Gaya is a Saiva ascetic of the Giri sect, and that he fosters the worship of the image of Buddh as an incarnation of Vishnu. Many of the monastic Atiths form liaisons with women of various castes. They usually take a *chela* or disciple into association with them, and when they die the latter succeeds to their estate and position.

Dasnámi.

786. Dasnámi refers almost everywhere to the followers of the ten sects of followers of Sankaráchárjya, and is usually confined to those who are mendicants, but in Hazaribagh it is also used with reference to those who are house-holders. In Saran it is said that some of the Dasnámis are Kabirpánthis.

Jogi.

787. Yogi or Jogi is a word of much greater ambiguity. It means one who practises *yoga* or 'devotion,' but it is used in a wide sense of any ascetic, including even the filth-eating Aghoris. Used more precisely, it indicates a low class of people who make silk thread, string ornaments and sell strings to be worn as charms round the neck or waist. Many of them are strolling beggars, who play upon a stringed instrument or extort alms by beating a drum incessantly in front of a man's house without speaking. In Orissa they perform the worship of Siva and practise as doctors, while in parts of Bihar and Chota Nagpur they are the religious guides of the Chamárs and other low castes. They usually wear the yellow turban of the Saiva ascetics and often assume the sacred thread. But they everywhere rank very low; their water is not taken, their touch defiles, and it is considered a bad omen to meet one of them when starting on a journey.* Those who work in thread are often known as Dorihár. In Shahabad those who string ornaments are called Patihár. Their origin is generally unknown. In Darbhanga it is suggested that they are the off-spring of illicit intercourse between mendicant Sannyásis and women of low caste.

In Gaya the word is said to be the special designation of the followers of Machendra Náth, who are divided into five sub-sects, Bharthári, Yogi, Jagam, Joláh Yogi and Náth. The Náths are further subdivided into Bind,

*Their low position may be due to the fact that they were formerly Buddhists, with which religion they are often said to be connected. An interesting account of the Jogis in the Punjab will be found in the Punjab Census Report for 1891, page 113.